SELECTED PASSAGES FROM DANISH PHILOSOPHICAL LITERATURE

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III

PHILOSOPHY

SELECTED PASSAGES FROM DANISH PHILOSOPHICAL LITERATURE

WITH INTRODUCTIONS BY

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GENERAL INTRODUCTION

In my work "Danske Filosofer" (1909) I have sought to show that in the way in *[1]* which philosophizing has been done in Denmark, no less than in the other forms in which Danish intellectual life has revealed itself, there is expressed a national peculiarity, which appears partly in the treatment of the currents of thought coming from abroad, partly in the continuity that Danish life of thought exhibits despite the frequent interruption by foreign influences, partly in the problems that above all set thought in motion.

As regards the currents of thought coming from abroad, characteristic oscillations take place. The founders of Danish thought, Holberg and J. S. Sneedorff, were most influenced by English and French literature, a circumstance that has certainly been of great importance for the whole subsequent development. Then there came — in connection with the great movement in German philosophy, at the same time as a philosophical ebb in England and France — a whole series of German influences (the thoughts of Wolff, Kant, Schelling and Hegel). In the century from Sneedorff's death to the last quarter of the nineteenth century German influence prevails; only a few (such as Joh. Boye, Treschow and F. G. Howitz) show a decisive influence of English thought. It was the period of rationalism and romanticism. In the last quarter of the nineteenth century new Western points of view and theories (positivism, Darwinism) make themselves felt.

That there is nevertheless, despite the repeated outward influence, an inner continuity in Danish thought can be seen above all from the direction that Danish life of thought took through the appearance of Treschow and Steffens at the beginning of the nineteenth century, a direction that, despite the great differences which the altered intellectual and especially scientific conditions brought with them, presents many points of similarity with the line of thought of Holberg and Sneedorff.

Treschow's thought was characterized by an interest in psychological observation and by the endeavor to bring the human sciences into as close a connection with natural science as possible. Of special significance for the subsequent Danish philosophy was his strong emphasis on the richness and inexhaustibility of individual *[2]* phenomena as against German thought's tendency toward the universal and the abstract. He lays great weight on the fact that there is more in the individual than in the general concept, so that the transition from the former to the latter entails a loss.

The treatise in which he develops these thoughts influenced A. S. Ørsted's ethical and legal-philosophical conception, as well as Sibbern's emphasis on the sporadic and the individual in all mental development and Howitz's assertion of the transitions, mocking all absolute distinctions, between the healthy and the diseased mental life. Sibbern in particular, not only in his younger years but with strong emphasis also in his old age, stressed Treschow's significance.

Steffens' activity did not have the clear and sober character of Treschow's. He came at the beginning of the century as the prophet of romanticism, an awakener not only of philosophers but also of poets. But in his poetic, often fantastic philosophy of nature he laid chief weight on the fact that through nature, this prehistory of spirit, there runs an individualizing tendency, a striving to develop peculiar forms of existence and of life, which reaches its culmination in the human world. He found the measure of a natural form's stage of development in the degree to which it appears with a pronounced individual peculiarity. This line of thought gives Steffens a special position in the history of romantic philosophy.

Since Sibbern took up influences from both Treschow and Steffens and worked them over in his own peculiar way, he came to occupy a central position in Danish philosophy in the nineteenth century. Through Poul Møller an influence runs from him to Kierkegaard, in whom the individualistic philosophy of personality reaches its culmination through passionate intensification. The whole way in which Kierkegaard conceives philosophy and its significance, in opposition to German speculation, coincides in essential points with Sibbern's. However brilliant and personal Kierkegaard's life of thought may be, — however much it seems to defy every classification under a heading or in a series, — it is nevertheless in its growth and its formation determined in many ways by the soil in which, and the conditions under which, it came to be. And his influence also makes itself felt not only upon older and younger contemporaries (R. Nielsen, H. Brøchner), whose thought it partly bent in new directions, but also upon those who philosophized in Denmark in the last part of the century.

[3] Hegelian philosophy, with its trust in abstract derivations and in the possibility of systematic completion, was met with independent and sharp criticism by Sibbern and Kierkegaard. Its greatest influence it exerted — through Heiberg and Martensen — on aesthetics and theology. R. Nielsen and H. Brøchner, who received their philosophical initiation through the study of Hegel, were compelled, partly through Kierkegaard's appearance, partly through the increasing influence of natural science after the middle of the century, to stress the opposition between the universal laws of

thought on the one side and the spiritual and material realities on the other side far more sharply than German speculation allowed. —

Characteristic of Danish thought from Holberg's time onward has not least been the choice of problems. It was above all psychological and ethical questions that interested the thinkers in Denmark. In the treatment of the problem of knowledge one took, on the whole, a critical attitude toward far-reaching speculations. A real "metaphysician" Denmark has not produced.

When in the last quarter of the nineteenth century the empirical sciences made themselves felt with such great authority, it was bound to be natural for Danish life of thought to take up the points of view that it asserted. Not only the influence of positivism from abroad, but also the interest in realities and the critical sense that awoke in Denmark with Holberg and Sneedorff, led those who in the last generation philosophized in Denmark to take up the problems mentioned. In descriptive and analytic psychology (Høffding, Kroman) the work of Treschow and Sibbern is continued under new conditions and on the basis of more manifold experience, and energetic work was done in the field of experimental psychology (A. Lehmann). Efforts were made on behalf of mental botanizing and of a feeling for nature (L. Feilberg). In close connection with psychology, aesthetics (Wilkens) and the philosophy of religion (Høffding) were worked out, as well as ethics (Høffding, Kroman), and contributions were made to the epistemological discussion (Kroman, Høffding). Even though one cannot speak of a distinctive Danish school, and even though more or less significant oppositions make themselves felt among those who philosophize, the present representatives of philosophy in Denmark too may nevertheless be said to be working in the direction that Holberg and Sneedorff in their time opened up in Denmark.

I.
HOLBERG AND THE EIGHTEENTH CENTURY

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[4] 1. Ludvig Holberg (1684—1754), the true founder of Danish literature, was not only poet and historian but also philosopher. His endeavors in all three directions are closely connected, although the philosophical interest, which has become less known than the poetic and the historical, is perhaps most closely connected with his personality as a whole. On his travels in his youth he became acquainted with the currents of thought of the time and was confronted with problems that occupied him throughout his whole life. John Locke and Pierre Bayle in particular had an influence on him. Characteristic of him is that he liked a sharp formulation of the problems, with emphasis on the reasons for and against, and that he would rather leave a riddle unsolved than rest content with an imagined solution. He had a keen eye for the limit of human knowledge, and it was his conviction that as experience advanced the riddles would rather increase than decrease, because many of our explanations are due only to limited experience.

Among the questions that occupied Holberg must be mentioned the strife between freethinkers and the orthodox, the compatibility of evil with belief in an almighty and all-good God, the possibility and necessity of a purely human morality. The pieces here selected from his writings concern these questions. We begin with some statements in his autobiography on studies and sciences in general. Holberg's autobiography was written in Latin, but was already translated into Danish in 1745, and it is believed that Holberg himself looked over the translation, which in any case bears the stamp of his language and humor.

A. ON STUDIES AND SCIENCES. (Levned.)

Some have imagined that I am a strong hater of the metaphysical study, which they have judged from the oration that I delivered some years ago in praise of metaphysics.
[5] For I seemed to have delivered rather a funeral sermon over it than a speech of praise. But by Metaphysica I understand the manifold terms and subtle distinctions that one misuses in disputations to entangle one's opponent in. But if it is taken in another sense, I hold that it is a study that becomes a philosopher. I often read metaphysical

books myself, although I must admit that I make but poor progress in that science. For there occur so many hidden things that will always remain hidden. I know well that such things seem to some of our theologians and philosophers to present no difficulty, for they describe to us quite boldly both the nature of God and that of spirits. Hence Tertullian has said: Every Christian artisan can both find and show us God. But to me Simonides seems to judge more reasonably about this; for when he was commanded by Hiero, king of Sicily, to describe God to him, he asked first for one day's respite, then for 2 days' respite, and as he thus kept doubling the days for a long time, and Hiero wondered and asked him the reason for it, he answered: Because the longer I take it into consideration, the more difficult a thing it is for me to answer. It is to be wished that all who study that science would use the same caution that Newton uses in his Mathesis, namely to refrain from demonstrations *à priori,* and let go the descriptions that they make of souls and spirits: I should wish that they would not ask whether, or how, spirits are, or what the shape of souls was, or what their effect was, or in what manner they exist, or how they are propagated, how they reason when they are outside the body, or what their figure is, whether it is such as is painted for children in *Orbis Pictus,* or whether they are alone, like little indivisible motes in the sunbeam, or whether they have height, breadth and length, and so on. I should wish, I say, that they would let all these questions go, and show only the effects that lie before everyone's eyes.

[6] The effect would be that instead of so countless uncertain things we should have at least a few certain ones. For if one seeks by one's reason and understanding to make those things certain that are in themselves uncertain, one does nothing other than rave out of sheer understanding.

Mathematics I have not applied myself to. But *Physica Coelestis* I have always taken great pains with, and with great eagerness I read everything I come across that has been written on those matters. Between the Principia of Descartes and of Newton I have always stood in doubt, so that I cannot say which of them I approve most. Yet I cannot get Descartes's *vortices* or whirls out of my head, since this opinion about these whirls is so easy and so evident that even children can grasp that they must necessarily follow from the revolution of the sun, whereas unlearned people must regard Newton's opinion about the sun's power to draw to itself as a kind of witchcraft, and cannot possibly grasp how the sun, which casts so many floods of fire from itself, can at the same time draw planets to itself, since it is against nature to blow and to suck at once. Therefore, since Descartes's opinion is both easier to grasp

and also more probable, and one cannot find more probable causes to ascribe to this effect, I hold that one can most safely stay by that opinion, and, if anything occurs that seems to conflict with it, as for example the oval course of the comets and other such things, then it may have its origin in the nature of the comets, which we do not know. More I will not say of these things, since I am not appointed to be a judge in that matter. This only I will add, that the irregular course of the comets conflicts just as strongly with Newton's Principia as with Descartes's. For if the question is asked how it comes that the comets go straight down, whereas the other planets roll in a circle around the sun, then the Newtonians have just as hard a time when they are to answer the question why the comets, when they have come near the sun, go the
[7] same way back again: for if the sun draws to itself, then the comet, when it came near the sun, would be drawn straight into it. Newton foresaw well the objections that would be made to him concerning the *principia Gravitatis,* and therefore he also left it free to everyone whether they would give them the name of a pulling or a pushing *(attractio* seu *impulsio),* since it came to the same thing. One must praise this great man's modesty, for, although he had so great an insight into it, he nevertheless admits that these were hidden things that no one could grasp. The mathematicians who have come after him have built on the foundation that he laid, and since that time many of Descartes's opinions have been rejected.

Some reproach me that I do not speak respectfully enough about academies and learned societies, especially since I am myself a member of the Academy, so that it seems to fit me, as one commonly says: It is a bad bird that fouls its own nest. But it is not about studies themselves that I quarrel, but only about the manner of studying. Disputations I have in my Subterranean Journey turned into stage plays. Some academic ceremonies that arouse laughter among the spectators I do not approve of, and such vexatious tattle and useless studies as hold sway in a number of gymnasia I laugh at; yet it is not the literary arts themselves, but the faults of the students, that I attack with this critique. For my censure shows rather that I cultivate studies with reverence, and shows that I am careful lest the literary arts, by a wrong manner of studying and by some ridiculous ceremonies, should be laughed at and despised. It is a great prejudice against a good many academic foundation charters that they were issued in the dark ages, at whose ignorance we now wonder, and whose manners
[8] and ceremonies we cannot read of without laughter. All things are indeed in full

work and uproar enough, both in lecture halls and in professorial chairs, but when everything is done, nothing is done. Therefore I have often wished that there might occur a reformation that could be becoming to our century; I should wish that all uproar be changed to silence, all chatter to meditations. I should wish that instead of so many doctors and masters who give lectures, some be chosen who should not be permitted to take up and explain whatever they pleased, but should only answer what was asked of them. From such an arrangement two benefits would flow: first the hearers could learn what they desired to know: second, no one would take it upon himself to be a teacher before his studies had become ripe in the science that he gave himself out for.

It is to be wished that at the time when studies came to life again, together with that Luther who reformed theology, there had also arisen another Luther, who could have reformed such learned matters, who could have wholly removed all the old leaven of that time, and cured the faults that the darkness of that age had introduced; for there are still many things that remain and ought to be reformed. The academies that have lately been founded in France and England show how necessary a reformation is, since their founders, contrary to the charters of other universities, where the young students are required to believe everything, whatever their teachers tell them, and where the students' heads are not sharpened or polished, but rather their taste is spoiled, and where they must learn something that they afterwards have the trouble of forgetting again. Those who come to the universities, as to the place where they are to acquire all good arts, indeed come away from them more learned, but not better, or more sharpened; for instead of their old prejudices being removed, which is what distinguishes the learned from the common man, they are on the contrary the more increased. The old prejudices ought to be wholly eradicated, and the young men's brains quite cleansed, before they come to study. For if one does not heed this, *[9]* they believe nothing to be true except what agrees with the old sect they have once adopted.

From this one can see that when, on the occasion of the jesting that is found here and there in my writings, one would accuse me of hating studies, they do me great wrong. My unceasing labor, my many published writings, the prizes with which I have lured others to write, show rather zeal for studies than coldness, rather reverence than contempt. They also greatly err who imagine that I write for gain, for other opportunities have been offered me by which I could, with less labor, make greater profit: the trouble I have had in working out my writings gives sufficient notice

that it has not been avarice that drove me to write; I have let the most profitable opportunities slip out of my hands, because I regarded them as a hindrance to my studies; for all the time, I have held, I have wasted that I have not employed on my studies.

With all this zeal I still do not think that I have done anything, and, although some give me the name of very diligent, I hold myself to have been very lazy; for if I compare myself with others, I am ashamed that I have all but slept my time away; the perpetual illnesses with which I am plagued greatly hinder my eagerness to study. In particular I am hindered by headache, which is indeed very inconvenient for all people, but especially for a studying person. Therefore, since illnesses are unavoidable for human beings, if I were allowed the power to distribute illnesses, I should send headache either to women alone, and to those whose business requires no brains, or else to unreasonable scribblers and authors, of whom we have far too many in the world.

If I have any merits in studies, they consist in this, that I have sought to cure
[10] people's common and pedantic taste. For since I came in good time to study at the French and English academies, I learned not so much to write learnedly as neatly to express my meaning. And this I can say without boasting, that I am almost the first among my countrymen who, instead of meager and confused chronicles, have given us tolerably well-arranged histories, and who have set the moral study on its feet again, which up to this time lay as if buried here in the North. There are also those who appreciate this, and praise me for my diligence; this only they wonder at, why a man such as I, who am constantly sickly and so advanced in years, will concern himself with such comic poems, and expend my powers on merry fables. But just the weakness of my body and mind drives me to this, which I find to be to me as a medicine: and I will not advise others against making use of the same remedy. There was one who once took me to task for it with these words: How can you write such jests, when you are yourself so decorous. But I answered: How can you write such serious things, when you are yourself such a comedian.

B. ON FREETHINKERS (Epist. II).

The English writing against *Warburton,* composed by a *Deistic society* in England, I have received together with your consideration of the *Deists* of the same country,

who attack *revelation* with such vehemence that *Hobbes,* Spinoza and others are not to be compared with them. You condemn the boldness of these new writers, and with justice. For one can, and ought, do no other than condemn the people who make it an honor to overthrow *religion,* and to blacken the clergy. I hold that one ought to labor with all one's might to refute them. I only wish that such labor were entrusted solely to those who could do it with acumen. Yet one does not always notice that this is *[11]* heeded; for one often sees young and half-learned people undertake such *refutations,* and fight more with abusive words than with arguments: which has the effect that the unbelieving are strengthened in their unbelief, and that one is more scandalized by the *refutations* than by the writings themselves.

So it has gone with me. I have read most of the new *Deistic* writings without any notable temptation: But I have been scandalized by several of the replies; For as to the writings in themselves, since I have noticed that nothing is so ill-grounded that it cannot get a semblance of truth when it is carried out by a *skilled* pen, I have indeed often been brought up short by them, but yet not *despaired* of the loosing of the knots: whereas when I have read the answers of certain writers who have undertaken to do battle for *religion,* and seen that they arm themselves with the prophecies of the *Sibyl,* with Josephus's testimony about Christ, and other such *arguments,* which are yet no *arguments,* then I have often lost courage. It is better to answer nothing than to answer in a manner that makes the truth suspect. Since I have always with great concern investigated the matter of my salvation, nothing has gladdened me more than to find out upright proofs and demonstrations with which the mouth might be stopped of those who seek to deprive men of the comfort which they have from *revelation,* and of the hope of the other life, which strengthens them in the adversity of this life. I admit only that the *Deists* mentioned are such enemies as cannot be fought with every kind of weapon, but that one must meet them with helmet, shield and armor, armed from head to foot. A *Collins*, a *Tyndal*, a *Morgan*, a *Chub* etc. are such writers as I condemn, but do not treat with contempt, and, after the example of certain clergymen, hold to be foolish, injudicious and confused heads. I have found in their writings *objections* at which I have groaned, and knots which I have not so easily been able to loose. Such a thing, however, has not taken my courage from me, but *[12]* rather encouraged me to examine everything carefully; which I still do daily, advising you and everyone to do the same. My thoughts are that these terrible champions who challenge the whole of Christendom to battle can be fought, but not by everyone; and my advice would be, instead of allowing everyone to enter the lists with *foils*

against such exercised and armed fencing-masters, to set certain *prizes* for those who could most thoroughly defend the truth, so that a good cause might not be ruined by unsuitable *advocates.* This could be done by *renouncing trivial* and ill-founded arguments, and keeping to those alone that hit the mark: For the state of things is now such that one, according to the reminder of a certain writer, must abandon the outworks in order to defend oneself the better in the main fortress. I know well that such *precaution* is commonly ascribed either to cowardice or to ignorance, and that many think to show proof of their understanding and Christianity by despising such books. I for my part have just as bad thoughts of those who see none as of those who see too many difficulties, of those who can resolve all knots as of those who hold them to be unresolvable. Both may arise from ignorance: The former go straight ahead with boldness, because they see no stones on the way; And the latter turn back, because they hold the way *impracticable.* I hold him a reasonable Christian who sees stones, but strives to clear them out of the way.

C. THE PROBLEM OF EVIL (Epist. CCXXV).

Our common friend *B. S.*, whose chief study for some time has been to refute the *Manichaeans,* and to loose the knots which *Monsr. Bayle* has tied, and which he has
[13] thought to be insoluble, pretending that however much one twists and turns, one cannot but adopt the hated doctrine of two *principia,* since the natural as well as the moral evil things that are seen in the world cannot flow from one good *principium,* or from a righteous, good and merciful Creator. I say, our common friend thinks that one could extricate oneself from this *labyrinth* by *positing* two *principia,* without lapsing into the *Manichaean* heresy. The two *principia* which he thinks might be admissible, without impairing God's absolute power or the *unity* of his essence, are, with the ancient philosophers, to *posit* the eternity of matter, and thus to assume two *principia*, an *activum*, which is the Creator, and a pure *passivum,* which is matter. In this doctrine he thinks nothing offensive to be, since by *positing* a dead and formless *matter's preexistence* before the creation, the Creator's honor, omnipotence and *unity* are not denied, as in the *Manichaeans'* system; who by *positing* two equally eternal *active Principia* deny God's unity. He thinks by such innocent doctrine first to prevent one's coming into collision with the commonly accepted *philosophical axiom*: *Ex*

nihilo fit nil; that is: From nothing comes nothing. Next to refute the *Manichaeans' duality* or doctrine of two *active* principles; since by adopting such a doctrine one can conceive how the many evil things can *exist*, without ascribing their cause to a good and righteous God. Almost all ancient *philosophers*, except *Democritus* and his followers, have assumed two eternal *principia*, namely God and *matter*; and it seems that they held such a doctrine necessary, since otherwise one cannot conceive why so many evil things, *moral* as well as *physical*, that are found in the world, can be reconciled with God's goodness. The Stoic *philosophers* speak thus about this: *There are two principia of all things; the one is activum, the other passivum:* (τὸ ποιοῦν καὶ τὸ πάσχον.) *The passive Principium is matter, which is unfit for the least Action, and* [14] *the active Principium is God;* (λόγος και Θεός.) *Seneca* says that there are in the world two things of which it is composed, namely the efficient cause *(causa efficiens)* and *matter*. In which the greatest *philosophers* agree, by whom God is called a living and rational being, who by his action and labor on the *preexistent matter* has formed the world. *Matter* is thus, according to their saying, a *substance* which is without all life and motion, but such as can receive all the shapes that can be set upon it. And, when that is so, it is, notwithstanding its eternity, a *dependence* of God, who is the only living and acting *principium*, and does not *enter* into the creation otherwise than as the *materials* for a building, and clay for a vessel. God, they say, has shown his omnipotence, wisdom and goodness in the created things; that everything has not become good must be ascribed solely to *matter*, in which the evil things have lain hidden, but not to the Creator, who in that way must be beyond all *critique;* and the objections that are made against his goodness are thereby refuted and brought to nothing. God, says *Plato,* wills all that is good. With regard to the evil things, he does not will them; but they are effects of *matter:* which, since it is eternal, cannot be brought to nothing; but *form* and shape alone are set upon it. Against this it may be said that, since this doctrine aims at refuting the objections that are made from the evil things against God's goodness, they collide on the other hand with his omnipotence; for it may in that case be said that he would have made everything good if he had been able; for *Plato* explains this plainly with these words: Βουληθεῖ ὁ Θεὸς ἀγαθὰ μὲν πάντα, φαῦλα δέ μηδέν εἶναι κατὰ δύναμιν. But our common friend thinks that this does no injury to God's omnipotence and wisdom, since nothing else follows from it but that *form* had to conform to *matter;* the objections, on the other hand, that are made against God's goodness are thereby refuted, when one says that *matter* with the evil and good that lay hidden in it is eternal and uncreated. For to wish in that [15]

way to *criticize* the creation is the same as to wish to blame a great artist who had worked out a great wooden figure because it was not as strong as one of *marble*; for to that one could answer: It cannot be otherwise, since the material is wood. To say my plain thoughts about this, it seems to me that this *argument* could bring *Monsr. Bayle* to sweat, if he had to deal with a heathen *philosopher.* But, since his *antagonists* are Christians, who know from *revelation* that the *axiom: Ex nihilo fit nil,* does not hold water, and who admit that Holy Scripture testifies that God made everything out of nothing, he lets himself not be troubled by this *philosophical argument;* it is therefore best not to make use of it, especially since we have an *argument* which was unknown to the heathen, which is taken from the Fall; so that we can say that all that God created was good, but all the evil that is now seen in the world flows from the transgression of our first parents, whereby man was subjected to vices, diseases and death, and the whole earth was cursed, and lost the glory in which it had been set at the first creation.

D. MORALS AND THEOLOGY (Moralske Tanker. 1744).

Studies may be divided into necessary, useful and harmful. The necessary studies are those that deal with man's duty toward God and his neighbor, and comprise theology and morals. In the necessity of these two sciences all nations are agreed, though they differ from one another in manner and practice. For most commit herein a *hysteron proteron,* and begin with theology by impressing on small children the mysteries and secrets of religion, before they make them rational creatures. For it is
[16] as if in schools one were to begin in languages with the oracles of *Zoroaster* or the most difficult Latin poets. Children must be made human beings before they become Christians: As matter must be prepared and smoothed before the shape is made, and the paper made level before one writes upon it. It is therefore to be wished that the children's examinations were made two out of one, and that in the first they were questioned and confirmed as human beings, and in the last as Christian human beings. But one begins first with the catechization of divine mysteries, whereby it is brought about that everyone defends with utmost obstinacy the sect in which he has been brought up, and will afterwards receive no arguments. For the fold that is laid in childhood is not easily effaced. Man's brain must first be planed, before any shape

can be made upon it. For if one begins first with the form, it is afterwards too late to level the matter, and if a prejudice takes root in a man's mind, it becomes a stain that can almost never be effaced. One must first learn to doubt before one may learn to believe; as one must first taste the food and wine before one eats and drinks: for if that is not done, one goes to work backwards with the instruction, and thereby authorizes all religions, indeed lays no foundation for learning truth, but only for that alone which an instructor holds to be truth, which is commonly the doctrine of the sect in which he himself has been brought up.

If one went about this in proper order, began with morals and ended with theology, that is, if one undertook to make people first into human beings before one tried to make them Christians, the many religions' Sects would be reduced to very few, and the bitterness that reigns among them would wholly cease. I will not speak here of those who have an interested religion: for these begin intentionally first with the theology of their sect, before they instruct in morals, since their aim is not to train youth in the right truth, but in a *veritate locali,* that is: in such principles as among them are by laws authorized. Therefore the Roman Catholics, especially Jesuits, who *[17]* are all interested teachers, begin by impressing on youth the doctrine of the Church's infallibility, since they are assured that, when this doctrine has taken deep root, truth can by no means find a place in the hearts of men. Therefore the Muslims also take good care not to begin with philosophy, knowing well that no one could get their theology into his head who had first been instructed in the rules which a rational soul ought to use in order to derive truth.

I say that I will not speak of those who have a self-interested faith, but of those who have sounder principles, of those who hold that one ought to taste before one believes, and to examine before one signs. It is to them alone that such a reminder is addressed, since in the education of youth they transgress their own principles, in that they teach them catechisms and symbolic books by heart, before they have made *preparations* for it. *Skilled Physicians* proceed herein more in order, they begin with the body's purgings, so that the right *medicine* may *operate* the better. If teachers did the same, theology would *operate* the more powerfully. But one begins by crying: *Believe! Believe!* before one shows what ought to be believed and what not. It is to go to work like what is told of a certain judge, who began with the execution, and afterwards had the case examined. I should therefore rejoice at the school ordinance by which it was decreed that in the first and second lesson moral catechizations should be pursued, and that Luther's Catechism should not become a *precept* until

the third lesson, so that the first institution should consist in forming the mind, and arming it against all prejudices, in order afterwards the better to impress upon it the true and sound theology. For, if one learns theology before he learns to become a human being, he never becomes a human being. Moral philosophy has been much
[18] neglected, in the Jewish as well as in the Christian Church. The effect of it has been that small things have been piously observed, and important things neglected. In error one has transgressed all the commandments in order to uphold one of the least. One has persecuted and murdered one's neighbor on account of disagreement in a speculation or ceremony. One has been zealous in the outward worship of God, and at the same time wallowed in all sins and pleasures: Indeed, one has meddled with describing God, angels and spirits, and never troubled oneself about self-Knowledge. Freebooting, for example, which was practiced among the Northern Christians, could not have been counted as heroic virtues, if they had learned to become human beings before they became Christians. The same may also be said of many other sins, which for the same cause were in vogue, and were not held to be sins.

One sees from this that a *hysteron proteron* must be made in the instruction of youth, and that one must lay the foundation by Christ's morals and a sound philosophy before the *dogmata* and mysteries of Christianity are learned. The French King *Clovis,* after he had become a Christian, and heard the Passion story read, became so hot in the head that he said: *if I had lived at that same time, I would with my French troops have cut down all the Jews with the saber, and saved Christ*; which he would hardly have said if the *converters* of those times had sought to have him molded before they had him baptized. Our missionaries proceed herein like our schoolteachers. They commonly begin with the mysteries of religion, at which the unbelieving at once take offense, and will hear no more about it. I have shown in another place what effect the Spanish Bishop's sermon had upon the Peruvian King, namely that the King judged from the Bishop's speech that he could not be right in the head, and therefore at once broke everything off short: which perhaps would not have happened if he had not begun the conversion backwards. The same is seen from the examples of many others,
[19] who have either taken offense at the doctrine, or immediately after their acceptance have deserted again, as one notes the newly converted Indian youth doing. One must therefore first lay the foundation by shaping and caulking the vessels before one pours the wine into them: one must impress on people sound morals, show them what they ought to believe before they are bidden to believe, and instruct them in a kind of *arte critica,* so that they do not take the shadow for the body. Thereby the catechist first

acquires an opinion of honesty and impartiality among the young proselytes, since they see from it that his sole design is to impress on them a disinterested saving truth; thereby they are also themselves made suitable instruments for receiving the doctrine and for keeping it.

When one goes to work thus in order, and shows in general what a rational soul ought to believe, and what it ought to reject, what agrees with the law of nature, and what conflicts with it, and afterwards comes forward with the revealed doctrine, which one thereby shows to be wholly conformable, and that certain mysteries do not conflict with it, one may expect that conversions will be lasting, and no doctrine can become an article of faith unless it is thorough and rational: whereas experience among all nations otherwise shows that, since this rule is not heeded, one can impress upon youth the very strangest and most inhuman opinions, and which afterwards can by no means be rooted out again. To illustrate this, I will adduce only two examples. One undertakes to instruct another in Christianity. He prepares the way for it, first by explaining to him the chief commandments of nature: he gives him a general *idea* of virtues and vices: he represents to him what equity, justice and goodness are, that these are virtues among God's created creatures, and therefore consequently must be the divine being's own qualities. After such a foundation has been laid, he goes on to religion, and shows from the symbolic books, which his sect has subscribed, that God has of free will and pleasure created most men to damnation. The proselyte *[20]* then necessarily balks at it, and refuses to be able to adopt a doctrine which conflicts with the former, which has been impressed on him as introduction. Further, a Roman *converter* begins to catechize with philosophy and morals, saying that a human being ought to believe nothing that is against *notiones communes*, that is, what he and all men see, hear and feel to be in conflict with what is pretended. Thereupon he advances to the doctrine and shows, when he comes to the article on Transubstantiation, that bread is flesh. The disciple is then scandalized by a doctrine which conflicts openly with the former truth, saying: *if I may not believe common sight and senses: if I must deny seeing what I see, and hearing what I and all others hear, then a perfect Pyrrhonism is thereby established, and no certainty remains any more in the world; indeed then one may doubt Scripture and Miracles themselves, since one has no benefit from sight and hearing.*

One sees from this that, when by such preparations one is first made into a human being, the mind is thus formed to receive a true and to reject a false doctrine. Enough has been said about the necessary studies, whose further utility I will leave to others

to describe. In this dissertation I have only been content with this to note down an error that is daily committed by teachers in the order of instruction: for it is at such things that my morals chiefly aim.

In this first class, which comprises theology and morals, may also be placed histories, although most philosophers allow histories no place except among the useful studies, so that they commonly place them after Mathesis. But this comes from the fact that few regard histories with right eyes, and do not consider that morals is chiefly learned from historical examples, and that religion must show its warrant and title from histories.

[21] Among the useful studies may be placed Mathesis and Physica. About this I will say nothing, since it is known to all what use Mathesis brings with it. I will only remind here of an error among the oldest philosophers, in that they had formed a far different *idea* of the dignity of mathematics than one does nowadays: for they held that it was unbecoming to a philosopher to meddle with anything but theory, and regarded Praxis or mechanics as common handicrafts; so that Mathesis among them consisted solely in reasoning; whereas one nowadays proceeds more in order, and lays the foundation with mechanical experiments. Therefore the mathematicians of our times have this device: *Nullius* in Verba.

Philosophy was in olden days divided into sects, as theology is nowadays. Each of these sects sought not so much to derive truth as to defend what the founder or establisher had taught. This philosophy, which may be called *philosophia carbonaria,* lasted until somewhat after the time of Christ, when some, of whom the first was *Potamon,* undertook not to swear by anyone's word any more, but to extract the best from all sects. This philosophy was called *philosophia eclectica.* I do not know whether it is against orthodoxy to wish that there were also a *theologia eclectica,* since one sees Christians, after the plan of the old philosophers, not troubling themselves so much to derive truth as to defend each his own sect. I do not venture to make such a wish, although I admit only that if anyone made a proposal for a *theologia eclectica,* I would not make war on him for it.

One can say the same of Physica as of Mathesis, that its importance consists in Praxis and experiments, and, when that is so, one must not blame him who places peasants and skilled farmers among the professors of *philosophiae naturalis;* the more so as agriculture is the noblest and most important part of Physica or knowledge of
[22] natural things. I hold him a learned man who thoroughly understands an important science, whether he has learned it in Greek, Latin or his mother tongue, whether he

has acquired it by reading or experience. I know well that such an opinion is held to be peculiar and unreasonable. But all that is common is not always reasonable. If knowledge of agriculture became an academic study, the 9 Muses would, in my thoughts, bear no resentment over it. For academies are founded to cultivate those studies by which Church, state and civil societies are built up. It does not depend on who has studied most, but who has studied best. And, when that is so, I cannot see but that one could with just as great right give a Master's or Doctor's hat to a farmer as to a grammaticus, unless one will say that it is more important to arrange words and glosses than to improve a piece of land, or more important to cleanse an old poet of copyist errors than to cleanse a field and make it fruitful. Therefore the peasant boy in the Comedy reasoned not so ill when he held Peder Christensen to be the most learned man in the town, since he had taken over a dilapidated farm and made it one of the best. I do not know whether one can place rhetoric among the useful studies. Ancient Greeks and Romans regarded it as the most important science. But against this great objections can be made. A certain philosopher compares rhetoric to women's rouge. The latter blinds the eyes; the former blinds the mind. *Socrates* calls it an art of deceiving people. One sees that in well-ordered states, as in *Crete* and *Lacedaemon*, rhetoric has been held in no regard. In Rome, on the other hand, Greece and other republics, where everything was in confusion, it has been regarded as a chief study. In this, however, I will not decide.

I will also pass over speaking of other useful studies, since I have no particular remarks to make about them; but turn to the useless ones, that is, those which are most in use. For most so-called learned dissertations are made either on what no *[23]* one understands, or on what no one has any concern to know. Thus one hears disputations daily about God's essence, about the nature of souls and angels, and other such things which are, and always will remain, hidden from men, or about obscure and unimportant things in antiquities, such as about *Homer's* fatherland, about *Aeneas's* mother, about *Romulus's* father.

Such studies may not only be called useless, but even harmful, in so far as time is thereby wasted. One may liken those who study thus to children who incessantly leaf through books, but only to look for pictures.

I have on various occasions shown that one of my chief *principles* in religion is this, namely to accept nothing that conflicts with God's goodness and holiness.

The same *principle* causes me to reject all absolute predestination: the same also causes me to judge more mildly of Jews, heathens and Muslims than many others. The foundation of this my temperament is that I cannot reconcile their damnation with God's goodness. For what can be more contradictory to it than to let a human being's salvation and damnation depend on birth, upbringing, ignorance and certain accidents to which he is subject. To damn a Chinese or Muslim solely with regard to the false faith which they profess is to damn them because they are born in Peking or Constantinople. Nothing can in my thoughts give a worse *idea* of God's economy, and no opinion is therefore less admissible. What would one judge of the magistrate of that city who without distinction declared all those citizens unworthy of honor and offices who were born in certain quarters of the city? What would one judge of the
[24] Church law which forbade that anyone who had black hair might come into Christian soil, or that any child that was born between Yule and Easter might be admitted to the congregation by baptism. One would say: what can the persons do about it? why should they be punished for things which they have not done themselves, or which were not in their power to do or leave undone.

Just as it is contrary to justice and goodness to damn one on account of his birthplace, so unfair is it also to pass such a judgment with regard to one's *education* and upbringing; for a child cannot itself choose nurses and teachers, but must content itself with those it gets by accident, since the tender years require that it stand under others' *direction.* Now daily experience shows us that the *principia* which one receives with the nurse's milk, and which are impressed by the first teachers, become *characteres indelebiles,* stains that cannot be washed off, and folds that cannot be smoothed. One sees daily tender Christian children carried off to Turkey, and there brought up in the Muslim religion; one sees the same ever afterwards cling to it with such zeal that they stake life and limb for its defense. To damn such children is to damn them solely on account of the misfortune they had of being carried off in their tender years; and to adjudge to their brothers or sisters salvation after this life is the same as to open to them the gates of Paradise, because they had the good fortune not to fall into robbers' hands.

It is no less unfair to punish on account of ignorance. Everyone must admit that there are a million people who have never heard of the Christian faith, indeed that they are in the *situation* or in the countries where no opportunity has been to hear anything about it. Among them may be counted certain nations in *America* or the inhabitants of the southern land: among whom to find *orthodoxy* might be

held a miracle; for if there are innumerable people who hear and do not believe, how would one then expect belief among those who have never heard. No one can *[25]* with fairness demand account of those to whom nothing has been entrusted, and no one can punish for the transgression of a law before it is promulgated. One of *Caligula's* most misshapen undertakings was this, that he had a law drawn up in small characters and set it in a high place, so that no one could read it. We ought to have other thoughts of God, whom Holy Scripture likens to a pious father of the household, and calls men his dear children. We must hold that, as a good judge looks into all the circumstances of the case in an action before he pronounces a judgment, so also God, who is justice himself, takes all such matters into account, and takes into *consideration* time, place, the circumstances of persons, and in what *situation* each one is, which he also gives us to understand by parables, in which a difference is shown between those who are entrusted with more and with less. They deceive themselves greatly, says *Tillotson,* who do not imagine that an ungodly life is the greatest heresy: for it is such as directly conflicts with the aim of the Christian religion; indeed they go astray who do not reflect that God would rather forgive 100 faults which arise from misunderstanding than one single offense that flows from the will. *Plato* therefore says quite reasonably: *pœna errantis est doceri,* that is: the punishment of him who errs is instruction.

For my own part I am willing to correct my opinions, and often let myself be moved by thorough arguments. But if the whole world agreed in making God an *arbitrary* judge, who judges solely according to his pleasure without regard to men's conduct, then I hold fast to this *principle,* in which I think I cannot go astray, and even if I did go astray, the error is such as cannot but be pleasing to God himself, just as a ruler could not be angered at the subject who denies that he does anything that conflicts with the laws of the land, or that he punishes and condemns anyone by sheer will and pleasure; which happens when one condemns on account of birth, insuperable ignorance and pure accidents: indeed I *extend* this in the same respect *[26]* so far that I hold that God even takes into *consideration* more and less innate frailty, so that for the same misdeed he passes a milder judgment on a *choleric* than on one who is born with a temperate *complexion,* and demands more of one whom he has *distinguished* with great gifts of nature than of a thick-headed person, just as laziness is less blamed in a man racked with pain than in one who has nimble and brisk limbs.

I do not know whether it is heresy to have such thoughts of God, that he also reflects on the circumstances of a human being's end. We are all sinners, and all need

to do penance, especially at our last. Some die suddenly and have little time to prepare: others die of long-lasting infirmities, so that they enjoy sufficient opportunity to atone for their sins. Some die of violent diseases and raving: others of wasting infirmities, whereby they retain their senses to the last breath. The first are commonly judged ill of: the last, on the contrary, are praised as blessed. I do not venture to *decide* herein; but say only that God, as a just judge, has all circumstances before his eyes when he pronounces judgment, so that a serious sigh of him who is carried off suddenly must balance against a whole year's penance of him who dies of a long illness: for one would otherwise have to say that those who die of strokes and sudden diseases are commonly damned; those, on the other hand, who die of consumption, commonly become blessed: which is to let damnation and salvation depend on the kind and quality of the disease. One must believe that, as a *superior* who bids his subordinate at once to get ready for a journey demands less attentiveness than of him to whom he gives a long time for it, so God also takes such things into account herein, since to die is nothing other than an order to depart, which each must obey. I otherwise submit this to the judgment of others, but hold fast to my *thesis,* that God damns no one on account of those things which are not within a human being's power.

[27] This seems to me so clear that I have often wondered how not only the common people, but even the greatest part of enlightened theologians can fall upon the thought that God judges the human race, not with regard to its conduct and deeds, but according to absolute will and pleasure. They indeed deny having such a doctrine, but must admit that it is a consequence of it. They say that God does not damn a heathen or Muslim because they are born of heathen and Muslim parents, but because they do not use their natural understanding, and the means that God has given them to search out truth, and because they neglect the opportunities that are given them to hear the Word. But daily experience shows that all, even the best and most moralized nations, cling to the religion in which they are brought up, and no theologian ventures to deny that, if he had been born in another place, he too would have had the faith of that place; for to deny such a thing would be to speak against experience, and to dispute against experience is to renounce one's senses, to make everything uncertain and wavering, indeed to introduce a pernicious Pyrrhonism. Several have noticed this, and therefore abandoned this argument, grounding their thesis solely on certain expressions found in Holy Scripture: as, that there is no salvation except through faith in Christ, item, that he who does not believe is damned, etc. But, since these same people themselves admit that in the interpretation of Scripture one often may and

ought to depart from the letter: item, that one must confer one passage of Scripture with another, in order to derive its right meaning, there is no greater need for this than herein, where it is a matter of conserving the thoughts one ought to have of the divine attributes. As often therefore as Scripture says that there is no salvation outside the orthodox, we must by unbelief and errors understand none but wilful ones, and not extend it to insuperable errors. And, as often as it is found that God can by sheer pleasure create to damnation and salvation, we must not believe that *[28]* he does so, nor that his divine attributes permit him to do so; but that the manner of speech gives us to understand only that if God did so, or could do so, creatures must not dispute against it and say: *Why hast thou done this?* The necessity of such interpretations is shown by innumerable other passages of Scripture, where there is talk of God's love toward the whole human race, and his purpose to open the door of salvation to all. Thus one passage of Scripture is reconciled with another, and God's holy attributes are conserved.

Some have been found who have wished to extricate themselves from this in another way, by pretending that one must not limit God's omnipotence, item, that one must not judge of divine virtues by human ones; indeed, that God's justice consists in doing what he finds pleasure in. But God's omnipotence is not limited by saying that he cannot renounce his holiness and deny himself; and to make into virtues in God what he himself condemns, what he blames in men, is not only to overthrow all natural religion, but even the revealed one, which expressly says that what he recommends to man as virtues is the property of his own nature. For it says: *Be ye merciful, as your Father is merciful.* One may hope that these harsh opinions will with time be more and more softened; and one sees daily one and another stop at the objections that are made against them, and by sighs give us to understand that it is a labyrinth from which they would gladly be able to extricate themselves, which may happen when the knots are loosed in the same way as has been said. I for my part hold that if the knots could not be loosed, then one should use *Alexander's* sword to cut them across. For no doctrine ought to stand in force that impresses on us a bad idea of the divine being.

2. Jens Schielderup Sneedorff (1724—1764) was, like Holberg, influenced by *[29]* French and English literature. In a pure and beautiful Danish, which makes an epoch in the history of our language, he has discussed philosophical and political-science topics. He emphasizes the great significance of experience, and expects that with advancing experience many riddles and problems that now plague us will vanish. Holberg saw

the matter from the opposite side, a characteristic difference of standpoint, which points to a difference of temperament. In the piece chosen here, Sneedorff speaks for a philosophy grounded on experience and maintains the reality of the single, individual things in opposition to all general concepts.

PHILOSOPHY OF EXPERIENCE

(Den patriotiske Tilskuer Nos. 14 and 47).

No reasonable person can doubt that the mathematical method is necessary in the sciences from which it has its name. They are grounded on concepts that we ourselves have drawn from things, and which therefore let themselves be determined in such a way that both the definitions themselves, and all the propositions that are drawn from them, admit of no exception; but in other sciences, where it is a matter of depicting things as they really are found in nature and with all the properties that make them comprehensible to our senses and awaken the movements of our minds, how difficult is it not often therein to determine both the definitions and the propositions in such a way that they, without any exception, can fit all single things of every kind, as surely as it is true in all possible circles that every point on the circumference is equally far from the center, and what real circle is made, even on paper, with such exactness that the roundness of the circle in nature corresponds perfectly to the roundness that it ought to have according to the definition in our representation? The humblest artist knows how often this difference between the real and the represented makes the application of the general rules as uncertain in the mathematical sciences as in others.

Nor do I deny that an orderly way of thinking, and the mathematical or philosophical is undeniably the most orderly of all, is indeed very necessary to direct our
[30] power of thought in all sciences; but if we are to put these sciences into practice, we must carry it further than outlines. The best painting without a correct drawing is deformed, but when the drawing is done, the brush ought to hide it so well that the eye sees nothing but free, unconstrained and playing nature. A description that is to represent a thing as it really is, a speech that is to move the heart and awaken movements of the mind, would in the strict philosophical method have as strange an appearance as a mathematical proof if it were set in verse and sung to notes. If we lived in a world of people who had neither imagination nor movements of the mind, a world that truly would not be the best, even if these people all had as much understanding as Newton, I would admit that mathematical sermons, mathematical

addresses, mathematical descriptions and mathematical letters would have more effect than all the eloquence of the Greeks and Romans. I would despise Demosthenes and Cicero, because in their speeches they have not used the same method as Euclid, and regard it as a great political fault in England that Addison and not Newton was chosen to speak in the House of Commons.

I do not say this to excuse myself; for however many lovers the mathematical method may have among us, I am yet sure that my readers demand just as little mathematical weekly papers as mathematical plays. We once had a philosophical Spectator in this country, and however much the mathematical method was in repute at that time, this work did not have such success among my countrymen that I could feel inclined to choose his method. Mathematics is a science that does the human understanding much honor and society great benefit, but the method alone is not so great an art, and to wish to make it general in all sciences is a pedantry at which the great mathematicians themselves laugh. In all parts of human knowledge it depends *[31]* more on the matter than on the form, more on wealth of thoughts and words than on skill in making syllogisms. A practiced and fruitful power of thought easily finds the most convenient order in which to set forth its thoughts, whereas a dry and methodical genius wearies both itself and its readers with circumlocutions that serve neither to convince nor to move.

The great art of working on one's own perfection is to cultivate the powers of the mind in such a way that the one facility in the soul does not limit the other. Flightiness will never be the chief fault of the Nordic geniuses, as pedantry will never be that of the French. If our countrymen, instead of fettering their power of thought by all too many methods, cultivated more the sciences that could encourage them and procure them a facility in thinking quickly and lightly, this mixture would without doubt in time give them a great advantage over the southern nations, who fall into another extreme, and whose works often lose much of their value by their not sufficiently uniting philosophy with the belles lettres.

As certain as it is that everything that contains a real contradiction is impossible, so certain it is also that the human understanding can in very few cases prove such a contradiction. As to that kind of impossibility that the philosophers call the definitive or *necessary impossibilitas absoluta,* which is grounded on a real contradiction and conflict between the concepts that constitute the essence of the thing, we could not

prove from it the impossibility of other things than those that are mere chimeras, e.g. a square circle. The other impossibility, which is called the *arbitrary*, and which consists in the thing's conflicting with certain fixed conditions, is subject to many limitations.
[32] We can indeed conclude that such a thing cannot be under certain conditions; but, when we have enumerated all such conditions, and determined them as exactly as possible, they are so small a part of the general connection of things, and of the infinite chain of causes, that there may be a thousand other cases in which hidden causes cancel the conditions under which the thing was impossible.

We daily discover so many new forces in nature; we notice upon closer examination so many exceptions to the general propositions; experience convinces us of the reality of so many things that we had formerly held impossible, and all this is still so little of that which is hidden from us, that we ought not easily to venture to say that anything is impossible in the present connection of things, much less that it is so in itself, in all possible connections, and for the Being for whom nothing is impossible except what is impossible in itself. Who would have believed a few hundred years ago that a stone could show us the way on the wild sea, and can one well tell anything that could seem to us less credible than what must occur to the southern peoples on hearing talk of lands where water becomes so solid that it can bear whole armies? The multitude is inclined to hold everything impossible that conflicts with the few concepts it has; but a philosopher ought by reflection and experience to have learned to be more cautious. The more of a philosopher he is, the more possibilities he sees, and the less ought he to build on the few concepts and experiences that a human being can have, the slower ought he to be to say that anything is impossible. Nevertheless philosophy often has quite another effect than it ought to have. A conceit of a high degree of certainty, a trust in methods and demonstrations, a habit of thinking by certain rules, and an infatuation with one's own opinions, cause those who call themselves philosophers to be often both hastier and more vehement in finding impossibilities in all that is strange and new to them than other people.

[33] We need go no further than to ourselves to be convinced of the truth that a reasonable man, a true philosopher, ought not easily to hold anything impossible. Let us try, if we can, to determine how far a single faculty of the soul can be brought, what a high degree of insight and skill, and how many inventions are possible in a single art? Let us go through the history of a people, and see how many things in every age have become not only possible, but also real and common, which previously were held impossible. Let us consider what great things a few people, a single human

being, have accomplished, how many alleged impossibilities they have overcome, and how often they have brought into reality such things as, not only according to the moral qualities of men, but also according to the natural character of the country, its size, climate and fertility, could seem impossible. Let us go through the history of our own fatherland, from the time when we had neither apples, pears nor cabbage in the country, and when we held it impossible to brew beer. It is still not many hundred years since. Let us consider how much has in that time become possible in the sciences, in the arts, in the cultivation and settlement of the country; and if we do not always feel like working for posterity, let us at least for the sake of our own honor not give them cause to laugh at us, as we now laugh at the ancients, because they held so many things impossible that we now find very easy.

I hardly need to say more to prove how much these alleged impossibilities can harm religion and the state. The inclination to find impossibilities, which comes from our limited concepts, is bad enough as it shows itself in the raw multitude, in whom it comes mostly from laziness; but it is ten times worse when it is united with the pride that an undigested school philosophy breathes into those who have a limited power of thought and little experience. As natural as it is that much must seem impossible to those who know little, so natural it is also that those who would know everything *[34]* must hold impossible all that they cannot themselves comprehend, and this must be much, when they are not accustomed to think outside a system.

It is not enough for a philosopher, in order to accept something as true, that it is not impossible; but it is enough for him not to reject it without sufficient proof, especially when it is a proposition that could have important consequences if it were true. He examines such propositions not so much by looking for impossibilities and contradictions, for which he knows that reason is commonly inadequate, as by testing the grounds and experiences on which such propositions are built; and if he is truly a philosopher, he knows that the highest ground of human certainty is in most things a high degree of probability, what is called a moral certainty. If it is a theoretical truth, he is content with this certainty; if it is a practical one, he does not despair after the first attempt, and when he has made many, he still does not dare to say that it is impossible for others to find what he himself has sought in vain.

I say that the highest ground of human certainty is in most things a high degree of probability. This important truth leads me to a consideration of the second ground of our knowledge: that we ought not to accept anything without sufficient ground. Several philosophers explain this in such a way that one would believe that they

meant that this ground was not sufficient unless one could prove from its concept all the properties that one ascribes to a thing. They extol the method of proving everything from general propositions, from the concepts of things (definitions), what they call *demonstratio a priori,* so highly that they are ready to place all those who infer from analogy, from an agreement of experiences in single cases, in the same class with quacks and cattle. Nevertheless the most important part of human knowledge rests on such proofs. It is not from general grounds, not from the definitions of things,
[35] but from an experience in single cases, that we know that a human being must die, that fire burns, that iron sinks in water, that wood floats, etc., and what philosopher would presume to prove from the essence of these things that what has happened in so many millions of cases could not even once be prevented by causes that are hidden from us? The general concept that we form of man is that he is a rational animal. But how many things do we infer from this concept? Truly, no more than what man has in common with all spirits and with all animals. Whence have we the most important knowledge of man, except from what we experience, chiefly in ourselves? On this inward feeling we build most of the knowledge that we have of the essence and properties of other human beings, and what is that but analogy, an inference that is grounded on likeness between single things? On this empirical knowledge, as our proud philosophers call it with a kind of contempt, we build all that is important, and when our mathematicians want to carry out the great things that they have sketched in imagination and on paper; when they want to build houses and ships, lay out fortresses, measure heaven and earth; must they not then descend just as deep as all other people? must they not build their surest and most important inferences on a long and consistent experience in single cases? must they not admit that this experience with a little theory does mankind greater and wiser service than a great theory without this experience?

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3. Frederik Christian Eilschow (1725—1750) stands in a certain opposition to Holberg and Sneedorff through the significance that he ascribes to abstract ("drawn-off") reasonings, especially in the religious discussion. It was his conviction that the freethinkers could be refuted with the help of metaphysics. He adheres to the German philosopher Wolff. Eilschow's significance rests especially on his so strongly asserting the duty to philosophize in Danish, and on his having contributed a series of Danish designations in place of the foreign expressions.

ON PHILOSOPHIZING IN DANISH

(Philosophiske Breve over adskillige nyttige og vigtige Ting.
1748.)

Since so much has been written in the world, it has been calculated, says *Dr. Swift,* *[36]* that there is not so much new matter left in the whole of nature that one could write a single proper book about it. I do not know whether many of my readers are likely to be of the same opinion; but I can very well assure you that there is still much unknown and hidden from us, without therefore assuming that *matter*, in the opinion of some, *is infinitely divisible.* I will say in a few words both what has moved me to publish this little work, and what one may count on finding in it. What I have written here is as little all old as it is all new. The prudent must judge whether my undertaking needs other, or more, excuses than these.

We have no superfluity of philosophical writings in the Danish language. We have some, and among these some choice ones; but few; so that he who publicly philosophizes in our mother tongue has no need to complain of the multitude of his predecessors. Most of our Danish philosophers are moreover *moralists* only, and one reads only very little, or nothing, in other parts of worldly wisdom in the language of the fatherland. Now the whole of philosophy contains many high and important things which it is useful for all people to learn and to be convinced of: and for that reason in other countries, and in most European ones, it has long since begun to set forth all sorts of sciences in one's mother tongue, in order to open an all the easier way to knowledge to those who are ignorant of the language of the learned. Nothing is more serviceable for separating the chaff from the wheat, things from words, wisdom from gossip, than to set forth one's thoughts and philosophical doctrines in a language that all understand. A *Latin wisdom,* which gets lost in the translator's hands when it *[37]* is to be set forth in another tongue, cannot please any but those who despise all that is clear, and may be regarded as a kind of *learned night-owls,* who feel best of all in the darkness of concepts and words. I have on the contrary held that a philosophical truth has no need to fear the light, and that its inward excellence never pleases spectators more than when it is surrounded by an outward clarity. I admit that the most excellent things are written in Latin; but I maintain besides that they could also be written in our language, and that this is no more unsuitable for it than *English, French* or *German.* The sciences, as they are taught in these, go out, as it were, beyond the narrow bounds of the schools and academies among the people in the wide world to more general use.

Socrates was, according to *Cicero's* account, the first who moved philosophy down from heaven, to let it dwell in cities and houses. I know well that this Roman *consul* means to say that the said *Greek* was the first who left the doctrine of nature in order to devote himself the more to the doctrine of morals, and concerned himself more with happiness than with knowledge of the stars; but nothing prevents us from also saying: *Socrates* was the first among the Greeks who made that wisdom common among the people which the *Sophists* until his time wished to reserve to their disciples alone. This great philosopher conceived that what was useful in philosophy was useful for all, and he took every pains that more than those who, in the manner of those times, went about in *long cloaks with a long beard* might get to know it. Long after that time the sciences were shut up within the learned walls, and so long as they were wrapped in the Latin language, so long as the scholastic darkness lasted, all non-Latin people understood not a word of this wisdom; but had to admit, when a *Scotus*, an
[38] *Occam*, a *suárez*, or other good honest Aristotelians opened their blessed mouths, with great astonishment and in the deepest ignorance, that they were dreadfully learned people. Since then, when philosophical slavery went out of fashion, since *Aristotle* was gradually dethroned, one began to express oneself in other living languages, so that more people also might have benefit from it; though in the beginning it did not go off without much contradiction. Everyone stared and gaped when *Thomasius* for the first time posted a German Programma on the academic blackboard. *Just think,* says this Socrates of the Germans, *a German Programma on a Latin board!* But gradually one paid more and more heed to the sound reason which said, *that what was sound and wise in one language remained so and necessarily in another.*

So I concluded when I first resolved to write in *Danish.* Some learned friends entered into a society with me, to publish, each separately, a monthly issue on one and another philosophical doctrine. I was chosen to compose the first number; but before the second was to go out, the society was already dissolved between us, so that I alone went on writing the following numbers, which all appeared under the supervision of Prof. *Kofod.* When I had laid down the pen at the beginning of last year, it occurred to me from time to time to make important remarks on the matters that I had treated in these monthly writings. In the course of it there also occurred to me some objections which several of my readers had made against the same. I undertook to set down the former and to answer the latter, and that was the occasion of this work, which comes to light in the form of *Philosophical Letters.* I have kept the same order of the matters as in my monthly writings; but everywhere interspersed

various remarks, which run now into one, now into another science; among others also some on various passages of Scripture, which, I hope, will not be unwelcome to those who make either a duty or a pleasure of searching the Holy Scripture, and of *[39]* gaining gradually greater and greater insight into important doctrines of the religion to which they profess. I for my part have always had a pleasure in recognizing the agreement of reason and revelation, and I have rejoiced whenever I have been able to find it. Although the order sometimes seems to be confused, and the reader's attention perhaps will be divided among too many things at once, so this can yet easily be remedied, when in reading through one will set about thinking over the one after the other in order. Everyone will excuse me herein who considers that letter-writers are granted greater freedom than those who sit down to write *coherent textbooks.* The former can at pleasure sometimes give the thoughts the rein, and allow them at their own discretion to stroll about in all parts of learning; but the latter are bound to keep them gathered on the science in hand in such a way that the reader's attention is maintained, and one always keeps the chain of inferences with the coherence of the doctrines in view. In very few places have I made use of proofs which consist of formal inferences of reason. Although I know well that these are the strongest, they are yet for most people at the same time the most disagreeable, and people of taste complain of the dryness and coarseness of the schools when on every second line of a writing a *Consequently* meets them. Where I have used inferences of reason in their express form, I have used them solely with the intention that I might gather my preceding considerations into a short concept, and in few words unite all the grounds of proof which I had explained more fully in what precedes.

4. Johannes Boye (1756—1830) built — in polemic against Kant and his school *[40]* — ethics on the fact that every force presupposes resistance, and that it is through struggle and friction that the human will develops into purity and nobility of mind. It is an anticipation of the Darwinian doctrine of the struggle for life in its application to the ethical. From his remarkable book "Statens Ven" (1792 ff) a characteristic piece is set down here.

DEVELOPMENT THROUGH STRUGGLE

Undeniably it is according to the procedure of nature, according to that of the single raw human being, and according to that of states among themselves, that the weaker is everywhere despised. Nature herself gives in all her kingdoms support to

the stronger. Life and death are disdained; and whether fewer or more shall exist seems left to a luck of chance, which does not always know how to value. When a trial of strength is to decide the dispute it is a trifle that a thousand weak are sacrificed so that one stronger may gain superiority. Chance it was that gave strength, and chance it is that gives right. Our fate under the dominion of nature as well as of men seems almost not to be better than that of the nightingale in the eagle's power in Hesiod. The poor creature, he tells, caught in the violent claws, sends forth indeed through its tender throat its complaint over the wrong, but the eagle, striving up toward the sun, hearing neither song nor sigh, devours greedily its prey in flight; and innocent as the creation it sang of, the helpless one ends at one stroke its life and its Creator's praise on high. Must not we wretched, thus ill-treated humans cry with Gloster in Shakespeare: What flies are to wanton boys, that are we to the gods. They kill us in sport!

> As flies to wanton boys so are we to the Gods,
> They kill us for their sport.

[41] In such tumult and uproar throughout all nature, what use is it to talk of duty? of a virtue that is to be practiced by angels without regard to consequences? What use is it to preach of virtue and forms of virtue which man neither knew nor could yet learn from experience? — Will man know the world better than the Creator, or will we teach him how it ought to be?

And we must know things better, when we dare assert that there is a difference between *ought* and *is.* The whole doctrine of innate forms of duty: the doctrine of human corruption: the whole system of atonement is only complaints against nature and her master-workman. Man in these systems insists on defects, on misfortunes and miseries, on the great misery that weighs oppressively over the whole world, without considering the presumptuous assertion he thereby makes, that he, like the youngster, will know the thing better than the father: he will know that the arrangement could be otherwise than it is. Had he been consulted when the world was created, it would surely have become better.

It is of no use here to take refuge in an evil principle. It does not excuse the Creator at all. If nature or man is not as he ought to be, then the Creator (whose will is this *ought)* either was unable to attain the good he desired, or he did not know it or did not will it. Perhaps a stronger one came and played him a nasty trick!.... But why

did he begin on that whose outcome he could not calculate? In such a case he was either short-sighted or powerless.

Better it is to take things as they are: and, instead of blaming man as an apostate, to show what strikes everyone's eye: that nature is not at all better than man. Better to admit that nature everywhere favors the right of the stronger, than painfully to invent that there is an *Ought* in the human brain different from the *Is* in nature. Certainly it seems disheartening when the investigator brings home the truth that the Lord of nature gives violence and superior power his support: For to whom shall the wronged seek, when the Sovereign himself loves wrong? — But when I find this *[42]* truth as it were forcing itself upon me, when I in the whole of nature, in all annals, on the whole stage around me, find this truth written in such glowing letters that one cannot possibly pass them unseen; shall I then with closed eyes imagine, and make others imagine, that there is nothing at all to read?

O! what use is it to deceive oneself? Just as one is afraid of nature one hangs a curtain of symbols between oneself and her, and sits down in this darkness and writes theodicies that quite conflict with experience. One excludes the bodily nature, though so closely bound to man, from the consideration of the ways of Providence. Daily she makes our calculations false, and daily we push her corrections from us. She shows us frequently her threats: and though the danger hangs in the cloud above our heads, we nevertheless make the people in that holy dimness believe there is nothing to fear, if only they atone for sin according to the prescription. So also act the weak who shut windows and shutters in thunderstorms, and in this darkness let a tallow candle outshine the lightning of the Almighty. The philosopher as well as the teacher of the people is afraid for the cause of the Almighty. To excuse it they cry Man has sinned! But has nature also?

Yet, that neither nature nor man has sinned; that all is glorious as it is; that in the short prelude of this life we have nothing to complain of but our own pampering: of this we have spoken little in the first volume, and if in our continued inquiry we can reach God's economy, the matter shall be laid before the eyes with still greater clarity. So much of what has been adduced is already clear, that this right of the stronger, favored by nature, not only agrees well, but is even necessary for man's being brought up to greatness. Nature is implacable toward sloth. It pushes aside the lazy and weak as unfit to conduct themselves there where strife between forces is what maintains order. In the raw elements as well as in organized classes down here, and no less between the worlds up there, struggle and the equilibrium of forces is *[43]*

what mechanically brings forth the wonderful harmony. And so long as man belongs to this world, and human societies no less, so war and the right of violence among the half-cultivated, and superiority of the power of spirit among the enlightened, will surely always keep the work alive. An eternal peace will surely never be allowed to lull us into a sleep that again would tumble us back to the cattle from whence we came. By strife and labor man is helped forward to what he is. By strife and labor he shall be preserved rational. If it were possible that war, and fear of war, and wakeful interest, which preserves the nation's prosperity, could for a time cease among the states, soon would we see voluptuousness and sloth stifle all the soul's manly activity, and mere stupid dwarfs relieve industrious fathers. Nature rears her children severely, but it happens in order to produce heroes. — —

However often man is defeated in this struggle, it is yet a blessed means to awaken us to greatness and virtue. For virtue, which, as we have seen, consists in the sacrifice of need, is the weapon by which the spirit-world gains victory over the bodily world, and without strife and challenge to strife man surely would not come to use this weapon, and perhaps he would never learn to know it. One single simple plan has been followed by the Creator in the whole world. Strife and mutual violence preserve and develop the bodily world. Strife and violence preserve likewise the spirit-world: and even between these two worlds strife and violence is the means which promotes the growth, nobility and greatness of both. As untrue as it is that one can conquer where there is no enemy to overcome; so unreasonable is it also that virtue and sacrifice can take place where society has no needy who need our goodness, no offender who demands forbearance, no suffering and opposition that can test our patience. Can the pampered one who from mother's lap to the bed of earth is carried through the world
[44] on hands, without knowing the harshness of the ocean and the atmosphere in nature, or the severity of hospitals and the working class in society, can he in this cradle of ignorance become a strong-souled enduring hero; then also can man become great and godlike in a world where the combativeness of nature and of the soul ceases, where there is no movement or rivalry among the peoples, but where everything in dumb and still slumber rots away like the herbs at Lethe's bank. A water goes into putrefaction that is not stirred by the wind: a soul that is not moved by opposition falls asleep in its body, and even the body must in the armchair be dissolved by its eating fluids, when it will not trouble to work itself to health. — —

It was this acquaintance with nature and her laws that abolished prejudices and made man free. Man himself gained in nobility as he understood nature more

thoroughly: but this nobility too had to be won first by long and many endeavors, by struggle with superstition and ignorance. Nor is it possible to comprehend nature all at once. We must spell and decipher before we learn to read and interpret. For the suddenly great man is not fitted here. Our weak soul and still weaker body shrinks back before an unexpected specter. No mortal can bear the sight of the Godhead, and just as little a sudden survey of the machine of nature. And even if a mighty conviction came, and mastered the soul at once, could man suddenly lay aside error, and unprepared get the great work of art of creation to survey from the heights; he would be lost in the amazement; he would forget his origin and abode; and almost insanely imagine that it already belonged to a higher sphere.

II.
STEFFENS AND GRUNDTVIG

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[45] 1. With the beginning of the nineteenth century the currents of Romanticism broke in over Danish intellectual life. Imagination and feeling were emphasized in opposition to the striving for enlightenment of the preceding period, and the need for poetry, for religion and for science was to find satisfaction at one stroke, not to be directed to wholly different paths. The wholeness of intellectual life was emphasized in opposition to the critical separation of the various spiritual domains that modern culture had brought with it. It was Henrik Steffens (1773—1844) who in his lectures in Copenhagen 1802—1803 proclaimed the new doctrine. Of these lectures three pieces are set down here; the first indicates Steffens's conception of philosophy and its method; the second characterizes the romantic conception of nature; the third voices the presentiment of the glorious primeval age that the longing of the Romantics would call back.

A. THE GOSPEL OF ROMANTICISM

The common prejudice against philosophy, which seems, at least among the great mass, to stand in direct proportion to the energy with which the greatest geniuses of our time seek to bring it nearer to its perfection, compels me — for my own sake and for yours, gentlemen! — to a brief preliminary declaration.

What I presuppose in my hearers is — on the side of *knowledge* — nothing but the general culture that must be presupposed in every educated scientific person; on the
[46] side of *interest* — the inward need to know the real nature of things, to resolve the riddle of existence; on the side of *capacity* — the inward intuition that grasps every single part together into a whole, posits the absolute whole, *the One,* as the *Real,* and through this comprehensive intuition displaces every alien representation that need not necessarily be thought in connection with the whole. Every philosophical lecture is necessarily a continuum, an organic whole, not an aggregate of single sentences. Everything single is understood only in its connection with the whole. What binds and orders is the unalterably same in each single proposition, the identical, which organizes all different objects. The expression of this identity is thoroughgoing, absolute consistency. Therefore philosophy, when it is what it ought to be, must become

a living system, not a dead classification. The more perfectly I should succeed in attaining the systematic unity, the more unintelligible, paradoxical, indeed ridiculous every proposition must seem in every other connection. The wretched expedient of tearing propositions out of their context, of judging them singly, or in a fabricated combination — an expedient that the flattest triviality is always ready to use — must always succeed the better, the more consistent, the more perfect the philosophical system is.

Without knowledge speculation is empty; without interest knowledge is a meaningless aggregate of materials; without that faculty of intuition interest remains standing at a soft longing, an indeterminate presentiment — and philosophy itself a mere pium desiderium for weak souls.

To lead you to the idea of philosophy's problem is the aim of these my first lectures. I proceed from facts. I reason, I do not demonstrate. I awaken presentiments; but these give no evidence. I will open to you a more significant view over life and existence than that to which common experience, daily life, hemmed in by finite need, leads us. From the deeper view over nature, history and our inmost heart, the philosophical *[47]* problem springs as from its proper source. Everyone must give himself this problem before it can be solved in a satisfying way. Everyone must solve his own problem, not another's.

The sciences seek the infinite by a piecemeal accumulation of the finite. The historian seeks it by an aggregate of facts, whose connection, when it is there, again produces only something finite. But nothing in history, no single age's, no single nation's individuality, can be fully understood except through its necessary connection with the whole of history. An intuition of the whole must therefore, as it seems, precede every single judgment. The investigator of nature heaps phenomena upon phenomena; if he even attempts a theoretical connection, it is only finite, limited. But no single phenomenon is fully understood except in the necessary connection with *all.* An intuition of the whole of nature thus seems to have to precede every single investigation. I reserve to myself in what follows to make this clearer and more vivid to you.

Indeed, it would be inconceivable what moved the investigator of nature to his unceasing industry, if a presentiment, though obscure in many, of an infinite connection were not the deep moving principle of their inquiry. This presentiment never

wholly forsakes any human being. Even in the most limited it slumbers deep in his soul. It binds us to the whole of nature. It gives everything single a higher, nobler significance. It is what, with the coming morning, opens the glowing, living nature to everyone, as if an inward sun involuntarily followed that of heaven; it lifts the infinite swarm of shapes out of the general darkness; through it the eternal life of nature speaks, as through a mystic cipher, to our spirit, and inwardly we understand
[48] it. It covers the whole swarm of shapes, when the inner light, like an eternal darkness, casts itself behind all the stars, and an alien light only makes the infinite darkness visible to us.

This presentiment joins us likewise to history. Ages whose way of thinking, whose outward existence had a quite different sweep from ours become comprehensible to us through it. If we surrender to it, we resign that general postulate of the understanding, to make our time and its way of thinking a norm for all; it bestows on us the organs of the times that lie hidden in the past. Through it giants are awakened from their graves, gods and goddesses wander about among us, every sound from long-vanished times echoes back with its peculiar tone, it conjures the most glorious ages into the most deeply sunken. It is as if the germ of all the epochs of history slumbered in each. This presentiment, whose object is always infinite, is called, when the living, creative reveals itself in its glory in an excellent heart — *poetry.* No human being is wholly devoid of poetry. No age, not even the rawest, has ever *wholly* lacked it. It is as if nature's own eternal productivity awoke with the poet. Noble, lofty shapes step forth, a divine, golden world, quickened by an eternal sun, is opened to us, as by a sudden stroke of magic. An infinite sense seems to have hidden behind every shape and beams mystically toward us. We are surrounded by a lofty, glorious splendor, a deep longing awakens in our inmost being, and joins us irresistibly to the wondrous, illusory world —

It vanishes —

Time holds us captive, its narrow need *demands* our attention; but the eternal longing that the poet awoke, *nothing* can extinguish. What is it that enchants us, when the poet sings?

B. ROMANTICISM'S CONCEPTION OF NATURE

[49] The investigators of nature, who so often felt themselves almost involuntarily driven by an obscure presentiment of an inward connection between all the phenomena of nature to many a step that they themselves could scarcely explain to

themselves, also assumed, although everything seems to speak against their assertion, a gradual transition from one form to the other. Donati, and with him a great part of the naturalists now living, imagines that the animal species pass over into one another like the threads in a net. Bonnet and several others believed that all animals form, by gradual transition, a linear series. Whoever can believe that merely the use that the investigators of nature could expect from such hypotheses for the methodology of natural description could bring them to defy even outward probability, certainly does them wrong. It was a ground that lay far deeper. It was a presentiment of a progressive formation running through the whole organization, a representation (that never let itself be dismissed) of a general schema, by which nature, even under the most apparent condition, had to be guided, that led them astray to so many false hypotheses.

It is generally known how wholly all attempts to arrange the animals in the form of a net or along a line have failed, and how strikingly they betray what is forced and artificial; for what can well be more contrived and more unnatural than the transition from flying fish to bird, from bat to the same animals, from Manis and Dasypus to lizards? Even if one cannot deny that these animals point to the points at which the classes *approach* one another. — But is then even the *thought* that underlies those attempts really to be rejected? Does not one forming force run connecting through all shapes? — One would have to try to explain the discontinuity of the forms from a continuity in the functions themselves. Comparative physiology was long since on the way to finding a continuity of the organic functions. Kielmeyer proved them, and *[50]* yet it seems as if the physiologists still constantly hesitate to make use of so glorious a discovery as their science almost against their will forces upon them.

From our point of view the discontinuity of the forms of the higher animals is absolutely necessary. These forms do not form a straight series, nor any net. The latter representation, which doubtless has something right in it, holds only for the lowest animal stages, — holds here not only for the species but also for the individuals; but if animalization on the lowest stages represents a net, then the threads in this net are constantly separated more and more from one another. The higher the animals stand, the greater and more striking is this separation, and now there arise little by little not only different, mutually separate *genera;* but also natural classes — like different worlds, in which nature tries itself. Precisely because what steps forth as more significant is the *centripetal* tendency of nature, it was necessary that the outward points of union of the classes should recede, as the forms of animalization

became more individual.

Compare our physical and chemical theories with eternal nature itself — leave the chemical laboratories to survey the globe and its life. The sun glows at the center of the planets, light embraces with eternal splendor all that lives, the whole globe seems a flower that opens its many-colored petals, breathes out its life by day and closes by night, warmth is an eternal alternation of expansion and contraction, between which everything oscillates, magnetism has penetrated the whole globe and points silently to a secret rule, electricity opens and closes the momentary life of the chemical interplay, the air, constantly changing, and in all change constantly the same, the
[51] globe's wondrous breath, is inhaled, bound, loosed again and encloses all. Water — the indifferent, the formless, from which all form seems to have arisen, circulates, ever surging, among the solid. Meanwhile the wholly precipitated, inorganic mass (the deposited skeleton of the globe) ferments with the last spark of life, still flaming under the equator. An eternally changing life, more uniform under the poles, more variegated, more glowing under the equator, wells forth with rising energy — and in the midst of this variegated swarm there rises little by little through all the shapes a mystic center, ever deeper and deeper hidden in the innermost being of the shapes; as it reveals itself more clearly, the single separates from the whole and becomes a whole in itself, the isolated organization becomes more perfect; the energy with which it struggles against the mass becomes mightier, the impressions it imposes on it more significant. At last, with the most individual creature, nature's most invisible, holiest center awakens — reason. Even the mass is ennobled by it, and art and poetry are able to produce shapes higher, nobler, more infinite, more significant than even nature.

C. THE PRIMEVAL AGE AS THE IMMEDIATE REVELATION OF THE ETERNAL

With the gods all history begins. Behind all history lies mythology; that is a fact no one can deny. Call this mythological time what one will, the fabulous, the raw, the childhood of the human race, expressions that always prove that one makes one

time the yardstick for the other, our own time in particular the yardstick for all the others — this *fact* stands unshakable. It is as if all history began with the immediate emerging splendor of the eternal, as if everything lying nearest that glorious period partook of the glory of the eternal. To reduce the ideas of the noblest, most excellent nations concerning the Godhead to the most wretched and flattest absurdities, to *[52]* remove all higher sense from their religiosity, in order thereafter to be able to explain their peculiar nature, may be permitted to anyone, only not to a philosopher. To him it is, among all possible contradictions, the hardest, that the most splendid existence could be built on a foundation of unreason — and no philosopher has ever doubted that the source of all existence is religiosity. Besides, it is not my aim here to explain, merely to relate. The purity of the narrative does not permit the admixture of any — whatsoever — presupposition. We must take the oldest time as it shows *itself,* not as we believe we must understand it.

The mythological age, to which I will here briefly draw your attention, is the ancient oriental, the mother of Greek mythology; for not to speak of the fact that oriental mythology might contain the germ of the Nordic, which shows itself in history only in a later period, it seems *itself* — like the higher sense of the human race, its eye gazing with consciousness, to see from *a* point movable from region to region. Here, in the significant line in which this gleaming point moves, we must find the deep trace of the sense of history. — —

That which in particular distinguished that age was the remarkable identity of what we afterwards must separate as word and action. In living action everything was expressed that we now seek by word, all the revolutions and developments of nature, all the mysteries of religion. Life itself, fresh as it sprang from the Godhead, had immediately the significance that we now only sense. Therefore all their representations were living. No trace of the dividing death which in more recent times has made sciences and poetry and, through them, religion itself so monstrous. It is known that the oldest peoples represented the whole living universe as a single animate being, which with infinitely various limbs moved and stirred in the most manifold ways, that sacred matters keep remarkable fragments of the history of the earth's formation, that many myths of the oriental and Nordic primeval peoples preserve, in *[53]* the most profound images, the metamorphoses of nature, that many strange pieces of knowledge (as e.g. in astronomy, in metallurgy), which we could not explain without deep insights, indeed often not without acquaintance with the most artful instruments invented only in our own times, convince us that also there, where the allegories

and images are unintelligible, something far deeper lies at the bottom of these than arbitrarily spun-out dreamings. It is certain that the whole life of the earliest human race was religion, that all their representations and actions had an immediate regard to the eternal, in short: that they, as also one of the most glorious and profound Greeks says of them, were nearest to the gods of all men. Therefore nature seems, though in a manner inconceivable to the present physics, to have opened her holiest to them, and many of the allegories and myths of that age seem to contain nature's own highest oracles about its innermost being. Therefore their life itself was more significant, all passions higher, all shapes nobler. Yes, nobler, although they lacked the superficial glitter and meaningless trumpery of our time; our words, which with form have lost their most proper significance and explain everything except that which alone is worth the trouble to understand, our sciences, which have closed nature to us, and make our existence itself senseless.

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2. According to his own testimony N. F. S. Grundtvig (1783 — 1872) received from Steffens the germ of his historical-poetic conception. The romantic harmony between religion, poetry and science did not, however, satisfy him. Even before his actual breakthrough he was led not only to assert the independence of religion in relation to the other spiritual domains, but even to assert its supremacy over them. In the remarkable treatise on religion and liturgy (1807), of which a piece is communicated
[54] here, he dissolves in this way the romantic doctrine of the unity of intellectual life by impressing the distinction between the spiritual powers.

POETRY, PHILOSOPHY AND RELIGION

Do we need religion?

This question would have to seem strange, especially to those familiar with history, if it were not known that our time prides itself on denying what all the past ages have confirmed, on shrinking itself down to the earth, as if it were man's highest triumph to maintain the nullity of his existence. Now, on the other hand, one will rightly demand it answered here.

First we will seek to bring life and its problem before contemplation, not in order thereby to avoid the answer; but in order to put the readers at our standpoint.

We live in a valley, bounded by an unsurveyable, billowing sea. Awakened by traditions, and driven by an inexplicable compulsion, we dimly sense that on the other side of the sea there must be a land, with fairer plants and purer air — our original home. Involuntarily we stare thither, involuntarily we strive in our breathing to catch the air that seems to stream out from that unknown. Thereby they remain standing who, as intoxicated by the valley's grapes, or chained to this earth, cannot see its end. Thereby we all perhaps would have remained standing, if the waves of the sea did not gradually swallow us; but now we can no longer be content with the indeterminate presentiment. We demand certainty. Ourselves we dare not venture away, since we must perish by the attempt, and yet do not know whether it is permitted us to leave the valley; but two messengers we have, *Poetry*, and *Philosophy*, and on them we build our hope. *Poetry* soars out over the sea, and loses itself among the clouds. Only at times we glimpse it in the distance, and, our staring notwithstanding, we shall never discover other than that it is surrounded by a passing splendor, which we sense to be *[55]* the effect of the rays of the fairer sun, which we place in the unknown.

Philosophy's way is another. First it searches the valley closely, and follows it in all its windings, in order, if possible, to find there the place whence that presentiment issued; but is driven, after wasted effort, by necessity — to conclude that it must have come across the sea. With greatest care it fits out its ship for the voyage over the deep: but scarcely a stone's throw from land it is stopped by the cloud-high, rolling waves. Either it must raise itself above them, and become poetry, or anchor, exposed to the storming winds, or, weary of vain struggle, must turn back, bid us regard the valley as our home, and content itself with giving rules for the most convenient walk on the winding road that leads to the sea.

Either we must now again take refuge in that presentiment, which philosophy at most only made more determinate, or we must acknowledge our need of instruction from the other side of the sea.

As soon as man has brought his faculties to the degree of development that he can contemplate himself, there immediately meets him the wondrous riddle of existence. He sees the other animals of the earth content with the enjoyment of the moment; but in himself he finds a need that goes beyond the finite, without being conscious of its object. He believes he solves the knot by declaring himself essentially different from the other animals, and raised above them; but he only ties it thereby the tighter,

for if he will not adopt as his goal to be born, enjoy, and die, then he is forsaken by the whole analogy of life; has torn himself out of the only known chain, and stands as a single link, without points of contact. If he is an everyday man, or a clever animal, then he hastens to cut the knot, turns back to his unreasoning kinsmen, and finally makes enjoyment his highest goal. But not even thereby has he become at one with
[56] himself, for he has prepared for himself a new struggle against the suppressed but never conquered presentiment of the higher, which proclaims itself in him through what we call conscience. He can often evade the struggle, but never end it as victor, for he must always flee from the overpowering enemy, whose attacks become stronger and swifter, just as age makes him weaker, and more unfit for flight. At last he is squeezed in between it and death, and throws himself trembling into the cold arms of the latter, without daring, however, to hope there for deliverance from the pursuing demon.

Man, who is more familiar with the presentiment of his higher nature, looks down proudly on his slumbering brother, and reproaches him that he himself is the cause of his anxious, tormenting dreams. He himself joins even more closely to his presentiment, and hopes to get it, through poetry or philosophy, potentiated into certainty. Sometimes he believes he has reached his goal, but whether it is a disappointment or not, the following consideration shall teach.

Poetry knows well how to construct a higher existence out of the most brilliant traits, in which man for a moment moves with intoxicating delight, but it cannot bestow any lasting life in the same, nor attribute to existence a value of its own, as including the condition of a higher being. If its tendency is to tear man out of existence, it can neither solve the riddles of this, which on the contrary step forth more strongly the nearer it comes to its goal. We know indeed that it several times, especially in the later times, strove to attach itself to life, but we also know that it either thereby wholly despised its nature, and became the seductive painter of animal enjoyment, or sank under the heavy burden of existence, which it wanted to raise with it to the eternal.

One should not expect here a detailed criticism of the philosophical systems, which would not be in place here at all, even if we could give it; but only the presentation of
[57] the highest point that philosophy, according to its nature, can and dare climb! It can lead man to consciousness of the strife of existence, and thus with determinateness put forward the highest problem. It can motivate its assertion that its solution must either be impossible, or lead beyond existence; but to solve it itself, it cannot.

It can appeal to the inner experience of every developed human being, when it asserts that our reason recognizes a higher law than that of nature; but it can never explain the phenomenon, why that, which yet proclaims itself as the highest, cannot appear in existence with the same necessity as this. It cannot explain the origin of this disharmony from a harmony, any more than its return to such. Everyone who thought for himself will find that both *Fichte's*, and *Schiller's*, and Schelling's attempts, by their unmistakable stamp of extraordinary genius, have failed, and from here it is only a small step to see why, and that they necessarily had to fail. All the solutions that philosophy permits itself of those high riddles must either be a denial of the existence of the riddles, or rest on a hypothesis that cannot be proved, but is sometimes so ingeniously hidden that it seems to be the result of the inner experience itself.

Schelling is without doubt the one among the recent philosophers who most worthily characterized the eternal, and most consistently derived the strife of existence from it, as merely apparent; but what does the strictest consistency help, when the first link hangs in the air, so that we cannot approach it without poetry? Under *Schelling's* hand a glorious new creation arose, but just therefore the inference to the present one was lacking. The assumption of the eternal, we are tempted, misled by our need, easily to deny the name of hypothesis; but it does not become so the less, because it is shown as necessary, when philosophy is to be able to say something illuminating about the riddle.

Therefore we chose *Schelling's* philosophy as an example, because we see in it philosophy's confession of its inability to explain the riddle of existence, and thus a *[58]* pointing to an unconditional need of something higher.

If we cannot attach the highest link of existence to the eternal, then knowledge of their mutual relation must necessarily come from above, or we must do without it. The latter we cannot, when we have raised ourselves above animality, and feel that need which goes beyond the finite, and we must then earnestly long for the former.

If we succeeded, even if only in part, in presenting the foregoing ideas with light and truth, then surely none of our readers will regard religion as a bond on the unenlightened, or a support for the tottering structure of the moral system, which is to be removed as soon as this has attained its proper firmness, but will follow us with interest when we seek to answer the question:

What is religion?

The common definition says it is knowledge of the supersensible, and when one

assumes the existence of several religions, one must surely say so, since it seems to be the only thing they have in common. When, however, without regard to any definite religion, we want to state the concept as it has dimly hovered before all founders of religions, and as it must be in order to include the determining ground of all more cultured peoples' religions, then it cannot satisfy us. The imperfection of the definition was necessary, since it has come about by merely logical abstraction from a Something that without proof is assumed to be what one wanted to define.

If it is possible to get a satisfactory answer to this important question, then it must be sought in history, which, unconcerned about itself, discloses in its calm course the highest and the deepest. If we now consult this, we shall find that although its ciphers also include zeros, which, little as they lack significance for us, yet by their as it were isolated appearance were meaningless, nevertheless religion was generally
[59] recognized as the divine power that lifts man above all the surroundings of the earth, to the highest, the supersensible. Already thereby much is gained, for religion is now no longer for us a mere knowledge, but the golden chain in Jupiter's hand, which is to lift the earth to heaven.

If we take but one step further, we find that the history of Greeks and Jews and Scandinavians alike loses itself in a golden age, when the gods walked on the earth, when the heavenly and the earthly coincided in one idea. Here rests the cause of all religions, here we get the answer: *Religion is the communion of the finite with the eternal.*

III
THE ØRSTED BROTHERS

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1. While Grundtvig dissolved the romantic harmony by asserting the independence of religion, Hans Christian Ørsted (1777—1851) took a step in the same direction by asserting the independence of science in relation to the other sides of intellectual life and its decisive influence on these. In his work "Aanden i Naturen" (1849—1850) he has in his old age collected speeches and treatises from various times in his life, all borne by the thought that natural science is called to bring forth significant changes in philosophy, poetry and religion. The pieces chosen here will illuminate this conception from different sides. The last two pieces are answers to Bishop Mynster's "Bemærkninger" on the first part of "Aanden i Naturen". *[60]*

A. THE LAWS OF NATURE ARE THOUGHTS OF NATURE
(Fragment of a Conversation).

Alfred. — Nature is a whole and not a piecework. The first step in our inquiry will be to convince ourselves that the laws of nature, according to which everything proceeds in each single object, constitute not merely a manifoldness, but also a manifold unity, a unity, a whole. Will it not tire you, if we again go through what we said about the Sarpfossen, in order thereby to point out this inner necessary unity?

Sophie. I beg you to believe of me that I am not tired or bored by important inquiries, if only I can grasp them.

Alfred. The fundamental thought, so far as the fundamental thought in such a natural thing can be expressed, is a falling river. The water, constantly renewed by the inflow, hurries down from a great height. It obeys the same law of fall as every *[61]* body, and therefore gains incessantly a greater and greater speed in its fall; as water it has the property that its parts easily roll over one another and are easily dispersed, and that the freely floating parts form drops. By the ever-increasing speed those parts whose fall began earlier gain a head start, which tends to separate them from those following, and thereby a mighty dispersion is produced; at each impact countless drops are sprayed up in the most various directions; there forms itself, if I may so say, a world of drops, full of movements, which in spite of all changing circumstances

preserves a certain peculiarity. The air that must mix with the falling water forms foam, countless air bubbles enclosed by films of water, whose incessantly changing, uneven and white surface is as peculiar as it is well known. The pitch of the sound that each falling part produces is determined by its height of fall; its strength not only thereby, but also by the number of the falling parts. The impression of all the combined sound can therefore well have some differences, but must in the essential always remain the same. The foaming fall of its noisy roaring bears witness to us of its crushing power, as it also shows when something breakable comes into its gullet. This and much else that I have probably forgotten to enumerate, and still far more things that go on in it without my knowing it, constitute an intimately connected whole, in which every link is produced according to laws of nature, or in other words: all the thoughts of nature therein are inseparable from the main thought. Its distinctiveness from all other waterfalls it gets from its peculiar natural position. The manifold variations under which it shows itself without changing its peculiarity, rest on variations in the outer world: changes in the direction and strength of the illumination, changes in air movement, warmth, and the like. Thus it stands before us almost as a being with a character of its own, that fills the imagination with the
[62] representation of a mighty, though unconscious giant, a slave of nature, with a firm, untameable force.

Sophie. All this seems to me very clear; but it fills me with dread. I am dizzier from looking down into this empty nothingness of existence that you show me than from looking down into the deep gullet of water.

Alfred. You will surely neither abandon yourself here nor believe that I would abandon you in this desert.

Sophie. Then hasten to my aid.

Alfred. My chief aid will consist in my encouraging you to help yourself. It was no doubt the conspicuous lack of independence of the contemplated object that frightened you; but I beg you to consider that you, by contemplating the same object without any scientific reflections, would have had to regard it as just as lacking in independence.

Sophie. I admit that you are right in this; but I fear that all other existences would in the same way dissolve for us into mere thoughts.

Alfred. Not into mere thoughts. It was the acting forces of nature that presented to us a unity of thought. The ground of your misgiving lay elsewhere.

Sophie. I believe so myself; but tell me where.

Alfred. The unity of thought did not present itself to us as a little world of thought closed in itself, but only as a fragment of a greater whole of thought.

Sophie. So it seems to me to be.

Alfred. But you must be prepared that something similar, though not in equal degree, shows itself in every existence; for every thing that is not the whole All itself is again only part of the greater whole.

Sophie. I fear that the independence of things will thus vanish under our hands after all.

Alfred. Your fear is not wholly unfounded, and yet I do not fear on your behalf for the continuation of our investigations. *Sophie.* You are bold on my behalf. *[63]*

Alfred. I must show the fear out of our inquiry to its proper home.

Sophie. Where is this?

Alfred. In existence itself. Just take any object in existence and look it properly in the eye, and you meet everywhere dependence and perishability. This complaint is as old as the human race, you surely know that; if there is to be found something imperishable in things, it must not be the sensible in them.

Sophie. I notice well that through thoughtlessness I was on the way to demanding the impossible. Forgive!

Alfred. I would not have spoken of it, if I had not had to fear that you would be tempted to accuse our inquiry of making our view of existence less powerful and living than it is in reality. We must then keep firmly in mind that every question that is raised about something constant in things, without one's raising oneself from the standpoint of sensible existence, leads us to a despairing feeling of nothingness. It is then only by a consideration of reason that we can find something constant in them.

Sophie. But those who are not able to carry out a consideration of reason?

Alfred. They are nevertheless sustained by the rays of rational existence that religion sends down to them.

Sophie. That is true. Now I am ready to go further.

Alfred. I will now try to give a compressed presentation of the view that we must next appropriate. That besides the fundamental forces of nature, the creating forces, there is nothing else constant in things than the laws of nature according to which everything in them proceeds, and that these laws of nature may rightly be called thoughts of nature, on that we are agreed. The fundamental forces themselves are found in all bodies; but their difference rests on the laws of nature prevailing in them. That which gives a thing its constant peculiarity, its essence, is then, as we *[64]*

have already established before, the manifold unity of laws of nature by which it is produced and maintained; but the laws of nature are thoughts of nature, the essence of things rests then on the thoughts of nature that are expressed in them. In so far as something is to be a self-coherent being, all the thoughts of nature expressed in it must belong together in one thought of essence; which we call its idea. The essence of a thing is then its living idea.

Sophie. But then the essence of a thing becomes a mere thought.

Alfred. Let us not forget that I said its living idea, by which I mean the idea realized by the forces of nature.

Sophie. But I have often heard and read that the idea can never be realized.

Alfred. In the strictest meaning of the word this is also perfectly true. In each single being the idea is found realized only in certain directions with certain particular determinations. This happens also in art. No sculptor tries to present in one work the idea of all humanity; but in each particular work he presents it with a peculiar stamp. In *Jupiter* with that of power and independence, in *Apollo* with that of youthful mobility and fieriness, in *Venus* with that of the allurement of love, in *Minerva* with the stamp of a vigorous thoughtfulness, but along with it in union with that of virginity. Do not believe that by these expressions I have wanted to say anything exhaustive about these objects; but that I have only wanted to direct attention to this, that an idea, if you will fundamental idea, can assume manifold particular shapes, which one can regard as the expression of as many more closely determined ideas.

Sophie. But are the ideas then realized as perfectly in nature as in art?

Alfred. If we take the works of all artists together as a realm of the arts, then
[65] I may well say that the realm of nature here does not stand back; but we will not hold too strictly to the comparison. Nature carries out each of her ideas in countless modifications and in works whose production proceeds through unsurveyable times; in the manifold unity of all the whole idea is to be expressed. As a thinker forms for himself one fundamental thought under the most various forms, as a musician does the same when he varies a text, so nature, only in an unspeakably greater manifoldness. Each Enster*) (individual) is such a peculiar execution of the fundamental idea of the object. But rich nature does not confine herself to showing us executions in which the thoughts stand as it were concluded before us: no, she shows them to us with

*)The word was proposed by *Eilschov* and used by *Risbrigh*. It is no doubt old and was found in the word *Eensterskilling*, which in the previous century was still used to denote a single shilling in silver coin.

countless variations of relations of finitude, which a one-sided observer will call the most conspicuous imperfection; but which *he* who thinks the conception of nature brought to the height to which it shall develop in the whole human race, must find destined to reveal the idea of the thing in its whole fullness to a mighty, clear-seeing spirit. But also in the present state of things, where even the greatest human spirit has not reached so high a stage, the investigators of nature can have an insight into this, if ever so much less profound.

Sophie. I understand now your meaning in this respect, but allow me another question, which occurred to me before, without my wishing therefore to interrupt the discourse. You said that only the laws of nature constitute the distinguishing feature of the objects; but after all that I know, great differences rest on the substances of which the thing is formed. The rose has its scent from oil of roses, the grape its taste from sugar and various acids, as I have been told, and you surely know better than I countless other examples.

Alfred. But all these substances are only compositions of more simple substances, and the composition is produced in accordance with the laws of nature. However, you *[66]* touch here on a matter that could lead us into inquiries whose limits our age has not yet reached. Allow me then to point out to you that science has shown us the same constituents in highly different plants and parts of plants, so that poisonous plants and those that serve us for wholesome nourishment are not recognizably distinguished by the elementary substances of which they are formed, but by the manner in which this has happened, that is: the thoughts of nature that are realized in them.

Sophie. Hereby this doubt seems to me removed.

Alfred. All objects are then realized ideas, yet in such a way that each single one expresses the idea only in a highly limited shape, whereas it is the whole of the products of nature belonging under one idea that realize the whole idea in all its fullness; but each idea thus realized in the finite world is again only a member of a higher, more comprehensive one. Thus the idea of each animal species is only a member in the idea of the whole animal kingdom; the animal kingdom's again of the still more comprehensive idea in which both the animal and plant kingdoms are comprised; this again a member in the idea of the terrestrial globe, which presents to us a little world closed in itself, which yet again is a member of a still higher system.

Herman. But is this connection a reality and not merely a product of our own thinking?

Alfred. Nature herself shows it to us as her own. Our investigations into the

formation of the earth have, as we have already discussed before, shown that it has developed in a long series of ages, and that at each new stage of development new species of plants and new species of animals have formed, and that these in structure and Skabelunde*) so resemble the products of the present age of the earth as different executions of one fundamental thought must resemble one another. Further it is
[67] important to take note of the order of development. Nature has in the development of the globe begun with the animal and plant species that stand on the lowest stages, and has gradually in the following ages advanced to higher formations, which yet at all earlier stages of formation constituted a less highly developed realm of creation than that which the surface of the earth now bears. Add now to this that the higher animal species in their embryonic state begin from lower stages of development, related to those on which the lower animals stand, and run through from there a series of stages of development, before they reach that to which they are destined.

Herman. You need not conclude; I admit the weight of your reasons.

Alfred. I then build further on what has been admitted. The terrestrial globe is thus a member of our solar system, with which it has developed, and stands in an unceasing reciprocal action. The idea of the globe is thus enclosed in that of the solar system; but in the same way this is again a member in the next higher system: this system of suns that the Milky Way shows us, and in which our artificial instruments of sight and our inferences built on the laws of nature have let us see as much as must remain hidden from the mere man of the senses. This system, immense for our ordinary representations, is again only a member of a still higher one and so on beyond all bounds. Thus the boundless extension forms an infinite whole, which contains all ideas realized in existence; but this infinity of ideas is at the same time comprised in one operative idea, an infinitely living reason.

B. SCIENCE AND RELIGION

In my book, Aanden i Naturen, I have with full conviction paid homage to the old doctrine of the immutability of the laws of nature, and have striven to show
[68] how the same truth, in my opinion irrefutable, by no means leads to the denial of

*) *Skabelunde* seems to be the right word for the misshapen *Skabelon.* It corresponds then to the Swedish *Skaplynne.* The ending *lunde* is sufficiently known in *hvorlunde nogenlunde* etc.

religion and morality, as many through a false conception of natural necessity have let themselves be misled to believe; but that a thorough natural science shows that these laws are precepts of reason, springing from the divine reason itself; and that this doctrine, rightly understood, is in the happiest harmony with true morality and religion. The esteemed author of the Bemærkninger does not find himself convinced by my presentation, but disputes the immutability of the laws of nature. The fundamental objection is set forth in the following words:

> That the laws of reason, namely — if we may use a theological expression — the ad intra, the laws that constitute the essence of reason, are eternal, no one will doubt, for reason cannot deny itself. However, a law can be wholly rational and yet hold only for a time, since the actions, as the author says, when one under different circumstances acts according to the same principles, must become different. It was according to laws of nature that the animal and plant world of the past came forth, yet it has now perished, replaced by other animals and plants, which likewise come forth according to laws of nature, which thus are not the same as those that nature in that antiquity obeyed. Only differently modified — one will say — according to times and circumstances, for those laws were, as mutable, not fundamental laws. Undeniably we must in the end come to immutable laws, the fundamental laws of all existence; but the question is how high we shall have to ascend to find laws that are independent of time and circumstances, that cannot be changed. Yes, why does one not dare to venture the question whether the whole nature of this world, however far even its duration extends, is not — if I may so say — a temporary arrangement, which can and shall be transformed, while presumably the reason that revealed itself therein remains the same.

It is undeniably true that "*the actions, when one under the different circumstances acts according to the same principles, must become different*"; but *when the principle continues to be the same, then it has surely not been changed*! The actions are surely not the principle, but events that happen according to the law!

Yet the matter is far too important to be left to be decided by anything that could *[69]* have even the faintest appearance of a dispute about words. As far as I understand the author, he wanted to say that the changed circumstances were not produced according to immutable laws, and that one must conclude from this that the effects gradually

developed were not necessary consequences of the fundamental laws. But this opinion cannot be reconciled with *that* which nature teaches us; our investigation of it shows us that the changed circumstances are themselves consequences of laws of nature. In the Bemærkninger an example has been chosen of the changed circumstances by which the animals and plants produced in the various ages of the earth's globe have received their dissimilarities. Since the reader, in order to grasp the illumination of this example with the proper clarity, ought to keep several examples in quite lively view, from which it is seen how the laws of nature stand in the most intimate connection with one another, and how an unspeakable manifoldness of singular phenomena can arise from the fact that effects which proceed according to different laws of nature interfere mutually with one another, I will introduce the matter by a presentation belonging here.

It is a law of nature that all bodies and all bodily parts attract one another mutually, so that the attraction between two points therein is inversely as the squares of the distances. The force with which the same two points attract each other will then at 10 feet's distance be 100 times less than at 1 foot's distance. The distance can undergo countless changes: the law remains the same. But from this law it follows further that all bodies fall vertically toward the surface of the earth, namely the surface the earth would have if all its unevennesses were gone, which surface every water level shows us. If one now proves that the fall very near a great mass of mountain deviates slightly from this, does this teach that the law is changed? or does it not teach much rather that the deviation occurs, in accordance with the law, through the mountain's attraction? Further we find that the fall at the surface of the earth
[70] does not everywhere occur with the same velocity, although it is the same mass of earth that attracts the falling body; but does a change in the law of nature show itself here? No, but another, equally certain law of nature intervenes, namely the law of the centrifugal force, which itself is only a link, necessary to reason, in the manifold unity of the laws of motion. From this law it has been calculated in advance that the velocity of fall is the greater the nearer one comes to one of the poles of the earth; and it must not be forgotten that one had calculated this inequality long before one had found it in experience. I say not a deviation, but an inequality, because it has its ground in a unity, namely a unity of law, formed, and formed with necessity of reason, by the laws here prevailing together. The law of attraction is further comprised in many other events of nature under many shapes. If one gives a body a motion, then the attraction acts every moment just as much upon it as if one had not given it this

motion; but by the union of these two influences there then arises a new velocity and path following from the laws of the imparted motion and of the fall. Thus an oblique ascending motion imparted to the body will give it a parabolic path. Meanwhile I here disregard in the presentation for some moments various co-operating circumstances and in particular the resistance of the air. This brings about a change in the form of the path, but precisely such a one as the laws of nature of resistance demand. Even when currents of air change the path of the thrown body, this does not happen because the laws of attraction and of motion and of air resistance are now changed, but because an effect is added that is governed by the laws of the air-currents. Let us now, with the same laws in view, imagine a body that has received a motion high above the earth, outside its atmosphere, then one can prove mathematically from the same fundamental laws that it must describe an ellipse, whose size and deviation from the circular figure is determined by the velocity and the distance from the earth. One can then thus calculate this ellipse for a body that has the moon's distance, and *[71]* see, it is this path that the moon actually describes! A couple of hundred years ago the irregularities discovered in the moon's course seemed so inconceivable that they were compared with whims. The laws of attraction discovered by *Newton* put him in a position at once to give an account of many of these irregularities, indeed to find out the existence of several that observation had not yet found, but later confirmed; and now one has by the greater development of mathematics brought it so far that one can calculate all those irregularities in advance, and so that the calculation satisfies a far finer art of observation than that which one formerly had.

But our thought cannot yet remain standing here. According to the same laws the moons of the other planets move each about the planet concerned, and the earth with all the planets about the sun. I will not here develop this more closely, but only remark that in this whole manifoldness one finds countless inequalities in distances, directions, velocities etc., which all follow the same laws. Science defies the objections that ignorance now and then has advanced against it, by its predictions; these are not few or obscure or indeterminate or only accidentally coming true, but countless, clear, determinate with regard to time and place, constantly coming true.

One sees here a great and yet, in comparison with its rich content, only very little developed example, which can illuminate for us the important truth that the contemplation of nature gives us a coherent view of the divine reason's constantly present revelation in the finite. Here it is not a matter of hints and presentiments, but of spiritual vision.

After this great example I can for the most part treat the following shorter ones, and especially use them to throw light from various sides on the essence of the laws of nature.

[72] Chemistry says that the natural action by which iron rusts, is a combustion. But it is surely a law of nature that combustion produces heat; do we not meet here an exception? It only seems so; for this combustion takes place so slowly that the heat developed in each minute is far too slight for our measuring instruments to show it. The answer is perfectly satisfactory; but it can nevertheless receive a support — if I may so say — from outside. By chemical experiments aimed at bringing the iron rust back into the metallic state, the metal has been obtained in a powdery form. When the countless small surfaces of this iron dust come to touch the air, they pass over into the state of rust, with a velocity that is many thousand times greater than that which would take place with the coherent mass of iron; and behold! now a powerful development of heat is not lacking either.

It is a well-known law that fire heats; but if one brings water into a glowing crucible in which there is liquid sulfurous acid, it is transformed into ice. This seems to him who is not familiar with science an immense exception; but the man of science could name it as a great triumph. He knows that here effects take place that stand under different laws: the one is that of the communication of heat, according to which the water should get a higher degree of heat, the other is that of evaporation, which produces cold. The liquid sulfurous acid evaporates with a greater velocity than the vast majority of bodies, and produces here a cold so great that the water thereby not only loses all the heat it gets from the hot crucible, but far more, so that thereby the effect astonishing to the imagination occurs, that the water in the midst of the fire passes over into ice. Experts will see that I here do not go into all the closer circumstances; but they will also know that these are not of such a nature that thereby any exception is made from the constancy of the laws of nature.

Such a concurrence of several forces, each acting according to its law, is so far *[73]* from being a rarity that it is much rather the quite usual thing in nature; hereby an infinite manifoldness of effects is produced; but under all this manifoldness in time and in space it is only the effects that change, the laws of nature according to which they occur remain the same.

It is with the thought of this that one must regard the more complicated natural actions, e.g. plant life. The plant is nourished by certain substances, whose circulation and chemical combinations are promoted by warmth and light. The laws according

to which warmth and light act in the plant are immutable; but the effects thereby produced have a great manifoldness.

Warmth produces many changes in the chemical interaction of substances; and this applies naturally also to the chemical natural actions that go on in the plant kingdom. Both these effects and the evaporations occur through warmth and according to definite laws of nature, which are the same in the plant kingdom as in all the rest of nature. In the rainless sun-time of the torrid zone the evaporation that warmth produces both in the soil and in the plants gets such a desiccating preponderance that the chemical effect comes to lack the dissolving water by which the nourishing substances should be carried around in the parts of the plants. When now the chemical effects in these plants cease for a time, it does not happen through a suspension of those chemical laws — these remain unchanged — but because one of the conditions of the chemical effects had been removed in accordance with the laws of nature of warmth. When a new season brings the needed fluid, the interplay of the dissolved substances begins again; that even these seasons are produced according to laws of nature, surely scarcely needs to be said. It would lead to too great prolixity if I were here to discuss the laws according to which light acts on the plant, according to which the carbonic acid of the air is absorbed by the leaves, and these enrich the atmosphere with oxygen gas, and many more laws that hold for the forces acting in plant life; I believe I have set forth enough to show that it is not the laws of action that suffer changes, but the effects, in so far as they meet together in accordance with the laws governing the whole.

All this preparation I found necessary before I dared to go on to the example *[74]* emphasized in the Bemærkninger; for this is taken from a branch of science which is far from having reached the development of either the doctrine of motion or astronomy or the observations on plant life on the surface of the earth; thereby it would become possible that someone who saw fit to interfere in the present discussions could use the points of contention that present themselves here to confuse the whole matter. It is here nearest a matter only of showing how it was possible that the numerous changes that took place during the development of the globe could happen right through according to the same laws; for this a survey of the doctrine of the earth's development, accepted in our time by most, will be sufficient. I hold it to be in the main correct; but if we did not from so many other places have such indisputable proofs of the immutability of the laws of nature, an example taken from a less developed branch of science might easily be obscured, not for the real investigator of nature, but

for the many who rightly wish to share in the explanations that can be given here. One will now see that it would not destroy the aim of the following presentation, if one were to dispute that the heavenly bodies had been in a vapor state before the liquid; that they have been in a liquid state before the solid, is on the other hand easier to prove. If one gave up the thought that the vapor state had gone before, one could indeed not account for the earlier higher heat; but that there had been such a one, thus a progressing cooling in the sequence of time, was nevertheless secured by other proofs. Even if other influences now and then should have produced some interruption in the progressing cooling, our development of the example at hand would retain its illuminating force, and by relying on our surer knowledge of the immutability of the laws of nature not lack its convincing effect. The development of the earth took place according to laws that were never changed; but its condition
[75] suffered unceasing changes. In the many thousands or perhaps even millions of years that preceded the formation of the first organic bodies on the earth, it had, through a series of condensations, passed from an immense sphere of vapor to a much more limited size, not very unlike the present. These condensations had, in accordance with a well-known law of nature, developed much heat, which far exceeded that which in the same time was lost by radiation to space. When the contraction had accomplished the greater part of its work, and the earth had almost been brought to the density it now has, it found itself in a highly heated state. The condensing activities were now no longer great enough to give it as much heat as it radiated; its surface solidified, a very great part of the vapors surrounding it condensed; it became now a sphere surrounded by a solid crust, liquid within, covered with a sea so hot that as yet no plant, no animal could come forth in it. But the cooling continued further; and when the surface had been brought down to a warmth that perhaps only little exceeded that now found in the torrid zone, plants and animals began to develop. The oldest strata, which show us these remains, teach us that it was as yet only the least developed organic forms that were produced. In that age the atmosphere was far differently constituted than it afterwards became; it was rich in carbonic acid, and poor in the oxygen gas serviceable for respiration, whose basic element for a great part was bound in the carbonic acid by chemical attraction. The atmosphere was besides, by reason of the strong heat, filled with a great quantity of water vapors; in its uppermost parts these vapors condensed by giving off heat to celestial space, and had thereby to form far denser clouds than those we now know, so that also less sunlight could penetrate through. But in accordance with the unchanged laws of heat

the cooling now continued: a very great part of the vapors condensed hereby: the atmosphere became then clearer, so that the sunlight could act more powerfully on the crust of the earth, and thereby produce its unequal effects on the different parts *[76]* of the surface. Under the manifold changes of condition produced in consequence of all this, there developed constantly more organic forms: the sunlight, so favorable to plant life, increased: the atmosphere's great quantity of carbonic acid gave off gradually more and more its carbon for plant nourishment, whereby its oxygen was set free as oxygen gas; and the atmosphere became thus more fit for the respiration of animals. One comprehends from this that each age of nature had to prepare a new one. The remains preserved in the earth show us a series of more and more developed formations, which followed upon one another, until at last the condition was prepared in which man and the animal and plant world suited to man could thrive. It is probable that this occurred when the conditions of heat had come to the point that the globe did not annually radiate more heat to celestial space than the sun gives back to it, or that at least this equilibrium was so nearly attained that our observations have not been able to show us any perceptible change, and that this holds as far as our knowledge of the products of the plant kingdom in the different countries is communicated to us by history, of this we have a rich experience.

The thought, set forth and further developed in the passage of the Bemærkninger here concerned, of the present world as a temporary arrangement, and a coming world of a wholly different nature, I do not find myself called upon to discuss here; it will suffice me if one will find with me that it stands firm that the world in which the human race has come into being has developed and still continues to develop, in which it has received so many revelations of the all-pervading, all-governing, divine reason, and where reason awakens presentiments of the many mansions that are promised us in the Father's house, that this world, I say, is governed by an eternal reason whose mode of working is known to us as immutable laws of nature.

I am well aware that there are many who think that the conception of the world here set forth, which indeed is old, but yet still very little developed, leads to dreadful *[77]* consequences, and threatens to rob them of many representations in which they formerly found comfort. I do not regard it as worthy of the matter to set forth *that* which could remove this fear, *without first* reminding them that our wishes ought not to determine what we shall accept as truth. Should we not be ashamed in our inmost being, when we caught ourselves wanting a different truth from the real one? And what folly it would be, if one let oneself be determined by one's wishes to adopt an

opinion! Our wishing and willing could not make it truth, after all! No, let us give truth the honor! with it the good is indissolubly bound. The full truth brings its own comfort with it.

C. DEVELOPMENT FROM THE LOWER TO THE HIGHER

In the Bemærkninger (p. 299.) it is asked: "But why is it then a law of reason that everything shall begin from the irrational, indeed the reason-contradicting?" I answer to this that I have never assumed this. The context shows on the contrary that what is at issue is the opinion that all things in existence begin from something undeveloped, in order to run through an unsurveyable series of development. If one now would ask me why everything in the world begins from something in which the rational lies only as a hidden germ, then I answer that I do not try at all to explain why reason is such as it is: but that nature is so, I think one will in vain deny. Each single human being begins indeed his existence first as a wholly unconscious fetus and after birth as an unreasoning infant. If the author of the Bemærkninger will apply this to the human race, he will hardly come into contradiction with experience. Indeed he thinks that history should point to an original state of perfection. On p. 300 it says:

[78] "As far as history reaches, we never find that a people by its own power has raised itself from rudeness and barbarism; but the noble germ of culture was always brought from places where it already was, even if in the new place it found so favorable a soil that it grew far beyond the tree from which it was taken. We can imagine the imperfect gradually developing into greater perfection, but on the other hand I confess that I cannot enter into the line of thought according to which it is assumed that life in accordance with the order of nature develops out of death, reason out of what is contrary to reason, the good out of the evil."

On this I must remark that history, I do not speak of legends, does not reach back to the peoples' first time of formation; their mutual influence on one another loses itself in obscure times, about which we gradually learn to guess something by means of their languages, the likeness of their legends and of their opinions; but to their

first formation we hardly attain. But when we assume that the germ of reason lay hidden in the oldest human race as in the child, then we thereby by no means assume that the rational is developed from the irrational, but rather that a conscious reason is developed from something as yet unconscious of itself. In the oldest human race there was, according to this way of conceiving, surely no foreign, more developed reason present that could begin the education; but the assertion that this should be a necessary condition seems to me unproved. It follows from the laws of nature that man's capacity for reason must be developed by the reciprocal action with the surrounding world; when through the eye he receives an impression of an object, he will like the child stretch out his arm toward it; after manifold trials, the memory of the visual impressions, of the figures and distances found by feeling, will imprint itself in his memory, and his capacity for reason will produce thoughts thereupon. The different animals will each produce a particular impression on him; from the same kind of animal he must receive the same kind of impression, from the different on the other hand unlike. His memory preserves these impressions, his capacity for reason works them up. The same holds naturally for all kinds of other objects: plants, *[79]* stones etc. Among men the more highly gifted will first develop, and then work upon the others. Man will by his natural impulse be led to produce sound on occasion of certain impressions. Even in animals this happens; but man will in virtue of his higher dispositions distinguish more finely between them, store them more perfectly in his memory, and use them to make known his feelings and thoughts. How many generations of men it lasted before from this there arose a reasonably comprehensive language, need not be decided here; it is enough that the beginning of the way is seen. If we now consider what has happened in the historical time, it may perhaps be impossible for us to find a people that has had nothing else for a teacher; but no one will deny that there are countless examples that men have found out new truths and everywhere made new spiritual progress. This points to the truth that such must also have happened before the historical time, and agrees then perfectly with what we have seen, that the human dispositions need only the influence of the whole general rational arrangement grounded in the Godhead in order to be developed.

Theologians have in general been very inclined to assume that nature itself had become worse through man's first sin; but this opinion cannot at all be reconciled with our definite insights. It is certain that the laws of nature were the same, that matter had the same properties, that living beings were subject to suffering and death, before man came into being. I have said things belonging here in several places in

my book here treated, and particularly pp. 127 and 128, but in the greatest brevity, since I regarded it as an admitted matter; but now I feel called upon to state that our numerous investigations into the inner structure of the globe and its laws of development have shown that, long before man came on the earth, many great and shattering changes have taken place, in which whole animal species, indeed even
[80] animal genera perished, that many animals also in those times devoured others, indeed in the bones of animals of the former world distinct traces of disease have been found. So evident proofs one has that bodily evil, destruction, sickness and death are older than the Fall! In so far as any Bible passage might seem to conflict with this, it will no doubt by a right interpretation be brought out of this conflict; but if the opposite were the case, which I do not at all believe, one would have to let such passages stand as unelucidated obscurities until higher insight was gained. I submit to the dogmaticians to consider how far the doctrine of their science on sinfulness in all ways must be regarded as indisputably correct, or could gain by a new treatment.

2. Anders Sandøe Ørsted (1778—1860), the great jurist, was in his youth strongly influenced by Kant and Fichte and acknowledged even in his old age the lasting significance of this influence. But both as jurist and as philosopher he soon came to lay greater weight on experience, especially on the great differences between individualities, than the German philosophers were accustomed to. He was strengthened in this by a treatise by Treschow, of which a piece is to be quoted further below. The conception of ethics to which A. S. Ørsted was thus led he has expressed in a treatise "Om Grændserne mellem Theorie og Praxis i Sædelæren" (read in the Scandinavian Literary Society 1811), of which two pieces are communicated here.

A. THE ETHICAL SIGNIFICANCE OF INDIVIDUALITY

It lies in the fundamental nature of the human faculty of cognition that it cannot embrace the whole reality immediately, but only mediately, by means of concepts,
[81] and that these will in all eternity not penetrate and exhaust reality. Nature consists of an infinite series of objects, of which none is perfectly like the other, but between which also never any abrupt transition takes place from one opposition to another, whereas they, by infinitely small differences of degree, approach one another. This infinite richness, infinitely great and infinitely small difference, we become aware of, not only when we turn our gaze to the great whole, but even when we follow a single, however insignificant, object in its different parts. Reason also sees that

the absolute unity, which is the root of all existence, cannot reveal itself otherwise than as something in all respects infinite, just as we also comprehend that, since all objects of nature are products of the same forces, only distributed in a different way, nature cannot be otherwise constituted than stated above. But how should the finite understanding be able to grasp this infinity, in its whole fullness? Besides that we, by reason, see *in general*, that it must spring from a unity, we can do nothing else than grasp some of the most striking points, setting all that lies within two such points as alike, and all that lies on the other side of the same as essentially different therefrom, notwithstanding that from the one to the other of these two boundary points there can be a greater distance than between the one, and what, on that side of it, lies nearest it. The concepts thus formed of the different kinds of objects must therefore necessarily be insufficient to distinguish things that lie at or near the points of transition. Investigators of nature also admit that even the greatest and most striking differences in nature, e.g. between organic and inorganic beings, between animal and plant, melt together so in the points of transition that at these one is not in a position to determine with reliability to which class the object is to be referred.

If it were possible to break through that boundary, if we were able to dissolve *[82]* reality into the concept, then this opposition would fall away immediately thereby, and with it also the opposition between outer and inner, between possibility, reality and necessity, as well as all other forms of finitude. We would then come into possession of an infinite knowledge, and thereby our whole being would become infinite, or we would become, each for himself, God himself.

This confirms itself thus, what one of the greatest investigators of all times, with his usual great and deep gaze into the realm of truth, but as it seems to me without a wholly satisfactory development, has taught[*)], that outside mathematics, which deals with concepts that it itself creates (by a pure construction), no proper definition, or sharp determination of boundaries for concepts, can be given, neither in the sphere of pure philosophy nor in that of experience. This truth it would not be difficult further to support by a comprehensive induction, in that one sought out from all branches of knowledge some of the most recognized supposed definitions of their most essential concepts, and showed that they, however serviceable they may be to give preliminary and partial concepts of their objects, are yet far from exhausting and precisely delimiting these. But to carry this out here would be too far from the aim we have set ourselves. It is certain and known to everyone versed in science how almost

[*)] See Kants Kritik der reinen Vernunft, 4te Auflage S. 755—760.

always he who with his own examination lectures on any science whatever, dissatisfied with the definitions his predecessors have given of its fundamental concepts, himself attempts new ones, by which his successors yet are just as little satisfied.

Our purpose at present is, partly by means of what has already been developed about the human faculty of cognition in general, to cast a light on the science that is to teach us to arrange our life as our rational vocation demands. The foremost
[83] teachers of this science will have it that it shall draw such a sharp boundary line between the commanded and the forbidden that one, provided with right insight into its principles, and animated by good will, needs no other compass in order always to find the right way in the bewildering labyrinth of life. Those who are not content with the present state of the science, but believe that it has taken a wholly wrong flight, ground their discontent chiefly on this, that it does not satisfy that demand. This is especially the case with the newest and most important work of this tendency: *Schleiermacher's* Grundlinien einer Kritik der bisherigen Sittenlehre. Berlin 1803. In this work, elaborated with rare learning and dialectical strength, this demand is stretched to the very highest, and pursued with such strictness that the author, chiefly on account of it, denies nearly all that has hitherto been worked out in ethics all value. *The Stoics*, *Kant* and *Fichte* have, according to his judgment, known as little how to build up an ethical system as the *Eudaemonists*. Only the two, *Plato* and *Spinoza*, receive a milder judgment, not without perceptible influence of partiality.

I venture on the contrary to assert that no human science is in a position to draw that sharp boundary line, and what has been stated above will come to my aid in the proof of this assertion.

Undeniably every rule for rational conduct dissolves into the fundamental law that we ought to make our whole life an imprint of the eternal reason which reveals itself in us. Reason presents itself, however, in every human individual not merely as *reason in general, but in a certain determinate*, this individual's alone own, and his being as rational individual determining shape. This reveals itself already, in a manner visible even to the dullest eye, in the outer, which, according to the idea of a nature, cannot but stand in necessary connection with the inner, although a veil, of which only small
[84] parts can be drawn aside, conceals the more determinate nature of this connection. That peculiar shape which reason has assumed in each person in particular is indelible; for it belongs to the necessary conditions under which the eternal can present itself in time; could he strip himself of this peculiar dress, he would no longer be a single individual in whom reason dwells, but the pure absolute, substantial reason itself.

Whoever seeks to destroy this his peculiarity, striving to transform himself into an abstract rational being, he is at bottom working to uproot life's root, and making himself an empty, marrowless shadow-image. It is thus an eternal law for the activity of rational beings that they cannot deliver their contributions to the execution of the common plan of reason otherwise than each in the peculiar form of his rational nature. It is also easily seen that the whole force of reason, which, in its revelation to finite beings, has scattered itself in a countless multitude of single individuals, can present itself in its totality only thereby, that each develops the lot of the force of reason allotted him to the highest degree of perfection*). But from this it follows that every single rational being has a double ideal or model, according to which he has to form himself, the one determined by the basic form of all force of reason dwelling in a finite being, the other determined by the peculiar form in which reason reveals itself through him. The first he has in common with all others, the latter on the other hand gives him a particular calling of reason, that no other has in common with him, although he, by following it, intervenes, as a necessary link, in the great chain of rational beings, which, taken together, present the one, eternal reason. There is thus, *[85]* besides the general ethics, a particular one for each single individual. It goes with our moral nature in this respect in exactly the same way as with the physical. There is something which, on account of the general laws of the organism, must have a beneficent or disturbing effect on every organism, and consequently on each single one. On the other hand there is here also much whose influence is not determined by the general laws of the human organism, but rests on the particular constitution of this in this or that individual. Besides the general rules of health for all, there are consequently also particular ones, which have their origin in the peculiarity of each one's organism. So also with regard to man's moral nature. There is a certain activity which the rational nature common to us all either demands or rejects, but there is also much which each one's peculiar character of reason declares either as contradicting the same or as promoting its proper development.

This peculiarity of each single rational being comes especially into consideration in the very important part of one's morality which consists in the choice of the particular part of the great realm of reason to whose cultivation one chiefly sacrifices one's life and strength, as well as in the manner in which one works in this one's sphere. This

*)One of this Society's most honored members, who is at the same time one of the fatherland's most thorough thinkers, Professor *Treschow*, has, in a treatise inserted in the Writings of the Royal Danish Society of Sciences for 1807, which has as its title: Is There Any Concept or Any Idea of Singular Things, etc.?, developed with insight the essence of individuality, and with force pronounced its rights.

peculiarity is especially prominent in the more eminent natures who are called, by science or art, to give the world of ideas new clarity, fullness and force, or by statecraft and state administration to give the ideas a more perfect imprint in the arrangement of social relations. Such heroes of humanity are incessantly occupied with producing something new, of which even the smallest parts bear a mark, recognizable to every connoisseur, of the author's peculiarity, but naturally of a peculiarity that, in the manner determined by the fundamental laws of finitude, strives toward the infinite. But also outside the actions that stand in relation to each one's particular sphere of
[86] activity, the duties, especially those that demand a positive activity, receive manifold modifications from the subject's peculiarity. I will merely mention man's dutiful conduct in opposing follies and wickednesses. Whether gentle mildness or crushing force ought to be used depends indeed, for a great, indeed perhaps for the greatest part, on the nature of the object dealt with, and he who would act dutifully to check evil ought to procure for himself a clear knowledge of what this demands and endures, and then arrange his measures accordingly; but much also depends, although the object dealt with is the same, on the character of the subject dealing with it; for if he acts in a strange character, he necessarily becomes inconsistent and accomplishes nothing. If the gentle man will take upon himself the role of the bold, and this one that of the former, they can both be sure to speak and act in vain.

Only the spiritually blind could hit upon the idea that those expressions of individuality in human life were not significant enough to stand under the moral law. One would then have to assume that it was the beneficial or harmful influence of actions on society that stamped them as morally good or morally bad, and even then one must have a very short outlook to make that assertion. But should it still be necessary to show how infinitely superficial this way of representing is? The concepts of usefulness and harmfulness have the most evident stamp of relativity. They indicate nothing that immediately and for its own sake ought to be chosen or avoided, but something that stands as means to another, which is regarded as a good or evil. They can thus not serve as the measure for the original and proper good and evil, but await, when rightly understood, their determinateness first from the preceding development of certain higher concepts. If there is now no other reality than the fleeting one that is in time, and thus that which maintains our sensible existence in the few moments
[87] that are granted us, in the most pleasant or at least least unpleasant way, is the only and most real good, then those expressions of each one's peculiar force of reason may perhaps be regarded as less significant. But if we, seeing that that which is only in

time has properly and in itself no existence, acknowledge that there is something eternal and constant, and that sensible reality is only the reflection of this, and only as such a reflection has worth and significance, then that which brings us into kinship with this eternal must be the true good, just as that which removes us from it the true evil; and then it must be one's noblest endeavor that each faithfully develops and presents the eternal in the form in which it will be presented through him.

With more show, though not with better ground, one could object that all that thus flows from each one's peculiar character follows therefrom by the laws of necessity, and thus lies outside the sphere of freedom and morality. But our opinion is by no means that each shall follow his individual nature as he once finds it. To make this the rule for his actions would be an absolute lack of all morality. But we ought to search out the basic form of our rational individuality, fathom what idea it is that the Eternal One has sought preeminently to reveal through us, and how He has willed to reveal it; and the calling of reason thus found out we shall remain true to, but all the impure and foreign constituents that we have taken up into our being we have to separate and cast off. For this much exertion and self-struggle is surely demanded, namely struggle with our lower self, not with the higher, spiritual self, which is destined to rule not to be subdued. Nothing is indeed more common than that men, even those who are preeminently endowed by nature, from laziness, vanity or self-interest, neglect their proper calling of reason, or reach for an apparently greater goal than that to which their nature pointed. When we had once become finished with that purification, then indeed all struggle was over, and what then remained of our being was a pure and unsullied source, from which our moral life, without further trouble and care, would *[88]* well forth. But so it is everywhere with morality. When we had once, by freedom, soared up to the summit of morality, so that alone the will to be true to the plan of reason remained with us, and determined each of our movements, the moral law would become a law of nature, and rule over us with absolute necessity, so that there could no longer be talk of choice, struggle or self-mastery. But a perfect morality, without all possibility of relapse, the finite rational being can only strive after in the infinite, but never take possession of; for the force that desires something other than what the law demands can indeed in the infinite be weakened and subordinated, but never wholly annihilated or subdued.

We do indeed see now, as stated, *in general*, that the eternal and absolute reason must reveal itself in a countless multitude of different individuals, each of which has its own peculiarity, without any individual ever being able either to melt together with

another, or with the absolute reason itself, and that the Eternal One's general plan with all rational beings must receive manifold modifications and closer determinations through this peculiarity of each one. Meanwhile we are, however, in no way in a position to construct a *priori* any real individuality, or to sketch the course of life determined thereby, for we, who are bound by the limitations of individuality, cannot penetrate into the absolute reason itself, which would be necessary if we were to be in a position to derive the individualities from this. Could we bring it to this insight, the individualities would no longer show themselves to us as something real, as they necessarily must for the finite understanding, but only as phenomena, as revelations of the absolute reason. Indeed it is not even possible for us to refer our own or any other determinate individuality, given by observation, to a concept;
[89] for every individuality contains an infinity. However long I go on adding mark to mark, I still have no individual, for of all these marks it is conceivable that they are found in several, but it is impossible that one can have the other's whole individuality. The differences between the different individuals are besides more *quantitative* than *qualitative*, for every being provided with the complete human organization bears all human dispositions within it, and only the infinitely different degree in which one possesses this or that disposition makes the difference. But how should one by concepts weigh or measure magnitudes for which we have neither weight nor measure? The logicians had therefore rightly set concepts and individuals against one another.

Thus individuality sets an insurmountable boundary to our reason's striving, as well in the domains of nature as of freedom, to see through the connection between unity and manifoldness. What the moral theory can teach about the duties of individuality consists chiefly in what has been developed above, which concerns only individuality in general. Yet it might perhaps, supported by a deeper anthropology, go somewhat further. As certain as it is, namely, that every man's rational nature has its particular peculiarity which he shares with no other, and that this peculiarity is not exhausted by any concept, so certain it is nevertheless at the same time that these different peculiarities, which, as grounded in the eternal reason, taken together must form one whole, do not separate from one another by leaps, but that several individualities, besides what is common to all rational individuals, still have more or less in which they in particular agree. When those of these points of agreement that have the most important consequences for the system of the actions that reason demands performed by each, are grasped with a sharp and penetrating glance, there

can be produced a doctrine of the different circle of duties determined by the different dispositions, in which, to be sure, no individual can read his way to his whole vocation *[90]* (for those general propositions must naturally be more closely determined by each one's real individuality) but which yet can be of excellent guidance. Further: Nature has set great masses of men with uniform basic traits in such connection with one another that each of them, in order to use his force expediently and with the greatest result, must work with and upon the others to whom he is set in this relation. Every people, naturally not the multitude of men whom an arbitrary policy has bound into one body, but what has been made so by nature, has its determinate peculiarity, already announcing itself in the physiognomies, just as well as each single individual, and again several peoples stand in such a natural kinship that they in turn form a greater whole. When one thoroughly knows this one people's nationality, then one sees what part of the common plan of reason the Eternal One has in particular wanted to entrust to this people, and when one has further fathomed the mutual kinship of the nations, one knows which nations are destined to join themselves to one another, in order, by common application of force, to co-operate in a greater part of the realization of the plan of reason than that which has fallen to each one's separate lot. For each single individual, who is not destined merely to work in the forms once introduced, but who, with independent force, will work for the higher aims of humanity, this must have the most important consequences for his course of life, not only because the peculiarity of the nation of which he is a limb has influence on his own, but also because it is with and upon this nation he is to work immediately, in order to work mediately with and upon the whole brotherhood of man.

B. ETHICS AND EXPERIENCE

From all that has been set forth I believe I am entitled to draw the conclusion *[91]* that the concepts and formulas which the theory of morals is able to supply are not sufficient to solve all the tasks which the manifold complications of life bring with them. Hereby the value of science's endeavors to find out the highest unity for all moral commands, and to bring the formulas derived therefrom as near to the individual conditions of life as possible, is by no means diminished. Only that the goal which ethical science thus sets itself, just as well as that which is assigned to our moral life itself, is an ideal, whose complete attainment is in all eternity impossible. Of the highest importance it will always be to bring the fundamental idea of morality

to the greatest possible clarity, and to procure for ourselves the most complete insight, our ability permits, into what flows from this idea, when it is combined with what investigation and experience teach us about human nature in general. Often this insight will immediately teach us whether something, in the given case, ought to be done or left undone. But with this one must, if it is to give any real result for the rational conduct of life as a whole, combine undaunted and imperishable striving to know ourselves and our particular vocation of reason, as well as the world and the conditions in society wherein we have to exercise our moral force. In particular we must seek to sharpen our spiritual aim, to develop our tact for the apprehension of the real conditions and their right reference to the idea of morality. Without procuring for ourselves skill in this, we shall not be in a position, in the right manner and to the due degree, to fulfill any moral *command*; and even the moral *prohibitions* we shall, at the boundaries of the forbidden kind of actions, often not be able to understand or
[92] apply. The moral life is thus not merely *science*, but also *art*. What science can do, in order to form this art, is among other things to supply a purposeful elaboration of moral casuistry, whereby moral tact is guided in judging the cases that lie on the boundaries of the ethical concepts and formulas. Kant has in later times surprised by the casuistical questions which he has placed at the treatment of every duty. One must admit that it is, according to his doctrine of the unconditional duties, and especially with regard to the express utterance in Tugendlehre S. 56, strange also at these to find casuistical questions; just as his casuistry not seldom contains less significant tasks. But in itself, and according to the way of representing here developed, moral *casuistry* will serve as guidance where moral dogmatics gives out.

Moreover, even provided with the most thorough ethical knowledge, the most lively and cultivated ethical tact, and the best insights into the nature of the conditions of life whose treatment falls within our sphere of action, we shall often, where moral calls of opposite kinds meet, be in uncertainty as to what ought to be chosen. In this uncertainty we have to act according to the most reasonable insight we know how to procure, and must then comfort ourselves with the thought that, even if we do not hit upon the right, it has yet not been lacking in us of honest and active will to procure the best knowledge, and to perform the duty recognized. An absolute certainty in our acting we cannot, in the relative sphere in which we have to move, expect, because for this would be required an absolute certainty in our whole knowledge of God, men and the world, on which knowledge the correctness of our acting is conditioned.

To be sure some inquirers into wisdom speak of an unerring tact, excluding

all doubt and wavering as well as all error, which in every given case is to tell us whether our judgment on what we have to do in it is right or not. Kant and *Fichte*, not to mention the adherents of the English school, speak especially, with much enthusiasm and energy, about this infallible tact, under the name of conscience, and *[93]* reject all probabilism, by which one determines oneself in moral matters, as absolute unconscientiousness*). But however much I have been carried away by the moral force and boldness that express themselves in what they have said on this, it can yet by no means convince me.

The existence of that feeling they assume because they regard it as necessary if a moral action is to be possible, since it is unscrupulous to undertake anything of whose dutifulness one is uncertain *(qvod dubitas, ne facias). Fichte* seeks at the same time to prove the possibility of the feeling thus postulated by the moral law, whose infallibility, according to him, rests on this, that it indicates a perfect agreement between the real and the original I, and thus is grounded in the consciousness that is judge over all other conviction, and is not itself subject to any higher judgment.

In so far as those philosophers postulate an infallible conscience, as necessary condition for the moral conduct of life, they presuppose that a perfect moral acting is man's vocation. As soon as one assumes that an eternal striving to find the truth and to act in the truth is all that can be demanded of man, then it may very well hold with this that we often, notwithstanding the most honest search, do not find the true; indeed that we, at bottom, can never attain perfect certainty about with what undertaking we can most worthily and with greatest moral benefit fill a given time, because for this there would be required a complete survey of life, its significance and conditions. That we, although we are conscious of the imperfection in our moral insight, nevertheless venture to act, is necessary; for otherwise the thought that there might possibly still be something better to accomplish would never permit us to carry out any actual call, and we should thus spend our life in an eternal inactivity, which surely would be most immoral. When those ethicists advise us to postpone acting *[94]* until we have attained perfect conviction of the dutifulness of the action in question, then there betrays itself here the fundamental trait of their system, otherwise not concealed either, that it is more negative than positive, that it presses more toward the omission of what is forbidden by the law than toward the carrying out of what is demanded. But the moral law is not satisfied by a mere non-acting, it demands that

*) See *Kants* Religion innerhalb die Grenzen der blossen Vernunft, p. 287 ff., *Fichtes* Sittenlehre S. 214 ff.

there shall be action for the furtherance of the plan of reason. Besides, every moment of time in which the moral does not happen is indeed filled by another acting which, if not in itself, yet with regard to the morally necessary left undone thereby, is contrary to the law, and thus there is contained, strictly speaking, in every omission of the morally demanded also a positive acting which the law disapproves. The command not to undertake any action without perfect certainty that it is the right one must thus be mitigated to this, that we have to procure for ourselves the best possible insight that lies in our power. If we look to actual life, we shall also easily find a multitude of cases where it is obvious that one cannot postpone one's decision until one has become free of every doubt. This holds not merely where it is a question of directing the great human and national affairs; even in the most insignificant life such cases meet frequently.

If one next considers more closely the mark that Fichte has given of the evidence by which one in moral matters, without fear or danger of error, can let it rest, one will not find oneself satisfied thereby either. Where it is a question of the moral principles according to which I in general have to arrange my life, I shall be able to refer them to the basic source of all conviction, and thus procure for myself a clear feeling, admitting no doubt, that it is truth I possess, and yet the guarantee for this feeling's objective infallibility, which, according to *Fichte*, is to lie in the feeling itself, is hardly so wholly
[95] to be believed. But where it is a question of a determinate moral call occurring in actual life; where the premises for the judgment by which I have to resolve on a certain action rest on a right apprehension and combination of complicated conditions of life; where what one assumes about a certain fact and its motives must determine what ought to be done or left undone; where it is necessary, in order to act rightly, to reckon the future, to foresee the physical or psychical consequences of a certain action; there it will be impossible to put one's judgment on what, in the given case, ought to happen in connection with the truths that have an absolute necessity and clarity with them; for the connection of the single with the absolute can never be fully fathomed. How one can thus admit that man, with the best will, may err, where it is a question of setting up rules in general for the moral life, but yet assert that all error about what, in a given case, ought to happen, is self-incurred, is inconceivable. Indeed there is even contained in it no small self-contradiction; for, when the ethicist presents a system for human actions, this is no doubt also an activity that stands under the moral law; and conscience would thus have to be, in this undertaking, as in every other, an infallible guide, so that he would teach the perfect truth and in the

most perfect manner.

Still I must, before I leave *Kant's* and *Fichte's* doctrine of conscience as an infallible judge over our actions, touch on the example they have both used by way of illustration. The question is namely: whether he who pronounces sentence of death upon a heretic can be excused by an erring conscience, or whether one can straightforwardly charge him with unconscientiousness; and it is asserted that one must necessarily assume the latter, since the duty that in general forbids depriving a man of life is certain, but the historical system of faith that is to justify condemning the supposed heretic from life can never have the inner necessity with it, that excludes the possibility of error. The *[96]* most zealous adherent of such a system of faith would also, think those philosophers, be easily able to see the injustice of condemning the one who thinks differently, if he laid before himself the question: whether he dared to venture to confirm the truth of his system, under eternal loss of all that was dear and precious to him? at which question he would surely draw back. That every religious enthusiast would really be frightened back by this question, one cannot but call in doubt, since history shows us so many examples of martyrs who, with victorious joy, have received the most agonizing death, grounding their firm hope of rich compensation for this sacrifice solely and alone on the truth of the faith for which they gave up their lives. On the other hand the calmer and more sober man would hardly let himself in for that dreadful condition, even where it was a matter of confirming what he teaches as truth of reason, but still less where it is a question of the factual presuppositions he lays at the ground of his actions. Let one think of the example that lies nearest to that. Can one in general demand that the judge who finds anyone guilty of a crime shall be willing to stake his eternal salvation on this, that the convicted has really committed the misdeed attributed to him, and that this is imputable to him in the degree the sentence assumes? I think that such a demand would dissolve all administration of justice; for what sober man would indeed on the correctness of his conviction about a fact, and that about so isolated and secretly committed a fact as it ordinarily is, which falls under the cognizance of the criminal tribunals, submit himself to eternal exclusion from communion with God. That what he declares true is his real conviction, he ought surely to be able to swear, but an oath that this conviction is also correct would be impudent levity. If now, however, the existence and maintenance of a penal legislation is a necessary condition for the rational arrangement of human society, *[97]* thus a moral demand, then the moral law cannot but permit that the courts, in judging facts, content themselves with such a degree of certainty as the nature of these makes

possible.

Our moral tact is thus not sufficient either to remedy the incompleteness in our moral knowledge. From all uncertainty and error in our moral affairs it is thus not possible for us to free ourselves. From this arises the great deal that in life appears to us as indifferent, and which is carried out by us without the least thought of the moral law. That there is not in itself any indifferent action is as clear as day; for every event, however slight, must, in its great connection with the whole, contribute to furthering or holding back the completion of the plan of reason. Meanwhile the circle of the actions which we, in life, do not know how to put in any connection with our moral vocation, is far greater than that of the deeds we think of as fulfillment or transgression of a moral command; for we cannot survey or fathom every action in its infinitely many relations, and must even, for a great part, give up all striving thereafter, because it would fill the time that is already demanded by other more important and more fruitful moral endeavors.

What has hitherto been shown about the incompleteness of ethical science and its inadequacy to solve its great task, one would perhaps weaken by separating from ethics proper the technics of duties, which would teach us the rules of art that ought to be observed in the execution of the aims commanded by duty. That one, in presenting the whole of ethics, does not enter into the technical execution of the particular aims of duty, I find just as natural as that one does not in universal history present all the particular events, perhaps important for a single state, or single family, or for a single art or science; but one cannot therefore deny that the sciences that teach us rightly
[98] to execute a moral aim, such as jurisprudence and pedagogics, belong to ethics in its whole extent, and in particular are parts of applied ethics. But however one may think about this, it becomes, in all circumstances, clear that the prudence that finds out the best means for the right execution of the moral aims is itself a part of the dutiful relation, and that ethics, when it does not concern itself with the rules of this prudence, by no means completes the system of the actions improved by reason.

When we, moreover, on the one side, find in us a need, grounded in our rational nature, to derive all that is manifold in life as well as in nature from its highest unity, and therefore unwillingly acknowledge the distance, which we have found ourselves compelled to assume, between theory and practice in ethics, then it cannot, on the other side, be denied that there is also an equally indelible basic trait in our nature, which abhors squeezing the whole of human life and its movements under standing formulas, excluding all peculiar and free treatment of the conditions that meet us.

These two conflicting drives fit also well together in a being whose vocation is an eternal progressing development, not a fixed possession.

IV

THE PSYCHOLOGICAL SCHOOL (TRESCHOW, SIBBERN, HOWITZ).

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[99] 1. The interest in experience, and in the problems that arise on the ground of experience, by which Holberg and Sneedorff had been animated, found voice again in a series of men who in the nineteenth century cultivated psychology and sought partly to bring it into close connection with natural science, partly to treat more far-reaching philosophical questions from standpoints of experience. The first in the series is Niels Treschow (1751—1833), author of the first independent Danish psychology. In his philosophy he maintained — in opposition to German philosophy's absorption in general and abstract concepts — the individual and the concrete as what is properly real ("Gives der noget Begreb eller nogen Ide om enslige Ting?" Videnskabernes Selskabs Skrifter 1807), and it was therefore natural for him to suppose that the differences between the species had developed historically and successively. The "moral" misgivings about this supposition he has refuted in a fine manner (Elementer til Historiens Filosofi 1811).

A. THE INEXHAUSTIBILITY OF THE INDIVIDUAL

Before I proceed to the investigation of the question here proposed, it is necessary to explain its meaning and likewise its importance. By concept I understand, with many recent philosophers, more than the mere representation. The latter may be sensuous, drawn from immediate experience, which comprehends only the surface of things, not what is inward and abiding in them. The objects of concepts are, on the contrary, the essential and unchangeable properties of things; and concepts themselves *[100]* are either, as genera and species, formed by mere abstraction from experience, or have, through some other activity of the power of thought according to its own laws, acquired a form at once fixed and proper to them. This form consists in this, that concepts, together with a certain matter, exhibit a relation between what is known from experience and something unknown: likeness, e.g. a property common to several things otherwise different; cause or force, an inward constitution that contains the ground of what is outward and visible. Ideas, again, represent the highest principles,

which may be partly the ultimate end of our actions, partly the most general and first real grounds of the objects themselves. Both are infinite, and therefore attainable only by an unceasing approximation, the one in our theoretical investigations, as we pursue the long series of causes up to the highest link, the other in our actions, which, however excellent they may be, still fall far short of the ideal's perfection.

Both concepts and ideas have this in common, that they contain something abiding or essential, whereas the representations of the senses inform us only of the changes to which we ourselves, as well as all outward things, are subject. But singular objects are the proper aim of experience, that is, of the senses: what is abiding and general in them the understanding or reason appropriates to itself, and leaves to science to order, to investigate, to work up; what remains it is wont, like a useless shell whose kernel has been picked out, to discard.

The singular human being is no exception to this rule. The sciences that make our own species their proper aim, such as anthropology, morals, politics and legislation, consider only humanity in general, not human beings. The most practical among them make the whole, the general, their end, and set the parts aside, or hold themselves entitled to regard them as mere means to the former. Hence so many thousands are sacrificed for a so-called general good: on no altars does human blood smoke more *[101]* often than on those that are consecrated to humanity itself. For singular things, it is thought, are perishable; the species or the genus alone does not perish. The properties by which one individual distinguishes himself from another are merely empirical; but if they have no unchangeable and essential character, one can form no fixed concept of them; what are they, then, but a kind of mirage or phantasm, pleasant enough perhaps to look upon for a short time? But why spare them, if they stand in the way of any plan for eternity, seeing that they are destined to vanish in the next moment?

Against this it has been said, on the other side, that genus and species nevertheless do not subsist except through singular things, and that the former must therefore perish along with the latter. This answer, which agrees entirely with the opinion adopted by most philosophers, is perhaps less satisfying than it is fit to stop the mouths of those who, without any deeply thought-out theory, would defend the wrong they inflict, under the appearance of the good of the whole, upon so many of their fellow men. To give out the species as a mere concept without a particular object would be the easiest way of settling the matter, if it fitted entirely all the singular appearances one means thereby to explain. To these may be reckoned, first, the striking likeness one cannot avoid noticing between plants and animals of the same

species; next, the forces that in all, or in many kinds of beings, always act according to the same laws. For the describers of nature will not admit that their natural species have any other ground than the mind's abstraction; nor, on the supposition that natural forces are merely general concepts, will one be able to understand how the same force, e.g. that of attraction and repulsion, according to the various ways of representing it that have been devised, can either be found by a kind of division in many singular things at once, or how of a force that is the same only in respect of
[102] its species there can be as many individual ones as there are substances that possess it. The last seemed to *Aristotle,* among several such examples, so unthinkable that, although he otherwise rejected Plato's opinion concerning the origin of concepts and agreed with the empirical philosophers cited above, he nevertheless assumes a single universally active understanding, which in each human being expresses itself in a particular manner, but is not numerically different. One only fails to grasp how he did not see that the same must then hold just as well of every other force that lies either in human nature or in the nature common to all.

It cannot, consequently, be regarded as so settled a matter that the concepts of the understanding, e.g. that of humanity as a whole, can have no real objects outside the individuals themselves. The Platonic Ideas, so far as they are supposed to be forms or patterns after which all that belong to a species are formed like impressions, neither Aristotle, Locke nor Kant has sufficiently refuted, indeed has not even expressly contradicted, although they have shown clearly enough the incorrectness of many partly false or distorted interpretations of this theory. In practical life, in the judgments of common human understanding itself, in the plans of legislators and statesmen, the influence of this opinion shows itself even then, when those who adopt or presuppose it are scarcely conscious of this themselves, or have formed any distinct concept of it. If one asks after the objects of these ideas, it does not seem unreasonable either that they may lie buried both in ourselves and in the whole of outward nature, as though beneath a mist or a blinding glare, and that to become distinctly aware of them, not merely to divine them, as most do, a sharper sight is required, which, whether given by nature or acquired by one's own diligence, is nevertheless found in only a few.

But even if this theory, so far as it extends, is correct, might it not nevertheless be far too narrow, and false, if it is moreover exclusive? Are there not likewise both
[103] ideas and concepts of singular things, or are those about species and genera alone possible? This question is, especially when applied to human beings, exceedingly important. It amounts, namely, to this: has every human being, just as much as the

species itself, a certain fundamental form or essential character that remains the same under all the circumstances of life? Is individuality anything other than a play of changing shapes or new determinations, in which nothing is imperishable except what each has in common with all others, that is, with the general human nature? Or are these changes only successive developments of a kernel which, whether it is just beginning to grow or has already become a fruit-bearing tree, or after several transformations has become unrecognizable even to itself, nevertheless always retains the original fundamental features? Is, finally, the goal at which everyone aims, even unconsciously, the pattern after which he must be formed, in truth an infinite idea which, notwithstanding all multiplicity, indeed apparent conflict, has inward unity and unshakable fixity in itself? It is clear that only in this case has every individual an indescribable worth, whereas in the other the species alone has it. That this difference of opinions must necessarily have especially important practical consequences it is almost superfluous to recall.

Self-consciousness is the foremost expression of individuality, the highest and best-known step that any finite being has ascended. The more clearly and distinctly we distinguish ourselves from others, and know what marks us off from them, the more perfect we are. All philosophy consists in knowledge of ourselves, not according to the common human nature alone, but especially according to the individual one. The fruit of learning and reflection is chiefly a kind of self-recollection. All development and resolution of concepts, all composition and connection of them, serves only to make consciousness entirely clear, to put us in a position to give ourselves a complete account of ourselves. Conscience and morality rest on nothing else either. To act *[104]* not from impulse but from principles, is that not to act with distinct consciousness of them? For even in those who are determined by feelings, fundamental principles are at work, though according to obscure and indistinct representations. The whole excellence of our being consists, therefore, in individuality, the aim of all striving is to attain it in the very highest degree: it is consequently, in the first place, legitimate, it is neither necessary, nor useful, nor possible to suppress it: in the second place, it is the pattern after which everyone must form himself, the idea one ought always to seek to approach: from which it follows that ideas can be individual, and that their objects, just as much as the species, are eternal, infinite and unchangeable.

One may even raise the question whether there are indeed other ideas of real things than those adduced, and whether the general opinion, that these must either necessarily be general concepts, or that they can at least just as well have species and genera for their objects as singular things, is not founded upon a confusion of the logical and ideal essence of things with the real, which only individuals can actually possess. The dispute as to whether genera and species truly exist outside our thoughts is, as is well known, very old. Those who hold them to be real appeal to the fixed boundaries that nature seems to have set between beings of different species, which make any transition from the one to the other impossible. As concerns the more perfect organisms in the plant as well as the animal kingdom, the matter is held by most naturalists to be settled; the human race especially is in their view a striking proof of it; since even the lowest among our species so plainly distinguishes itself from the most excellent among the neighboring species, or, if one will, genera, that no confusion or intermixture, except through gross ignorance, seems possible here. Nonetheless there are facts and other grounds that might awaken doubt of this. I will
[105] not even adduce the many uncertain ones that have been employed here by various famous men, nor the conjectures and hypotheses that have been advanced, but not sufficiently proved, by considerable authors such as Monboddo, Hallen, Lamarck, and even our own Fabricius. In the first place, it is nevertheless certain that the more general concepts become, and the further they remove themselves from the individual ones, the more their boundaries run together, and the more difficult they become to determine. The criteria of genera are in general more wavering than those of species, and among the former most of all the higher ones, namely those of orders, families and classes, of organic as well as inorganic bodies. As our knowledge of nature, even the merely empirical, extends itself, we see gradually vanishing those boundaries which we believed we had determined not arbitrarily, but according to nature's own direction. In the second place, even when not even the longest time seems able to displace them, it is nevertheless doubtful whether this permanence is absolute and essential, or merely relative, since we are compelled to regard as unshakable whatever a few thousand years, to which our experience, when it reaches its utmost, must after all confine itself, have let stand. We find, in the third place, varieties just as well, e.g. Negroes, or among dogs pugs and greyhounds, as proper species, which, although they have presumably become so divergent through accidental circumstances, have at last taken on an indelible character. How, then, will one make good that the same may not hold equally of the latter?

It is, finally, not so difficult to conceive how species may have come into being through the general laws of attraction and affinity, which in the plant and animal kingdoms acquire several new determinations and a higher significance, even if from the beginning nothing but individuals were brought forth, in many though not yet so distinctly determined gradations and forms of the same force. For since like everywhere seeks like, and since connections, societies, the reproductive drive and the drive to imitation must always bring several still nearer to one another than they already are by nature, all singular beings must thereby at length have formed groups or clusters, which may indeed at the boundaries stand in a double and ambiguous *[106]* kinship, namely both to those within and to those outside the same, but of which the greatest number must nevertheless be recognizably enough separated from those belonging to the surrounding ones. Originally, therefore, there are only individuals; species and genera seem, on the contrary, like societies or works of art, to be of a different and later creation.

Linnaeus, who by a kind of flash of genius discovered much that in others would have been the fruit of long reflection, held that in the beginning there were only genera, from whose combination the species subsequently arose. Kant's hypothesis concerning the origin of the different human races, the kernel of which is supposed to have lain in the first human pair, has in all likelihood had the same ground in his case, although neither of them has distinctly developed it. I should think that both meant, or at least ought to have meant, roughly the following by it: Neither genera nor species were in the beginning as determinate as they have since become through mixtures and combinations. The forms were at first, as in the works of sculptors, entirely rough. Nature has, so to speak, contented itself with drawing the great outlines, the finer ones, as well as the final polish, have come gradually. It may be conceived, e.g. that the first animals existed in a condition in which it might have been difficult to determine whether the form was meant to represent human beings or an irrational animal. After that shape had begun to reveal itself, it might still be uncertain which person in particular it was the master's intention to portray. One does indeed find everywhere physiognomies in which the characteristic and individual seems to be lacking. But the nearer the work came to completion, the more recognizable the distinguishing features became. Here too nature proceeds only gradually. But it is clear that individuality is its utmost aim. As concerns the human race, experience teaches that culture itself contributes to this, and that for that reason one finds among civilized peoples a multiplicity and likewise a determinateness in the form of singular *[107]*

persons that is never so great among barbarians and savages. It must consequently be nature's intention to individualize itself; the particular or the individual is not a means and instrument for the general, but the end in itself.

But even if it were settled that individuals are the real, indeed perhaps the only, objects of ideas, has this proposition then any important consequence? Does one thereby obtain a nearer knowledge of individuals, or of the things themselves? Can one now form a distinct concept of it better than otherwise, and determine it so that we are put in a position to distinguish the one from the other? If not, what use can the result be that we have sought so laboriously? For as easy as the empirical criteria of singular things must be to find out, which are sufficient for use in daily life, so difficult is the fundamental form itself either to fix in the mind or to express in words. Nonetheless there hovers before our eyes from it a clear though confused image: otherwise we should not learn to know things better from acquaintance and intuition than from mere descriptions. The art of painters and sculptors consists in grasping these fundamental forms and in so presenting them that even by beautification they are set in a greater light rather than obscured. Thus it is possible, out of every human face, out of every not entirely perfect character, to form both an ideal and a caricature without effacing the fundamental features or making them less recognizable in the one way than in the other. Neither the roses of youth nor the wrinkles of age alter this form: if only we are properly attentive, we become aware of it in both. Age and culture develop it more and more: in early childhood it is entirely indeterminate; rawness and wildness likewise make it difficult to observe: in which conditions individuals also seem most to resemble both those reckoned to the same species and those belonging to different ones, e.g. human beings and apes.

[108] It makes no difference to the main point that we are not in a position, either in description or in definitions, to present this form. The first are taken from the sensations of the moment, or from the impressions things make upon our senses, in which the essential and the accidental, the objective and the subjective, are always mixed. For definitions, language lacks the requisite wealth of words, since of necessity it must confine itself to designating general concepts: and although it also has names for singular objects, it has none for the individual constitutions that make them such. The limitation of the human understanding must content itself with knowing things in general and in the large: but one ought not on that account to forget that the general concepts are only aids to survey, not to exact knowledge of things in themselves. For in the real world there are found only individuals, and their essence

is not what is expressed by the criteria of the species or the genus, but what lies in the eternal idea, of which innumerable modifications, showing themselves in time, are possible. This idea is not general in the sense that it comprehends several things; but insofar as it expresses all possible states of the same one, one might perhaps give it this name: properly, however, it is right to make a distinction between this abstract representation of the singular and the concrete one.

B. THE DOCTRINE OF DEVELOPMENT

We gladly see the singular appearances that occur in experience explained in some natural way. Our desire for knowledge is thereby satisfied, whereas it is rebuffed or thrust back when omnipotence or another supernatural cause is put forward. In the childhood of reason one does not know the distinction between the natural and the supernatural: the two mingle in the less cultivated person's manner of representation, and are the same. It is perhaps less a real error than an idea not distinctly thought. But however that may be, therein lies the whole reason why the ancients in all cases *[109]* usual and unusual alike turned their thoughts to the influence of a god or of a hidden power; whereas we always believe that the nearest causes must be found in something visible and known, but regard only the higher causes as concealed and supersensible.

As concerns the first origin of the world, of animals and of plants, we are therefore inclined to assume an inconceivable creation, although we grant that in their subsequent changes and propagation nature's own forces, according to laws once determined, are chiefly at work. If one carries the merely physical investigations somewhat further, one does seem to become aware of a kind of possibility of seeing how the so-called lifeless materials and bodies may have formed themselves by an innate force, but one despairs of grasping the production of organic bodies in the same way. From this arises the evolution-system, adopted until the most recent times with almost universal approval, whose ultimate ground is the many kinds of shoots or germs that seemed able to have received existence only by an immediate creation. That these could have been produced by a raw matter's gradually self-developing force, this opinion seemed to most as unreasonable as it was dangerous and bordering on explicit denial of God. How deeply, it was further thought, is human nature thereby degraded, indeed every living being, although the ancients did not find it degrading,

but reverently worshipped the earth as their mother. Yet we see that such is nature's course. Of omnipotence one forms the conception that it can bring forth everything at once, the greatest along with the least. One wonders, therefore, and rightly, on learning that everything comes to be out of something preceding which, when we consider the whole, is always, as far as form goes, inferior to what follows. The seed or germ, even of human beings and animals, is in the beginning nothing but a wholly formless fluid: if we pursue it to its origin, with our thoughts, when the eye can no
[110] longer do so, then it loses itself at last in materials that we cannot distinguish from the common ones. But how little are these known to us! How glorious is that dust which we use as an emblem of lowliness and out of ignorance despise! Is the common matter anything other than the visible God, than a revelation of the highest being itself?*) Just as the Ideas develop out of his infinite understanding by an eternal birth, so the seed, the fundamental forms of all things, lies enveloped in matter's womb, but becomes only in time, and consequently only gradually, intuitable images of those patterns which they ever more nearly strive to express.

The first human beings did not arise immediately either from the sea or from the earth. Yet in both lies the mediate ground of both our matter and our form. Of the earth we are formed. For before the solid separated itself from the fluid, nothing living yet existed, least of all the most excellent creature among all living things. Nature's forces are not different from the Godhead's own force, except insofar as the latter considered in itself is infinite, while in the former it reveals itself in a finite manner, and in its infinity only as an unceasingly increasing magnitude. In this sense one may say that matter has formed itself, advancing gradually from the less perfect to the most perfect human form. One may likewise say with truth that God, after having brought forth matter itself, or, by its properties, having made his own being as intuitable as it could become, has out of it again brought forth all things. These turns of speech, which most hold to be as different as heaven and earth, mean at bottom the same, and indicate only two human manners of representation.

In a still more mediate way water is the origin of all things. The ancients, who out of an easily excusable impatience leapt past the nearest and intermediate causes
[111] in order to soar up to the highest, misunderstood these propositions about our origin, which are in themselves quite correct. Either they let human beings and gods arise immediately out of chaos, which is the original fluid, or else they held that by the

*) By matter one must here understand not the phenomenon, which is an object of experience, but its supersensible substrate, the ultimate subject of the same, its eternal essence itself.

united forces of the sun, the air, the water and the earth, the most perfect animals and human beings themselves were begotten of the last, just as mold and maggots are of putrefied bodies. The first opinion rested on a mythical tradition and a poetic presentation of it. The poet's imagination resembles the chaos they sing of, and in the same way contains the seed of reason's most glorious works. It comprehends the whole at a glance, but does not notice that what in this flash of genius, as in the divine understanding, exists all at once, can become actual for the senses only gradually. The second hypothesis is indeed a fruit of experience and reflection, but an unripe one. For although the newest experiences seem in this to agree with the most ancient, that some among the lowest plant and animal species can come forth in this way without the usual propagation from their like, indeed even wholly new ones that did not exist before, we have nevertheless not the least ground, from nature's regular course, to suppose the same of the larger and more developed organisms in the two kingdoms of living things. Such giant strides, as a sudden transition from the lowest to the highest degree of development, are no less at variance with philosophy's fundamental principles than with experience and analogy. For from the concept of time and finitude the opposite manifestly follows. How was any time possible without order and a continuous advance in which there can be no leap? How can one think the infinite being expressed in finite forms except by an eternal approximation to the former; or conceive time as eternity's image, unless it is unbroken and uniform throughout?

From materials that seem raw, because one becomes aware of no form in them yet, there occurs, then, an imperceptible transition to more determinate shapes, whose regular sequence or series one can for that reason only indicate in general, as I have *[112]* also done above. To separate them by sharply marked boundaries will therefore not do, because nature's course, in those deviations or degenerations by which the former genera and species are transformed into wholly new ones, is not merely creeping, but at the same time so slow that neither our own experience nor history's far too small compass puts us in a position to follow its almost imperceptible traces. After the lapse of millennia, the least ambiguous remains of animals and human beings, which may be regarded as ancestors of those now existing, though rather different, still give occasion for objections and doubts. I shall therefore adduce none here. One will find them described in abundance in the writings of naturalists, but most of them uncertain, all of them disputed. What may be right or wrong with respect to these one cannot, as everyone sees, decide *a priori*; but the matter itself, which one would

prove from them, is nevertheless not doubtful.

An immediate creation, whether of actual animals and plants or of their nearest germs, is empty words. If, on the other hand, the question is of a mediate or natural production, then no other is possible than the one adduced. The human race has consequently not existed from the beginning in its present form and shape, although every history, the sacred as well as the secular, must naturally proceed from this point. The specific criteria by which natural history now distinguishes this being from others, it has not always had, but has taken on gradually. I venture boldly to advance this opinion, not as a mere hypothesis, but as an undeniable consequence of an order of nature that is not accidental but necessary, whose series one cannot break off without absurdity and contradiction. It would, on the other hand, be temerity if I were to maintain that one can with the same certainty depict the human shape in every preceding condition, or determine to which species of creatures now known we
[113] formerly belonged, or from which we have perhaps sprung. I am convinced that the human being constitutes a species or genus for itself, and by no means believe that the ape, as the Tibetans maintain according to *Pallas's* report, or any other animal, however high they may rise through all eternity, will ever become human, or just the same as, even if more than, what we now are. But I am indeed of the opinion that our first ancestors, whose memory no history and no archive can have preserved, ran through a course of life in which neither could the higher gifts of mind come to that maturity which they reach in the beautiful and fully developed body we now bear, nor was mere sensibility provided with all the requisite instruments for so many kinds of sensations, so fine and so vivid. Nature's manifoldness, the inexhaustible wealth of Ideas in the Godhead's bosom, their destination to an eternal and ever-progressing actuality, does not permit us the thought that all beings are nothing but the same thing at different degrees of the height they must ascend. What, then, does the inequality among creatures of one species mean, which despite this individual difference can each in its own way be equally perfect? Why should such manifoldness not have place among species as well?

Have we perhaps reason to be ashamed of such an origin? This question can be answered quite briefly. We need not go so far back in time to find stronger grounds for our humiliation. How many years is it since each of us stood far below the life of the animals, indeed of the meanest plant? Is it not more important to think of what we now are, and shall one day quite certainly become, than of what we were: as if the proud *cedar* would look down with scorn upon the young shoot that springs up at its

roots, or we upon the fetus whose heart has scarcely begun to beat in the mother's womb. Everywhere all that lives has the same root: divine is our descent, eternal and infinite our destiny.

2. In F. C. Sibbern (1785—1872), who along with Holberg and Kierkegaard is *[114]* the most distinctive figure in Danish philosophy, the romantic current proceeding from Steffens united with the influence of Treschow's clear personality as an inquirer. A great enthusiasm and a deeply moved mind went together in Sibbern with the need for observation and with the sense for the individual forms of life. Behind the peculiarity and stiffness of his language the reader finds a warm humanity and an untiring striving for clarity. The pieces chosen here will illuminate his line of thought from different sides.

A. MENTAL DEVELOPMENT AND STRUGGLE

(Psychologisk Pathologi. 1828).

The human being finds himself here on earth in a mental becoming, as regards both his existence in his own inner life and the outward conditions in and under which he steps forth as a personal being. Only gradually, and under manifold reciprocal action and reciprocal struggle, not merely with the surroundings but also with that which comes forth more from within and up into consciousness, does the human being's life win for itself, in spiritual respects, a determinate, fixed mode of existence. The greater the content that lies in an individual for development, that is: the more the individual is set and ordered (disposed) so that the ground of life can bring forth in him much of all that can come forth in humanity at all, the stronger, the more captivating, indeed the wilder, can this *struggle of life* become. Although strongest in the youthful period of life (in the age of young manhood), which for that matter can fall at different times in different individuals, it nevertheless continues, more or less, throughout the whole of life. There are also individuals who in this respect remain as it were perpetually young; indeed there are some who even throughout their whole life remain so entangled in the ferment naturally connected in youth with this struggle of life that it is as if their whole life were a spiritual struggle of birth, though at times with such a depth, and with such honesty in the endeavor, that the *[115]* most glorious existence may seem therein announced for a world to come.

On the one side it is a matter of growing properly into the great whole, but on the other side of enjoying advancement for one's own personality in all its peculiarity.

If it looks on the one side as though it were now a task for the great whole, for the all-embracing order of things, how this will know to assimilate to itself this its fetus stepping forth for itself, which is now to be taken up again as member and part into the whole from which it stepped forth as a being for itself, then on the other side it nevertheless becomes a task for the self-conscious individual himself how he, as he is and finds himself, with these his endowments and dispositions, and moved by the fundamental impulses that work in him and drive him in certain determinate directions, is to get things settled and clear, to come to equilibrium and harmony, both in himself and with the surroundings. The individual, who with self-consciousness perceives what goes up and down in him, cannot stop at merely looking on; he must himself live the life that moves in him, and cannot avoid taking its burden upon himself; nor does he feel at rest until he has done so, as indeed he must. Nature in the human being works toward the completion of the formation or creation begun in the human being, but it is the human being himself who, with self-consciousness, in intelligence and freedom, is to carry the work further. And so the individual himself has to fight the struggle, both with all that works in his own inner life and seeks to come forth but pulls toward the most various sides, and with the many circumstances, in respect of the outward surroundings, that will not fall into place. Yet these are only objects of this struggle insofar as the individual feels himself, in and through them, halted, indeed entangled in his inner life. This remains, then, always the field on which the struggle is properly fought.

Here reflection enters, then, not merely in general, as the individual is continually
[116] concerned with getting things settled for himself, but also in particular as *self-reflection*, or as the individual's constant looking back upon his own ego, as he is constantly concerned with himself. In this there is, for a being such as the human being, nothing in and for itself that ought not to be. For if healthy self-feeling is certainly to show itself in a healthy *self-forgetfulness*, it shows itself on the other side no less fully in a healthy self-remembrance and *going inward into oneself* at certain moments and times of life. Without such, the being that lives and works for the greater whole could not, in its own inner life, rightly become something, promote its own growth of soul, and bring to ripeness the creation, or the fruit on the tree of life, that it is itself to become and be. True, the right and full health of soul shows itself in this, that the individual on life's course, while he turns constantly and primarily about himself, *eo ipso* nevertheless goes, uninterruptedly and without halting, his constantly advancing way about an eternal sun, or conversely, that in doing this he *eo ipso* also does that;

and Christianity lets us see this mode of existence in a still higher light. But what is thus in every moment to merge into one another can, in the life of the human being in time, do nothing other than each find its times in which it especially comes forth; but especially in a being conscious of itself, which is still in its becoming, and which can become nothing except insofar as it is itself a party to making itself so, that going inward into oneself, that self-occupation and having to do with oneself, must necessarily find its times in which it must have room.

This holds even if life goes a pure, quiet, healthy and even course forward. But to this it does not come so easily. The more deeply life opens in a heart, the sooner it may come to pass through a chaotic mixture and stirring of the elements in its inner life, and the world that is to build itself up in it it must now take part in creating, as if it were to be re-created from the ground up. And since in this not merely the content of life in general stirs according to its essence, though in its various fundamental effects, as from various sides, and as in conflicting elements that first seek harmony, *[117]* but now also the ego stirs according to its own egohood, it is quite natural that in the inward struggle a certain morbid entanglement in oneself, with alternating self-confidence and despair, can easily gain the upper hand in certain periods of life, as a naturally critical state of transition. This must then be passed through with trust and self-encouragement, but also with resigned waiting and surrender to the all-embracing all-working power that shows its might precisely here in the individual, and whose vessel one feels oneself most to be precisely in this; with indefatigability in solving the tasks that lie immediately before one, but with a feeling that the burden of life as a whole is not to be borne by ourselves *alone*, least of all all at once and straightway in its whole extent. But this critical state of transition we shall come to consider more closely in what follows, where the passionate emotion that we have called restless love will be dealt with. Here, where we merely follow the human drives and inclinations in their egoistic or idiopathic direction, we have only to consider this morbid entanglement in itself, insofar as it appears especially as a constant self-reflection, in which not so much the content of life in its many stirrings debates itself out in the individual's inner life, but rather the individual himself wrestles with his inner and outer world.

It cannot escape us that a *reflection-sickness* of this kind, a *brooding* ego-sickness, as we, having brought it under the concept of ego-sickness in general, have called it, seems especially to prevail in our time, in which partly the greater struggle for physical and civil subsistence, which circumstances now often bring with them, has

done so much to call forth, nourish, and as it were accustom to, self-reflection at all, partly individuals no longer, as formerly, feel themselves, neither in religious nor in civil respect, borne by a fixed order of things in life, a firmly established disposition in
[118] society, and a course of things that readily incorporates the individuals into the larger whole, and lets them find their place therein. In an age that is generally an age of upheavals, and in which a new order of things is trying to form, reflection on life and on life's circumstances and nature naturally spreads more than it otherwise would, and a greater struggle of life for each individual in particular then naturally has to be gone through. Often it is, moreover — this must not be overlooked — evident that nervous weakness or other bodily weakness is the cause of the incessant thinking about oneself.

It is then as if everything in life were a task; scruples and stumbling-blocks are found everywhere; the smallest trifle can occupy the mind, irresolutely or anxiously, before the matter is done, disturbingly, when it is over. It is as if the whole of life, as Kant somewhere expresses himself, were sown all over with duties, or else with countless considerations that seem essential and necessary, or with other incessantly entangling halts in the free course of life. Healthy self-forgetfulness is almost never reached. Everything becomes an incitement to scrupulous self-admonition. It is as if all the world were out to get the individual.

But this last expression makes us attentive to the twofold turn that constant self-reflection can take. *Either* the individual feels himself under it more in struggle with himself, in order to bring himself to a pure and clear living. Then all the occurrences and encounters of life that present themselves, especially its demands, work entangling, ensnaring, *distressing*. Education often lays the first ground for this, when the child does not grow up so as to get freedom to look about and to move and romp freely in its own way. *Or* the individual feels himself more in struggle with things and circumstances, which he cannot get ordered according to his opinion and will, cannot get brought to be quite comfortable for him; then the surroundings act more *irritatingly*.

If this direction gains the upper hand, ego-sickness takes on more the *selfish*
[119] character proper, and we shall then especially call it *ego-sickness proper*. The individual lives then as if he lay in a constant war with the whole world, as if everything were, or at least could be, uncomfortable for him or in his way; as if everything were so out to get him that he must be at his post against it. Soon this, soon that person is then against one or not to one's liking. Incessantly the mind is occupied with whether

things too are now such as one would have them. Not even a gift or a piece of good fortune finds one open and ready, when it is not exactly entirely after one's own head. While the brooding reflection-sick see tasks everywhere in all occurrences, the selfish are more inclined to see attacks, aspersions upon their person in every act of others, every occurrence in the course of life that refers to their person but does not agree with their momentary representations. Even our Lord would have difficulty in making everything to their liking. If the former do not so readily take them in jest, for which a certain self-forgetfulness, such as belongs to one who lets himself go, is required, the latter are rather of the kind who cannot bear jest. Even in trifles their own justice is very important to them. Even with regard to God they would be capable of insisting upon it. The temper that is to recall Goethe's words about Mieding: "Und auch ein Bock macht ihm kein graues Haar" one must not seek in them. While the former, brooding ones take everything more as a vehicle for scrupulous self-occupation, the latter rather hollow out, by constant criticizing of life and circumstances, more and more the abyss that lies between them and the world, and end by seeing themselves against the whole world and the whole world against themselves. Therefore, while with the former's reflection-sickness a measure of goodwill may very well unite, the latter are more envious. Precisely the word *envy*, as a desire to move about in the feelings of discontent with the world and to sate one's mind in outpourings of bitterness against it, for which occasion is then sought everywhere, as if with diligence, designates the state of soul of the selfish ego-sickness. It can even lead to *cruelty*, merely from desire to sate its envious mind, *[120]* by giving its hatred full scope to destroy, indeed torment, the object against which the hatred is kindled. That it, when pride joins itself thereto — and a certain pride perhaps always lies therein — can rise to the most dreadful state of mind, will be easily seen; but of pride we shall speak further on. Whether we should reckon ego-sickness merely among the actual moods, or whether it is to be called a passion proper, might still be asked. That in many respects it shows itself especially only as a source of all kinds of envious, obstinate, proud moods and expressions of mind is certain; but as abiding ego-sickness it is nevertheless an abiding striving to put through its ego, to make it count, to find satisfaction for its egoism, to see it upheld, nourished, tended, and thus has its determinate object, for which one labors and strives, and is thus a passion proper.

Against ego-sickness in general, both the brooding kind, which we shall especially call reflection-sickness, and the selfish kind, which we think of in particular by the

word ego-sickness, it seems that, next after or beside a knowledge of its true nature constantly nourished by consideration of one's condition, especially *rest* for the mind is the remedy one must apply. But this is here to be sought in several ways: first quite simply by trying to guard oneself against every occasion, partly of disturbing reflections in general, partly of the irritating and provoking emotions in particular. But since the world is full of such occasions for one who is easily irritated or inclined to brood, and since complaints that the surroundings will not grant one the rest one needs never lead to the goal but lead farther from it, because by them one loads oneself with new vexations, whose source, once the mind is in unrest, is inexhaustible, so long as help is sought in the surroundings' accommodating themselves to one's mind, the right rest is to be sought not merely outwardly, by fleeing everything disturbing,
[121] but also, and especially, in an inward resting, by a renunciation of everything that formerly occupied thought and desire, but occupied it only to unrest and discord. One must resolve no longer to take a thousand things to heart, to let life go as it will, and for a time to care no more whether it goes contrary to one's representations of what is right and correct; for not even the most well-founded complaint or resentment may one let have room. The main thing must be to grant mind and constitution rest, until one, after the necessary resting, can again attain to taking life and life's concerns to heart in a right and healthy way, and letting them matter to one as much as is otherwise in general fitting, but which that person sick in mind must just as well refrain from doing as many a bodily sick person must refrain from it, because now something else and more important demands the refraining. We may here be reminded of Christ's words: If your eye offends you, tear it out! In general a human being ought to spare his eyes and take care to preserve them as precious organs; but if the eye *vexes* one, then surely the salvation of the soul is more important than that of the eye itself. Thus the care not to harm one's soul, by constantly feeding one's ego-sickness, is more important than the care for all the rest that, during our incessant occupation therewith, irritates the heart once fallen into this sickness.

B. THE SOUL IS ACTIVITY (Philosophisk Archiv. 1829).

We see manifestly in the human being a life subsisting, with a certain unity and wholeness for itself, and this is the properly true, constant being in the body, since

it makes the body be and persist, whereas the latter under its working constantly becomes another through a constant exchange of the material, as the body also, when life ceases, ceases to be able to subsist as this body, in *this* form. Nothing can be *[122]* objected to this. But this life in its progress brings forth in the human being, or rather itself steps forth in, a sum of sensation, feeling, etc., which I have called the purely mental or the spiritual, and in this a manifold activity reveals itself, as in the functions going on for themselves in the body, but in such a way that this purely mental activity can by no means with any right be said to occur in a bodily manner, or to occur in any part of the body, so soon as one will keep to the immediately factual and not set up a hypothesis by which something is posited that no one has either seen or can imagine; for who has seen a piece of reasoning take place in the brain, a matter that must not be confused with the fact that, during the reasoning, something corresponding may well take place in the brain as well? This sum of the life appearing in the body and of the purely mental or spiritual life now manifestly forms a unity, and the human being steps forth as one living being, in which there is also one such life as that described in the definition of soul given before. That this life *subsists* in this wholeness, and can be called a *subsisting thing*, and that it is therefore also permissible to call it a *living thing*, one will surely also concede. For the rest, it suffices that there is here recognized to be one life, subsisting with perfect unity in itself. Should that expression, *living thing*, be able to lead to the misunderstanding that it were thought as though it were a something that was something other than that life itself, which something now merely had this life, then it had better be avoided. (Even of God himself Holy Scripture says in one of its most significant utterances not that God *has* love, but that God *is* love, something that also teaches us how spiritually we ought to understand the words: God is a spirit, and they who worship him ought to worship him in spirit and truth). But that life, thus subsisting or persisting as a perfectly single *One* for itself, is nevertheless constituted by a course of things occurring according to a total order of things, in which an all-working shows itself; it has become as it became because this *[123]* all-working in this place so brought it with it. I do not see what can reasonably be objected to this, and to what has been said further in the foregoing for the elucidation of this point. But from the all-working power by which it was constituted from the first, the individual life cannot tear itself so loose as to become a really *altogether* self-subsisting independent whole; it continues always only to be a link in the whole chain of things. But if that all-working reveals itself, with its inner content, to which among other things that which we call the laws of nature belongs, in the total whole in

its wholeness, it must also reveal itself in everything single, indeed in each individual living subsistence; none such can therefore be thought to stand in any other relation to the all-working than a relation like that in which every special working, in which a life reveals itself, stands to this life; and just as such a special working or function has two sides, the one that it steps out into its organ as something for itself, the other that in it in turn that whole life steps out, as in one among the many, so also must the subsistence of the whole individual life, that is, the subsistence of the soul, have two such sides from which to be regarded. Whether this life, subsisting as soul, is now an immortal one will then depend on whether the function of the all-working that steps forth in it is a merely temporary one, or a perennial one, and that one continuing constantly as the altogether selfsame; whereby it then comes into consideration at all whether the total order of things is one that in its course carries with it both kinds of functions, or both kinds of individualizations of life. Thus I think the matter is to be regarded, when it is to be taken purely physiologically.

What is to be answered to the question what the soul properly, or in its ultimate ground, is, has now been indicated already sufficiently in general by the foregoing.
[124] The closer pursuit of this would require deliberations as to why there exists at all an organizing and individualizing life, and what *this* is in its essence; whereby it then depends chiefly on seeing that only individual self-conscious subsistences are those in which the divine can reveal itself *as such*, and that *this* now in its working and creating course equally definitely constitutes for itself its material, the substrate for its revelation in the finite, in order thereupon to constitute itself as the organic life that is in the individual, in that, e.g. striving toward a seeing, it constitutes an eye, in order thereby to constitute itself as a seeing life. Yet this would lead us into quite other series of considerations than the one we have before us here. At bottom it is more the real concept of a mental subsistence that is at the same time an ego, than of a soul in general, that I here sought to indicate. The question why not all living and sentient subsistences are such self-conscious subsistences that they can feel themselves in relation to the ultimate ground of their existence, and thereby become dwellings for the life of the divine that reveals itself *as such*, that is, in its spirituality and according to the fullness of its spirituality, in finitude, nevertheless always remains, and we can so much the less answer it, as we must admit that we do not know what the animals, each in its own kind, are properly in their ultimate ground. Of *ourselves*, on the other hand, we may well dare to know it and to speak of it. But this matter belongs then no longer to the concept of the soul in general, but to the concept of egohood and

personality in particular.

But there remains still to justify, somewhat more closely than has been done before, the reality of the whole concept of soul, for which the foregoing may now well put us in a position, since it has shown us what the soul is. Whereby we naturally do not wish to justify it in any other sense than that in which it has previously been set up. When the sensualists in France*) declare themselves against the concept of *[125]* soul, this cannot but remind us how strongly Fichte in his time expressed himself against it. If the former do so because *l'homme physique* is for them the whole human being, Fichte did so because he contested the notion that attached itself for most people to the concept of soul, that it was a thing, a something that *had* life and *had* consciousness, and so on, a notion by which he believed that it was substantialized in such a way that it was basically materialized thereby, since it is always thought of as being somewhere in the body, indeed in space; as indeed the proper place of the soul has, as is well known, been sought at more than one point in the brain.

But why, then, when the soul is at bottom nothing other than the fundamental life subsisting in the human being in its unity and totality, do we not stop at this expression, but go over to the new expression *the soul*, as if that concept were not enough for us? Manifestly because this life, in its subsistence for itself, over against other subsistences, or other objects subsisting for themselves, steps forth as a living being subsisting for itself. In its individualization into unity and wholeness in itself, different from other subsistences, or other objects at all, with which it enters into a relation of reciprocal action, it shows itself over against them not merely as a life, but also as a *living thing*, as was remarked above, and now the concept of soul enters: a concept that for the rest is so connected with the concepts of individualization and individual that it gets the same dialectical character as these have.

C. THE DOCTRINE OF DEVELOPMENT (Spekulativ Kosmologi. 1846).

So that, when creation is spoken of, a received, half-obscure concept may not *[126]* confusingly thrust itself up before us, we shall clarify for ourselves more closely *what creation* means, and how it is to be thought. I believe I can do so best by setting forth the following:

With the very first stirring in that cosmic primeval mist from which our solar and planetary system has proceeded, there began, as far as our earth is concerned, the

*) See the review of Broussais's *L'irritation et la folie* in Revue encyclopédique for December 1828, p. 586.

process of creation that has constituted the first human being, and from so early a point of time the birth of the first human being is therefore to be dated. It must surely be clear that we, who live to this day, are God's creatures just as much as the first human being. But how are we created? *Mediately*, as productions of the whole telluric process of creation, coming forth at their times and under their conditions. Precisely so, then, is the first human being also created. He came forth in the fullness of his time, when that whole period of creation in and on the globe of the earth reached the point at which the time for humanity had come. If the first human being came into being in a different way from us, he is nevertheless not created in any other sense of the word "created" than we are.

How, then, did the first human being come into being? Without doubt in this way, that a certain animal formation, from a first slight beginning, through a series of generations or offspring, as the process of development in the progeny went constantly further and further, reached the point at which its last offspring became a being that, so to speak, opened the eye of spirituality, in that it said I to itself and felt itself in its egohood, but now also felt an urge in itself to name all animals, i.e. to stamp them as its own, and to regard itself as standing in relation to them all and as master over them all. With this humanity dawned in animality. But now the life that had thereby dawned developed further, until in the fullness of time in the series of
[127] offspring another individual came forth who felt himself in his inmost identity with God and therefore did not say to himself: I am I myself, but said: I am God himself and God himself am I. This offspring was Christ, and in him the Godhead thus dawned in humanity. But as we dated the birth of the human being — as far as our globe is concerned — from that first stirring in the cosmic mist, so we must also date the birth of Christ from there, as far as our globe is concerned. But *more closely* we can (and that in agreement with the manifest allusions in John 1:1—14) date it from the point of time when conscience, as God's holy, commanding, warning and judging voice, first began to work in humanity; for with that the kingdom of holiness began, and with that, therefore, the Word, the Life and the Light also began, in a *higher sense*, to speak, work and shine in the inner life of humanity.

I add: the first human being was thus not created in any other sense than that in which Christ too must be said, with respect to his earthly nature, to have been constituted; for although his conception was a special one, his life nevertheless proceeded from a formation of the fetus that started from an ovum, and he was indeed born of a certain definite human stock, so that weight is even laid upon this. As he

then came forth in the successive course of development of a series of human beings, as a link in this, so the first human being came forth in a certain series of animal development, as a link in this; but as now thereby something new dawned in the midst of animality, so there too something new dawned in the midst of humanity.

The first human being has thus had a mother and a father. If we now go back in thought, we must find their first parents in certain elementary animals, which again have come forth as links in the total working of the process of formation of the globe.

It is through the very struggle or debate of the moments of life or existence that life seeks its firm foundation. But this has led us to the important main remark that *[128]* everything in nature forms itself from the first *sporadically*, to which all experience bears witness in many ways. In our time the sporadic has even been found in the first formation of our bodily organism, namely in the beginning of the formation of the fetus, in that it has been shown that the formation of the fetus in several respects begins from several points of organization, from which the formations work toward each other, until, when no disturbances or halts at any point occur (which then entail malformations), they join together into one in such a way that it then looks as though everything had not been formed in this way from many points of organization. If we look further to how crystallizations form, e.g. ice upon the freezing of water, we see the crystallization-needles (ice-needles, quite small six-sided columns, shooting out in the form of six-rayed stars) spring out from innumerable points, but nevertheless join together into the compact, so to speak solid, unity that we see before us at last. The sporadic we see further in human consciousness, where the many drives (and therefore many drives can be named, in place of the one drive of life) assert themselves each from its own point, and often move partly chaotically, partly at any rate in a separated way, among one another, as they all first seek the right middle, that is the right harmonious merging into totality. Many cycles of ideas form in such a sporadic way side by side; it is recollection through which they are to find full unity, so that what is sporadically separated comes to lose itself in the organic, in which it is then in a state of being overcome, but yet so that the separateness remains and essentially belongs too. — In the greater humanity we see this sporadic in many ways. From innumerable points human beings, human views and endeavors, meet one another, under much debate, seeking union, but not yet finding it. So it is within the states, each for itself, so in the sporadic existence of states and nations opposite one another. *[129]*

And if we now go back to the first formation of the planet from that cosmic primeval mist, then, just as the total attraction must equally have proceeded here from all points at once, the other effects cannot be thought otherwise than as proceeded from innumerable points at once, since each particle has from the first had its determinate real significance, or its determinate role to play, and has straightway made it count. *Now*, however, just as in every bodily organism, when it is once constituted as a formed whole, so without doubt also in the totality of the earth (with the exception of humanity), everything that comes to be is to be regarded as so constituted by the totality and proceeding from it that the sporadic may here now, on the whole, be said to be dissolved in the total. In organisms this sporadic is also seen only in their very first beginning, and then already in such a way that a fundamental type, as a fundamental idea, gathers it into such a correspondence of the one to the other that by this the sporadic already appears more only in the outward than in the deeper movements of life, although many monstrosities, greater and smaller, down to such as are never called so, can here prove the reality of sporadism. In the organism, once it is formed, it is overcome in the normal state. Meanwhile diseases *perhaps after all* might teach that the unity, although it is a unity in overcome manifoldness, nevertheless still contains the sporadic in such a way that the individual organs and organic systems can assert their self-subsistence against one another in a certain sporadic way.

In healthy organisms, on the other hand, we see how the movements, proceeding from the separated toward unity, lead to the separated subordinating itself and losing itself as a member in the forming unity. But so we see further that subsistences already constituted can constantly become as a material for a new higher forming, which in making *itself* count takes them up and assimilates them to itself, and thereby takes
[130] them into its greater unity, its greater whole. The plant is thus the food of the animal, i.e. becomes in its dissolved parts material for the formations of animal life; and our souls we learn readily to regard as those we are to surrender to the spiritual creating of a higher power, that it may shape and form them into its organs and thereby into constituents of its kingdom.

But as ever greater unities thus form, there forms at the same time in each of them a single thing subsisting in them, as the inner total forming in each of them, which now in a certain relative sense so becomes One and All in *them* that it now constitutes the properly existing being in its little outer so forming itself. Already a *system of operations* complete in itself, which forms a certain cycle rounded in itself, can be regarded as such a subsisting thing. But especially we see such an inner being

and subsisting thing in all *life*, which however holds properly only *then*, when in this life a *living thing* can be said to subsist, i.e. when it is so centralized in itself that it can be called a *soul*; and here we first speak of *beings*.

Souls are thus *formed*. This we must wholly assert of them. They *become*. — As an organism is developed, the life expressing itself in it is constituted so as to form such a unity in itself that a soul is thereby constituted in this life, which shows its center in its egohood. The process of creation that goes on as the organism is formed is at the same time that by which the subsisting one stirring in it, or the inner subsistence appearing in it, is established or constituted, that is, created. But this must not be thought as though the soul now consisted only in the unity, centralized in itself, in the system of the operations taken together, as though the soul were merely *their* result, or *their* coming together into unity. No! as an ideal-real inmost infinite and all-embracing being in its inner unity in itself (that creative realm of the individualizing tendency, that *natura naturans*) stirs everywhere at every point, so it is also *hereby* that souls are constituted, and *from here* that their becoming proceeds, *[131]* as a *now* entering, under such and such conditions, new constituting and establishing from the inner depth or momentum of that inner ideal-real fundamental source or fundamental movement. Just as life in the single organism not merely organizes its outward (the body), but *eo ipso* organizes *itself* as the life subsisting in this body, so also by the all-constitutive realizing itself in the whole, insofar as it, as a *natura naturans,* aims at the formation and development of individualizations, not merely this great whole becomes organized, but this all-constitutive — this all-life — also thereby organizes itself, as now stirring in a system of individual living subsistences as in its functions and organs, where the souls themselves can then be regarded both as the organs in which that all-constitutive functions (namely in respect of these subsistences' stepping out), and as the functions in which it steps out, but in such a way that, just as in the single organism the single organ with its function can step forth with a certain self-subsistence over against the very totality of life in which it alone is and subsists, so now those souls, especially as egos, step forth still more with such a self-subsistence, notwithstanding that their whole subsisting is to be regarded only as an immersion in — or also as a stepping out of — that all-totality, in which they do not subsist in an isolated monadistic way, but precisely only as functions, or as ideas exist in consciousness. For from these too, namely ideas, a comparison can be taken. Just as my seeing and hearing subsist with a certain self-subsistence in me, so the same holds also of my musical sense and interest, likewise of the life of

the idea of honor in me, etc.; but further this same holds of my own subsisting in the all-being, insofar as this shows itself as stirring in the realm of individualization.

D. PERSONALITY AND DOGMA
(Universitetsprogram. 1846).

[132] In general, when we go through the history of the Church, we meet on many points the following peculiar thing: Great and important questions arise concerning important points, first of all in such doctrines as concern precisely that which the Apostle has especially called the mysteries of the kingdom of God, mysteries of which he is set to be the steward. (1 Cor. 4, 1.) About the divinity of Christ, the personality of the Holy Spirit, the double nature and double will of Christ, further about human ability and inability, human freedom and divine all-determination; later: about the proper nature of the redemption and reconciliation accomplished through Christ, about the proper significance of that which is imparted in the sacrament of the altar, etc., deeply penetrating questions arise. These are now resolved by means of debates, deliberations, final cognitions, whereby the utterances of Holy Scripture and its connection as a whole are made the nearest and first and essential foundation and guide, but yet the whole prevailing manner of view — both with respect to what is handed down in Scripture and with respect to the spiritual conditions of life in which every human being who goes into himself finds and feels himself — gets an unavoidable, deeply penetrating influence. From such a ground, so full of life, there then emerges — we will at least assume it, and for a great part we must and dare assume it — the final decision, that is, the final coming to clarity. But now? what happens then? Scarcely has one in such a living way brought the truth out, so that it — really or at any rate supposedly — by itself and its own inner power has come to fix and ground itself, than one dogmatizes it, tears it loose from its living root, its inner ground of life, kills it, makes a mummy of it, and in this its mummy form it is now to
[133] be preserved, accepted by all, pass from generation to generation. It disclosed itself during and in consequence of a living deliberation, and has proceeded from it, but it may not go on exercising its dominion by virtue of the same, let alone proceed further. The matter is now to be regarded as concluded and decided once for all, and the bare result is to count and be believed as result. To be sure, this may still be elucidated, explained, made accessible by a certain thinking; but the free movement of thought from which it arose may no longer enter in the way it prevailed when that result

sprang forth; for if one were constantly to go back to it anew, the authorization to arrive at another result, and thus to deviate, would have to stand constantly open, at least outwardly and in form, indeed it would then have to be not only expected but wished that sheer doubt would arise, as testimony that the conviction in those in whom it formed itself really formed itself in a living way, in consequence of living movement of thought and heart. — But to this comes the following: The knowledge had formed itself only under a dissent which was not resolved but remained standing, although the dissenters *taken as a whole* could be regarded and had to be regarded as just as Christian-minded as the victorious party, unless one by an enormous *petitio principii* would seek the proof of their un-Christianness precisely in their dissent. Also in this respect everything ought then to call upon one to let the question continue to stand open, whereby alone the dissent could be thoroughly smoothed out, and the schismatizing avoided against which the Apostle Paul had spoken so strongly, but to which precisely the Church now surrendered; for by casting out those who thought otherwise (only opinion can here be in question, and therefore one rightly says hetero*dox*, ortho*dox*) it schismatized itself over against that, and thus established the principle of schismatizing. Truth could, in outward respect, only have required that one had set up one's knowledge as *one's own*, whereby, when this had been done solemnly, all the authority would have been put into it that one could demand, if one otherwise even did right in demanding so much. For the rest one ought to have left it *[134]* to the truth to penetrate by its own power to all those who during the deliberation had had full right to speak and to vote, and whose dissent could not cease to be a dissent, but on the contrary had to go on begetting dissent from itself, when the only true way of dissolving dissent was blocked, that which goes through the living movement of truth itself and its spiritual activity. But one did, in the highest degree, the opposite. One established a *fides ex opere operato,* namely *ex opere fidei operato.* Faith — so one thought at least — had now completed its work; now this was henceforth to be believed as such, with humble acceptance. The Catholic, however, added that it was to be done out of veneration for the Church, namely the outward Church. The Protestant, on the other hand, wanted it to be accepted on account of its being grounded in Scripture, only that this must not come to show itself as such — for then the doors would indeed be opened to constantly renewing investigation and testing, thus also to constant doubts, and these would then have to receive their justified intervals and receive their present representatives in certain individuals. While Catholicism demanded only veneration, Protestantism, by a strange self-contradiction, laid the yoke upon

thinking itself. It would obviously have been more lenient and milder if, when one did not want to take courage to let the same evangelical freedom that one had assumed stand just as open to coming generations, but in the confidence in and assurance of the infallibility of the doctrine now fixed thought one had to fence in one's Gospel with dikes, one had been able to establish a necessity of the same kind and nature as that Catholic veneration for the Church, and had warned against the free, freely devoting reading of that collection of holy writings, full of life and movement and unfathomable depth, containing much more than the Epistles to the Romans and Galatians, which two themselves moreover have too much the expression and effect
[135] of a fresh and free outpouring of spirit to be able, with the reflective person, to stand as unassailable foundations for that dogmatizing. Yet surely the inconsistency and the timid half-heartedness would then have become all too conspicuous. For the rest it may well be that the new Gospel might need those tutors or child-minders (cf. Gal. 3, 24 and 25) in the beginning, and until it had become firmly established. But afterward one should then have opened freedom instead of fastening the fencing and sharpening the supervision. But precisely the opposite happened. Instead of that old Judaism's doctrine of law and gospel of law and faith of law — for Judaism too had a gospel, since it had its promise, and it had a faith, since it had its trust — there came a similar legalism as dogma-gospel and dogma-faith. To what an enormous degree this was moreover against Luther's spirit, mind, heart and way of thinking, everyone must be able to see. Protestantism now went so far that, although the doctrine concerned the deepest and most difficult points, for whose simple understanding a penetration was presupposed that could not be expected in many, let alone in all, the matter was nevertheless so pressed that those dogmas were, even in the general simple Christian instruction, not merely to be communicated but to be impressed as those whose even literally correct apprehension was essentially what mattered; whereby death must surely come to beget death from itself, and that above-mentioned new kind of holiness by works had to appear, namely dogma-holiness.

Without the name of heretic and the branding as heretic such great things would hardly have been accomplished and carried through. It was the way of terrors that was taken. We know well that fear and trembling (Phil. 2, 12), with which the soul can and must at its times work out its salvation; the anxiety of the heart-sick is not without its good ground and its good fruit. But it is of quite another nature than such outward terror, which precisely suppresses the inner holy thing that stirs in that anguish and trembling; for it does not permit one to go back to this ground of the heart,

in order to fetch in it, in the most genuine way, the most genuine chastisements and *[136]*
consolations. Luther has (in the Preface to the Epistle to the Romans) said significantly and deeply that faith consists in this: "dass wir des Geistes Anfang haben"; but that stiff insistence, prevention and terrorizing may be said to aim at "dass wir des Geistes Anfang unterdrükken"; for the *spirit* comes precisely not *as spirit* when one will force it into certain forms or formulations.

Yet what one would not permit happened nevertheless. The Lord will himself rule in his kingdom, and the spirit lets itself not be fettered. It does not demand that we in its service should advance in the form of a lord, but in the form of a servant. Did not rationalism break forth mightily, and may anyone say that humanity, care for human beings, care for feeding the hungry and refreshing the thirsty, etc., has not had place just as well and just as warmly on its side as on that one? Yes, was not rationalism precisely in the beginning bound up with a striving for such care for human beings? Only let one not confuse rationalism with indifferentism. Without Christian spirit rationalism truly was not, in many respects and in many ways. But besides, many sects arose, which, dissatisfied with the Church, felt themselves in their evangelical freedom, and either withdrew from or wholly separated themselves from the ruling Church. In them there was even saved, during the Church's struggle with that its chief opponent, rationalism, gradually much of that which was too Christian, too cosmic, too world-historical, too deep of heart and too deep of conscience, for it to be taken up into rationalism, which could thus become only a partiality beside the others, but which for the rest may not be denied to have been a partiality both natural, necessary and fruitful beside them, and to have, even if itself arrogant, not only broken much ecclesiastical pride and self-sufficient mind, but also brought that whole doctrine of the Church, which had worked so much at schismatizing itself, to *[137]*
be able now, too, to count for nothing other than a partiality beside so many others.

With spiritual weapons one is to contend, to fight; spiritually one is to enlighten, clarify, calm, carry through and bring to an end; and therefore, precisely *therefore*, no worldly weapons may be used, no halts that taste of the worldly may enter, no cutting-off decisions may take place; in the same degree as these occur, the inward clarification and the inner decisions of the spirit are halted, and even regarding these one must not hope or believe that, when everything is left to them, one may one day come to see the matter finally decided and brought to an end. No, these inner

decisions of the spirit are so full of life that they never decide once for all; for here too there comes the everlasting resurrection and inner rebirth. Nor does the spirit let itself be determined in the end; its kingdom is inexhaustibility and therefore everlasting renewal, and the constant change of individuals is here the constant material and realm of its renewals.

Of the wrong we spoke, but also of the one-sided there must be much talk. — Whence, then, both? Do they come from nothing?

If they are of any significance and penetrating activity, and have not directly the lusts of the flesh, but the reflections, inquiry and deliberation of natural reason, being gripped by one thing or another in Holy Scripture, indeed care for human beings and care to stand against those lusts of the flesh, and other such things as source, origin and first mover, — and how often has this not undeniably been the case? — then let one consider that it is out of the inner deeper wellspring of life that all this, more or less deeply, comes; it is *the moments of life* that we must see stirring in it, it is the dialectic of life, the inner process of development and living of life, that will come forth in it, and to this we must pay heed.

[138] These moments are of two kinds: the one sum we will call the worldly, or rather the moments of life of the side of the world — the other the spiritual, those of the spiritual kingdom. As for the former, it is indeed the human being, humanity, in which the kingdom of the spirit is to be — I may well say it — incarnated. But then everything that belongs to the nature of humanity, the organ, must also come up and be set in motion, so that it may come to share in the benefit of that incarnation, and thus the whole human being in his wholeness may come to benefit from it. All this is to be taken up and leveled out, and what belongs to that which is to be put to death must also be brought in under the process of dying off, which it cannot be unless it comes forth; but then it must, if it is not to come forth as plain sinfulness, so that either the authorities or at any rate the worldly general human judging gets to do with it, have the right to come forth as view and opinion, and much can then also come forth in this way, without there being, within that domain of the authorities, any occasion to forbid it. But then the Church has to do with it only spiritually, and must then take it solely in the free spiritual way, in order that it may be, not the outward authority of the outward Church, but the spirit's own might and power, that is left to accomplish and complete it, whereby alone, indeed, its kingdom is furthered.

But now we come to the second main sum of moments: the spirit's own inner ones; for here too there are manifoldness, richness and fullness. And that in two

respects. For first the spirit bears its original fullness in itself, destined to come wholly to all, namely to everyone. Next, the many individuals are not alike, and innumerable special guidances and fulfillments are given here, in which also in this respect the spirit can unfold its manifoldness and fullness, solving each individual's peculiar task of life in a correspondingly peculiar way. And so one must in the highest degree beware lest one wish to prescribe to the spirit certain definite ways, as if it might not *[139]* come, when it did not come by these and through the doors one has prepared for it, but would come where it pleased, that is to say, where in each case it belonged. But has one not gone to work as if one wished to prescribe laws to the spirit? For in what did all those denunciations as heretical, expulsions, rejections, declarations of impropriety, etc., consist and do they consist, other than in this, that one — while one will not work at thoroughly solving *one's own* task, by constantly leaving the debate open and taking it as a purely mutual matter of clarification, — now even wants to hinder the spirit from solving its; for to that one will not give it room. Ought one not, next, also to have left the debate open and free for the reason that one must not believe oneself to have "laid hold of it" (Phil. 3, 12) to such a degree that one might not oneself need what the spirit through the endeavors of opponents may perhaps wish to bring to one. And does this not hold to this day of all? With double force must one emphasize this, when one remembers that many who have nourished and spread deviating views or attempted new solutions of the fundamental Christian task, be it in a dogmatizing, philosophizing or practical direction, have been driven by a sense of truth and concern for truth no less strong, and by a feeling for humanity and concern for human beings no less strong, than that which may have animated the best among the so-called orthodox. If one then holds to that which the Lord himself has given as the chief mark: "By their fruits you shall know them," the fruits speak no more for and against on the one side than on the other; unless one by an enormous *circulus in probando,* which one would even attribute to the Lord himself, will make precisely the nature of the tree in itself the test for the goodness of the fruits, which are then in turn to serve as test for the tree itself. But why not let the one voice sound just as well as the other, when the one does not have that testimony more on its side than the other?

If we look more closely, then everything spiritual that is to come to dominion in *[140]* the world goes precisely the way of so-called subjectivity. How, to begin with, did that which went out from Christ come to the individuals: John, Peter, etc., and later to Paul? how, then, afterward through these individuals to the many? Was it in a

manner of outward captivation? was it by a mastering of souls, by which, as one says in German, ihnen angethan ward? Even if so, the real working was nevertheless one coming from within, which from without was only awakened. Many have perhaps been captivated in this way, but in them, as long as the effect remained at this, so that they remained as it were stamped as Christians, no true living Christianity has been able to arise. Such a one goes only through another kind of being gripped. This has proceeded from the consciousness of sin, the knowledge of sin. But to what degree are we then not immediately here on the domain of subjectivity, but to what degree at the same time on the domain of the deep objectivity working in subjectivity. The punishing, anxiety-producing, vigilance-urging element in me, is it I myself? or is it not immediately the working of so-called grace, thus a working of the All-Objective? Moreover, all those who hold to the historical-ecclesiastical given, can they hold to it except because they are moved by it, or at least moved by a living knowledge of and feeling for the importance of holding to it? But then in them too that which forms itself in their innermost becomes the real foundation, and only through this does all that other get significance, thus true objectivity, for them. Or do they themselves wish to hold to the historical purely historically? Then only a so-called historical faith, no faith of the heart, no true living faith, no faith in which the Holy Spirit stirred, would be the result. And yet their foundation nevertheless becomes such that we must call it subjective; for it then becomes the assurance of the validity of such a historical faith.

[141] — One cannot flee the Omnipresent, however one may wish it; but the Omnipresent proclaims himself first and last in each individual in his innermost. He is the only true ultimate Objective, *sensu eminenti,* the fund and fullness of all objective truth, but he works in spiritual respects solely from within, in and through subjectivity.

But surely one can and must, taking the matter from another essential side, still recall in reply the following: Is not Christ's work in the Church a great work of the world, which does not go in isolation to each individual, but goes through the whole to the individual? Does it not go from the center of humanity to the wholeness of humanity, as the total organization, and *through this* to the individual? I answer: this reminder is of great significance and importance. But do not the first Apostles teach, does not Paul's later appearance teach, indeed the resistances he found before he, or what came from him, finally broke through, does not Luther's appearance and activity, etc., etc., teach that precisely individuals constantly form as it were the new points of organization from which the kingdom, as an organization, develops more and more? Are not the individual subjectivities here constantly just the newly opened

wellsprings of life through which what is destined for many, indeed for all, first comes to several individuals and then to more and more? Let one then not accuse anyone of subjectivity in this respect either!

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3. To the psychological school must also be counted the physician F. G. Howitz (1789—1826). In a treatise on insanity and imputation (1824) he contested the sharp distinction drawn by jurists and moralists between insanity and reason, accountability and unaccountability. Supported by observations he maintained the many degrees and shades in human nature and in human conditions.

THE MANIFOLDNESS OF PSYCHOLOGICAL EXPERIENCE

Sound human understanding sometimes confuses the uncommon with the insane, *[142]* and conversely, the ridiculous with the sublime. The history of Diogenes, Galileo, Joan of Arc, Muhammad and nearly all founders of religions furnishes examples of this. Nor is it well possible to fix the boundaries of fundamental likeness; they let themselves be better felt than described, the knowledge of them rests on tact and on sound understanding, which arrives at truth through a twilight and half-conscious inferences, and not through any strict demonstration. Besides, these boundaries vary according to the special cases; what e.g. during the storming of Syracuse was in Archimedes admirable eagerness for knowledge would in a simple citizen be insane insensibility; what on the battlefield is martial enthusiasm is in peacetime raging bloodthirstiness; what in St. Teresa is called divine inspiration is called in an ordinary sinful human being a paroxysm of madness.

One will perhaps object that insanity thus becomes a wavering concept. But I hope to be able to prove that it just thereby becomes truer; that insanity really is no wholly separated condition, and that between insanity and non-insanity, far from there being any constant chasm, there are gradual transitions, which the jurist perhaps cannot take into account, but which the philosopher and moralist must recognize. It is not without good reason that sound human understanding assumes half-mad people and fools.

Besides this psychological side, insanity also has a somatic or, so to speak, medical side, from which it can be known. It is the bodily causes that have produced insanity,

and the bodily cases of illness that so often accompany it, that furnish the materials
[143] for this kind of knowledge, and the possibility of attaining the same in this way is the only valid reason why physicians are consulted by judges in order to give certainty whether insanity takes place in a criminal or not. Whenever, namely, a lack of rational self-determination shows itself either after preceding or in conjunction with present deviations in the physical state of health, the physician, on the strength of his knowledge, acquired by experience, of the causal nexus between diseases of the brain and of other organs, can establish with a high degree of probability both whether insanity takes place and how and at what time it arose.

An insane act can hardly be a rational act, but every irrational act is not therefore insane; if it were so, simple-mindedness on the one side and passion on the other would both have to be kinds of insanity. The difference between these two conditions and insanity consists in the ground of the latter in a bodily illness. The correctness of this is also confirmed by this, that when either passionateness or simple-mindedness are grounded in so significant a deviation of the usual organization of the brain that the natural human relation is permanently or regularly disturbed, they are rightly reckoned as insanity.

Although some kinds of real insanity rest on a lack of reason grounded in the physical, either as a whole (idiocy) or in certain directions (fixed ideas), there are other kinds of this disease that seem to rest rather on the lacking influence of reason than on its own erroneous nature. Reason here counsels the right thing, but its counsel can either not be heard or not be followed. For there is a morbid *dejection of the heart*, which without false ideas merely expresses itself in altered feelings, inclinations and
[144] passions, and these, so to speak, *fixed affects*, which are likewise caused by physical faults of the brain, but in other organs, are far more dangerous than the mere fixed ideas. To this belongs the so-called *iracundia morbosa,* a condition in which the human being is brought by the most insignificant occasions to an exceedingly high degree of anger and violent acts following upon it, (it is not uncommon, and examples are cited among others by Hencke in his Abhandl. aus dem Gebiete der gerichtlichen Medicin, vol. 2, p. 280 etc.). To this belongs also Pinel's so-called *mania sine delirio* or *furor transitorius,* which consists in a sudden, temporarily erupting frenzy, with a desire to destroy and kill. *(Sur l'alienation mentale,* Paris 1809, p. 155 to 161). The persons attacked by it are well aware of their condition, they make the bitterest reproaches

to themselves over it, they warn others to keep away when they notice the attack approaching*), indeed even during it they are able to answer coherently and give no other sign of derangement of mind than that murderous desire, so that they are sometimes able to deceive strangers†)). In others such paroxysms express themselves in an irresistible tendency to steal (ibid. § 158), without the understanding for the rest seeming in any way or at any time to be clouded. What makes these kinds of insanity easily distinguishable from moral corruption is, according to Pinel, a certain contrast in which they most often stand to the usual character of the individuals attacked (§ 116); a strictly honest man will e.g. in such a paroxysm steal, an otherwise good son will maltreat his mother, the compassionate becomes malicious, the peaceable violent *[145]* and the modest unchaste.

Everywhere where our systems are to be applied to concrete cases the nature of things does not quite correspond to our divisions and definitions; instead of the sharply separated concepts that the human being forms and must form, he finds in the real world that the boundaries of things, so to speak, melt together, and by the incessant transitions that maintain the connection of the chain he is convinced of the arbitrary and subjective character of the distinguishing marks adopted by the ordering understanding.

When we thus distinguish between accountability and unaccountability, freedom and unfreedom, possibility and impossibility of a psychological compulsion, insanity and the human rational normal state, these concepts may well have reality and be perfectly applicable when regard is had to the distant extremes in the opposite states and e.g. the criminal with sober deliberation is set in parallel with the raging man; but the same is no longer the case when we consider the transitions and compare the slightly insane person with the so-called free man whose understanding is to a high degree restricted by innate organization, blinded by prejudices, clouded by intoxication, morbidly dejected, or by habit subordinated to physical drives, passions and affects. We meet here the same difficulties in fixing boundaries as meet the

*)Or they seek to prevent the outbreak by the constraint that the presence of others imposes on them. A mother entreated that she not be left alone with her child, since otherwise she would have to kill it. (cf. Mende in Henckes Zeitschrift f. die Statsarznk. 1. Jahrg. 2 H. XII.). Under such drives, he says, reason is often active, it abhors the satisfaction of the drive, but yet performs the act with deliberation.

†)The same occurs in patients with fear of water (hydrophobia), they sometimes exhort the bystanders not to approach the bed, since in that case they feel that their urge to bite becomes irresistible.

systematic naturalists at the transition from plants to animals or from alkalis to earths; and it is comprehensible that these difficulties must appear both earlier and in greater number when the objects that are to be distinguished withdraw from our immediate sensory intuition, as here where the investigation concerns the psychological nature of the human being.

V

HEIBERG AND POUL MØLLER

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1. The Gospel of Romanticism had in its time been proclaimed here at home by *[146]* Steffens, mainly in adherence to Schelling's half-poetic philosophy. As we have seen, the elements that the Romantics thought they had harmonized soon began to separate out. In Germany Hegel sought to remedy this. Whereas Schelling had left the relation between science, poetry and religion standing in mystic unity, Hegel firmly asserted philosophy as the central organ of truth, while art and religion expressed truth in the more imperfect forms of the image and of fantasy. Hegel nevertheless steadily maintained that the content of the different spiritual endeavors was the same, and that the difference rested only on the forms. It was Johan Ludvig Heiberg (1791—1860) who first introduced Hegelian philosophy into Denmark, led by the conviction that it alone could remedy the ailments of the time, a conviction he has developed in his treatise "Om Philosophiens Betydning for den nuværende Tid" (1833), of which a piece is given here.

PHILOSOPHY, ART AND RELIGION

Critical transitions occur in the development of humanity when the objects of knowledge have expanded so that they no longer fit into the form or the system that formerly comprehended them; they thus burst the old form, and work now blindly and chaotically until the new has formed itself. And really this is the case in which we at the moment find ourselves. It is sufficient to mention the expansion that the natural sciences and politics have received, and which could not be attained *[147]* except by a restriction of religion and a setting aside of art and poetry; for natural science and politics, these two endeavors around which the present scientific life turns (although the first of them is itself already beginning more and more to be regarded as subordinate to the second), are endeavors in the finite, whereas art, poetry and religion are realizations of the infinite; and although these three activities do indeed present the infinite as realized in the finite, it lies nevertheless in the accidental nature of their forms that the finiteness which they take as a basis can only be the abstract, or finiteness in general, so that they can never exhaust the infinite multitude of finite

determinations that make up the finite. The *reconciliation* of the infinite with the finite which religion presents, and which art and poetry likewise present, though in other accidental forms, can therefore, with regard to our present endeavors, not become more than a reconciliation of the infinite with nature and state in general, but not with the infinitely many determinate details in which those finitudes have their existence. The special investigation of the laws of nature and of the circumstances of the state must necessarily remain foreign to art, poetry and religion, and consequently these likewise remain foreign to that. Here, then, the case mentioned occurs: that the expansion of the objects of knowledge (which, since they can receive an expansion, are finite) bursts the form of the existing, and since the form itself is the infinite, the infinite in this way recedes from the finite, and becomes a land lying beyond, unknown, undiscoverable and unattainable, just because it is infinitely far from what is known, discovered and attained; for by making the infinite the opposite of the finite, one makes it the *same* determinateness as this, thus the finite itself, thus that
[148] in whose ground we are rooted and in whose presence we live. With greater truth we can therefore say that the infinite is annihilated, or that God really does not exist in the age or in the land or in the human being who does not believe in him; for when God is not in consciousness, he can merely exist as a slumbering God, thus only in the blind reason which fills unconscious nature, whose eternal laws are the last place of refuge to which human arbitrariness cannot penetrate.

If, therefore, the infinite driven away from our finite circumstances is to be regained, this must happen through those circumstances being seen in their *truth*, i.e. being recognized as striving toward philosophy. What formerly was able to bring about a reconciliation of the divine with the human can no longer do so, because the knowledge of the human has, so to speak, outgrown the knowledge of the divine. Religion, and likewise art and poetry, must, because they are not able to *enter into* the endeavors of the age, necessarily *set themselves beyond* them; but with this the age would not be satisfied, for what it fights for it will not let itself be robbed of, and in this it is right, since the infinite must now, as before, be won through the own development of the finite endeavors, not through their sudden halting. Only philosophy is able to enter into the many details of our finite, especially political aims; only it is able to see their direction toward the infinite, and by this knowledge to clarify what is obscure in them. Hereby it alone becomes able to sublate them, without annihilating them; on the contrary, in their sublation into the infinite it precisely confirms their validity. In this way our finite striving becomes grafted with the infinite, the human

with the divine, and the limitation has vanished; our sciences become philosophy, and our states regain the ordering form.

But just as philosophy confirms the legitimacy of our finite endeavors by showing how the infinite is their goal, so by the same act it in turn installs the infinite in its *[149]* rights, namely by determining it as the goal, and thereby, as it were, bestowing on it a property in the real world. It is so far from philosophy's wishing to make art, poetry and religion superfluous that on the contrary it will procure recognition for them in reality, and do this for its own sake, since it cannot do without them. If at the moment they lack this recognition, the reason is not that one doubts truth as substance, but only that one doubts that it is contained in the accidental forms in which those activities present it. It therefore depends on apprehending those three spiritual spheres as a real relation of substantiality, that is, on *comprehending* them, or grasping them in their *concept*; but in raising oneself to the concept one has raised oneself above substantiality; one has then passed beyond the changing, accidental forms, and has reached the one and necessary form which is identical with its content, namely the form of the concept, which is the concept itself, truth, which is itself the form of truth. In philosophy art, poetry and religion thus receive their justification; and philosophy documents its own validity by documenting theirs, which is why it was also said above that it could not itself do without them; for if it is precisely thereby to show itself as philosophy, that it sees in *the substantial* the *concept*, then it can no more do without the former than without any other moment in its development.

But — one will perhaps object — if art, poetry and religion are to regain the significance which they formerly had for humanity, must this not happen through their own infinite power? How is it conceivable that they should not through this, but through an outside authority, philosophy, be installed in their lost rights? — To this the answer is that philosophy is not outside them, but in them, that it is their own immanent power, which they need only themselves develop. They all three *[150]* contain truth, and consequently philosophy; this is their common substance, and it is through this that they have formerly proclaimed their divine origin. But substance is the obscure truth, veiled under its accidents. In preceding ages, when so much that has now developed was still enveloped in an obscure germ, the obscure substance itself could be a sufficient light in this darkness. But just as the light that shines for us at night is scarcely noticed by the rays of day, so in an age in which so much else has developed from its germ, truth, so long as it is substance, and consequently in accidental form, must shine with a dim light; and the age therefore rightly demands

that it develop out of its swaddling, in order to become the *naked*, the transparent truth, which has cast off its accidental dress, so that its form no longer *veils* it, but, as nakedness, shows, indeed *is* it itself. By this act it documents that it really was the substance; for if art, poetry and religion could not develop into philosophy, this would mean in other words that substance could not develop into the concept, and that it consequently was not substance. Then those higher activities would be without substance, i.e. empty of content, and thus not be what we have taken them for, but on the contrary be false directions of the human spirit. If, then, in an age that demands to *know* what the preceding ones have *felt* and *believed*, they are to show their valid title, they must bring their truth *to light*, i.e. develop into the form of the concept, in which they themselves can be comprehended; only thereby do we gain certainty that our feeling, our faith was not empty, but really filled with the substantial content; and it is consequently so far from knowledge's wishing to put an end to feeling and faith that on the contrary it will make them firm, for only when we know that they contain truth can we surrender ourselves undisturbed to them.

[151] As regards religion in particular, it coincides with philosophy insofar as it itself contains it; but insofar as this is a *content* in it, against which it itself constitutes the form, it is thereby different from philosophy, which presents the same content, but in its own form, not different from the content, and thus not as a content. In regarding religion as different from philosophy, one regards it in its own *determinate* form, whereby it distinguishes itself from this. The form of religion is thus, so far, religion itself, that in which it consists, or its essence; but on the other side the form, as accidental, and as opposed to the substantial content, is itself inessential; so that the essence of religion can be said to be the inessential. Since, further, the form of religion is a *determinate* form, against which other equally determinate forms must be set, whereas that of philosophy is rather form itself, in its infinity, or as the sole form, in which all determinate differences are sublated; and since, moreover, the finite is precisely the determinate, i.e. that which excludes all other determinations: it follows from this that religion, although it, like philosophy, has the infinite for its object, nevertheless, insofar as it is *different* from philosophy, presents the infinite from the standpoint of *finitude*. Since, then, what is characteristic of religion (in its opposition to philosophy), its nature or its essence, is posited in its determinateness, finitude, limit or restriction, it is the nature of religion to be *a determinate religion*. To be sure, philosophy too in each of its systems is a determinate philosophy, but this accidentality is inessential for philosophy, whereas it is essential for religion. The difference of the

systems is sublated in philosophy itself, and every system is philosophical only in that it contains more than its own determinateness; but the different religions are not sublated in religion itself, since this, which precisely consists in determinateness, *[152]* would thereby itself be sublated. One can deny all the philosophical systems, but in this denial there lies that one concedes philosophy itself; on the other hand one cannot deny all the individual religions without denying religion itself; for only he who has a certain determinate religion has religion in general. Just as the different philosophical systems are — as remarked before — all the same philosophy at different stages of development, so also all religions contain the same God, and consequently the same truth, and in this religion is identical with philosophy. But since the difference between the two lies in this, that religion makes the accidental into the essential, the difference between the different religions becomes an essential difference (since it is grounded in the accidental), so that when a certain determinate religion is declared the true religion, the others must necessarily be declared false, — a relation which by no means takes place between the different philosophies. When, therefore, one extols the tolerance of the Christian religion, one can be right insofar as it is far from demanding that the adherents of the other religions be persecuted with fire and sword; but if by tolerance one understands that it concedes to the other religions the same substantial essence that it itself possesses, one is obviously mistaken; in this sense it is not tolerant, and *cannot* and *ought* not be so, for it must, like every religion, posit its essence in the accidental difference that takes place between it and others.

Different, on the other hand, is the relation in which art and poetry stand to philosophy. These do not present — as religion does — the infinite from the standpoint of finitude. In them, therefore, the accidental form is the inessential. The Muses are sisters: one art, one kind of poetry does not stand hostile to the other; all are equally good, for they all have the same substantial essence. In this they distinguish themselves from religion, and agree with philosophy. But their difference from the *[153]* latter must not be overlooked either: The accidental and inessential form by which the kinds of art and of poetry distinguish themselves is for each of these in turn the essential form (the form that is set against matter, not against substance); thus it is in each of them the sole or necessary form, and just as essential as their very essence. (Colors, tones, language, etc.). But none the less it can be imperfect, i.e. separated from the essence (the form separated from the material), so that skill and virtuosity are needed to unite them. Hereby the work of art or of poetry is placed under the category of the infinite approximation to an ideal; and hereby art and poetry are

different from philosophy, in which material and form, thought and its organization cannot be separated, because they are One, and the ideal consequently is not sought, but is originally realized.

Philosophy is thus the ground in which all our aims, finite as well as infinite, find their truth, and thereby their justification and claim to validity. When one recognizes that truth is the common, substantial content which unites them, whereas what separates them is only their accidental form — and this one recognizes by *comprehending* them, i.e. by grasping their common substance as *concept*, in which the accidental form with its differences is sublated, and this is philosophy — then they will all subsist peacefully side by side, for then each of them is determined by its boundary, and in this limitation it has its freedom, its security that it will no more be overstepped by the others than it will itself overstep theirs; and the only unlimited is then truth, in which all those limitations rest in sublated independence, and therefore in tranquil existence. For just as in the bodily organic world disease sets in when a single activity, a moment in life, will assert itself as the whole, whereas life itself is
[154] the only activity that has this absolute right, so also the moral world is sick, when finite activities, though finite in different ways or to different degrees, e.g. politics and religion, each for itself will make itself the infinite, the sole, whereas only the moral *life*, truth, is really the infinite and the sole. Every disease is a crisis, and under this latter designation the character of the age was also indicated, as it was remarked that, as long as it was in its crisis, it could not have its philosophy. But on the other hand its crisis too cannot be sublated except by philosophy. A disease cannot cease until health has set in, but health can no more set in until the disease has ceased. This circle takes place in all real activity; and it is only a misunderstanding when one believes that something is the absolutely first therein; for what is the first must express this precisely by being the last; and conversely. Every true result is its own presupposition, every true inference its own premise. Philosophy could not be the last, in which all finite activities lost themselves, if it were not the first, from which they all sprang, as from their substantial foundation. Only through this insight can one understand that art, poetry and religion contain the same substance as philosophy; for whence should they have got it, if not from this? From philosophy they have received it, and to philosophy they deliver it back. If, then, we have formerly regarded the present crisis of the age as striving toward philosophy, and seeking its sublation in this, we must now, in order to complete the truth, add that it is philosophy itself that has called forth this crisis, or that it is philosophy that leads the deviating directions back

to their source. The critical transition of the age is thus one that is to produce the philosophy of the age; but since it is this that has called forth that, it must itself be present therein; or in other words: what is produced is here the producing, and what is sought is the found. It is *found*, because a pair of the supreme representatives of *[155]* humanity in our times have already presented it in the name of humanity; it is *sought*, because the majority of the cultured have not yet appropriated it, are not conscious of it.

Goethe and *Hegel* are indubitably the two greatest men that modern times have produced; no others deserve to such a degree to be called the representatives of our age, for in their works the whole spiritual life of our age, as *ex*istent and *pre*sent, i.e. comprehending the future in unity with the past, is concentrated. Therefore, although they have now both been called away from their earthly life — and that almost simultaneously, as by a strange coincidence, which in this last circumstance would complete the parallel between them, even though the one seemed only to follow the bidding of regular nature, whereas the other was perhaps snatched away at the culminating point of his activity — it is nevertheless so far from the case that they already belong to the past, to the dead, that on the contrary, as the most present of all spirits, they will be fully understood and grasped only by the coming generation.

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2. Poul Møller (1793—1838) was for a time absorbed in Hegel's system, whose significance he found especially in the order and coherence it demanded in our world of thought. That he left it, or, as Heiberg said, deserted, came partly from his finding in speculative philosophy no solution of the riddles, but only a reshaping of them, partly from his missing in it recognition of the reality of individuality, a reality that only experience lets us catch sight of. He did not produce a coherent philosophical work; but in his last years he was occupied with reflection on the relation of our thoughts to our personality, what he called personal truth, and he made a draft of a treatise on affectation, of which a piece is communicated here.

ON PERSONAL TRUTH AND AFFECTATION

Various profound people in our time make use, in their writings and conversations, *[156]* of the word truth, which they seem to take in such a sense that they thereby denote almost everything that is estimable in human life. On the other side they then

condemn as untruth, or indeed even as inner lie, so many kinds of moods of mind conflicting with reason that one is naturally brought to raise the question whether truth, with them, is merely one of the essential sides of morality, or whether all the determinations of morality are united in it, or whether it is a special virtue alongside other virtues. This the many who make use of that concept in aphoristic utterances seem not really to have made clear to themselves; and there is hardly any systematic work in which that point of view is so carried through that the indeterminate concept which hovers before those people can be assumed to have its adequate presentation therein.

A human being's life has a kind of truth when, without dissimulation, it follows its natural desire; a higher truth it has when it has attained virtue (in the ancient sense of the word), so that it still draws the content of its actions from the natural drives, but has yet won such a mastery over them that in their satisfaction it observes a certain moderation. A still higher stage of personal truth is had by the life that with pure rational autonomy determines all its resolves. (That this cannot happen by a merely subjective thinking, but in such a way that the subject recognizes the rational order, which without its co-operation is in its development in existence, to be a work of the same reason that is the proper truth of its will, it does not belong here to prove.) Insofar, finally, as the human being's pure self-determination is the will hallowed by religiousness, he acts in perfect harmony with the whole world of reason; he is what he should be, and his life cannot attain any higher truth. But this truth is nothing
[157] other than morality, and every deviation from it is immorality. Affectation is certainly a kind of this untruth; but we have to determine more closely what place it occupies in this larger circle.

The human being who has affectation in his life does not, to that extent, determine himself with perfect moral freedom; his actions do not have their origin in the true self, which is his free moral will. His will is determined by some merely natural aim or other, whereby he is brought to represent a foreign person or to take upon himself a false role that has not been assigned to him in life.

It belongs, then, in the first place to the essence of affectation that it is a falsity. But not every falsity is affectation. He who, with clear consciousness that he is lying or dissembling, makes himself guilty of lie and dissimulation, does not thereby display any affectation. We by no means say hereby that affectation is any lesser vice than the dissimulation that is accompanied by clear consciousness. It will appear in what follows that one degree of affectation presupposes less immorality than deliberate

dissimulation, whereas in another degree of it greater immorality is displayed. Affectation, then, is not unmixed falsity, but always has an admixture of self-deception; for it lies in the concept of affectation that the person strives to be what he cannot be; but he cannot strive after this without at least for a while imagining to himself that he can be it. But the wholly inculpable self-deception, which is without any falsity, can just as little be called affectation, so that the two constituents here indicated, falsity and self-deception, are always found combined in it.

If we consider the degrees of affectation according to its greater or lesser connection with the subject's character, then it has the least possible share therein when it conflicts with the direction of the will, but in the single moment escapes the person because his virtue has not become a facility. Such an expression of affectation stands in the same relation to affectation that has become a habit as an intoxication has to habitual drunkenness, and there is hardly any mortal who does not, at least in youth, *[158]* sometimes make himself guilty of small, half-involuntary dishonesties of this kind. If there is anyone who even at the beginning of his period of development so preserves his independence that he even avoids that form of affectation which lies near the border of amiability, that he e.g. never, out of a desire to be in perfect agreement with a friend, male or female, forces himself to sympathize more with them than he can, then he must certainly by nature have a very strongly marked individuality; but whether he therefore has the happiest natural disposition is another question. His gift for keeping his individuality pure and free of extraneous admixtures may also have its ground in an egoistic bent to enclose himself merely in his own circle of thought, and a lack of capacity to open his mind to foreign influence. He who is not able in intercourse so to give himself over to others that for a while he becomes one with them, that he goes quite out of himself and loses himself in a foreign circle of consciousness, can certainly by his reserve save himself from being overwhelmed by any spiritual power; but the individuality that is rescued only in this way always becomes highly one-sided and poor. Spiritual perfection can, like physical growth, be furthered only by the individual's regularly melting together with what is foreign to it, and apparently sacrificing his self in order to return home enriched to himself again. But then it may certainly happen that a well-endowed youth, from such a fruitful self-forgetfulness, in which he has let another dispose over his line of thought, returns to himself with the semblance of representations and feelings which are repudiated by his true ego, but which he forces upon himself in order to enjoy the ravishing pleasure of sympathy. The expressions of affectation that come forth in this way may

often precisely become the ground of a strengthening of the truth of the personal life, in that he who through inadvertence has overstepped the boundary of his personality
[159] is brought, by dissatisfaction with himself, to a clearer consciousness of what he feels, wills and knows, and to a more vigorous self-movement in similar cases. He who has been on the other side of the boundary now first knows properly where the boundary is. — Such a passing expression of affectation, which has its source in a power that blinds feeling, which the human being, by a subsequent reflection, disowns as something that does not belong to his essence, and against which he guards himself in future, is a lesser offense than the lie proper. (*The momentary affectation.*)

A higher degree of affectation takes place in him who has acquired the habit of a certain kind of false expressions, in that he imagines himself to have certain opinions, interests or inclinations because for some outward reason or other he wishes to have them. As when one out of vanity lies himself into a love of some art or other for which he has no sense, or when relatives and friends of a zealot count, to themselves and others, as being of like mind with him, although his zeal is foreign to their heart and under altered circumstances falls away of itself. The possibility of the self-deception rests here on the logical consistency with which the assumed role is pursued; but the center that bears such a circle of representations falls outside the subject himself. This second degree of affectation is in moral respect not at all less imputable than the lie and dissimulation accompanied by clear consciousness; for the fact that it is not brought to full consciousness comes merely from the party concerned not willing to bring it to consciousness. This is remarked because a highly incorrect concept of it has come into circulation, the multitude believing that in self-deception there lies sufficient justification, or at least excuse, even for open badness — an opinion whose incorrectness is easily evident when one pursues it into some of its undeniable consequences. From it would namely follow that one could drive one's falsity so far that it again became honesty, and that he who lies so long that he himself believes his
[160] invented tales would at this stage become better, because his lie is transformed into self-deception. According to this view a judge could also, in all innocence, let himself be bribed, since he would merely need, by sophisms, to bring himself to believe that his benefactor was in the right. The conviction that has its origin in inclination cannot be particularly well grounded, which already shows itself from the fact that the effect in general does not last longer than its cause. It is not improbable that he who finds a literary work bad because he believes that his enemy has written it will find it very good if he learns that his friend is the author of it. But that in the first case he found

it bad was certainly no innocent error, however much self-deception there might be in it; for one ought as little in one's assumptions as in one's actions to follow one's inclinations against reason and truth. Under this second degree of affectation the human being takes a false element into himself and distorts his personality, so that its expressions do not hang together with his real self. Insofar as he thus has a double inner life, one real, which is accessible, and one apparent, which he wills shall count for himself and others, he leads with respect to the latter only a life of semblance. (*The fixed affectation.*)

The affectation last mentioned, even where it is driven furthest, can still allow the person to have a lasting semblance of inner coherence, both for the subject himself and for others. But such a semblance of consistency can be only momentary in the third and worst degree of affectation. It takes place where the human being does not have some feigned trait or other in his character, where he does not have the habit of a certain kind of affectation, but has a facility in affectation in general, which now assumes this, now that definite shape. This badness approaches, according to its greater or lesser development, more or less to complete untruth in the personal life. If a human being could reach its culminating point, then there would be no abiding kernel in his thinking and willing, but there would form itself in every moment of *[161]* his life a temporary personality, in order to abolish it in the next. He would probably for the most part, like certain animals, change color according to his surroundings, and to that extent be the passive product of his circumstances; but since this is only one of the shapes of affectation, his course could nevertheless not be calculated by the simple rule that he should resemble his surroundings, since affectation can also show itself in a striving to present in one's conduct the peculiar, the unusual. To this completed lie in the inner life no one can bring it; but if anyone could, it would be a moral suicide, whereby the human being would have wholly annihilated himself as a peculiar figure in the moral world. (*The changing affectation.*)

VI
SØREN KIERKEGAARD

[162] It was above all on theological and aesthetic questions that the Hegelian philosophy was applied here at home. In purely philosophical terms, apart from Poul Møller, Sibbern and Kierkegaard made a stand against it. But from the theological side the attempt was made to apply Hegel's method without paying homage to his system. Theology was proclaimed as "a higher unity" of philosophy and religion. H. L. Martensen set up (in his dissertation of 1837) the dogma of creation — in which the unity of knowledge and power is secured — as the foundation of a new theory of knowledge, which was to make it possible to let all spiritual culture, both science and art, attain its harmonious perfection with the revealed religion as its center. It was the ideal of Romanticism in its third form, different from the conceptions of both Steffens and Heiberg. While Martensen, from his theological chair, sought to lead his hearers through Hegel up to the highest unity of all, to which he believed he had found the way, his philosophical colleague Rasmus Nielsen, who at this time was his collaborator, proclaimed theology to be "the proper and true central science, in which the theory of philosophy and the practice of religion meet" (Propædeutisk Logik 1845).

Søren Kierkegaard (1813—1855) asserted, in opposition to this endeavor, a critical theory of knowledge in the spirit of Kant. But he attacked theology not merely from the purely scientific side. The idea of that higher unity rested, according to him, on a volatilization of the seriousness of life and of existence. The human being who is moved by the unrest and tension of life and gripped by religion has neither time nor strength for theological speculations. Kierkegaard protested, then, both on behalf of thought and on behalf of life, and this protest led him to develop ideas of lasting significance. Not only in philosophical but also in poetic and religious form he has found expression for his inward and passionate intellectual life. Of his poetic and religious writings a selection (by Carl Koch) is already available in the first volume of
[163] the present collection. Here, then, selected passages are to be given to illuminate his philosophy. To this, however, there also belongs his doctrine of the stages, i.e. of the different ways of taking life, the different practical views of life. By this doctrine he has made an interesting contribution to descriptive psychology.

A. THE PASSION OF THOUGHT AND THE PARADOX
(Philosophiske Smuler. 1844).

Although Socrates applied himself with all his might to gathering knowledge of human beings and to knowing himself, indeed although for centuries he has been praised as the human being who knew human beings best, he nevertheless admits that the reason why he was disinclined to think about the nature of such beings as Pegasus and the Gorgons was that he was not yet quite clear with himself whether he (the knower of human beings) was a stranger monster than Typhon or a gentler and simpler being, by nature partaking of something divine (Cf. Phaedrus § 229 E). This seems a paradox. Yet one should not think ill of the paradox; for the paradox is the passion of thought, and the thinker without the paradox is like the lover without passion: a mediocre fellow. But the highest potency of every passion is always to will its own downfall, and so it is also the highest passion of the understanding to will the shock[T], although the shock must in one way or another become its downfall. This, then, is the highest paradox of thought, to will to discover something that it cannot itself think. This passion of thought is at bottom present everywhere in thought, also in the thought of the single individual, insofar as he, thinking, is not merely himself. But because of habit one does not discover it. Thus the human gait, as the natural scientists explain, is a continual falling; but a respectable and sedate man who goes to the office in the morning and home at noon presumably thinks this an exaggeration, for his forward striding is after all mediation; how should it occur to him that he is *[164]* constantly falling, he who goes straight ahead of his nose.

But let us now, in order to get started, make a bold proposition; let us suppose that we know what a human being is. Thereby we have the criterion of truth that in the whole of Greek philosophy was *sought*, or *doubted*, or *postulated* or *made fruitful*. And is it not remarkable enough that this is how matters stand with the Greeks; is it not, as it were, a brief epitome of the significance of Greekness, an epigram it has itself written, and with which it is better served than with the sometimes very prolix things that are sometimes written about it? Thus the proposition is well worth assuming, and for another reason also, since we have already explained it in the two preceding chapters, whereas if one wishes to explain Socrates otherwise than we have done,

[T] *Translator's note.* Danish *Anstød* (verb *støde an*) joins *an-*, 'against', to *Stød*, a blow or shock (*et elektrisk Stød*); in everyday use it is also 'offense' (*tage Anstød*). It is rendered 'shock' to keep both the jolt suffered by the understanding and, behind it, the sense of being scandalized, which Kierkegaard names *Forargelse* in the appendix to this chapter.

one must take good care not to fall into the snares of the older or the later Greek skepticism. Unless the Socratic theory of recollection, and of the fact that every single human being is the human being, is held fast, there stands Sextus Empiricus, ready to make the transition that lies in "learning" not merely difficult but impossible; and Protagoras begins where he left off, that everything is man's measure, understood in such a way that he is the measure for others, by no means understood Socratically, that the single individual is the measure for himself, neither more nor less.

So we know, then, what the human being is, and this wisdom, whose value I least of all shall rate low, can continually become richer and more significant, and thus the truth also; but then the understanding too stands still — as Socrates did; for now the paradoxical passion of the understanding awakes, which wills the shock, and wills, without rightly understanding itself, its own downfall. Thus it is with the paradox of erotic love. A human being lives undisturbed in himself, then the paradox of self-love
[165] awakes as love for another, for one who is missed. (Self-love lies at the ground of, or goes to the ground in, all love, wherefore, if we wanted to imagine a religion of love, this, as epigrammatic as it would be true, would presuppose only one condition and assume it as given: to love oneself, in order then to command: to love the neighbor as oneself.) Just as the lover is changed by this paradox of love, so that he almost no longer knows himself (the poets bear witness to this, who are the spokesmen of erotic love, the lovers themselves bear witness to this, since they permit the poets to take from them only the word, not the state), so that dimly sensed paradox of the understanding reacts in turn upon the human being and upon his self-knowledge, so that he, who believed he knew himself, now no longer knows with certainty whether he is perhaps a more strangely composed animal than Typhon, or whether he has in his being a milder and more divine part. (Phaedrus 230 A).

But what, then, is this unknown against which the understanding in its paradoxical passion strikes, and which even disturbs the human being in his self-knowledge? It is the unknown. But it is, after all, not any human being, insofar as he knows this, nor any other thing that he knows. So let us call this unknown *the God*. It is merely a name we give it. To want to prove that this unknown (the God) exists hardly occurs to the understanding. For if the God does not exist, it is of course impossible to prove it, but if he does exist, it is folly to want to prove it; since I, precisely at the moment the proof begins, have presupposed it, not as doubtful — which a presupposition cannot be, being a presupposition — but as settled, since otherwise I would not begin, readily understanding that the whole would become an impossibility if he did not exist. If, on

the other hand, by the expression "to prove the existence of God" I mean that I want to prove that the unknown that exists is the God, I express myself less happily; for then I prove nothing, least of all an existence, but I develop a determination of a concept. In general, to want to prove that something exists is a difficult business, indeed, what *[166]* is still worse for the bold who venture into it, the difficulty is such that renown by no means awaits him who occupies himself with it. The whole procedure of proof constantly becomes something quite different, becomes a further development of the inference I draw from having assumed that what is asked about exists. Thus I constantly infer not to existence but from existence, whether I move in the world of sensuous palpability or in that of thought. Thus I do not prove that a stone exists, but that the something that exists is a stone; the court of law does not prove that a criminal exists, but proves that the accused, who after all exists, is a criminal. Whether one wants to call existence an *accessorium,* or the eternal *prius,* it can never be proved. We shall give ourselves plenty of time; there is, after all, no reason for us to hurry as there is for those who, from concern for themselves or for the God or for something else, must hurry to get it proved that it exists. If so, there is indeed reason to hurry, especially if the person concerned honestly made clear to himself the danger that he himself or the thing asked about did not exist before he got it proved, and did not treacherously nourish the secret thought that it nevertheless at bottom exists, whether he proves it or not.

If one of Napoleon's deeds were to prove Napoleon's existence, this would be most strange, since his existence explains the deeds, but the deeds do not prove his existence, unless I have already understood the word "his" in such a way that I have thereby assumed that he exists. Yet Napoleon is only the single individual, and to that extent no absolute relation obtains between him and his deeds, so that another also could have performed the same deeds. Perhaps it comes from this that I cannot infer from the deeds to existence. If I call the deeds Napoleon's deeds, then the proof is superfluous, since I have already named him; if I ignore this, then I can never prove *[167]* from the deeds that they are Napoleon's, but (purely ideally) prove that such deeds are a great general's etc. Yet between the God and his deeds there is an absolute relation, God is not a name but a concept, perhaps it comes from this that his *essentia involvit existentiam.* God's deeds, then, only the God can do; quite right, but which, then, are the God's deeds? Immediately the deeds from which I want to prove his existence do not exist at all. Or does it perhaps lie right before one's nose to see the wisdom in nature, the goodness, or the wisdom in the governance? Do not the most

terrible trials meet one here, and is it not impossible to be done with all these trials? But from such an order of things I do not want to prove God's existence, and even if I began, I should never finish, and should besides have to live constantly *in suspenso,* lest something so terrible suddenly happen that my little bit of proof be spoiled. So from what deeds is it, then, that I prove it? It is from the deeds considered ideally, and as they do not immediately show themselves. But then it is not from the deeds that I prove it, but I merely develop the ideality I have presupposed; trusting in it I dare even to defy all objections, even those that have not yet come into being. As I begin, then, I have presupposed the ideality, and presupposed that I shall succeed in carrying it through; but what is this other than that I have presupposed that the God exists, and trusting in him it is really that I begin.

B. CRITICISM AND THE PHILOSOPHY OF EXISTENCE
(Uvidenskabelig Efterskrift til Philosofiske Smuler. 1846).

Lessing has said: *Wenn Gott in seiner Rechten alle Wahrheit, und in seiner Linken den einzigen immer regen Trieb nach Wahrheit, obschon mit dem Zusatze mich immer*
[168] *und ewig zu irren, verschlossen hielte, und spräche zu mir: wähle! Ich fiele ihm mit Demuth in seine Linke, und sagte: Vater, gieb! die reine Wahrheit ist ja doch nur für dich allein*! (cf. Lessing's S. W. 5th vol. p. 100). — At the time when Lessing said these words the system was presumably not finished; alas, and now he is dead! Had he lived now, now that the system is for the most part finished, or at least is in progress and will be finished by Sunday: believe me, L. would have seized it with both hands; he would not have had the time and propriety and high spirits to play odd-or-even with God, as it were, for a joke, and in earnest to choose the left hand. But the system also has more than what God has in both his hands, already at this moment it has more, let alone on Sunday, when it will be quite definitely finished.

The words are found in a little essay (Eine Duplik. 1778), occasioned by a pious man's defense of the history of the resurrection against the attack in the fragments published by Lessing. It is well enough known that one could not at all figure out what L.'s purpose was in publishing these fragments. Not even the well-read Chief Pastor Götze could say definitely which passage in the Apocalypse fitted, indeed was fulfilled, in Lessing. To that extent Lessing has in a singular way compelled

people to adopt his principle in relation to him. While in those times too there was otherwise result and readiness enough, one could not at all get Lessing's life taken and world-historically slaughtered and salted down in a §. He was and remained a riddle. If anyone now wants to call him forth again — he gets no further with him.

Here now first an assurance concerning my humble person. As readily as anyone I am willing to fall down in worship before the system, if only I can catch sight of it. Hitherto I have not succeeded in this, and though I have young legs, I am nearly weary of running from Herod to Pilate. A few times I have come quite close to worship; but behold, in the moment I had already spread out my handkerchief so as not to soil *[169]* my trousers when kneeling, and then quite guilelessly said for the last time to one of the initiated, tell me now truly, is it now also wholly finished, for in that case I will throw myself down, even if I should ruin a pair of trousers (owing namely to the heavy traffic to and from the system the road is not a little muddy), I always got the answer: no, it is probably not quite finished yet. And so it was postponed again — with the system and with the kneeling.

System and completeness are about one and the same thing, so that if the system is not finished it is no system. I have already reminded elsewhere that a system that is not quite finished is a hypothesis; whereas a half-finished system is nonsense. If someone now says that this is only a quarrel over words, that the systematizers, on the contrary, themselves say that the system is not finished, I would merely ask why they call it a system. Why are they in general double-tongued? In presenting their summary they say nothing about something being lacking. They thereby also lead the less expert to assume that everything is finished, unless they write for readers who are more expert than they themselves, which would presumably seem unthinkable to the systematizers. But if the building is touched, the builder steps forward. He is an extremely agreeable man, courteous and kind to the visitor, he says: yes, we are indeed still building, the system is not yet quite finished. Did he not know it before, did he not know it at the time when he sent out his beatifying invitation to all human beings? But if he knew it, why did he not say it himself, i.e. why did he then not refrain from calling the achieved fragment a system? For here it is again: a fragment of a system is nonsense. A continued striving after a system, on the other hand, is a striving; and a striving, indeed a continued striving, is what Lessing speaks of. And yet surely not a striving after nothing! On the contrary, Lessing speaks of a striving after truth; and he uses a remarkable word about this drive toward truth: den einzigen *[170]* immer regen Trieb. This word einzig cannot well be understood otherwise than as

the infinite, in the same sense as that it is higher to have one thought, one single thought, than many thoughts. So they both speak, Lessing and the systematizer, of a continued striving, only the difference is that Lessing is stupid or true enough to call it a continued striving, the systematizer clever or untrue enough to call it the system. What would one judge of this difference in other relations? When Agent Behrend had lost a silk umbrella, he advertised for a nankeen one; for he thought as follows, says he, if I say it is a silk umbrella, the finder is more easily tempted to keep it. The systematizer perhaps thinks as follows: if I call my achievement on the title page and in the newspaper a continued striving, alas, who will then buy it or admire me; but if I call it the system, the absolute system, then everyone will buy the system — if only the difficulty did not remain that what the systematizer sells is not the system.

Let us then go on, but let us not make fools of one another. I, Johannes Climacus, am neither more nor less than a human being; I assume that the one I have the honor of speaking with is also a human being. If he wants to be Speculation, pure speculation, then I must give up speaking with him; for in the same moment he becomes invisible to me and to a human being's weak mortal eye.

Thus: a) *a logical system is possible*; *b) but there can be no system of existence.*

a.

α. If, however, a logical system is to be constructed, care must chiefly be taken that nothing is admitted which is subject to the dialectic of existence, which thus only is in the process of coming to be, or of having been, is not in the process of being.
[171] From this follows quite simply that that peerless and peerlessly admired invention of Hegel's, to bring movement into logic (quite apart from the fact that at every second place one misses even his own attempt to make one believe that it is there), is precisely to confuse logic. It is indeed also odd to lay movement at the foundation in a sphere where movement is unthinkable, or to let movement explain logic, while logic cannot explain movement. On this point, however, I am so fortunate as to be able to refer to a man who thinks soundly and is happily formed by the Greeks (rare qualities in our time!), a man who has known how to free himself and his thinking from every dragging and crawling relation to Hegel, whose renown everyone else will profit from if not in some other way then by going further, i.e. by having taken Hegel up into himself; a man who has preferred to content himself with Aristotle and with himself — I mean Trendelenburg (Logische Untersuchungen). His merit is, among other things, to have grasped movement as the inexplicable presupposition, as the common element

in which being and thinking are united, and as the continued reciprocity. I cannot here make any attempt to demonstrate the relation of his conception to the Greeks, to the Aristotelian, or to what, oddly enough, in a certain sense, though only popularly, has much similarity with his presentation: a little passage in Plutarch's treatise on Isis and Osiris. It is by no means my opinion that the Hegelian philosophy has not had a beneficial influence on Trendelenburg, but the fortunate thing is that he has seen that it does not do to want to improve upon Hegel's building, to go further etc. (a mendacious way in which many a bungler in our time arrogates to himself Hegel's celebrity and fraternizes with him in the manner of a lazzarone); and on the other hand, that, sober as a Greek thinker, without promising everything, without wanting to beatify mankind, he accomplishes much and beatifies him who needed his guidance in the knowledge of the Greeks.

In a logical system nothing must be admitted that has a relation to existence that *[172]* is not indifferent to existence. The infinite preponderance that the logical has over all thinking by being the objective is limited again by the fact that, seen subjectively, it is a hypothesis, precisely because in the sense of actuality[T] it is indifferent to existence. This duality is the difference of the logical from the mathematical, which has no relation at all to or from existence, but has only objectivity — not objectivity and the hypothetical as the unity and contradiction in which it relates itself negatively to existence.

The logical system must not be a mystification, a ventriloquism, in which the content of existence emerges slyly and surreptitiously, where logical thought gives pause and finds what the Herr Professor or Licentiate has had up his sleeve here. A stricter judgment between these can be had by answering the question in what sense the category is the abbreviation of existence, whether logical thinking is abstract after existence or abstract without any relation to existence. This question I should like to treat somewhat more fully elsewhere; and even if it were not satisfactorily answered, it is still something that one asks in this way.

β. The dialectic of the beginning must be made clear. The almost amusing thing about it, that the beginning is and again is not, because it is the beginning, this true

[T] *Translator's note.* Danish *Virkelighed* (adjective *virkelig*, from *virke*, to act, to be at work) does duty both for 'reality', as against illusion or fancy, and for 'actuality', the word by which the Danish Hegelians rendered Hegel's *Wirklichkeit*, as against possibility (*Mulighed*); *i Virkeligheden* is also the everyday 'in fact'. Kierkegaard plays these senses against one another. In his excerpts the noun is rendered 'actuality' throughout, so that its opposition to possibility, and to Hegel, stays visible; elsewhere in this volume it is usually 'reality'.

dialectical remark has now long enough been like a game played in Hegelian society.

The system begins, it is said, with the immediate; some are even, for lack of being dialectical, oratorical enough to say the most immediate of all, although precisely the comparative reflection contained in this could become dangerous for the beginning. The system begins with the immediate, and therefore without presuppositions, and therefore absolutely, i.e. the beginning of the system is the absolute beginning. This is quite right, and has also been sufficiently admired. But why has one not, before
[173] beginning the system put the other equally important, precisely equally important question, and made it clear to oneself, and respected what plainly lies in it: *how does the system begin with the immediate, i.e. does it begin immediately with it*? To this one must surely answer unconditionally No. If the system is assumed to be after existence (whereby a confusion with a system of existence is occasioned), then the system comes afterward, and so does not begin immediately with the immediate with which existence began, even if in another sense it did not begin with it, because the immediate never is, but is sublated when it is. The beginning of the system that begins with the immediate *is then itself reached through a reflection.*

Here lies the difficulty, for when one does not deceitfully or thoughtlessly or in short-winded hurry to get the system finished let go of the one thought, then in all its simplicity it is capable of deciding that there can be no system of existence, and that the logical system must not boast of an absolute beginning, because such a one is, like pure being, a pure chimera.

For when one cannot begin immediately with the immediate (which would be to think it as an occurrence or as a miracle, i.e. which is not to be thought), but this beginning must be reached through a reflection, then it is asked quite simply (alas, if only I am not put in the corner of shame for my simplicity, because everyone can understand my question — and therefore must be ashamed of the questioner's popular knowledge): how do I get that reflection stopped which was set in motion to reach that beginning? For reflection has the remarkable property that it is infinite. But that it is infinite means in any case that it cannot be stopped by itself, because in being supposed to stop of itself it uses itself, and thus is stopped only in the same way as a
[174] disease would be cured if it were itself permitted to determine the medicine, i.e. the disease were nourished. Perhaps this infinity of reflection is the bad infinity — then we are soon done, for the bad infinity is supposed to be something contemptible that one, the sooner the better, must give up. May I not on this occasion put a question. Whence does it come that Hegel and all Hegelians, who are otherwise supposed to

be dialecticians, become angry on this point, indeed angry as Germans? Or is it a dialectical determination: the bad? From where does such a predicate get into logic? How do scorn and contempt and scare tactics find a place as permissible means of motion in logic, so that the absolute beginning is assumed by the single individual because he is afraid of what neighbor and next-door neighbor will think of him if he does not? Is "bad" not an ethical category? What am I saying in speaking of the bad infinity? I accuse the individual concerned of not wanting to stop the infinity of reflection. I demand something of him, then? But in genuinely speculative fashion I assume, on the contrary, that reflection stops itself. Why do I then demand something of him? And what do I demand of him? I demand a resolution. And in this I do well, for only thus can reflection be stopped, but on the other hand a philosopher never does well to make fools of people, and in one moment to let reflection stop itself in the absolute beginning, and in the next moment to scorn a human being whose only fault is that he is stupid enough to believe the first, to scorn him, in order in that way to help him to the absolute beginning, which thus takes place in two ways. But if a resolution is demanded, presuppositionlessness is given up. Only when reflection is stopped can the beginning take place, and reflection can be stopped only by something else, and this something else is something quite other than the logical, since it is a resolution. And only when the beginning by which reflection stops is a breakthrough, so that the absolute beginning itself breaks forth through the infinitely continued reflection, only then is the beginning presuppositionless. If, on the other hand, it is a break by which reflection is interrupted so that the beginning can come *[175]* forth, then this beginning is not absolute, since it has taken place by a μετάβασις εἰς ἄλλο γένος.

When the beginning with the immediate is reached through a reflection, then the immediate must mean something other than otherwise. Hegelian logicians have rightly seen this, and they therefore define the immediate with which logic begins thus: the most abstract that remains after an exhaustive abstraction. Against this definition there is nothing to object, but there is against the failure to respect what one says oneself, for this definition says precisely, indirectly, that there is no absolute beginning. How, I hear someone say, when everything has been abstracted from, is it not then etc. — yes — when everything has been abstracted from. Let us be human beings. This act of abstraction is, like that act of reflection, infinite, thus, how do I get it stopped — and it is indeed only when.... that.... Let us even venture a thought-experiment. Let that act of infinite abstraction be *in actu*, the beginning is

not, after all, the act of abstraction, but it comes after. But with what do I then begin, since everything has been abstracted from? Alas, here perhaps a Hegelian would sink moved to my breast, and blissfully stammer: with nothing. And that is indeed what the system says, that it begins with nothing. But I should have to put my second question, how do I begin with this nothing? For if the act of infinite abstraction is not one of those foolish pranks of which one can well do two at once, if on the contrary it is the most strenuous work that can be done, what then? Then all my strength goes to holding it fast. If I let go any part of my strength, then I am not abstracting from everything. If I then begin under this presupposition, I do not begin with nothing, precisely because in the moment of beginning I did not abstract from everything. That is to say, if it is possible for a human being, thinking, to abstract from everything, then it is impossible for him to do more, since it, if it does not altogether
[176] surpass human strength, in any case absolutely exhausts it. To grow weary of the act of abstraction, and thus come to begin, are mere grocers' explanations, which do not take it so precisely with a small difficulty. The statement itself, to begin with nothing, quite apart from its relation to the infinite act of abstraction, is deceitful. To begin with nothing is, namely, neither more nor less than a new paraphrase of the dialectic of the beginning itself. The beginning is, and again it is not, precisely because it is the beginning; this can also be expressed thus: the beginning begins with nothing. It is only a new expression, not a single step further. In the one case I think the beginning merely *in abstracto,* in the other case I think the relation of the equally abstract beginning to a something with which one begins; and quite rightly it turns out that this something, indeed the only something that corresponds to such a beginning, is nothing. But this is merely a tautological paraphrase of the other proposition: the beginning is not. The beginning is not, and the beginning begins with nothing are altogether identical propositions, and I do not get off the spot.

What if, instead of speaking or dreaming of an absolute beginning, we speak of a leap. To want to be content with a mostly-as-good-as, with being able to say that one almost has it, with sleeping on it till tomorrow and then being able to say it, shows only that one is akin to Trop, who little by little came so far as to assume: that having been close to getting a juridical examination was having got it. Everyone laughs at this, but when in the realm of truth, in the sanctuary of science, one reasons speculatively in the same way: then it is good philosophy, genuine speculative philosophy. For Lessing was no speculative philosopher, he therefore assumed the opposite, that an infinitely small distance makes the ditch infinitely wide, because the leap itself makes

the ditch so wide.

It is odd enough: Hegelians, who in logic know that reflection is stopped by itself, that a doubting of everything turns over by itself into its opposite (a true sailor's yarn, *[177]* i.e. truly a sailor's yarn), know on the other hand for everyday use, when they are agreeable people, when they are like the rest of us, only, as I shall always willingly concede, more learned, more talented etc., know that reflection can be stopped only by a leap. Let us dwell a moment here. When the individual does not stop reflection, he becomes infinitized in reflection, i.e. no decision occurs. By thus losing his way in reflection the individual becomes really objective, he loses more and more the decision of subjectivity and the return into himself. And yet one will assume that reflection can objectively stop itself, whereas it is the other way around; objectively it is not to be stopped, and when it stops subjectively, it does not stop itself, but it is the subject who stops it.

As soon as Rötscher, for example (who in his book on Aristophanes does understand the necessity of transition in world-historical development, and otherwise has presumably understood in logic reflection's passing through itself to the absolute beginning) sets himself the task of explaining Hamlet, he knows that reflection is stopped only by a resolution, he does not assume (shall I say strangely enough?) strangely enough, he does not assume that Hamlet, by continuing to reflect, finally came to the absolute beginning; but in logic he assumes (shall I say strangely enough) strangely enough, there he presumably assumes that reflection's passing through itself stops at the absolute beginning. This I do not understand, and it pains me not to understand it, precisely because I cherish admiration for Rötscher's talent, for his classical culture, for his tasteful and yet primitive conception of psychological phenomena.

What has been said here about the beginning of logic (for that the same shows that there is no system of existence is to be pursued more closely under b) is very simple and plain; I become almost quite embarrassed in saying it, or embarrassed that I must say it, embarrassed at my situation, that a poor pamphleteer, who would rather lie *[178]* worshipping on his knees before the system, should be forced to say something like this. What has been said could also be said in another way, whereby it might make an impression on one or another, in that the presentation more specially recalled the scientific conflicts of a moment now past. The question would then become what significance the Hegelian Phenomenology has for the system, whether it is an introduction, whether it stands outside; if it is an introduction, whether it is then

taken up again into the system; further, whether Hegel has not even the astounding merit of having written not merely the system, but two, indeed three systems, for which there always belongs a peerless systematic head, and which nevertheless seems to be the case, as the system becomes finished more than once etc. All this has at bottom been said often enough, but it has also often been said in a disturbing way. A big book has been written about it, saying first everything Hegel has said, then taking account of this and that later thing, all of which merely distracts and casts a distracting prolixity over what can be said quite briefly.

γ. It would be desirable if, in order to cast light on logic, one oriented oneself psychologically in what the state of mind is of him who thinks the logical, what kind of dying-away from himself is required for this, how far imagination plays a role in it. This is again a poor and highly simple remark, but for that reason it may be quite true and by no means superfluous: that a philosopher has by degrees become such a fantastic being that hardly the most extravagant imagination has invented anything so fabulous. How does the empirical I relate in general to the pure I-I. He who wishes to be a philosopher presumably likes to know a little about this, and wishes above all not to become a ridiculous being by ein, zwei, drei Kokolorum being transformed into speculation. If he who occupies himself with logical thinking is also human enough not to forget that he, even if he were finished with the system, is an
[179] existing individual, then fantasticality and charlatanry will gradually vanish. And even if an eminently logical head is needed to remold Hegel's Logic, only true human understanding is needed in him who once with enthusiasm believed the great thing Hegel said he did, and showed his enthusiasm by believing it, and his enthusiasm for Hegel by crediting him with it; only true human understanding is needed to see that Hegel in many places has conducted himself indefensibly, not toward grocers, who after all believe only half of what a man says, but toward enthusiastic young men who believed him. Even if such a young man has not been distinguished by outstanding gifts, when he nevertheless has had enthusiasm to believe the highest, which was indeed said of Hegel, when he has had enthusiasm in the moment of difficulty to despair of himself in order not to give up Hegel — when such a one comes to himself again, he has a right to demand this Nemesis, that laughter consume in Hegel what laughter has a rightful claim on, and such a young man has nevertheless upheld Hegel quite differently from many an adherent who by deceitful asides made Hegel now everything, now a trifle.

b.

A system of existence cannot be given. Is such a one, then, not? By no means. That does not lie in what has been said either. Existence itself is a system — for God, but cannot be so for any existing spirit. System and completeness correspond to each other, but existence is precisely the opposite. Seen abstractly, system and existence cannot be thought together, because the systematic thought, in order to think existence, must think it as sublated, thus not as existing. Existence is that which spaces out, which falls asunder: the systematic is the completeness that closes together.

In actuality a disappointment now occurs, an illusion of the senses, which the *[180]* Crumbs also sought to point out, and to which I must refer, namely to the question whether the past is more necessary than the future. For when an existence has been traversed, it is after all finished, it is after all concluded, and to that extent it has fallen to the systematic conception. Quite right — but for whom? He who is himself existing cannot win that completeness outside of existence which corresponds to the eternity into which the past has entered. If a thinker graciously consents to be absent-minded enough to forget that he is himself existing, speculation and absent-mindedness are nevertheless not quite the same. On the contrary, the fact that he is himself existing hints at the claim of existence upon him, that his, indeed if he is great, that his existence in his own time may again as a past have the validity of completeness for the systematic thinker. But who, then, is this systematic thinker? Why, he is the one who is himself outside existence and yet in existence, who in his eternity is eternally concluded, and yet includes existence in himself — it is God. To what end the deception! Because the world has now existed for 6000 years, existence therefore does not at all have the same claim upon the existing person as it has always had, which is not that he in a fancy should be a contemplating spirit, but in actuality an existing spirit. All understanding comes afterward. While the now-existing person undeniably comes afterward in relation to the 6000 years that went before, if we assumed that he came to understand these systematically, the singularly ironic thing would result that he did not come to understand himself existing, because he himself got no existence, because he himself had nothing that was to be understood afterwards. From this it would follow that such a thinker would have to be either our Lord or a fantastic quodlibet. Everyone surely sees the immorality in this, and then surely everyone also sees that what another author has remarked about the Hegelian system is in order:

that through him one got a system, the absolute system finished — without having
[181] an ethics. Let us only smile at the ethical-religious fantasies of the Middle Ages in asceticism and the like, but let us above all not forget that the speculative low-comic extravagance of becoming I-I, and then nevertheless qua human being often such a Philistine that no enthusiast would care to have led such a life — is just as ridiculous.

Let us then, concerning the impossibility of a system of existence, ask quite simply as a Greek youth would ask his teacher (and if the lofty wisdom can otherwise explain everything, but not answer a simple question, then one sees that the world is out of joint): who is to write or finish such a system? Presumably a human being, unless we are to start again on the singular talk that a human being becomes Speculation, becomes the subject-object. Thus a human being — and presumably a living one, i.e. an existing human being. Or is speculation, which produces the system, the common striving of the various thinkers: in what last conclusion does this community close together, how does it come to light? presumably through a human being? How, then, do the individual thinkers in turn relate to this striving, what are the intermediate determinations here between the individual and the world-historical, and what kind of person, again, is he who draws them all on the systematic thread? Is he a human being or is he Speculation? But if he is a human being, he is existing. For the existing person there are now in general two ways: he can either do everything to forget that he is existing, whereby he succeeds in becoming comic (the comic contradiction of wanting to be what one is not, e.g., that a human being wants to be a bird, is no more comic than that of not wanting to be what one is, as *in casu* existing, as one also finds it comic in ordinary speech when someone forgets what his name is, which does not so much mean forgetting his name as the peculiarity of his being), because existence has the remarkable property that the existing person exists whether he wants to or
[182] not; or he can turn all his attention upon this, that he is existing. It is from this side that the objection must first of all be made against modern speculation, that it has not a false presupposition, but a comic presupposition, occasioned by its having in a kind of world-historical absent-mindedness forgotten what it is to be a human being, not what it is to be a human being in general, such a thing one might indeed still get the speculators to concede, but what it is that you and I and he, we are human beings each for himself.

The existing person who directs all his attention to the fact that *he* is existing, to him that saying of Lessing's about the continued striving will also smile as a fine utterance, by which the inventor presumably did not acquire immortal renown,

because it is very simple, but which every attentive person must find true. The existing person who forgets that he is existing will become more and more absent-minded, and as people sometimes deposit the fruit of their *otium* in writings, so we may expect as the fruit of his absent-mindedness the expected system of existence — presumably not all of us, but only those who are nearly as absent-minded as he. While, then, the Hegelian system in absent-mindedness goes on and becomes a system of existence, indeed, what is more, becomes finished — without having an ethics (where existence precisely has its home), that simpler philosophy, which is expounded by an existing person to existing persons, will especially bring forward the ethical.

As soon as it is remembered that to philosophize is not to speak fantastically to fantastic beings, but that one speaks to existing persons; that it is thus not to be decided fantastically *in abstracto* whether the continued striving is something lesser than systematic completeness, but that the question is what existing beings must content themselves with, insofar as they are existing, then the continued striving will be the only thing that does not contain a disappointment. Even if someone has attained the highest, the repetition by which he must fulfill his existence, if he is not to go backward (or become a fantastic being), will again be a continued striving, *[183]* because here again completeness is removed and postponed. It is with this as with the Platonic conception of loving, that it is a want, and that not only he feels want who craves something he does not have, but also he who wishes the continued possession of what he has. Speculatively-fantastically and aesthetically-fantastically one has a positive completeness in the system and in the fifth act of the drama, but such completeness is only for fantastic beings.

The continued striving is the yield of the existing subject's ethical view of life. The continued striving must therefore not be understood metaphysically; but there is indeed no individual either that exists metaphysically. Thus one could, by a misunderstanding, form an opposition between systematic completeness and the continued striving after truth. One could then, and has perhaps even tried, to recall the Greek idea of always wanting to be a learner. This is, however, merely a misunderstanding in this sphere. Understood ethically, on the other hand, the continued striving is the consciousness of being existing, and the continued learning the expression of the incessant realization, which at no moment is finished as long as the subject is existing, which this subject is precisely conscious of and therefore not deceived by. But Greek philosophy had a constant relation to ethics. One therefore also did not find that always wanting to be a learner was a great discovery or an enthusiastic undertaking

of a single eminent person, since it was neither more nor less than the understanding that one is existing, which is not meritorious to become conscious of, but thoughtless to forget.

When the question of truth is asked objectively, reflection is objective on the truth as
[184] *an object to which the knower relates. Reflection is not on the relation, but on its being the truth, the true, to which he relates. When what he relates to is merely the truth, the true, then the subject is in the truth. When the question of truth is asked subjectively, reflection is subjective on the individual's relation; when merely the how of this relation is in truth, then the individual is in truth, even if he were thus to relate to untruth.* Let us take as an example the knowledge of God. Objectively, reflection is on its being the true God; subjectively, on the individual's relating to a something *in such a way* that his relation is in truth a God-relation. On which of the two sides, then, is the truth? Alas, must we not here take refuge in mediation, and say: it is on neither of the sides, it is in the mediation? Excellently said, if only someone could say how an existing person goes about being in mediation; for to be in mediation is to be finished, to exist is to become. An existing person also cannot be in two places at once, be subject-object. When he comes nearest to being in two places at once, he is in passion, but passion is only momentary, and passion is precisely the highest of subjectivity. — The existing person who chooses the objective way now enters into the whole approximating deliberation that would objectively bring God forth, which in all eternity is not reached, because God is subject, and therefore exists only for subjectivity in inwardness. The existing person who chooses the subjective way grasps in the same moment the whole dialectical difficulty in that he must use some time, perhaps a long time, to find God objectively; he grasps this dialectical difficulty in all its pain, because he needs God in the same moment, because every moment is wasted in which he does not have God. In the same moment he has God not by virtue
[185] of any objective deliberation, but by virtue of the infinite passion of inwardness. The objective person is not troubled by such dialectical difficulties as this: what it means to devote an entire time of inquiry to finding God — since it was after all possible that the inquirer died tomorrow, and if he lived he could after all not regard God as something one takes along on occasion, since God is precisely something one takes along *a tout prix*, which in the understanding of passion is precisely the true relation of inwardness to God.

It is at this dialectically so difficult point that the way turns off for him who knows what it is to dialecticize and to dialecticize existingly, which is something other than to sit as a fantastic being at the writing desk and write what one has never done oneself, which is something other than to write *de omnibus dubitandum,* and oneself existing be as credulous as the most sensuous human being — here it is that the way turns off, and the change is this, that whereas the objective knowledge goes comfortably forward along the long road of approximation, not even spurred on by passion, for the subjective knowledge every delay is perilous to life, and the decision so infinitely important that it is immediately as urgent as if the opportunity had already gone unused.

Now when the sum to be reckoned is this: where is there most truth, whether on the side of him (and to be at once equally on both sides is, as said, not granted to an existing person, but is only a beatifying fancy for an imagined I-I) who solely objectively seeks the true God and the approximating truth of the representation of God, or on the side of him who is infinitely concerned that he in truth relates to God with the infinite passion of need: then the answer cannot be doubtful for anyone who is not utterly muddled by means of science. If someone who lives in the midst of Christendom goes up to the house of God, to the house of the true God with the true representation of God in knowledge, and now prays, but prays in untruth; and when another lives in an idolatrous land, but prays with the whole passion of infinity, although his eye rests on the image of an idol: where is there then most truth? The *[186]* one prays in truth to God, although he worships an idol; the other prays in untruth to the true God, and therefore worships in truth an idol.

When one inquires objectively into immortality, another sets the passion of infinity upon the uncertainty: where is there then most truth, and who has most certainty? The one has once for all entered upon an approximating that never ends, for the certainty of immortality lies precisely in subjectivity; the other is immortal and fights precisely for that reason by striving against the uncertainty. Let us consider Socrates. Nowadays everyone, after all, bungles together a few proofs, one has more, another fewer. But Socrates! He leaves the question objectively problematic: if there is an immortality. Was he then a doubter in comparison with one of the modern thinkers of three proofs? By no means. Upon this "if" he stakes his whole life, he ventures to die, and he has arranged his whole life with the passion of infinity in such a way that it had to be found acceptable — if there is an immortality. Is there any better proof of the soul's immortality? But those who have three proofs do not arrange their life

according to them at all; if there is an immortality, it must be disgusted by that way of living: is there any better counterproof against the three proofs? The "crumb" of uncertainty helped Socrates, because he himself helped with the passion of infinity; the three proofs profit the others nothing at all, because they are and remain bores, and for lack of proving anything else have by their three proofs proved precisely that. Thus perhaps a girl, too, with a faint hope of being loved by the beloved, has possessed all the sweetness of being in love, because she herself staked everything on this faint hope: many a married lady, on the other hand, who more than once has succumbed to love's strongest expression, has probably had proofs, and yet, oddly enough, has not possessed the *quod erat demonstrandum.* The Socratic ignorance was thus the
[187] expression, held fast with the whole passion of inwardness, of the fact that eternal salvation relates to an existing person, and therefore must become a paradox to him as long as he exists, and yet it might well be possible that there was in the Socratic ignorance in Socrates more truth than in all the objective truth of the system, which coquettes with the demands of the time and accommodates itself to Privatdocents.

Objectively the accent falls on: what *is said*; *subjectively*: *how it is said.* Already aesthetically this distinction holds, and is expressed definitely thus, that what is truth can in this one's and that one's mouth become untruth. This distinction is particularly to be heeded in these times, for if one were to express in one single proposition the difference between antiquity and our time, one would have to say that in antiquity only a few knew the true, now everyone knows it, but inwardness stands in an inverse relation to this. Aesthetically the contradiction that arises from truth's becoming untruth in this one's and that one's mouth is best grasped comically. Ethically-religiously the accent falls on how, again; yet this is not understood of decorum, modulation, delivery etc., but is understood of the existing person's relation to what is said in his very existence. Objectively one asks merely about the determinations of thought, subjectively about inwardness. At its maximum this how is the passion of infinity, and the passion of infinity is itself the truth. But the passion of infinity is precisely subjectivity, and thus subjectivity is the truth. Seen objectively there is no infinite decision, and thus it is objectively correct that the difference between good and evil is canceled by the principle of contradiction, and thereby also the infinite difference between truth and lie. Only in subjectivity is there decision, whereas wanting to become objective is untruth. The passion of infinity is the decisive thing, not its content, for its content is precisely itself. Thus the subjective how and subjectivity is the truth.

But the how that is subjectively accentuated is at the same time, precisely because *[188]* the subject is existing, dialectical in the direction of time. In the moment of passion's decision, where the way turns off from objective knowledge, it looks as if the infinite decision were thereby finished. But in the same moment the existing person is in temporality, and the subjective how is transformed into a striving, which is impelled and repeatedly refreshed by the decisive passion of infinity, but which is nevertheless a striving.

When subjectivity is the truth, the determination of truth must at the same time contain in itself an expression of the opposition to objectivity, a reminder of that parting of the ways, and this expression indicates at the same time the elasticity of inwardness. Here is such a definition of truth: *the objective uncertainty, held fast in the appropriation of the most passionate inwardness, is the truth*, the highest truth there is for *existing persons*. There where the way turns off (and where it is cannot be said objectively, since it is precisely subjectivity), objective knowledge is put to rest. Objectively he then has only the uncertainty, but precisely this tightens the infinite passion of inwardness, and the truth is precisely this venture, with the passion of infinity to choose the objectively uncertain. I contemplate nature in order to find God, I do also see omnipotence and wisdom, but I see at the same time much else that frightens and disturbs. *Summa Summarum* of this is the objective uncertainty, but precisely for that reason the inwardness is so great, because the inwardness embraces the objective uncertainty with the whole passion of infinity. In relation to a mathematical proposition, e.g., objectivity is given, but therefore its truth is also an indifferent truth.

But the given determination of truth is a paraphrase of faith. Without risk no faith. Faith is precisely the contradiction between the infinite passion of inwardness and the objective uncertainty. If I can grasp God objectively, I do not believe, but precisely because I cannot do so, I must believe; and if I want to keep myself in faith, I must *[189]* constantly take care that I hold fast the objective uncertainty, that in the objective uncertainty I am "over the 70,000 fathoms of water", and yet believe.

In the proposition that subjectivity, inwardness, is the truth, is contained the Socratic wisdom, whose immortal merit is precisely to have respected the essential significance of existing, of the knower's being an existing person, for which reason he in his ignorance was, in the highest sense within heathendom, in the truth. To grasp this, that speculation's misfortune is precisely that it again and again forgets that the knower is an existing person, can already be difficult enough in our objective

time. "But to go further than Socrates, when one has not even grasped the Socratic, is at least not Socratic."

C. THE THEORY OF THE STAGES (Uvidenskabelig Efterskrift).

"Enten — Eller", whose title is already suggestive, lets the existence-relation between the aesthetic and the ethical come into being in existing individuality. This is for me the book's indirect polemic against speculation, which is indifferent to existence. That there is no result and no final decision is an indirect expression of truth as inwardness, thus perhaps a polemic against truth as knowledge. The Preface itself says something about this, yet not teachingly, for then I could know something with determinateness, but in the merry form of jest and hypothesis. That there is no author is a means of distancing. — —

Part One is a possibility of existence that cannot win existence, a melancholy that is to be worked up ethically. It is essentially melancholy, and so deep that it, although autopathic, deceptively occupies itself with the sufferings of others ("Silhouettes"), and moreover deceives by the veil of pleasure, of prudence, of depravity, but the deception
[190] and the veil are at once its strength and its impotence, its strength in imagination and its impotence in winning existence. It is imagination-existence in aesthetic passion, therefore paradoxical and foundering on time; it is at its maximum despair; it is thus not existence, but possibility of existence in the direction of existence, and brought so near that one as it were feels how every moment is wasted where a decision has not yet come. But the possibility of existence in the existing A. will not be conscious of this, and keeps existence away by the finest of all deceptions, by thinking; he has thought everything possible, and yet he has not existed at all. This has the effect that only the Diapsalmata are purely poetic effusions, while the rest richly has thought-content in it, which may easily deceive, as if having thought about something were identical with existing. Had a poet laid out the work, he would scarcely have thought of this, and would perhaps by the work itself have brought forth again the old misunderstanding. For the relation is not to be between an immature and a mature thinking, but between not existing and existing. A. is therefore as a thinker developed, he is far superior to B. as a dialectician, he has received all the seductive gifts of the understanding and of the spirit; thereby it becomes clearer in what B. differs from him.

Part Two is an ethical individuality existing by virtue of the ethical. Part Two is also what brings Part One forth, for A. would again conceive being an author as a possibility, actually carry it out — and then let it lie. The ethicist has *despaired*; he has in despair *chosen himself*; he remains in this choice, and in this choice *manifest*; he is a husband (A. was familiar with every possibility within the erotic range, and yet not even actually in love, for in the same moment he had in a way been on the point of consolidating himself), and collects himself precisely against the hiddenness of the aesthetic upon marriage as the deepest form of life's manifestation, whereby *time* is *[191]* taken to the credit of the ethically existing person, and the possibility of *acquiring a history* is continuity's ethical victory over hiddenness, melancholy, illusory passion, despair. Through juggling mist-pictures, through the distractions of a luxuriant thought-content, whose execution, if it is any good at all, is the author's absolute merit, one arrives at a quite simple human being, existing by virtue of the ethical. This is the scene-change, or rather, now the scene is there: instead of a world of possibility, shot through with imagination and dialectically arranged, there has come to be an individual — and only the truth that edifies is truth for you, i.e. truth is inwardness, mark well, existence-inwardness, here in ethical determination.

Thus that matter was got through. The book's merit, or whether it has any, does not concern me; if it has any, this must essentially lie in not giving a result, but in transforming everything into inwardness; imagination-inwardness in Part One into conjuring the possibilities with potentiated passion, dialectic into transforming everything into nothing in despair; ethical pathos in Part Two into embracing with quiet, inviolable and yet infinite passion of resolution the modest task of the ethical, edified thereby, manifest to God and human beings. — There is no teaching, but it does not follow from that that there is no thought-content, thus thinking is indeed one thing, and existing in what is thought another. To exist is in relation to thinking as little something that follows of itself as it is something thoughtless. It is not even a conviction that is communicated and expounded, perhaps, as one says, with inwardness; for a conviction one can also have in the representation, whereby it so easily becomes dialectical in the direction of more or less true. No, one exists in thought, and the book or the writing has no final relation to anyone. This transparency of thought in existence is precisely inwardness. If speculation, for example, instead of teachingly propounding *de omnibus dubitandum* and getting a chorus that swears *[192]* to swear *de omnibus dubitandum,* had instead made an attempt to let such a doubter come into being in existence-inwardness, so that one could see down to the smallest

detail how he went about doing it — yes, had it done so, that is, had it begun on it, then it would have given it up again, and put to shame would have seen that the big word which every rattler has bound himself by oath to have realized is not merely an infinitely difficult task, but an impossibility for an existing person. And this is precisely one of the sad sides of all communication, that the good communicator, now to win people, now from vanity, now from thoughtlessness, takes his mouth so full that he has not only in a twinkling done all that is possible for an eminent existing spirit in a long life, but what is impossible. One forgets that existing makes the understanding of the simplest truth for the common man in existence-transparency exceedingly difficult and strenuous; one claims without ado everything by means of result (I have heard people, who are so stupid that one could run into doors with them, say: one cannot remain standing at the Socratic ignorance), and ends like all windbags by finally having even done the impossible. Inwardness has become a matter of knowledge, existing a waste of time; hence it comes that the most mediocre person who in our time writes something together speaks so that one would think he had experienced everything, and only by heeding his parenthetical clauses does one see he is a rogue; and hence it comes that a person in our time who exists merely with as much energy as a mediocre Greek philosopher is regarded as demonic. The rattle of pain and sufferings one knows by heart, likewise the glorious praise of steadfastness. Everyone rattles on; if there exists a person who for the sake of an opinion exposes himself to a small unpleasantness, one regards him as a demon — or as stupid; for one knows everything, and in order not to remain standing there, one knows also
[193] that one is not to do the slightest thing about it, for by means of external knowledge one is in the seventh heaven, and when one is to begin to do it, then one becomes a poor single existing human being who again and again stumbles and from year to year gets forward only very slowly. Yes, if one can sometimes with a certain relief think of Caesar's having had the whole Alexandrian library burned, one could really, well-meaningly, wish for humanity that that superfluity of knowledge might be taken away again, that one might again get to know what it is to live as a human being.

"From Enten — Eller" "Stadier paa Livets Vei" is noticeably different by a threefold division. There are three stages, an aesthetic, an ethical, a religious, yet not abstractly, as the immediate, the mediate, the unity, but concretely in existence-determination as enjoyment-perdition; action-victory; suffering. Yet notwithstanding this threefold

division the writing is just the same an Either — Or. The ethical and the religious stage namely stand in an essential relation to one another. The difficulty with Enten — Eller was precisely that the work concluded ethically, as was shown. In the Stages this has been made clear, and the religious has asserted its place.

The aesthetic and ethical stage are brought forth again, in a certain sense as recapitulation, and yet as something new. It would also be a poor testimony to existence-inwardness if every such stage could not be rejuvenated again in presentation, even though it may be risky in the attempt to scorn the apparent assistance of externality in bringing out the difference, as by choosing new names and the like. — The ethicist concentrates again on marriage, as actuality's dialectically most composite manifestation. Yet he draws forth a new side, and asserts especially the category of time and its significance as the medium for the beauty that grows with time, whereas aesthetically seen time and existence in time is more or less retrogression. *[194]*

By the threefold division the existence-position among the stages is changed in relation to one another. In Enten-Eller the aesthetic standpoint is a possibility of existence and the ethicist existing. Now the aesthetic is existing, the ethicist fighting, fighting *ancipiti proelio* against the aesthetic, which he nevertheless easily overcomes again, not by the seductive gifts of the spirit, but by ethical passion and pathos; and against the religious. In concluding, the ethicist does his utmost to ward off the decisive form of a higher standpoint. That he thus defends himself is in order, since he is not a standpoint, but an existing individuality. It is also a basic confusion in modern science that one without ado confuses the abstract contemplation of standpoints with existing, so that when someone is knowing about the former he is therefore existing; whereas every existing individuality, precisely as existing, must be more or less one-sided. Seen abstractly there is indeed no decisive strife between the standpoints, because abstraction precisely removes that in which the decision lies: the *existing subject*, but nevertheless the immanent transition is a chimera, a fancy, as if the one standpoint determined itself necessarily by itself over to the other, since the category of transition is itself a break with immanence, is a *leap*.

The aesthete in Enten-Eller was a possibility of existence; he was a young, richly gifted, partly hopeful human being who tried himself out on himself and on life, "with whom one could really never get properly angry, because the evil in him, as in the medieval conception of it, had an admixture of the childlike"; and because he was in truth no actuality, but "a possibility of everything": thus the aesthete went, so to

[195] speak, around in the Assessor's living room*). The Assessor was, in relation to him, genial, ethically secure and essentially admonishing, as one somewhat older and more mature relates to a younger one whose talents, whose superiority of spirit he in a way acknowledges, while he has unconditional power over him by security, experience and inwardness in living. In the "Stadierne" the aesthetic emerges more definitely in existence, and therefore it becomes latent in the presentation itself manifest that the aesthetic existence, even where a milder light falls on it, as it is always essentially glittering, is perdition; but it is not a foreign standpoint, like the Assessor's, that makes this clear as a warning to a young person whose life is not yet in the deepest sense decided. To admonish against a decided aesthetic existence is too late, to want to admonish Victor Eremita, Constantin Constantius, the Dealer in Fashions or Johannes the Seducer is to make oneself ridiculous, and to produce as comic an effect as a situation I once experienced: a man snatches in the haste of danger a little child's stick from his child, in order with it — to strike an enormous bandit who had forced his way into the room. Though involved in the danger, I involuntarily burst out laughing, because it looked as if he were beating clothes. The relation between the Assessor and the aesthete in Enten—Eller made it natural and psychologically right that the Assessor was admonishing. However, there was also in that work in the final sense no decision (the Preface), so that the reader could say: see now it is decided. A reader who needs the reliability of a sermon of reproof for a standpoint to be misguided, or an unfortunate outcome (e.g. madness, suicide, poverty etc.), nevertheless sees nothing, he merely imagines it; and as an author to go about it so is womanish, writing for childish readers. Take such a figure as Johannes the Seducer. He who needs him to go mad or shoot himself, in order to see that his standpoint is perdition. He does not see it all the same, but imagines it. He who namely grasps it, he grasps it, just let the
[196] Seducer open his mouth, he hears in every word the perdition and the judgment on him. The reader who needs the external punishment is merely a fool, for one can indeed take a quite decent man and let him go mad, then such a reader believes that it is an unjustified standpoint.

The aesthetic stage is represented by "*in vino veritas*". Those who step forward here are aesthetes, to be sure, but by no means ignorant of the ethical. Therefore they are presented not merely but at the same time as those who clearly know how to

*) Even "Forførerens Dagbog" was only the possibility of terror, which the aesthete in his groping existence had conjured up, precisely because without actually being anything in possibility he had to try himself out in everything.

give an account of their existence. In our time one believes that knowledge decides, and when one merely gets to know the true, the shorter and quicker the better, then one is helped. But to exist is something quite other than to know. — The young man is nearest to being merely a possibility, and therefore still to be hoped for. He is essentially thought-melancholy. Constantin Constantius is hardening of the understanding. Victor Eremita is sympathetic irony. The Dealer in Fashions is demonic despair in passion. Johannes the Seducer is perdition in coldness, a "marked" and extinct individuality. All are consequent to the point of despair. As one will find in the second part of Enten — Eller the answer and correction to every misdirection in the first part, so one will also find here the explanation in the ethicist, only that the ethicist essentially speaks out, and nowhere directly takes account of what, according to the design of the work, he cannot be assumed to be aware of. It is thus left to the reader himself by himself, if it so seems to him, to put it together, but nothing is done for a reader's comfort. It is indeed just what readers so gladly would have, they want to read books in the royal manner, as a king reads a petition, where a marginal summary exempts him from being troubled by the petitioner's prolixity. In relation to the pseudonymous authors this is surely a misunderstanding on the reader's part; for from the impression I have of them, I do not know that they seek anything at all from the lofty majesty of the reading world's majority. It would also strike me as most *[197]* odd. I have namely always thought of it thus, that an author is someone who knows something more or knows the same thing differently from the reader, therefore he is an author, and otherwise he should not concern himself with being an author. On the other hand it has never occurred to me that an author was a suppliant, a beggar at the reader's door, a peddler who, by means of a devil of a chatter and a little gilt finery on the binding, which properly stuck in the daughters' eyes, foisted his writings upon the families.

Johannes the Seducer ends with this, that *woman is only the moment.* This is in its generality the essential aesthetic proposition, that *the moment* is everything, and to that extent essentially nothing again, just as the sophistic proposition that everything is true is that nothing is true. The conception of time is in general the decisive thing for every standpoint right up to the paradox, which paradoxically accentuates time. To the same degree as time is accentuated, to the same degree one advances from the aesthetic, the metaphysical, to the ethical, the religious and the Christian-religious.

Where Johannes the Seducer ends, the Assessor begins: *that woman's beauty increases with the years.* Here time is accentuated ethically, but yet not otherwise than

that the taking back of recollection out of existence into the eternal is possible.

The aesthetic stage is indicated very briefly, and in order to place the accent properly on the religious, it is presumably why the author has called the first "a recollection", in order by pressing this back to bring the ethical stage and especially the religious forth the more.

As regards the content of the writing more closely, I shall not enter further. Its significance, if it has any, will lie in the existence-inwardness of the different stages, differently made visible, in passion, irony, pathos, humor, dialectic. Such things naturally do not occupy docents. Am Ende it was perhaps not unthinkable that a
[198] docent carried courtesy so far that he en *passant* in a comma, in a note to a paragraph in the system, said of this author: he represents inwardness. Then the author and an ignorant reading world have got to know everything. Passion, pathos, irony, dialectic, humor, enthusiasm etc. are regarded by docents as something subordinate, which every human being has. When it is therefore said: he represents inwardness, then with this brief word, which everyone can say, everything is said and much more than the author has said. Everyone knows what he is to think by it, and every docent could easily have accomplished everything in this direction, but left it to reduced subjects. Whether now really everyone knows more concretely what inwardness is, and everyone as an author can accomplish something in this direction, I shall leave undecided. Of everyone who keeps silent, I shall be willing to assume it, but the docents do not keep silent.

Yet, as said, with the content of the writing I have nothing to do. My thesis was that subjectivity, inwardness, is the truth. It was for me the decisive thing with regard to the problem of Christianity, and with the same regard I have thought I ought to pursue a certain striving in the pseudonymous writings, which to the last have honestly refrained from teaching, and to take a preferential regard to the last, because it appeared after my Crumbs, freely reproducing recalls the earlier ones, and through humor as borderland determines the religious stage.

VII
RASMUS NIELSEN AND HANS BRØCHNER

1. Under the influence of Kierkegaard's criticism Rasmus Nielsen gave up theolog- *[199]*
ical speculation and appeared (1849) with a sharp criticism of Martensen's Dogmatics. From this time on he stressed the opposition between experience and speculation and sought by eager studies in natural science to find a new philosophy. In "Grundideernes Logik" (1864—66), which was not completed, he asserts the ideal principles of knowledge as the constant presupposition for the conception of reality that science can give us. But his original conception of science continued to make itself felt, only somewhat faded in comparison with the time when, together with Martensen, he speculated in the light of the divine unity of knowledge and power. "Grundideernes Logik" therefore did not become any continuation of Kierkegaard's critical theory of knowledge. Nevertheless he asserted, with a somewhat different motivation from Kierkegaard's, the sharpest opposition between religion and science. "The Problem of the Heterogeneous Principles" concerned for him partly the relation between idealism and realism ("Knowledge and Power"), partly — in its strongest form — the relation between faith and knowledge. From a treatise of his later years, which may be regarded as his philosophical testament ("Philosophiske Grundproblemer". The Philosophical Faculty's Festschrift on the occasion of the University's 400th anniversary), some pieces are given here.

A. PHYSICS AND METAPHYSICS

Whereas Hegelianism has sought to transform the world of realities into a system of metaphysical concepts, Positivism has, by way of change, thrown all metaphysical ballast overboard, in order to hold exclusively to realities and facts. It is, as is well *[200]*
known, not the realities that conform to our concepts, but on the contrary our concepts that must conform to the realities; the wisest thing philosophy can do is therefore to give up the a priori problems, to leave its old leaky hulk, to go aboard physics' steamer as a passenger, and to take the title of Positivism. In justification of so important a step the celebrated founder of the school, Auguste Comte, has pointed out three stages of development *(trois états),* which the human spirit on its way to the knowledge of truth

must necessarily pass through, *the theological, the metaphysical and the scientific*. At the theological stage one seeks the cause of the phenomena in a supernatural will and lets the arbitrariness of the supernatural will determine the course of things without regard to fixed laws. At the metaphysical stage arbitrariness disappears and makes room for such supersensible, self-valid entities as the Absolute, Substance, Cause, the Idea etc. This intermediate stage has been necessary as a stage of transition from the theological to the scientific ; but in itself the metaphysical standpoint is unfruitful, as can be seen in particular from the endless disputes without result into which it dissolves. Positive philosophy, which stands at the scientific stage, now characterizes itself by regarding the phenomena as subject to unchangeable laws, seeking to reduce these laws to the smallest possible number of fundamental laws, and considering every attempt to penetrate either to the first causes or to the so-called final causes utopian and meaningless.

To exclude metaphysics is fully justified when by the word metaphysics one denotes a science that sets imagination in the place of experience in order to discover the essences and *qvalitates occultæ* of which real things must absolutely consist, unconcerned whether it agrees with reality or not. But against so superficial a conception of the concept of metaphysics protest must be made in the name of reality.

[201] Hegel's "Wissenschaft der Logik" is essentially metaphysics. Whatever imperfections may be pointed out in this Logic, one should nevertheless not accuse the author of fetching his concepts from the world of imagination. Concepts are so inherent in things that no existing thing can avoid corresponding to its concept. The "formation and discipline" of consciousness that Hegel demands on behalf of logic he can with full right demand on behalf of all the sciences. — The relation between physics and metaphysics we can determine thus: Physics forms its concepts after the observed facts, metaphysics develops its concepts from the conditions necessary for all being and existence. To deduce the concretions of the concepts of existence from pure thought is impossible; but to give an account of empirical phenomena without going back to the a priori concepts is also impossible.

B. MATERIALISM AND IDEALISM

Among the most conspicuous problems of the human understanding belongs without doubt the one that revolves around the relation between life and organism,

between soul and body. This problem presses itself upon one as if of itself, and it is then no wonder that both in older and in more recent times it has given occasion to a multitude of different hypotheses, and that these hypotheses, each in its turn, have competed for the dignity of being exalted to dogma. Nor has any problem lain nearer to hand when it was a question of a striking example of the unfruitfulness of philosophical speculations and the imperfection of all human knowledge. If one grapples with this problem, one will soon make the discovery that there is something Protean about it, and that it easily escapes him who does not rightly know where to grasp it in order to hold it fast. One may proceed from the presupposition that appeals to sound sense, that life is different from the organism, that the soul is a relatively independent being in opposition to the body, and yet in the further course *[202]* of the investigations be led to the recognition that soul and body, and then of course also life and organism, cannot each have its own subsistence, but must be assumed to develop from one and the same fundamental principle; the problem *is then this: is the fundamental principle originally to be placed in the ideal or in the real*?

If one makes the ideal principle absolutely valid, conceives life as Idea and the soul as the life-Idea's self-reflection in its immediate other, then the organism becomes a phenomenon of life, the body a phenomenon of the soul. If one conversely makes the real principle absolutely valid, then life becomes a resultant of the forces acting in the organism, and "the soul-specter", a phantom formed by brain functions, shows itself only as a revenant from the darkness of Scholasticism. What above all complicates the matter is the circumstance that however irreconcilable the opposition between idealism and materialism is, it is nevertheless unavoidable that the idealist must express himself materialistically about the psychical, and the materialist idealistically about the bodily, when it comes to the point. *"The brain thinks, just as the stomach digests,"* this proposition is materialistic, insofar as it places the activity of digestion on a level with the activity of thought. The activity of thought is ideal. The idealist knows no purer expression for ideal activity. In wanting to make the ideal activity material, the materialist comes precisely to make the material activity ideal. The idealist, who on account of the unity of being and thought lets matter think, must of course also let the stomach think, conceive the activity of digestion as a dialectical process of concepts, and thereby comes, in his efforts to make a material activity ideal, to make the ideal activity material. Insofar as the idealist is in any way to enter upon particular determinations of organs and organic conditions, he must necessarily speak *[203]* as if matter were really material, and of such categories as bones, muscles, nerves

use words and expressions that immediately correspond to our representations of the bodily. The same holds in the reverse relation for the materialist when he speaks of the psychical. However materialistically the psychical functions are conceived, he is nevertheless compelled to use words such as sensation, feeling, representation, consciousness etc.; but already the immediate and natural understanding of these words transports us with a jerk from the material sphere over into the ideal. When the materialist treats of the consciousness of the brain, the spinal cord, the ganglia, he cannot avoid distributing the lower and higher consciousnesses among organs, so that it looks as if consciousness were nevertheless something ideal for itself; he lets the different consciousnesses fuse into a kind of unity of consciousness, without being able to fuse the organs into a similar unity.

On account of this one might be tempted to the assumption that the opposition between idealism and materialism was not essential, that the strife was only a strife about words; but this is by no means the case: the opposition is one of principle. From the idealist side the matter is understood thus, that the material activity is semblance and appearance of the ideal; materialistically it is understood thus, that the ideal activity everywhere becomes semblance and appearance of the material. That there is semblance and appearance here on both sides proves that reflection is in motion, that there is a fight for a monistic decision. The merely monistic unity is, however, an ambiguous unity, and as long as there is strife for an ambiguous unity, the strife can be continued in all ambiguity. The old dualism was mechanically miraculous, but it was not ambiguous. The miraculous science has thoroughly overcome; but the modern monism, which has set itself in the place of dualism, suffers from an ambiguity that will hinder every true scientific progress as long as it is allowed to remain standing.

[204] To remove the ambiguity it is first of all necessary to come to clarity about how far there is at bottom any difference in principle between the lifeless and the living, and, if such a difference undeniably takes place, then to examine in what it properly consists and what the distinguishing marks are by which it is to be known. Without dwelling on comparisons and descriptions which from a natural-historical standpoint may be orienting for practical use, we shall try to hit the kernel of the matter and draw attention to that which, in our conception, must be the decisive thing. As the distinguishing mark of lifeless activity of whatever kind, mechanical, magnetic, electric, chemical, we hold fast to what physics has demonstrated as law, that action and reaction in all interactions of material members must correspond exactly to one another, so that no self-governing center can be assumed. As the mark of life-activity,

on the other hand, it is emphasized that in the mutual action and reaction of the material points an ideal center forms and with it a conditioned self-activity which alters and governs the interaction of the parts. The facts corresponding to this are metabolism and formation of shape, not immediately each by itself, but in active union. A crystalline form can maintain itself when metabolism is excluded, a metabolism can go on and the form be disturbed; in this there is not a trace of life-activity. But when a metabolism goes on in such a way that a typically determined development of form is maintained during it, then we regard this as an unfailing sign of life's organizing activity. The ideal center of the activity cannot be localized mathematically like a sphere's center of gravity, which is only a resultant of the weight of the parts; nor can it be either a separate material point or a metaphysical real, for in that case it would have to act according to its properties in the manner of other material points or reals. Every whole that rests solely on the interaction of real parts according to properties must, as the theory of potential functions proves exactly, be strictly subject *[205]* to the law of action and reaction: here there is not a trace either of self-active unity or of governing center. Everywhere, on the other hand, where cells form and life expresses itself, there is an intimation of peculiar need, peculiar demands, which require a household of their own; life-activity has the stamp of a governing something which through its other, its material, will assert itself and work for its maintenance and self-development. Characteristic of lifeless things is their complete indifference to the state in which they find themselves. No one will assume that there is in water a hidden yearning to become ice, or in ice a quiet urge to pass over into vapor; on the other hand a plant germinating in the dark, which stretches toward the sunlight, may well be said to betray a striving and yearning. It is a distinguishing mark of life that it has an aim: self-development and self-maintenance is the aim. To struggle for one's life is to have an end in view. It must greatly surprise anyone who has not yet given up all hope of rational insight that researchers of positivistic zeal for an exact knowledge of conditions and causes have rejected every notion of final causes, and yet, as concerns the development of organic forms, have chosen the slogan: *struggle for life.*

With these distinguishing marks of the lifeless and the living we stand before *the problem of the heterogeneous principles.*

C. KNOWLEDGE AND FAITH

Scientific investigations into the essence of faith lead so deep into the mysteries of subjectivity that the problem of the heterogeneous principles in the last instance transforms itself into a decisive boundary problem, *the problem* of *religion and science*, *faith and knowledge*.

It is remarkable in this respect to see how Comte, the founder of Positivism,
[206] after having begun with an objectivity of facts that excludes the subjective, ends by calling feeling and subjectivity to his aid and, in the name of religion and morality, complaining of the spirit's modern revolt against the heart *(l'insurrection moderne de l'esprit contre le cœur)*. His learned and clear-thinking disciple, Littré, has, certainly not without a certain melancholy that does honor to his devotion to the master, pointed out this regrettable inconsistency[*)]. Feeling, says Comte, ought always to rule over intelligence; thus, objected Littré, as in the Middle Ages philosophy was theology's handmaid, so the spirit is now to be the heart's slave. There is something ambiguous in this. If Comte with his expression means nothing other than that the spirit, intelligence in unity with feeling, is to work for the good and the beneficial, then no one will contradict him in this; but if he thereby means that the whole government is to proceed from the heart, then he blinds the heart and gives morality over to all manner of excesses. If he means that intelligence ought not to work for itself or strive after pure truth and abstract theory, then he mutilates humanity and robs it of its mightiest instrument for ennoblement and progress in perfection. It was not the heart, but faith, the blind faith in the authority of revelation, that held the spirit in medieval subjugation. Were the spirit's rising against this subjugation to be ruinous for human souls, then the Middle Ages would, historically seen, have to have more virtues and fewer vices than modern times; but history shows that precisely the opposite is the case. Comte sets the scientifically grounded faith (la foi démontrée) against the revealed faith (la *foi révélée)* and demands then that intelligence shall submit to religion; but what does that mean other than that the spirit shall submit to its own work, thought to its own proofs[†)].

[*)] *Auguste Comte et la philosophie positive.* Paris 1877. p. 539 ff.

[†)] *Work cited, IIIme partie. Chapitre IV. Examen de l'opinion que l'esprit doit être subordonné au cœur. p. 545. En preténdant unir les principes du régime positif avec les conséquences du régime théologique, on tombe dans des contradictions implicites. Subordonner l'esprit á la foi révélée est une notion parfaitement claire; car la révélation émane de la divinité, et, quelque inconcevables que soient les mystères qu'elle ordonne de croire, il n'importe, une autorité devant laquelle l'homme n'est rien a parlé, et il doit soumettre. Mais, dans le régime positif, que peut signifier la subordination de l'esprit à la foi démontrée, puisque cette*

That the principle of freedom cannot find recognition in Positivism goes without saying. By taking the fact to be something in itself objective and holding to realities without real concepts, positivistic philosophy has from the beginning excluded every attempt at a more penetrating knowledge of the subjective essence of freedom. The only scientific way from the objective to the subjective, from necessity to freedom, goes through the real concepts. *Things are determined by their concepts, concepts are determined in being comprehended, and they are comprehended originally by the all-comprehending self-unity, the ontological subjectivity.* If this assumption can be shaken, if it can really be demonstrated that there can be things without concepts, facts without laws, objects without objectivizing selfhood, then there can be talk of holding the necessary fast without freedom and of finding out the really true, the in-itself independent objective, by eliminating the subjective. But if every attempt in this direction, in light of what has been clarified about the problem of knowledge and of reality, is found to be unreasonable and meaningless, then it stands unshakably fast that the whole objective existence is borne by objectivizing subjectivity, that the necessary order of things has its ground in self-determining freedom. Things, facts, which for our empirical investigations are the first determining, are then not in themselves the first; they are a derivative, they exist only as outcome of power. The real concepts, which for our rational analyses are logically determining, are not the first logical: the system of concepts points to an eternal logic in an eternal self-thinking unity. From all sides, through all determinations, whether real or ideal, logical or antilogical, the investigations point as in converging lines toward the all-uniting center, the determining point of departure, the inner ideal causality of real causes and series of causes in outward infinity, i.e. toward the original freedom. *[207]* *[208]*

But what and how much the divine freedom can do, no human being can know. Science has, as regards content, to hold to what is actually at hand, what has been produced and in accordance with the laws is demonstrably produced; we must, in other words, know freedom by necessity. There may then lie in the depth of freedom possibilities of which science has and can have no inkling. The self-conscious life is in the highest sense interested in everything that concerns freedom; since it is now impossible for human knowledge to measure the depths of freedom, there must on that account be questions of life, decisive questions of freedom, which science

foi démontrée n'est pas autre qu'une œuvre de l'esprit lui-même et le résultat d'une longue enquête qui a mis en lumière les lois immanentes du monde? C'est dire le même par le même que l'esprit se subordonne à une foi qu'il a faite, et énoncer une impossibilité que d'énoncer qu'il s'insurge contre cette foi.

cannot answer. What does the eternal spirit want with this nature, what is its proper meaning with the endless swarm of animate organisms that, as it seems, are born only to suffer, and live to die? Above all, what is its intention with the human being? Are the human souls destined to vanish with the dissolution of the present organs, or do they bear in themselves a disposition to a development infinitely continued under other conditions? Science cannot enter into an answer to such questions, for possibility stands against possibility. — —

Are we done with this? By no means. On the neutralizing equilibrium of opposite possibilities it is impossible to live. No free rational human being can lead his life
[209] without a rationally determinate view of life; but a determinate view of life is possible only by virtue of a decisive choice between opposite possibilities; here is the boundary between religion and science, faith and knowledge. The highest to which scientific insight can attain is to clarify the possibilities and show us the necessity of choice; but for the choice itself science itself cannot be responsible: the responsibility rests on the choosing subjectivity. He who chooses to live on a view that sacrifices the individual to the universal, bends freedom down under necessity and lets the self expire in infinite resignation, can appeal to scientific grounds just as little as he who chooses to fight for freedom's personal ideals and to rely on the omnipotence of love. Both choose in faith, and the choice of faith may just as little extinguish the scientific consciousness in the latter as in the former. If we must now admit that only those principles whose claims are justified by scientific grounds are scientific, does it not follow with irrefutable consistency that the principle of faith cannot be a scientific principle?

It is not enough to present the principle of faith and the principle of knowledge as heterogeneous; for even when we hold to Newton's rule: *principia præter necessitatem non esse multiplicanda,* it cannot be denied that within the domains of science there are heterogeneous principles. Some of these, like those of materialism, spiritualism, positivism, idealism, combat each other, expose by mutual criticism each other's one-sidedness and prepare in this way their own dissolution; but there are others that cannot be neutralized in this way. The heterogeneous special sciences have not only each its own material, its own aim and its own method, but also, in consequence of the course of the investigations, each its own peculiar principle: no encyclopedist has yet been able to derive all the sciences from one single principle; but since the sciences
[210] nevertheless, insofar as they are sciences, are homogeneous, the heterogeneity of the principles can only be relative. If we limit ourselves now to calling the principle of faith

and the principle of knowledge heterogeneous principles, we make ourselves guilty of an ambiguity. There must after all be a qualitatively decisive difference between principles which with all their heterogeneity fall within science, and a principle which on account of its unconditionally subjective, personal peculiarity falls outside all science; in order therefore to remove the ambiguity we must expressly impress that the principles of faith and knowledge are absolutely heterogeneous.

It might indeed seem as if the dualistic separation of faith and knowledge had significance only for those who choose to believe in the supernatural facts of a positive religion, but not for those who hold to reason and build their religious conviction on an objective, scientific foundation. This is a great error; Comte's utterance about "the spirit's modern revolt against the heart" is from the standpoint of science a forceful statement of subjectivity's undeniable claim to primacy in the religious. Let one say: "I cannot believe in an almighty, free and fatherly God, for science has convinced me that such a being cannot possibly exist;" another: "I must necessarily believe in a personal God, for science has in speculative dogmatics irrefutably proved that God is personal;" then both make themselves guilty of one and the same failure to recognize subjectivity's share in the proof.

No personal coherent view of life is possible without faith, no essential faith is possible without decisive self-determination, no decisive self-determination is possible without a choice, *no choice is possible without a self-conscious choosing subjectivity, responsible for its choice.* Can such a preponderance of subjectivity in the religious really stand in conflict with science and sound reason?

Science cannot do more than lay before consciousness the possibilities among *[211]* which choice must be made, and illuminate the real grounds; but to transform the grounds into motives, to determine the specific weight of the motives and to relieve subjectivity of the responsibility of choice it cannot do. It might indeed seem as if the responsible subjectivity now suddenly became so independent and self-willed that it could prefer a view of life as mythically fantastic as it wished, without owing either science or reason any account for it. This is indeed also the case with such individualities as do not see what science really is, and in whom reason is still an immature child; but it by no means holds of those who have gained a deeper insight into the essence of science. Even when from inner personal need they choose to believe in the revealed religion and preserve the inherited reverence for the Church and its institutions, they must constantly give science an account, in giving themselves an account; in no case may the human being arbitrarily extinguish the light of reason,

but the pure light of reason burns clearest in science.

It thus becomes a life task to *unite religious faith with scientific consciousness*. How is this possible? The positive content that is appropriated in faith cannot, as Littré assumes, be taken from science; and yet the scientific consciousness must, as far as it can, take part in subjecting this content to a critical examination. We meet here at the highest stage of intellectual life again the double-sided functions. The purifying criticism is at one and the same time a criticism of faith and a criticism of knowledge. The criticism of faith separates out all that does not originally concern the essence of faith; the whole apparatus of tradition in external historical form it regards as a clothing, a sheath in which the holy content is preserved. It will by no means disdain the clothing or break the sheath; but it will nevertheless appropriate
[212] only what the believing subjectivity from inner experience needs as an indispensable condition for the development of its life of freedom. How the criticism of knowledge is everywhere involved can be known by the conception and the valuation of what is handed down. We can illuminate the interaction under the point of view of the two categories: possibility and probability.

The improbable must be believed, but the impossible cannot be believed, this is a fundamental proposition for all faith in revelation. Faith in revelation presupposes the possibility of the miracle, science stands fast on the improbability of the miracle; but faith and knowledge agree in distinguishing between possibility and reality. The possibility of the miracle points to what we must call the perennial wonder, i.e. to the general presupposition that the eternal self-power continues to stand in a relation of freedom, an actual relation of will, to the natural order of things, in which everything proceeds according to laws. That rational knowledge cannot raise any warranted objection to this has been shown in the foregoing. —

No real miracle has ever been demonstrated by compelling historical testimony. The miracle is an external sign of an essential inward thing, of the power of freedom over necessity, of life's victory over death; the miracle is sign and symbol, and does not become more, even if its reality were confirmed by ten thousand sworn eyewitnesses. The given sign is at once an inner and an outer fact; the inner is the really ideal, the essential content of faith, the outer is the wondrous phenomenon that makes visible the presence of the inner. The inner, the essential, is the extraordinary of freedom and love, the improbable for the finite understanding, which can be appropriated subjectively, tested subjectively and be present to consciousness at all times; the external, the phenomenal, is the past, it belongs to a determinate time, and the age's

more or less adequate conception of it is to be determined by approximation according to probability. The criticism of faith can thus appropriate the improbable but yet *[213]* possible, and the criticism of knowledge, as regards the outer appearance of this possible, hold to the probable, and both be agreed that what is miraculous in the sign is *spirit-reality*, *reality for the spirit*. Spirit-reality means that here there really is a content of faith, an unambiguous revelation of the divine will; reality for the spirit means that the outer may not be held fast in so sensuously immediate externality that there can be talk of a breach of the laws of nature. —

The religious faith is in its first immediacy a faith in something historical, a faith in authority that stands fast on a holy, infallible tradition; the naive faith will hear nothing either of the probable and improbable or of the difference between outer and inner, it demands certainty, historical certainty. Now when some external authority goes surety for the historical certainty without entering into critical investigations, it happens that faith from the beginning acquires an admixture of superstition, an admixture that is extremely difficult to separate out when the truth of faith itself is to be preserved. If an external authority is to vouch for the truth, then the criterion of truth is lost; for authority does not work convincingly but imposingly. Every community of faith will then come forward with its myths and its miracles and aim at imposing on the unfortified soul; here there is then no question of which of the many religions has the deepest truth-content, but which of them by its signs and symbols has the best grip on impressing. It is a distinguishing mark of the revealed, i.e. the *subjectively spiritually clear* religion, that it through the external authority everywhere in the name of truth points to the inner, to the authority of the spirit, the witness of the spirit.

The doctrine of two absolutely heterogeneous principles is thus by no means any instruction to detach religion from science, or faith from reason; the dualistic separa- tion is precisely the condition for attaining a reconciling unity: also of faith *[214]* and knowledge it holds that opposite poles attract each other.

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2. While R. Nielsen had begun as a conservative ("right") Hegelian, Hans Brøchner (1820—1875) began as a radical ("left") Hegelian. But his life of thought too received great influence from Kierkegaard, with whom he stood for many years in a close personal relationship. He strove to lead Hegel's speculative ideas back to psychological and ethical points of departure. In his doctrine of "Stadierne" Kierkegaard had

wished to show that a personal life stands the higher, the deeper oppositions it is able to contain without being burst apart. Brøchner found, in accordance with this, the peculiarity of the human in the urge to shape impulses and drives into a harmonious unity, and found the presupposition for this in the capacity to raise oneself above the single, isolated impulses and sensations. This development takes place with inner necessity, and even where isolation and defiance, the characteristic marks of evil, prevail, a reconciliation is nevertheless possible, in that an inner contradiction will be felt in going wholly up in something finite and limited. The spiritual development, which is thus always possible, rests on science's understanding of existence. But since existence is never exhausted by experience, a faith is necessary in which a more perfect unity and coherence is anticipated. The object of faith is a principle of unity, which can be designated as spirit or thought, but not as personality, since only a finite being can be personality. — This conception Brøchner developed — in his very abstract language — in his writing "Om det Religiøse i dets Enhed med det Humane" (1869), whose concluding section is to be given here. Of Brøchner's other writings his works on the history of philosophy are especially to be noted.

HUMANISM AND RELIGION

1. From all the earlier developments it follows as a result that there can be an essential unity between the religious consciousness and the humane consciousness,
[215] "cultural consciousness", and this unity can and will, because it is grounded in human nature, assert itself notwithstanding that the religious, where it still has the form of the *positively religious*, comes into *opposition* to the humane, as the essence of both begins to become clear to consciousness. In this opposition the religious consciousness holds fast the dogma of the supranatural, the supranatural principle of knowledge and the supranatural principle of will, whereas the humane consciousness holds fast the essentiality of nature as the foundation of human life, and the capacity of the unaltered, complete human nature to attain, out of its own inner being, to the truth of knowledge and of action, whose source the human being harbors in himself. This opposition, which within Christianity came forth to consciousness at the close of the Middle Ages, became clearer and clearer, under the unfolding of philosophical thought, in the following centuries, and there developed, from realistic as well as from idealistic presuppositions, an opposition to the Christian view of the world and of life, and philosophy's strife against the religious either determined directly the

common consciousness or at least indirectly influenced the development by which in modern times this consciousness removed itself from the Christian and from the positively religious in general.

There might indeed, during the development of the opposition, and while this development partly led to open struggle, still for a time be *partly* preserved an uncertainty. A single form of philosophy could, by acquiring through its one-sidedly idealistic principle an abstract likeness to the Christian view of the world, deceive itself and seek a unity where the opposition was yet the fundamental thing. And since the Christian had constantly had alongside itself a development which was influenced by it, even if this had its root in another principle of life and was borne by the conception of nature and of human life inherited from antiquity, which the new age independently reacquired, that which had developed simultaneously with *[216]* Christianity, partly under its influence, but from another principle, could be taken as something that had proceeded from Christianity itself, so that it was thus seen as the principle which from its inner fullness of life could unfold a content of reality, in science, in art, in the forms of the moral and political life. And thus even in our time the view which, by positing a relative unity of the Christian and the humane, sees in Christianity the principle for the shaping of a world-reality in the religious spirit, could stand over against the view which conceives Christianity as relating itself only negatively to the natural and to the unfolding of human life in real reality, and has its representatives just as much within the positively religious as within the humane. But there can be no uncertainty as to which of the two opposite conceptions is the true and the historically secured, if one does not let oneself be confused by the unavoidable inconsistencies into which a religion that posits the denial of the world, the denial of nature as its principle, must fall, when it is to *continue to exist in the alien* world, whose destruction within a short time was the original expectation. One need only analyze the Christian representations of the purely spiritual God, of creation out of nothing, of the God-man, of the state of salvation and of the end of the world, and the *abstractly spiritualistic* character of Christianity, its *denial of the natural* and thereby also *of the reality-content of human life*, will become indubitable. And when to this is now joined what Christianity must share with every positive religion: *the relegation of the principle of truth, of theoretical* and *practical truth, to a transcendent being*, over against which the human being stands as the merely finite, as that which by its nature is powerless to find the truth, and when this conception is seen as sharpened by the Christian representation of the state of sinfulness and *[217]*

the consequences of the first sin, then the opposition between the Christian and the humane view of the world and of life must show itself as complete.

But under this opposition between the positively religious in its highest form and the principle and content of the humane consciousness there shows itself nevertheless not only the possibility, but the necessity, of a reconciliation in the spirit, by which the humane and the religious are brought to unity, and to such a reconciliation the development of the modern age itself has led.

As the modern consciousness became clear about its opposition to the Christian-medieval, the opposition to the transcendent supranatural could, by its abstraction, lead to a *finite conception of nature* and *of human life;* but this conception ends in consequences that must lead the spirit back to the recognition of the religious according to its *essential* significance, according to its *content of infinity*. The humane consciousness is forced by the finitude of "real reality" and by its own finitude to seek an infinite, and finitude harbors in itself the trace of the infinity by which it has being. Consciousness rediscovers the infinite in that *nature*, which for materialism became contradictory and inexplicable, shows itself to the spirit in the light of *life and ideality*, and *in that consciousness deepens itself into itself,* and recognizes its relation to the *living* reality's *ideal-real principle*. In this deepening the self rediscovers the *religious* relation, rediscovers it by the road of *knowledge*, and rediscovers it *without giving up itself and without denying a fundamental activity of* its being. The humane consciousness becomes, in seeking down to the ground of its being, in truth *ethical* consciousness, and as such *religious* consciousness. Only through this relation of unity does the humane consciousness receive its truth, as surely as the human spirit first becomes conscious of itself in the deepest sense when it becomes conscious of
[218] itself *as grounded in the divine*, and as freely subordinate to it. And the religious receives in unity with the humane concretion and *reality*, and has in this its concrete reality its *truth as principle of the totality of real human life*. In this unity the religious reconciliation becomes *complete*, because the life of religion is not lived by a flight from the reality of human life, by a denial of essential forms of expression of it: a denial that must always become self-contradictory, since it becomes possible only by the very powers of human nature; — but is lived in *every* essential form of the life of the spirit, and has its positive expression in these forms of life, so that the religious relation becomes an *absolute* relation, embracing the *whole* of life, and joining the human spirit with its *essential* Absolute, with *the truly infinite*. And in this unity there is preserved, with the *absolute relation* and with the *reconciliation*, —

the spirit's reconciliation *with its principle* and in *its own inner being*, — *what in the positive religions is essential*, while the historical form is dissolved, the transcendence of representation sublated in the relation of immanence, in which transcendence becomes a moment.

2. The *essential task* of the present writing can thus be defined as this, *to point to the* form of *religiosity*, *which is present, though often unclear and half-conscious, in the humane consciousness* of our time, which, more clearly or more dimly, has proclaimed itself in this consciousness *from the beginning of modern times*, which has made itself felt in the social and moral relations, in the endeavors of humanity, in the form of intellectual life in general, and which needs only to be *liberated and clarified* through consciousness's self-deepening, in order to show itself in its essentiality, as one with what is deepest moving in the positive religions and as one with the innermost essence of the human spirit. It is the *religion of reality*, which is not to be founded or created, but only pointed out as being and as grounded in the law of *[219]* development of the human spirit; — which is not to be a rationalizing transformation of a positive religion or even a new positive religion, but *the expression of the eternal spirit of religiosity* as *the principle of life of the whole of human life*. Therefore the task has been to show this true and eternal religion of reality as that in which the *total* human life is in unity and harmony, and in which therefore the *humane consciousness* can find *religious reconciliation*. The solution of the problem of the relation of faith and knowledge has therefore been sought from that which in the infinite human being has the primacy of the concept, but in such a way that what is peculiar in the essential forms of expression of the human spirit is recognized, that the working of the human spirit according to its concrete determinateness has come to its validity. What was intimated in the introduction to the writing: "Problemet om Tro og Viden", has received its closer execution. In the *essence of the human spirit the necessity of the religious relation* has been sought, and it has shown itself as the necessity of a truly *absolute relation*, of a *true relation of infinity*, of such a relation in which the *full reconciliation*: the reconciliation *within reality*, can be found, in that the human spirit, in the *absolute devotion to the principle*, comes to be in *inner unity with itself*. In this relation *religion, science* and *morality* are seen in inner unity. From the recognition of the natural ground of the human spirit as essential through the relation to the absolute principle, reference has been made to an *ethical* action, which receives a *content of reality* through this natural ground, and which, in taking on the stamp of the *religious*, *fills* the *religious* with *reality* and, more closely, with a *thought-determined, rational*

reality.

3. The standpoint that has been asserted in this writing thus does *not set an*
[220] *abstract metaphysical* in the place of *religious life-reality*. It finds in the principle itself the guarantee for the essentiality of the real, and by accentuating this it provides room for a *relation of freedom* as opposed to the abstract metaphysical relation of necessity, and secures the essential significance of the necessary form of being of the real for the ethical-religious relation; and thereby, and by letting this relation embrace a concrete totality of life, it asserts it precisely as a *reality*-relation. That there is everywhere a going back to metaphysical determinations does not conflict with this; for the metaphysical retains its *universal* validity; but it must only be determined in such a way that it points *to the real*, to the conditions of life of the finite *reality*.

The standpoint that has been asserted cannot rightly either, as some have wished, be designated as a negative, and as such be brought together with the standpoints from which the attacks on the Christian have been made that belong to our time and the one immediately preceding. Its relation to the most significant representative of the negative tendency of our time, to *Feuerbach*, has been presented in detail above. Through that presentation, and through all the earlier developments in general, it will have been shown that it relates itself negatively to the positive religions only in that it negates the determinateness of *finitude* in them, but that through this negation it precisely strives to assert *the infinity of the essentially religious*. From this point of view the standpoint is precisely to be designated as *positive*: the negative becomes a determination for one who, in that he relates himself polemically from a *one-sided* point of departure, *can only tear down*, and for one who *consciously holds fast the determinateness of finitude*. —

Should anyone nevertheless, from the negative relation I take to the moment of finitude in the positive religions, while I strive to assert what is essential, eternal and infinite in the religions, want to take occasion to fling out, in the manner of sycophants,
[221] the accusations, calculated on ignorance and always welcome to fanaticism, of atheism, smoldering hatred of Christianity, and whatever else the catchwords are, then it shall on my part be answered only with the silence that is that of contempt. I have once in another writing expressed myself on my personal relation to the positive religion, and it is meaningless to repeat a statement of that kind.

VIII
THE LAST GENERATION

1. Sofus Heegaard (1835—1884) developed as a philosopher under the strong *[222]* influence of Rasmus Nielsen, whose line of thought underlies his "Indledning til den rationelle Etik" (1866). Later, through the study of Kant and the more recent English philosophers, he was led to a critically searching standpoint. In his book "Om Intolerance" (1878), from which a piece is given here, he expressed a pronounced individualism, particularly in the settling of religious problems. That was not to be his last word. When sorrow and illness broke in upon him, he found his only refuge in the faith of the church, as he expressed beautifully and inwardly in the preface to the second edition of his book "Om Opdragelse".

THE DOGMATIC AND THE CRITICAL TYPE OF MIND

We live on possibilities. However firmly we grow on the trunk of society; however securely we rest in the present, in our daily work, in business and friendship, in the familiar, in custom and usage; however confidently we trust that this outer, sensible and palpable reality is the solid thing, of whose reality only fools can doubt; however trustfully we live in the comfort of the home and under the shelter of the notion that in this our privatissimum we are unassailable, that here the possibilities have no power over us — it all avails nothing: the ground sways, and each day leads us surely and inexorably one step nearer to the border where the land of riddles begins. The thoughtful person is aware that these are hard terms to live on; but he knows also *[223]* that the world is not arranged for his convenience. The strict school of possibilities need not, however, make him despondent; it often wakens the best in his nature and calls forth a nobility in the way of thinking and a spirit of reconciliation that under less hard terms would perhaps not have come forth. Thus the thoughtful person takes up his share of the burden, or thus he can at least take it up.

The less thoughtful person, by which of course is not meant the less gifted person, goes about it differently. He *will* not know of these possibilities; he *will* not see them or hear them spoken of; they *must* not be there at all. He therefore chooses, like the ostrich, to stick his head into a bush and pretend that nothing is the matter. But

whoever you are, I give you this friendly advice: Take care! For however secure you feel, and however surely you tread the earth, do not forget that the earth too floats. Do not forget that *if* you are mistaken in your self-assurance, you will sooner or later get the consequences to the last farthing!

The difficulty consists in one's not being willing to take on the burdensome task that life lays upon us, of living on *possibilities*.

Here society steps in and consoles the terrified: Just come to me, says society; I shall not frighten you with possibilities; I have reality in full measure. Here you see first the highway of tradition, fenced in with railings on both sides; it has now been traveled for millennia, is free of robbers and extremely convenient to travel on. Here, further, are the institutions, practical forms that have been worked out to the finest detail; here are the church system, the school system, the theater system, the health system, the poor-relief system, etc. I give you, society goes on, everything your heart desires; I feed you, I amuse you, I instruct you, I console and edify you; I have a police force that protects you, and a military establishment that steps in when the danger
[224] becomes imminent. Just fit yourself into my forms, and no one shall touch a hair on your head. And why should you hesitate? I know you, after all, as a respectable man and honest citizen, who abhors both what stands out and what disturbs the peace. So do not trouble yourself about those restless heads who make a stir on every occasion; they achieve nothing anyway. But this much I will tell you, that I do not bargain. Either you must belong to me wholly and entirely, or else I will know nothing of you at all. Once you have joined me, you cannot move a foot, stir a finger, write a line or utter a thought without carrying it out inside my system and under my control. There is only a single case where I cannot control you, and that is when you *think* your thoughts. Therefore I have also once for all declared thoughts duty-free; but I candidly confess that in this I have only made a virtue of necessity; for if I *could* control you there too, I would do so. Besides, you need not fear my control. Only be like all the others, and you shall never notice any compulsion.

Thus speaks society, and its offer is tempting. Yet, in order not to be unjust, I ought to add that here I am speaking of the strivings of society according to their "ideal average" or in principle, whereas reality makes many an exception to this. It is solely the interest in characterizing the opposition between the demands of society and those of personality that makes both appear in such sharp outline.

On the one side, then, the possibilities of life, which rise up as grave and admonishing figures in the background of personality; on the other side society with its

living, colorful reality, without doubt or weighing of alternatives, but everything definitely formulated and registered. Between these two great powers every human being is placed, and at this parting of the ways are formed the manifold *types of mind*, which together make up the human world, and which, despite their numerous shades, *[225]* can nevertheless all be referred to two basic forms. For brevity's sake I shall call these two basic forms the dogmatic and the critical type of mind, for which I unfortunately do not know sufficiently descriptive Danish expressions; but the reality of the matter will emerge of itself in what follows.

The *dogmatic type of mind* pays homage to society. It prefers to have its affairs clear. There must be order in things, it says, and therefore we must beg to be excused from all swaying and floating possibilities. If a question concerns me, then this question must put up with being definitely formulated, definitely answered and then entered in the ledger. If there are questions that cannot be treated in this way, then for that very reason they do not concern me. To express oneself in this way is called speaking *absolutely*; and the propositions in which one expresses oneself are called *dogmas*. A barracks regulation, a police notice, all the accepted laws of society are in fact so many dogmas, although as a rule one does not use the word in this connection. No society can exist without dogmas. This is in itself no sign of the perfection of society, but is called forth by hard necessity. We cannot wait until the order of society has been scientifically grounded, since in the meantime people would kill one another; therefore we take a shortcut and arrange ourselves with dogmas, in that in the affairs of society we decline to have the individual play with possibilities. If a colonel were to engage a battalion of free personalities and drill with possibilities, we should get a charming military establishment. The police do not bargain with every Tom, Dick and Harry, but quite dogmatically take all "free personalities" in the police sense by the scruff. It holds everywhere here that the law is the same for all, and that everyone who wants to form an exception to the rule gets ground down. It is constantly one and the same main thought that recurs under different forms: the basic dogma of society *[226]* rests on uniformity and sameness of kind. Understood in principle, society does not merely stick its soldiers and policemen into uniform, but wants throughout to put all its members in uniform also in spiritual respects. Entirely it does not succeed in this; special groups or parties form, as for example in political life; but within the party the society-forming power works on restlessly. The political party again has the essential marks of society. One political party speaks absolutely in these dogmas; the other political party speaks absolutely in the directly opposite dogmas; but absolutely they

all speak.

If one turns to science or art, one finds the dogma again *in optima forma*; in science, moreover, in two forms. The *positive* dogmatists of science are known from so-called speculation. To concede the limits of their knowledge, to admit without reservation that there is infinitely much they do not comprehend or grasp, they regard half as a disgrace, or as something beneath their dignity; and even if they sometimes, in a fit of modesty, make this concession in hazy generality, they take the concession back in each particular case. These positive dogmatists know the secret of force and matter, know perfectly well what cause and effect are, explain to us the nature of the soul from the ground up and guarantee us a multitude of things about which otherwise no human being knows anything.

The *negative* dogmatists also have their specialty; they know especially thoroughly what is not; and that is always something. Now if the positive dogmatists with their scientific omniscience can tell us what is, and the negative dogmatists with *their* scientific omniscience can tell us what is not, and one then puts both together, science has a fine future. The negative dogmatists know, for instance, that there exists no God, and conclude with logical sharpness that there exists no personal God either.
[227] They also know for certain that there is no existence of the soul after death. They present proof that moral freedom is a fancy, that remorse is a folly and that moral evil vanishes in the totality of the world. I am not speaking here of those who treat these views as possibilities; for that they are, scientifically speaking, fully entitled. I speak only of those who present them as if they were secured through proof.

These positive and negative dogmatists in turn represent the formula of society correctly. They speak absolutely and express themselves in dogmas. Not a single one of their dogmas can they prove, but sure of their cause they are.

The result of all these assertions is the following: The value of all scientific dogmas for the existence of God, for the immortality of the soul, for freedom, plus the dogmas against the same, is in science = zero. Of all these things nothing is *known*.

Thus we see the circles of society formed after the same type of mind: Here one speaks absolutely, here one commands through dogmas, all and everything shall be uniform. In this way the great machine of society works, and each section of the machinery carries out the order correctly. Offer a party man, no matter within which sphere, the tip of a finger, and he takes your whole person. Make him in good nature the slightest concession, and he entangles you in the net of consequences, strips you of all peculiarity, all independence and in a twinkling transforms you into a means.

He may himself be extremely honorable, but the formula of society works through him and bleeds you. He whom experience has taught this sees the necessity of always being cleared for action.

Thus far we have still slipped through so graciously in the negotiations between personality and society. Certainly at the stages just mentioned there occur many sorts of conflicts, and often of a serious nature, but none of them is so deep-going that it *[228]* acquires decisive significance for the question we are treating here. I have therefore left them out of consideration so far and held the formula of society in abstract purity.

But as soon as we come to *the religious domain*, abstractions no longer help. It is indeed the same concepts and the same oppositions that we meet again here, but the reality is changed. The spiritual atmosphere we here enter refracts the light in another way, and life shows itself in new colors. . . .

The *civil* dogma personality submits to even in such cases where it conflicts with his views, because this dogma addresses only the *common* human element in him, or at least that which he has *in common* with the other members of his society.

Against the *religious* dogma personality protests, of course on the assumption that his view conflicts with the command of the dogma; and he protests because *this* dogma, unlike all other dogmas, addresses that in him which he *has not in common* with any other human being in the whole world.

He protests next because the religious dogma speaks absolutely, and this time the absoluteness is in earnest. Here it is not hidden, as with the civil dogma, beneath manifold relativities, which in turn could lead to manifold compromises. No, this time the dogma commands without reservation, and is to be understood literally. The first thing personality does, then, is to reject the dogma as dogma. Perhaps it is found later that he is in reality in agreement with what the dogma bids; perhaps not; but first of all he rejects the dogma, because it presents itself *as dogma*, and he cannot do otherwise. In its innermost being personality is namely as manifest to itself as it can ever become; here neither dissimulation nor defiance is possible. As personality inexorably sits in judgment on itself in conscience, so it decides for itself what it will *[229]* believe and hope. I say "will", but could just as well have said "can" or "must"; for will, can and must coincide here. Here we are, that is, at the end of the "blind alley", at what the philosophers call *Causa* sui, and however much we strive to get behind personality, all our exertion is in vain.

Personality must and will be self-determining in its own affair; but the religious dogma speaks absolutely and will not concede to personality the right of

self-determination. Here is the first decisive point of tension between personality and society.

The personality that in the religious relation asserts the right of self-determination to the utmost, that does not let any dogma be prescribed to it, but, if it comes under the absolute command of the dogma, again does so in virtue of self-determination, belongs to the so-called *critical type of mind*. Here solitude is the decisive thing, the forms of society stand in second rank; yet not so that personality should despise society or withdraw from any duty to society. On the contrary, it recognizes that in society it has an indispensable point of passage, if it is otherwise to acquire a content in its solitude, which again is only an abstract expression of the fact that it remembers a long series of benefactions, direct and indirect, that it has received, and which, if one is not especially thoughtless or ungrateful, call forth the feeling of being at home, the quiet joy in the traditions of one's people and the certainty that in the hour of danger one would stand by one's countrymen through thick and thin and, if occasion offered, be shrewd and brave if one could thereby benefit society, all of which is summed up in the beautiful word love of country. This alone personality guards itself against: losing itself in the universal, becoming "uniform". The critical mind is vividly aware that its relation to society is only at an oar's length, and that the moment will come
[230] when it and society part; after this moment society may be society as much as it will — personality has left it forever. If such a personality is fortunately placed, he will not be lured into the snares of vanity, pleasure or lust for power, because he has a clear notion that in the midst of society he *is* alone, and that in time he *will become* so still more. He will not let this thought come forth merely as a figure of speech, but will in stillness and earnest let it gain power over his life.

If he is placed under unfavorable conditions, feels himself unhappy, he will not despise the consolation that *this life* comes to an end. Thereby he does not give up his exertion and become dull; that the critical mind never becomes. He asserts only his right to complain when he suffers; he asserts his right not to delude himself that he is glad when he is sorrowful. But this much is certain, that whatever allurements on the one side, whatever sufferings on the other side are held out to the critical mind, it never denies solitude as its true fatherland. It maintains strictly that further than to possibility we do not get in this life; and since the religious dogma puts absolute reality in place of possibility, it protests against the dogma *as dogma*, regardless of what it may otherwise contain. It *believes* that by whatever line on the compass personality may steer, if only it does not show false colors to itself, the way leads

toward the spirit of truth.

When therefore the time comes that my vessel pushes off from land, and I set out on the long journey, I want to have aboard only what is stamped with my own mark, and whether on this journey I have a fair wind or struggle with stiff storms; whether in the murk of night I capsize and go down, or I descry the stars of eternity and sail toward a new dawn, *I myself sit at the helm.*

2. HARALD HØFFDING (b. 1843). Principal works: Psykologi i Omrids paa Grundlag af Erfaring (1882. 5th ed. 1905). Etik (1887. — 3rd ed. 1905). Religionsfilosofi (1901. 2nd ed. 1906). Filosofiske Problemer (University program 1902). Den nyere Filosofis Historie (1894—95. — 2nd ed. 1903). — Here a psychological and a philosophy-of-religion piece are given. *[231]*

A. REPETITION AND THE LIFE OF FEELING

Frequent *repetition* weakens the vehemence of feeling. The background against which it originally unfolded necessarily becomes more and more indistinct; a distribution of light and shadow sets in, so that the contrast gradually falls away. This process is only a form of the general *adaptation,* which belongs to all life. Under all conditions the living strives to come into equilibrium with its conditions. For feeling it often has the effect that freshness and enthusiasm are replaced by indifference and routine and at last stand as an inexplicable memory. Adaptation damps, in that it causes the functions to be performed with less expenditure of energy. But this, which is a saving and therefore a gain when the subject is orientation in the surrounding world and active doing, is a loss when the subject is feeling. The element of wonder that is in all living feeling seems to be lost entirely through repetition. — That there must come repetition lies in the fact that the experiences of a finite being are always limited; the changes must necessarily form a cycle.

S. Kierkegaard has taken this psychological law as the starting point for demonstrating the boundary between "aesthetic" and ethical conduct of life. In awakening and enthusiasm we are in an attitude of enjoyment, in that we are seized by the strong influence. The ego lets itself be carried away by the waves of feeling that break forth arbitrarily. But in daily work, under the depressing and damping influence of repetition it shall be shown whether feeling possesses any other strength than that momentary flaring up. Every firm and lasting relation to other human beings, every labor on the successive realization of an idea entails repetition and seems bound *[232]*

to exclude the immediate surrender to the movement of feeling that was so easily awakened when the relation was established, or when the idea was conceived. Characteristic of the "aesthetic view of life" is it, according to Kierkegaard, that every relation of life is only an object of enjoyment; it is touched upon, in order to get the fresh influence, but repetition (in constant activity or constant living together) is shunned, because it has nothing stimulating in it, but causes dullness. Enjoyment is seized in the single moment, but one breaks off in good time, so that the following moments too may get their fresh enjoyment. With playful arbitrariness one therefore holds oneself hovering in relation to all relations. The "ethical view of life" chooses repetition, in that a calling is chosen that demands constant work, or in that a constant relation of living together is entered. The problem for Kierkegaard was now how a transition from one stage to the other was possible, — how it was possible to "will repetition"*). To will repetition presupposes that one neither fears it (like the "aesthetes") nor is dulled by it (like the "philistines").

But while Kierkegaard poses the problem in a way that betrays his brilliant
[233] psychological eye, it is striking to see with what haste he turns his back on psychology. The problem, by his assertion, cannot be solved with the help of psychology. To live in repetition without feeling's being weakened is, according to him, possible only through an inexplicable act of will, supernaturally grounded. He has overlooked that there is a psychological law of nature on which the ethical demand can rely, — as indeed ethics, if it is not to hover in the air or be a constant appeal to the supernatural, must build on what is psychologically possible. Every act of will must be psychologically possible.

Two kinds of strength must be distinguished in the domain of the life of feeling. There is a strength of vehemence, and there is a strength of inwardness. It is only the first that is weakened by repetition; the second kind of strength can precisely be produced by repetition. Vehemence rests on the sudden release of accumulated energy. Here the effect of contrast plays a great role; surprise, wonder, the feeling of novelty are essential elements in the state. But the energy can also be released

*) "He who will only hope is cowardly; he who will only recollect is voluptuous; but he who wills repetition is a man.... When one has sailed around existence, it shall be shown whether one has the courage to understand that life is a repetition, and the desire to rejoice in it." *Gentagelsen.* Et Forsøg i den experimenterende Psykologi. Af Constantin Constantius. Kbhv. 1843. p. 5. — A characteristic expression of the aesthetic view of life is the essay *Vexeldrift* in the first part of "Enten—Eller". — On the significance of repetition in Kierkegaard's thought see further my book *Søren Kierkegaard som Filosof.* p. 83—98. — In a manner analogous to Kierkegaard, Fr. Nietzsche has made use of repetition to illuminate his view of life. See my book *Moderne Filosofer,* p. 145 f. 156 f.

successively, distributed over a longer time and over several different points. This can happen when the object of feeling has a manifold content that successively reveals itself, and which perhaps is discovered only when a certain adaptation to the content has taken place, just as small streaks of light in a dark room are discovered only when one has stayed there for a longer time. The constant occupation or the constant living together produces a new level, a new real self, in relation to which fluctuations of feeling become possible that otherwise could not arise. This is a main point in the *psychology of fidelity.* When a relation to another human being is established, or when an idea is conceived, feeling is determined especially by the contrast to the preceding state, and the element of wonder becomes the predominant element. But after this relation of contrast has fallen away with the novelty, attention can get time to turn to the single sides of the object. There takes place, so to speak, an analysis, which makes it possible that feeling can be determined by the single sides and properties of *[234]* the object, not merely by the total impression of the object. The inner wealth (if it is there) takes the place of outer splendor. In the course of adaptation the object of feeling opens up its nature and presents itself under different points of view, and on the other hand the different elements in the individual's own nature are brought into interaction with the object. Within the fundamental relation there may thus be found a manifoldness of changing relations. Feeling is therefore spread over an ever greater domain of life and can be fed by many more sources than at first. So it goes, e.g., in the relation to a human being with whom we live together. The inner growth the feeling has undergone often first becomes clear when the relation is put to the test; there may then again take place a conversion from the distributed to the concentrated form, whereby it appears that the capital invested has borne interest.

Here it depends on *how rich and comprehensive a content* the feeling is attached to. The narrower our ego, that is to say: all that to which our interest is attached, the more quickly the possibilities for a new and fresh feeling are exhausted. Here the sympathetic feelings show their superiority over the egoistic. A comprehensive sympathy, the attachment of interest to great and significant objects, preserves freshness or makes new freshness possible despite the depressing influence of repetition. Such a feeling is a rebirth of the original sanguineness, which begins by attributing value and reality to every arising representation, but easily turns into dullness or discouragement under the influence partly of repetitions, partly of disappointments.

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From Goethe's *Briefe* aus *der Schweiz* a beautiful example is put forth here to illus-

trate the influence of repetition on feeling. — The subject is the sublime impressions of a mountain journey in Switzerland. — "A young man whom we took with us from Basel said that he did not have the same feeling as the first time, and gave novelty the
[235] credit. I would, however, say to this: when we see such an object for the first time, the unaccustomed soul first expands, and this brings about a painful joy, an overflowing fullness, which moves the soul and draws voluptuous tears from us. Through this operation the soul becomes greater in itself without knowing it, and is no longer able to have that first feeling. Man believes he has lost, but he has gained: *what he loses in delight, he gains in inner growth.*"

Something is thus unavoidably lost that cannot be regained. It goes with the budding feeling as with the first breath of the newborn, in which the lung is first distended in such a way that it is never afterwards entirely emptied; no later breath can therefore be like the first. To that extent repetition is impossible. But pessimism wrongly regards this as a great loss; seen from another side it is a great gain. It depends on each individual's view of life from which side he comes to see the matter.

The different significance that repetition or adaptation can have for the vehemence of feeling and for its inwardness leads us to bring forward the opposition that the older psychology (especially after KANT's excellent presentation in *Anthropologie* § 71) set up between "affect" and "passion," or, as I prefer to call them: emotion and disposition. By *emotion* is understood a sudden surging up of feeling, which for a while overwhelms the mind and checks the free and natural connection of the elements of knowledge. *Disposition,* on the other hand, is the feeling that has become nature, woven in. It may have arisen from a series of emotions; but it may also have formed by continuous growth through changes that each by itself attracted no attention. What emotion is in the single moment, with violent, striking movement, disposition is in the depths of the mind as a saved-up sum of force that lies ready for use. Therefore disposition does not exclude deliberate reflection; on the contrary,
[236] it finds its expression in a thought dominating the whole circle of representations. "Affect", says Kant, "acts like water that breaks through a dam, passion like a stream that digs itself ever deeper into its bed. Affect is like an intoxication that can be slept off, passion like a madness that broods over a thought that strikes ever deeper root."

Feeling often begins with emotion and passes — if it finds constant nourishment — over into disposition. Anger and grief are emotions, vindictiveness and melancholy are kinds of disposition. The deepest and most central current in a human being's nature is his ruling disposition, which is conditioned and introduced by his innate

nature, fed, developed and clarified by all movements of feeling and experiences. — Repetition has a different influence on emotion and on disposition: the former is weakened by it, the latter can be nourished.

Just as emotion can pave the way for disposition, the latter can give itself vent as emotion, although it can also find its satisfaction in a well-considered and calm fashion. — By the way in which disposition gives itself vent, emotions of another kind than itself may be awakened. Thus when love of country in the moment of danger awakens warlike courage and lust for battle. Or when in the carrying out of a plan of murder that springs from cold self-interest cannibal impulses are awakened, so that the murderer maltreats his victim in a way that is not necessary for his purpose. Between emotion (affect), which is a momentary flaring up, and disposition ("passion"), which rests on an ingrained disposition of feeling fixed by repetition, lies *mood,* the preliminary attunement of consciousness to a certain kind of feeling. It designates a more lasting state than emotion, but has not, like disposition, grown strong. It does not lead immediately to outward action, neither to sudden outbursts, like emotion, nor to constant activity, like disposition. — Within one and the same mood there may again take place *ripples,* e.g., by the changing tones in a piece of *[237]* music, which nevertheless throughout awakens the same mood, or by the different elements in a series of memories which nevertheless throughout maintain one and the same mood. The ripples are feelings of relation in higher degree than the mood, just as the emotions are so in higher degree than the disposition.

B. THE RELIGIOUS PROBLEM AND ITS FUTURE

In the course of the last centuries it has become clearer and clearer that the significance of religion cannot consist in the scientific understanding of existence which it was supposed to be able to afford. Negatively this is grounded in the fact that science leads to understanding by other paths and in other forms than religion. Positively it is grounded in the growing psychological insight into the nature of religion, which leads to stressing the elements of feeling and will as the essential in religion, whereas the significance of representations is relatively subordinate. The conclusion of this whole series of changes can only be the acceptance of the symbolic or poetic character of all religious representations.

If now the need to maintain the persistence of value holds on after the poetic character of all mythical and dogmatic representations has been seen through, then the continuity of human spiritual development can be preserved at a very essential point. It is not a philosophy that thereby comes to take the place of religion. It is one kind of faith that takes the place of other kinds of faith. Faith can only ever be the *object* of philosophy, not the *product* of philosophy, except in so far as philosophy can demonstrate the psychic possibility of a certain faith under certain spiritual conditions of life. The philosophy of religion investigates the epistemological, psychological and ethical conditions to which every kind of faith is subject. But it can construct no
[238] faith; it can only describe, analyze and evaluate the faith that life itself at different standpoints leads to develop. The philosophy of religion is a comparative science; it investigates the standpoints of faith and the forms of faith in their relation to the spiritual conditions of life and in their struggle with these, just as comparative biology investigates the organic beings in their relation to and their struggle with the material conditions of life. And it finds — as far as I can see — the possibility and the progressive development of a religious standpoint without myth, dogma and cultus, a fruit of personal experiences that give themselves expression in a poetry of life, which forms itself differently according to the peculiarity of the individual. Even if images and symbols from the classical times of the positive religions are retained, this happens at such a standpoint with historical and psychological justification. First, such reinterpretation as is necessary here is constantly undertaken within the positive religions. And second, the great poetry that is often deposited in myths and dogmas is not the special property of the single people, the single church or sect, but belongs to humanity and is at the disposal of anyone whose experience of life goes in the same or an analogous direction as the experience to which those images owe their first origin or formation. But there are those in whom the image- and symbol-forming process goes on at first hand, whether its fruits can acquire significance for the individual alone or for more with him. —

The positive religions that history knows can, psychologically considered, be conceived as concentrations, syntheses, in which men's representations of existence have been worked together, interwoven with their deepest experiences of life. No proof can be given that the time of such spiritual concentrations should be past, even if for the present we live in the time of criticism and analysis. And neither can any proof be given that such concentrations necessarily must have the mythological or
[239] dogmatic character that the positive religions known hitherto have had. It takes

spiritual freedom and power to live on the conviction that our highest ideas can only be parables. Conditions have hitherto been less favorable to the development of this capacity; but who dares to set a limit to the freedom and power that may develop in the human race?

It therefore seems to me unjustified to narrow the concept of positive religion so that the mythical and dogmatic personifications come to stand as a necessary accessory. And it would be especially unjustified if our earlier psychological investigation, which led to recognizing the derivative significance of representations in the religious domain, is correct. Moreover, "natural" religion has as a rule also had that accessory. But still more unjustified it would be if one would regard such personifications as necessary constituents of all religion, whether it appears as "positive" or not. One will not be able to dismiss the question: what value does it have that the personal beings one believes in exist, and that one believes in them? And then the idea of the persistence of values will show itself as the fundamental religious idea, the one that also first gives the representations of the personal gods a real content and a real significance. And this idea will be able to preserve its significance even if all personifications get only symbolic significance, and even if there could be found other symbols than those taken from human life and the human form. There will then be preserved a continuity in the intellectual life of human beings, even where it leaves the positively religious standpoint. Whether the standpoint attained when positive religion is abandoned is really a higher one is a matter for itself. It does not become a higher one without further ado because myths, legends and dogmas are pushed aside. As I once said in another place: *not* believing something is about the least that can be said of a human being. The negative: abandoning a standpoint, says nothing about the value of the new standpoint, or about whether a new standpoint is attained at all. *[240]* The measure for "lower" and "higher" in the transition from positive religion to a free religious standpoint must be the same as is applied within the series of the religions when one religion is said to be higher than another. In the ethical philosophy of religion we shall return to this point.

As I have remarked several times, I do not lay great weight on the name religion. The danger in using the word religion in a more comprehensive sense might be that dishonest accommodation would thereby be favored. But on the other hand religious life in the present often takes — and not least in such circles as believe they have the exclusive right to be called religious — forms of such a character that it truly takes no great resignation to renounce using the name religion.

But however one may then name a standpoint that holds fast the faith in the persistence of value without clothing it in dogmatic form, it is a task for the philosophy of religion to investigate more closely to what extent such a standpoint is possible, and what difficulties it has to contend with. —

When the scientific conception of the world is spoken of, one often lays too great weight on the general laws of nature, which indeed are also what strikes the eye most when the modern picture of the world is compared with the old. But the laws are really abstractions. They designate the forms and rules according to which motion and development in existence proceed. But the essential thing is that motion and development, in the spiritual as well as the material domain, always have a certain definite direction and with it a certain definite individual character. Existence is like a great individuality; it stands before us as one of countless possibilities; we must take it as we take the single human being, who is always more than an example of a general law. An individuality arises through an interplay of laws; it is (to use H. C. Ørsted's
[241] word) a manifold unity (in opposition both to "simple unity" and to manifoldness), which we must take as experience gives it. As far back as the boldest hypotheses go, we constantly find certain definite forces working in certain definite directions. Even if one could derive all later forces and directions from these — for us — original ones, the original forces and directions still stand for us as mere facts, which must be taken as facts, just as the original dispositions with which a human life begins must be taken as factually given in their individual determinateness. Existence is unique, and if we have the right to compare it with a drama, then it is a drama with a definite, special exposition and sequence of scenes, which must be taken as they once for all are.

The investigator of nature and the historian seeks to find his bearings in the course of this drama. But since only a single scene, perhaps even only a single line, of this great drama falls within our experience, we cannot construct the whole drama for ourselves. And if we tried it, the drama that we got out would again prove to be only a part of a still greater drama. Every mythology, every dogmatics and every metaphysics leaves — however it may go with the inner coherence and consistency in their constructions — always unanswered questions, partly with regard to what lies before the beginning of the drama they depict, partly with regard to what follows after its end. Neither the foundation nor the consequences are exhausted.

A human individuality too is inexhaustible in its peculiarity. It is impossible for us to find and connect all its elements so that the "manifold unity" comes forth in its

special character. But still more does this hold with respect to existence as a whole, where we do not even, as with a limited individuality, have the interaction with a surrounding world to learn from. The problem of existence gets its sharp sting precisely from this, that existence, when we try to conceive it as a whole, must have a special, individual character, and that the individuality we try to ascribe to it cannot *[242]* stand as conditioned by the relation to anything different from it, as is otherwise the case with all individual forms of existence.

For our general theoretical and practical principles this has its great significance. Were they to be completely demonstrable as valid, existence would have to stand before us as an individual whole whose inner law those principles were. Thus the proposition of causation could be strictly proved only if all phenomena could be referred to their definite place within a great whole; the same holds of the proposition of the persistence of energy, which can be proved only for closed and isolated wholes. The unprovability of the principles is connected, as has also appeared in what precedes, with the unfinished character of existence — for us and perhaps in itself. The proposition of the persistence of value shares the fate of the other principles; only if we could grasp existence in its whole "manifold unity" would it be possible to become clear what validity it has. And in every attempt to assert it, it must not be forgotten that every such general proposition means only an incursion or an insight into reality from a single side, not an exhaustive determination. Both the individual character of existence and its infinity here constantly set us limits. —

There thus stand more possibilities open for the validity of the religious principle than is often assumed. Both empiricism and dogmatism can inhibit thought. Yet the most serious difficulty for holding fast to that principle rises rather from the fact that existence presents too many possibilities than from the fact that it offers too few. There goes on in existence a constant friction and struggle between elements and individuals. Countless germs are cast out, but only few take root and carry life and development further. And where development is promoted, it happens under mutual inhibition, through displacement and pushing aside. Development proceeds from a *[243]* multitude of different starting points, and the tendencies of development that these starting points possess stand by no means from the first in harmonious relation to one another. Most frequently a result is attained at one point only by nothing being attained at other points. Resistance and hindrance could certainly have their great value in being releasing forces that set free an energy that would otherwise slumber; but it is very far from being the case that the resistance and hindrance that experience

shows us are limited to this.

It is the sporadic character of all development that causes the running costs in existence to seem greater than the yield. Existence shows itself wasteful and therefore merciless. And the wastefulness brings about, so it seems at least, a loss of value.

The problem of the disharmonious in existence leads back to the problem of unity and manifoldness. It has proved impossible to derive the manifoldness from the unity, and even if it were possible, the problem of disharmony would thereby be able to appear all the more glaringly: for if the manifoldness — the many sporadic starting points — had really sprung from a principle of unity, how would it then be possible to explain that there is not always a harmonious but often a disharmonious relation between the different tendencies of development in the manifold elements and individuals? There could then well be frictions between them, but not greater than the release of energy required[*)]. It is of no use here to refer to the myth of the Fall; it is only putting several riddles in place of the one. For how is a fall possible when every element and every individual in existence has originally sprung from a harmonious principle? And a Fall explains at most the disharmony within the human world, not the other disharmonies in existence. If one will say that the possibility of
[244] a fall must be there if man was to be a personality, since such a one develops only through choice between possibilities, then one falls into a serious self-contradiction when one ascribes personality to the Godhead and yet will not admit the possibility of a Fall in its case. The very possibility of a fall is besides already an expression of a disharmony: if I have the possibility of committing a scoundrel's trick tomorrow, then I am already a scoundrel today. If one admits an original possibility of a fall as posited by the Creation, then one has also admitted that the disharmony is produced by the Creation itself, which indeed also from another point of view must consistently stand as a depreciation of value. No scholasticism can avert this consequence.

There is one side of the matter that is usually overlooked in the discussion of this problem. One is inclined to assume that it is the totality of existence, the principle of the whole, that has "right" on its side, and that the single element or individual, whose tendency of development leads to a breach of this totality, has "wrong". But it is a great abstraction when the principle of the whole is in this way set in opposition to the single elements or individuals. The force that stirs in each of these is indeed a part of the force of the whole, and the laws that work in the single being in a "manifold-unitary" way are individualized interplays of the general laws of existence. Each single element

[*)] Cf. *Den nyere Filosofis Historie.* The sections on Böhme, Bayle, Leibniz, Butler and Schelling.

of existence has in this respect the same "right" as the whole, and it is not rebellious because it follows its own law, its own tendency of development. It is an oriental way of thought that makes one inclined beforehand to find the ground of disharmony in the elements and not likewise in the principle of the whole. It was against this way of thought that Goethe reacted in the magnificent poem "Prometheus": it was precisely the inner divine germ in the single finite being that he wanted to assert in opposition to the usual external concept of God. Only from a dualistic religious standpoint could this poem be regarded as irreligious. The profound religious conception, according *[245]* to which God himself suffers, has (however it may settle the matter mythologically or dogmatically) in reality given dualism its deathblow, without itself knowing or wishing it. — But the settling of the whole account becomes of course so much the more difficult when regard must be had not merely to the possibility of a total harmony, which might arise by the interplay of the finite harmonies and disharmonies, but also to those regions in existence where disharmony reigns, and where one cannot hear how it fades into an all-embracing harmony. Such regions are after all independent parts of existence and cannot be dismissed with the claim that they represent only subordinate parts in the great world concert. Only an oriental "superman" (of whom the supermen constructed in the most recent times are impotent plagiarisms) could sit in his heaven and find harmony in his existence under these conditions. Here lies the great justification and the beneficial effect of the protests of Voltaire and Schopenhauer.

When existence, even from a purely theoretical and intellectual standpoint, which asks only for scientific understanding, can come to stand as irrational or as unfinished, then it holds no less from the standpoint of evaluation. It is confirmed here too that religion does not solve the riddles that science cannot solve. The advantage that religion perhaps has here over science is that it can more easily lead thought away from the insoluble riddles, so that their sting is less felt; this is the advantage where there is to be willing and acting, — where the struggle is to be taken up, and where courage is to be kept up. — In order to escape the sting that is in the problem we stand before here, one must — to use an image of Bayle — keep thought from seeing its own shadow, just as Bucephalus could be controlled only when it was not frightened by its own shadow on the ground. Consciousness must be occupied by an ideal content, concentrated on a luminous thought, so that it is not inhibited in its striving by the notion of the dark and disharmonious sides of existence: this is a condition for the *[246]* very struggle against the dark and disharmonious being able to be carried on. But

to look away from the problems is not to solve them. And it is then most consistent to admit insolubility, especially when it is the case that life can be led greatly and beautifully even if one does not get a solution to all riddles. It is not the whole factual constitution of existence that really concerns us as striving beings, but the conditions for continued development that it offers. Naturally the strength of resistance and the degree of disharmony will determine the character of our experience concerning the relation between value and reality. But the proposition of the persistence of value is in itself independent of how little or how much value there is in existence; it says only that the value which is there persists. Only if one lets reality spring from value does the sting of the problem become unendurable. If there is a possibility of asserting and perhaps increasing the value that once for all is found in existence, then the religious axiom can be maintained.

There are two thoughts that will always be of far-reaching significance for our position toward the problem that the disharmonies in the world cause.

First, our experience is limited in relation to the unsurveyable existence, and it must therefore constantly be tested whether an extension of experience might not bring about another result. Already in purely theoretical problems this thought plays an essential role. When our experience by strict inference leads to self-contradiction, we do not therefore give up the assumption of the validity of the logical principles, but test whether the ground of the self-contradiction did not lie in our experience's being too limited. Often it then turns out that the contradiction falls away when we can extend experience. Thus too objections to the persistence of value will often fall away when we widen our horizon through discovery or production of values there
[247] where hitherto there did not seem to be possibility of them. It was the most important and approximately the only valid thought in Leibniz's well-known attempt to assert an optimistic view of the world, that by means of the idea of the infinity of existence we are more favorably placed toward the problem of disharmonies than the thinkers of antiquity (Plotinus, Augustine).

Second, life is constantly rejuvenated. Every year has its spring, every generation its youth. New germs constantly come forth, and there is no trace that the world should have grown old. A new section of the history of existence constantly begins, in relation to which the earlier series of experiences on which we build our judgments about the value of reality are only a prehistory; the whole earlier drama now becomes only an exposition to a greater drama. Existence is not only unsurveyable but inexhaustible.

A faith in the persistence of value is therefore, in spite of all, psychologically

possible. Whether it also really exists, and in what form and what extent, experience must show.

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2. Kristian Kroman (b. 1846). Principal works: Vor Naturerkendelse (1883). Om Maal og Midler for den højere Skoleundervisning (1886). Kortfattet Tænke- og Sjælelære (1882. — 4th ed. 1905). Etik. (Den almindelige Del). (1904). — A piece from "Tænke- og Sjælelære" is given here.

THE GROWTH OF KNOWLEDGE

For the perceiving subject all sensations are from the first only a series of uniform factual states or partly uncomprehended images that stream past the inner vision. The important oppositions, well known to the developed consciousness, between the apparently blind, accidental temporal *alternation* and the firm, necessary *causal connection*, between the immediately appearing *properties* and the thing lying behind *[248]* them, which bears them, between the relatively self-sufficient *external world* and the relatively self-sufficient *ego* or *subject*, are not yet explained. How these oppositions gradually assert themselves we shall now briefly indicate.

They are all due to the subject's *belief in causation*, the assumption, illuminated several times in what precedes, that *every* change *has its cause*, that every definite *antecedent* gives a definite *consequent* and conversely, and this assumption arises, *psychologically considered*, like so many others from the activity of association. If the sense-image *B* is often followed by the sense-image *A*, then this latter will in future constantly awaken the association-image b and with it an expectation of the sense-image B; if I have often seen a man walk past followed by a yellow dog, I shall, the next time I see the man, also expect to see the dog, i.e., I now believe that there is a firm connection between the two phenomena. Of course we form in this primitive way a great multitude of expectations that are never fulfilled; but experience teaches us gradually and involuntarily to distinguish between the greater or smaller probability of the fulfillment of the expectation, and our great interest in being able at all to determine what is coming keeps alive our belief that there is regularity everywhere in the course of events. For the reflecting individual it will gradually dawn clearly that the belief in causation thus involuntarily formed is still quite groundless and also cannot be grounded by experience; at the same time, however, its complete necessity

as a presupposition for all our living and acting will more or less consciously announce itself, and the theory of causation set forth in the Introduction is thereby brought near. By this latter the proposition of causation finds its defense *as a valid means of knowledge*; it depicts for us, in other words, the *epistemological* — in opposition to its just-described *psychological* — *origin* of the proposition of causation.

[249] By means of this mighty weapon (the proposition of causation) our content of consciousness is gradually transformed and extended to the highest degree. In reality the different kinds of transformations and extensions go on simultaneously, step by step; we must, however, here depict them one by one, as if they followed one after another. The general progress consists in the subject's finding more and more causal connection in the manifold of representations, originally determined only by time and space. In order that this may take place throughout, there come, however, at all points peculiar *supplementary additions* to what is immediately observed as necessary. Our senses always supply us with only properties, not things. We do not sense the apple itself, we sense only its form and color, its smell, its taste, its hardness, etc. All these sense-images appear, however, in a peculiarly regular way in our consciousness; they come and go frequently together; from the presence of some of them we can with great certainty infer the presence of the others. By turning and twisting the apple in our hands we get in a short time a great manifold of sensations of color, extension, sound, pressure and muscle, which all to a high degree condition one another. To explain this we then form, by virtue of our belief in causation, the assumption of a *thing* behind the sense-images thus connected; these latter become *properties, forms of revelation, expressions* of a present *cause, whose constitution, however, we know only through all these changing forms of expression or effects.* For everyday use we certainly also believe that we know the thing itself or the *essence* in contrast to the properties, the forms of expression. "The apple itself" too seems familiar enough to us; we know indeed that it consists of cells in such and such an order and of such and such a constitution. It is, however, once again the form, the arrangement of its elements, that we have described. These elements we can again dissolve into molecules and these
[250] into atoms. But the atom itself is to us an x, known only through its effects. On the other hand we must again emphasize that the enormous sum of effects, expressions, properties that we get to know in different ways in the thing can in itself give us an extraordinarily full and practically sufficient concept of it*). It is as if only a single

*) For the rest we may note that the expressions thing, essence and the like are used in a double way: now of the very kernel or center in contrast to the expressions, the properties, and now of the sum

point, the center itself, were left of which we lack *direct* or *positive* knowledge, in that we merely know that it must be there, if our assumption of causal connection is to be maintained.

In a similar way we gradually form the representation and assumption of a *relatively self-sufficient external world* over against the subject. From the first this opposition between an objective and the subject is not present. All our representations, feelings and other states are comparatively uniform members of the same whole. Soon, however, our sense-images come into a certain opposition to the remaining members. Already by their great distinctness and forceful appearance they awaken more attention than the images of memory and imagination, and soon we notice also that they as a rule stand less in our power than these; we can as a rule direct and more easily change or interrupt a series of memories or imaginings than a series of sense-perceptions; our sense-images stand as a kind of *stubborn representations for us in* opposition to the others, more obedient, and involuntarily we therefore ascribe to them a certain *independence, a certain self-sufficiency* toward us. On many occasions we notice, moreover, that they can directly offer resistance, awaken sensations of pressure and muscle in us. Thereby their self-sufficiency in our eyes is increased; we ascribe to them *force, power of resistance* (Genstand, Objekt = Modstand, "what stands against"). To understand their peculiar coming and going, which as a rule does not seem to stand in any further relation to our other states of consciousness, while a certain regularity nevertheless constantly asserts itself here, we finally assume that they *also exist when they are not sensed by us*, i.e., we ascribe to them *continuance*. But with that the assumption of an objective external world is finished in its first shape. Still the separation has not reached its full strength. The members of the external world and our sense-images are indeed no longer identical, on account of the *continuance* of the former, but yet quite alike; we still believe that the table itself — exactly like the table-image in our consciousness — is brown, that the lamp — also when we leave the room — shines, that the string — also when no ear is present — sounds, etc. Various closer experiences and reflections (at first developed especially by natural science) come, however, in the case of a good many of them gradually to assert themselves and teach us to see that colors, tones, sensations of light and warmth, etc., can only be states in a perceiving subject and not properties or states of the things themselves, whereas in these there must be found certain peculiarities such as definite

[251]

total of the center + all expressions, effects or properties together. Popularly the latter usage is the commoner.

surface constitution, vibrations of the small parts, etc., etc., that *correspond to* and call forth these impressions in the subject. The sense-images thereafter no longer become *copies* of the members of the external world, but only *symbols, signs* of these, and with this we have then in the main and on the whole reached the conception of the external world that the great majority of the educated hold and that is likewise asserted by all the natural sciences. We have thus in brief outline described the *psychological* origin of the representation of the external world.

It is the business of psychology among other things to describe how we in general *actually* use our different faculties and powers; the theory of knowledge has, on the other hand, the task of showing how we ought to use them if true knowledge is to
[252] be the result. It will therefore have its special interest also epistemologically to look somewhat more closely at the question of the external world and test whether the procedure just described, or rather the result won, can on the whole be defended. We have as *epistemological* starting points 1) an immediately certain *world of representations* and 2) the assumption, secured by our urge to know: *every change has its cause.* Since we now actually find a manifold of changes in our world of representations for which we do not succeed in finding causes in ourselves or within the said world of representations, we must beyond the ego or this world of representations assume a supplementary world of causes, which can again procure for us the missing connection and unity. Of the closer constitution of these causes we are, however, for the present quite ignorant; that they in higher or lower degree should resemble their effects we have, however, no right to assert. On the other hand we have of course leave to *test* the hypothesis that there is complete likeness between our sense-images and — not their nearest causes in the brain or nervous system, but — their more remote causes outside the body. Such an investigation will namely for the present be justified by the whole character of the sense process as being a means of knowledge. If we test the said hypothesis in its full extent, we are, however, led to contradictions. Duration, form, hardness and the like are properties that we can think the members of the external world, the objective things, as possessing over against one another; colors, tones and the other previously mentioned determinations seem, on the other hand, to be quite unthinkable as states of the thing in and for itself or as relations between thing and thing. That a thing can also “be hard”, even if no sentient being is present, is comparatively easy to elucidate and understand; that it should also be red when no one sees it, with this statement we cannot, on the other hand, connect any clear meaning. If we limit our hypothesis, however, to the assertion that the members

of the external world *with regard to relations of time and space* essentially resemble [253]
our (developed) representations of them, then we never run into contradictions; every inference from this hypothesis is confirmed daily by all our experiences, and the view of the world thus shaped, precisely the one we also came to before, therefore seems to stand as the truest and surest we can form*).

For closer assurance we shall nevertheless dwell for a moment longer on the matter. We can call the view that besides the subject there are found other, coordinate members (whether living or lifeless beings) in existence: *objectivism*. Over against it stands another view, according to which the knowing subject is alone in the world, in so far as everything else, all other subjects and things, are only representations, states within its consciousness without anything corresponding outside its consciousness or coordinate with it. This latter view we call *subjectivism*. Only seldom has this latter doctrine been set up in full sharpness. Now the subjectivist has conceded to the other *subjects* a coordinate place in relation to himself; now he has conceded that there *possibly* were other coordinate members, but that by way of thought one could never demonstrate anything of the kind, and now finally it has been held that subjectivism and objectivism were two *equally placed* assumptions, of which neither could be proved or disproved. Not in any of these weakened forms either can the doctrine be maintained. When the child tears its toy to pieces, it happens not so seldom that it is unable to put it together again; in a similar way it may now and then go with the philosophers and the universe, and one of the cases we surely have here. Many steps can nevertheless be taken without arriving at an objective (coordinate with the subject) external world. I command forth different series of thoughts in my consciousness or let different series of associations have free course; hereby I am not pointed beyond myself or my world of consciousness. I "walk out along the highway" and am interrupted suddenly in my thoughts by the sight of an uncommonly beautiful [254]
country house on my right hand. This too I can explain to myself without going beyond my world of consciousness. The sense-image of the country house had, it is true, apparently no causal connection at all with my other prevailing representations. But it is still possible that it popped up as a consequence of the conditions I myself introduced, in that I — as it is called in everyday usage — strolled out along the highway. I am strengthened in this supposition, in that by introducing the same condition twenty times I get the same result each time anew. The twenty-first time, however, I do not succeed. I now get the image of a burnt-down country house. The

*) Cf. Vor Naturerkendelse, Kap. 19, 20, 21.

same antecedent quite plainly no longer gives the same consequent. This well-known phenomenon the subjectivist cannot master. The objectivist, on the other hand, solves the riddle with ease by maintaining: So the given antecedent consisted, besides myself and my conditions, also of a series of *objective* conditions (highway, country houses, etc.), and in these objective conditions there had occurred on the twenty-first time a change (a country house had burned). Therefore my sense-perception too had to become a different one.

Sometimes the subjectivist objects that all the objectivist's "additions" and "explanations" must themselves be mere representations and thoughts, so that he too does not in reality get beyond mere subjective states. The previously mentioned "objective" conflagration is thus itself merely one more representation in consciousness like all the others. To this it is to be answered, however, that the objectivist does not first and foremost form the *representation* of a conflagration or of an objective member at all; it is first and foremost the *assumption* of such a one that he sets up, i.e., he makes the assertion: If I am to believe in causal connection in the world, then I must also believe that besides myself there exist certain other, equally self-sufficient members of existence, members whose existence is independent of my representations and
[255] thoughts. If the subjectivist asks again what is meant here by the expression to exist, the objectivist answers: To exist is here used in the sense of *to act, to give off effects*; the real in the proper sense is simply the acting. When the subjectivist believes that the whole of existence can be dissolved into himself, his actual sense-perceptions and his equally non-self-sufficient "possibilities of sense-perception" (all the "things" he at the moment does not sense), this assumption founders precisely on the fact that these so-called "possibilities of sense-perception" incessantly *produce effects*, though they are only "*possibilities* of sense-perception;" they must therefore also in this time be *different from nothing* and thus have an existence independent of the subjectivist's sense-perception. The untenability of subjectivism becomes most obvious, probably, when one puts to the subjectivist the question, for example, whether he then also believes that his own parents are merely two sets of representations in himself.

We thus form not merely the *representation* of an objective external world; but we also believe — and rightly — that this representation is a *true* representation, i.e., a representation to which a reality corresponds. We now go on to investigate the corresponding problem for the ego, and first we ask about the *psychological* origin and development of the representation of the ego or subject. That this representation is formed later than the representation of the external world and for most individuals

never gets beyond a certain vague indefiniteness, while the more reflective go their several ways from there, will, in accordance with what has been remarked earlier, be easy enough to understand. The first representation of egohood is presumably the representation of one's own body. From the first this is given to us as a set of sense-images or a little later as a piece of the external world not clearly delimited from the rest of the external world. Gradually, however, we notice that this piece of external world seems in a special degree to concern us; its influences and changes awaken pleasure and displeasure directly in us; its movements come more and more into our immediate power. Within this domain I act and suffer quite immediately; *[256]* this domain is therefore "myself", the child concludes involuntarily. Gradually this representation of the ego becomes, however, too broad and tangible, and we choose within the first domain a still more central but at the same time more indeterminate "something", which then becomes our ego, while the body in its totality now becomes this ego's nearest instrument or possession, "*my* body". Of the nature of this central ego natural consciousness has at different times and under different conditions of culture formed widely different views; now it was a more or less material, now a purely spiritual being in greater or lesser dependence on the organism, and to these hypotheses, now materialistic, now spiritualistic, the philosophers have then later added various others, more remote and artificial, of which the previously mentioned *Duplicism* may be reckoned the most important.

To the question what is then the scientifically justified in these different views we have already answered in what precedes, since we saw there that the only thing we can establish with certainty about the ego is this, that it is an otherwise unknown unity with the capacity to sense, feel, will and interact with the body. For closer illumination of the circumstances we shall nevertheless still make a brief comparison *between our conception of the external world* and our *conception of the ego.* Quite immediately, by direct experience or observation, there is, as already emphasized, given to us only a world of sense-images and other states of consciousness. The *content* of these sense-images makes up the first elements of our later picture of the external world and could be called our *primitive empirical or sensory external world.* Of our very sensing, feeling and willing *activity* too we have, however, immediate knowledge. We not only see and hear; but we can at the same time *be conscious* that we see and hear. On account of this peculiar *reflexivity* of the subject one has sometimes spoken of an "*inner*" *sense* *[257]* in contrast to the outer (and organic sense), a sense with which the ego immediately perceived its inner states. Besides the direct outer we thus get also a direct *inner*

world of sense. Both together form our whole original world of sense or experience, a world that thus consists essentially only of content of representation and acts of representation. Were now sense-perception or experience our only valid means of knowledge (as consistent *sensualism* or *empiricism* must maintain), then we could never with scientific right get beyond this picture of the world. With the subjectivist we should have to stamp our external world as a sum of contents of representation without necessarily corresponding objective members, while the subject or ego — if we may otherwise use this word, belonging to an entirely different conception of the world — simply became the sum total of a certain multitude of acts of representation, feeling and will without a necessarily underlying representing, feeling and willing something. This conception of the *ego* too has in reality been maintained at different times, now together with the corresponding conception of the world and now together with the assumption of a really self-sufficient external world.

As soon as we with full consistency make also the *proposition of causation* a valid means of knowledge, our picture of the world becomes, however, gradually an entirely different one. As the cause of all involuntary changes of consciousness we now assume a world of relatively self-sufficient things, and behind all acts of consciousness we now assume a really acting something, an ego or subject, which is not the "sum of" but the holder, the producer of all these representations, feelings and expressions of will. From a wild and uncomprehended manifold with absolute arising and passing away our world thereby gradually transforms itself more and more into one single coherent, law-governed and incalculable whole, in which the entire immediately given motley play of representations is explained as a simple and
[258] natural consequence of the ego's interaction with the remaining world-elements, "the things".

Between these two conceptions the choice is, however, by no means arbitrary. Had sensualism or empiricism been presented with full consistency but a single time, its untenability would at once lie in plain view. Through association, however, even the sensualist is involuntarily led to reckon with the proposition of causation, and thus there arise numerous sensualistically tinged but never wholly sensualistic pictures of the world with causal connection now here and now there, where one most immediately feels the need of it. Thus arises the singular phenomenon that a non-sensualistic conception of the ego attaches itself to a sensualistic conception of the external world or conversely. How we epistemologically justify the use of the proposition of causation has already been mentioned earlier. That it is the very wish to

live, to assert our being, that is the foundation of this proposition, sufficiently explains why no one in the long run can throughout abstain from building on it, and the only really tenable theory of knowledge that there is, is therefore the one that besides sense-perception also reckons the proposition of causation a valid means of knowledge. With these two factors every non-philosopher reckons and thereby arrives at a conception of the world that no philosophy has ever been able to exchange for an essentially simpler or more natural one; with these two factors several philosophers reckon only in a quite illogical way, when they set up the arbitrary and self-contradictory assertion that we may indeed use the proposition of causation *between* the immediately given members of the world, but not by its help infer to new members in existence. For how should we indeed be able to explain to ourselves, e.g., the arising and vanishing of the many moon-images in our consciousness, if we might not assume a "real" moon out there beyond the subject and existing also in the intervals in which it was not sensed?, how should we explain to ourselves the peculiar appearance of the Sirius-image, if we might not assume a "real" Sirius-member, which perhaps *[259]* has never with full certainty been sensed by any eye, but which nevertheless must enjoy full citizenship in our picture of the world, if this is to be a whole connected by causes? And quite in the same way with the subject! If this is not to become a nothing in every dreamless sleep, it must be defined otherwise than as a sum or totality of representations. In this way one can define *consciousness*; but one must then not at the same time assert that consciousness can see, hear, think, feel, etc.; for this a sum of representations obviously can do just as little as the single representation itself can see, hear or think. "When I look into myself", says a famous philosopher, "I never see an ego, but always only definite representations, feelings, etc." This assertion is entirely correct. Quite in the same way a man could search through his whole house without ever running into himself or the spectacles he may himself have on his nose. But this means simply that the ego is not reached by sense-perception, but on the contrary immediately by a simple application of the proposition of causation, a simple reflection or inference. For who was the searcher who looked into himself? Surely not again merely a representation, but precisely the ego that was being looked for. It is an indisputable truth that neither the central nature of this ego nor that of the objective things, in contrast to their action, is more closely known by us; they both stand before us as, in the last analysis, unknown X's. But these very X's we can in no way, without getting contradictions, leap over or simply disregard in our work with their expressions — a precarious feat at which modern philosophy has nevertheless

with a certain zeal tried its hand.

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3. Claudius Wilkens (b. 1844). Principal works: Samfundslegemets Grundlove, en Sociologi (1881). Æstetik i Omrids (1888), Poesien (1893), Filosofisk Propædeutik (1904).

A. THE BEAUTIFUL AND ART (From "Poesien").

[260] If something is to seize me poetically or aesthetically, it must captivate and interest me. It must meet my mind as new and surprising and by a shock of wonder awaken attention and set feeling in motion.

But this shock can now lead me into different states of mind and acts of consciousness. It can threaten my existence and goad my instinct of self-preservation, prove to be of importance for my personal welfare, awaken longing and impulse and lead me to intervene actively in the world, into a *relation of will.* Or the shock of wonder can awaken my logical feelings and interests. The phenomenon strikes me as a riddle, a contradiction, a question and leads me to investigate its connection and causes and spurs my impulse to know. I enter into a *relation of knowing* to things, and what I seek is a causal relation, a law. But besides this double relation to the world, a relation of action, which strives for a change in the course of things, and a relation of knowledge, whose goal is a realm of laws, there is also a third relation, in which nothing of this happens, but in a certain sense something far more glorious. The phenomenon that awakens my interest and engenders emotion, mood and feeling in me can on the one hand be so clear, *complete in itself* and *surveyable*, that it does not lead me into a relation of knowledge. The intuitive image, as it were, says to me: "Here I am whole, take me as I am"! and even if manifold representations and thoughts do arise, it is only as a free play of thought on the ground of intuition. And on the other hand the phenomenon *awakens neither impulse nor longing*; the feeling that involuntarily surfaces is a desireless feeling: "Die Sterne, die begehrt man nicht, — man freut sich ihrer Pracht", and since nothing leads me beyond the phenomenon, which nevertheless so vividly seizes me, I am induced to *dwell* in the
[261] mood-laden contemplation, to rest in the feeling, and now I stand in an aesthetic relation to things, in an immediate and desireless relation of feeling. We may then for the present say that art and aesthetic contemplation designate a *conception of*

the world in the *desireless, feeling-toned form of intuition.* In this conception through feeling there lies something of a valuation of the world, a free, personal, disinterested interpretation of the worth of life and the world.

An aesthetic relation to things and life is thus the relation of free intuition. We know the world only as image in us; but when these images are strong, compelling, stubborn, we interpret them as expressions of an existence lying behind, as symbols of this. We can now enter a double relation to this image; we can on the one hand interest ourselves in the existence lying behind, whether we seek to explore its connection and know it, or we from personal interest will act on it by way of the will and handle it. We are in that case interested in the image only in so far as it is a symbol of representation for the existence that lies behind, and forms a bridge to this, and it is really this that we care about. But we can on the other hand also *abstract*, i.e., *disregard the existence lying behind* and be interested only in the image, and this mood-laden *dwelling on the image as image* is free intuition, the joy in it the aesthetic joy.

If we are to apprehend an object aesthetically, we must therefore disregard the existence lying behind. This comes more easily to us of course with the beautiful in art than with the beautiful in reality, though to different degrees. It is easiest for us with poetry: here we indeed have to do altogether not with stubborn images, but only with images of memory and imagination. We feel ourselves at once here in the world of free intuition and imagination. It is not hard for us either with music; the real existence here is e.g. vibrating "catgut" (air waves), whose vibrations remind us of something in the cry. But the catgut we forget, and are greatly astonished when *Shakespeare* in "Cymbeline" (Act 2, Scene 3) has the realistic Cloten remind us of it, *[262]* and the recollection of the cry works so instinctively that we do not know of it, and give ourselves up wholly to the tone-images and their relations. In sculpture it is especially the absence of color that helps us to perform the abstraction.

But apart from this abstraction from certain sides of reality, which makes it easier for us to reach the aesthetic state, art for the rest takes precisely pains to be as real, typical and individual as possible, an image of life in its whole fullness.

And rightly! For that wonderful and mood-rich interpretation of the worth of life and of what is, which was given to us in the aesthetic valuation by feeling, is not an interpretation of mere fancies or of any loose creation of imagination, but an *appreciation* of what really is and of what is possible according to the lines of development of what is. But only the *living* has *worth in itself for the living*, and it is man's sympathy with man, with the animal and the plant and all that lives, that

in the last instance is the fundamental condition for man's aesthetic state, as it is also love of life that is the fundamental motive in artistic imagination and looses the poet's tongue. Aesthetics can triumphantly show that it is not simply any perceptible form that moves and interests, but a form of life. Even an apparently purely lifeless form of space, such as e.g. symmetry, we enjoy as beautiful only because we see it as an expression of equal measure, but we interpret equal measure as an expression of equilibrium, equal force, as a symbol of the feeling of firmness or security that we have learned to value as something good in our practice in the world of gravity, when we learned to stand straight on our legs. Only such a form in which we involuntarily, through association, feel life, like the organic forms, or in which we are compelled to *feel into* life, like certain lines, movements, is beautiful for us. To be sure we relate
[263] ourselves aesthetically only to the image as image, but the image is to awaken feeling [i.e., an ideal representative of the feelings corresponding to reality], and the image can awaken aesthetic feeling in us only when we relate ourselves to a *real image of life seen merely as image*. The image is at once to *seize* us, to be a seizing image, as if existence lay behind it, as if it were real, i.e., it is to create illusion, and yet we are to care only about the image as image. The true work of poetry gives us a piece of real life, an image of life, and yet we know that there lies no existence behind, we are in full and complete illusion, but we know ourselves in illusion, i.e., we oscillate incessantly between the captivating reality and the consciousness that it is not real, we are as in a waking dream.

To this abstraction from existence and being set in a dream that dreams the dream of life, art helps us by its abstractions (one-sidednesses). But for the rest we can also come into an aesthetic relation to nature and reality, and it goes without saying that, if nothing really beautiful existed, man would not have thought of reproducing the beautiful. As long as we feel our dependence on nature and are compelled to know or handle it, we are not in an aesthetic relation, any more than the sailor in distress at sea has an eye for the sublime might of the sea. Only when we abstract from existence and dwell on the nature-image as such is nature beautiful, poetic, sublime. Nature is beautiful when it is seen as image, when we enter into the relation of free intuition to it (as on walks, outings in the woods, journeys, or when the change of the season shows us nature as new and young, or we see it in entirely altered conditions as through colored glass).

Our analysis of the aesthetic relation to things as the relation of free feeling-toned intuition has thus given us this result. Free intuition is the subjective state in us

which for the rest, seen more deeply, has its ground in the harmonious interplay to which our faculties, intuition, representation, feeling, etc., are brought. What awakens this state in us is always a real form of life or something that is interpreted *[264]* as such [as *Goethe* says: "We have the beautiful where we behold the lawfully living in its greatest activity and perfection, whereby we are moved to a reproduction and feel ourselves as it were set in the highest activity"], a form or world of images that by its inner fullness of life, which we sympathetically live after, involuntarily and gripping preaches to us the significance of life and thus compels us in that judgment of feeling to assert the significance of what is as being. The beautiful is always image (world of images, world of imagination). That follows already from this, that only semblance, image, perceptibility, sensuousness can bring us into a free relation of intuition to what is, and furthermore from two other psychological principles, that representation is always the fundamental condition for the release of feeling, and that the more concrete a representation is, the more it approaches giving us a definite and distinct image, in contrast to the abstract representation, which at most possesses weak remnants of images, the higher the degree to which it awakens feeling. —

The beautiful and poetic in a wider sense, the mood-laden, we find in nature and life as the real-beautiful. Were there nothing of the kind, man would not have come to create a world of art. The beautiful is not an invention, but a *discovery*, and the productive find is given in the motif, the emotion-stirring value of life that has seized the artist, awakened his love and interest and burned itself into his soul as this holy unrest that begets.

But the real-beautiful is not found in any especially great fullness in nature and life. If one excepts the beauty of landscape and of color tones one finds the beautiful only scattered and mixed with the indifferent and ugly. Human bodies are for various reasons imperfect, everyday speech only a poor expression of feeling, and the human cry only a raw material for music. The beautiful is there, but scattered in space and time: the gold is there, but hidden in the veins of the mountains. Then art steps *[265]* in. By various means, whose possibility is given in the nature of imagination, the artist purifies that beautiful element and carries it further in accordance with the laws of its own nature. He separates out the indifferent, he removes *the* ugly that he cannot use, he abstracts, intensifies or weakens, combines and thus refines in various directions. He presents to us the ideal that nature itself has intended, as *Thorvaldsen* in his Jason gives us the perfect male body; he idealizes nature by nature; he purifies the type, he stamps and intensifies the characteristic, and so gives us a refined, typical

re-presentation of the real-beautiful and of the beauty that is possible.

> "Therefore can our eye be gladdened — By a picture's splendor of color,
> For the light in which it is clothed — Is nature's own attire.
> And the stone whose beauty shone — Shaped by a master's hand,
> Became beautiful because he measured — With our Creator's measuring tape."

(Richardt).

When the real-beautiful has thus passed through a human spirit, it acquires something peculiarly captivating, actively gripping, about it. This lies not only in the joy at the imitation and at the artist's skill, though this joy is not slight — we take a particular pleasure in a good imitation, and the child knows it early. For we know also that the great artist, although it is precisely he who always seeks back most deeply to the living model and to nature's own measuring tape, is nevertheless also the one who most alters the proportions of things, copies least, is not a mere imitator but a seer, one who is able, one who masters. But what appeals to us most deeply in the art-beautiful is that it is a product of the self-conscious human spirit. Art's ideal world is *man's* work. Every conquest in the world of beauty is a deepening of human self-consciousness and of its consciousness of nature, a new valuation of the significance of life. It is sculpture which, itself sprung from joy in human beauty,
[266] has truly taught me that the human body is beautiful; it is lyric poetry which, itself a child of mood, has truly taught me the worth of what is full of mood; it is the same lyric, a child of love, that has truly taught me that it is glorious to love; it is the song of the fatherland that has truly spun love of the fatherland into our hearts, it is the tone of the hymn that has borne my soul toward heaven. The particular delight in the art-beautiful thus lies not merely in the pleasure at a felicitous imitation, but stems at bottom from the joy that attaches to the clearer and deeper consciousness of nature and life. Habit dulls, and men grow stupid. The artist helps us to see the old and accustomed as new and brings out the treasure of beauty and peculiarity that we would otherwise pass by. He digs up the values of life for us; "how truly it is seen!" we exclaim, open our eyes and see.

In the productions of art the real-beautiful is re-presented for us as if through intermediate links that make it more accessible to us. Art's abstractions from certain sides of reality help us to look away more easily from existence. We receive what is beautiful or characteristic in life and reality refined and in part intensified. The

picture of life brings us more easily into the immediate and desire-free state of feeling than reality itself. The feelings that are awakened in us are for the most part the same as those that reality itself would awaken, but because the picture is detached from existence, a change has taken place in these feelings: they have become desire-free, ideal. Finally, the work of art gives us the real-beautiful or characteristic as it is when it has passed through a human spirit of its own, seen by a great and original person who sees more clearly, loves more strongly and feels more deeply than others, a peculiarly fine and strong soul with a temperament of its own and a view of life of its own. In all great art we feel this individual equation, this congeniality with nature and life, the genius's X, and the work of art acquires its peculiar magic from the fact that here we have nature as it has passed through its highest revelation: man. It is *[267]* not a simple duplication of reality that we have before us here, but a peculiarly deep, spirited interpretation and valuation of life and reality. It is not an honest collector of natural and human facts, a faithful copyist, a careful keeper of minutes, that we stand before, but a seer and a prophet who brings us tidings from the world of values.

B. THE BEAUTY OF MOVEMENT (From "Æstetik").

The first element in the joy in movement is *the pleasure in difference, change.* The general fundamental law of the life of feeling, the law of relation, entails that the new, the surprising, awakens feeling most strongly; change delights, keeps the life of feeling fresh, while repetition dulls it to the point of boredom. Now in movement, through the object's mere change of place in space, there is always novelty, change, new relations to the surroundings (the speed of the clouds, the birds' flight, etc.). Into the resting line we read movement; *here* is movement itself, and "in movement is life." Every movement therefore has aesthetically a great advantage over rest. The life of feeling is at once set in livelier motion. It was an extraordinary advance in the artistic representation of the human body in sculpture and painting when it became able to suggest movement; it was life itself that impregnated art.

Through the experiences of life, however, we have learned to read movement as the expression of force. Another element in the beauty of movement is therefore *force.* Even a locomotive's movement acquires a certain austere beauty through the sureness of force. Since a feeling of pleasure attaches to every activity of forces and faculties,

we feel joy in happily exercising our energy upon an obstacle, and we feel the same
[268] joy in pure aesthetic form in seeing others do it. Our own pleasure in the exercise of force may in life be bound up with exertion and displeasure, even if in dancing, in free games, in light gymnastic exercises it rises into beauty. For contemplation or in ideal presence it is freed from these life-inhibiting components. The feeling-tones come forth more subdued and free, and we have an aesthetic delight in these exercises of force of life. Later we transfer this delight by association to our reading of the movements of inorganic and organic nature, but originally we understand them only from ourselves.

Not every movement, however, is beautiful. Movement is beautiful only when it calls forth the idea of the subordination of the manifold under a unity, when we discover unity in difference, regularity in the movement, when the force at the same time acts harmoniously. Difference without unity can at most be picturesque, painterly; unity without difference becomes monotonous and tiring. The more difference and change, the greater the demand made on our powers; the senses and the imagination are in livelier activity; but beauty requires partly that the activity take place within the limits of its normal exercise, and partly that there be unity, regularity. A chief mark of the beauty of movement is therefore *harmony, rhythm, regularity*. We see here the deep connection of beauty with purposiveness, for in reality regularity means purposiveness, the adaptation of the movement to its medium and its purpose. Everything moving that moves through a certain medium meets greater or lesser obstacles on its way. From this there follow, as Spencer and Tyndall have developed it, successive movements back and forth, more or less undulating lines, which call forth rhythm. Rhythm or regularity is thus not really different from force: it is a means for force to overcome resistance most easily; it is the plan, the purposiveness in force, the economy of force.

[269] Regularity in movement is a general requirement, but through the element of difference it can assume an infinity of forms, and the movements can prove highly composite. The simplest case is that an uncompounded object changes place in space, and that a certain regularity shows itself in this. Here a difference in direction can be conceived, and here too we are led to find that curvilinear movement, like the curved line in general, is more pleasing than the straight, since the moment of difference is greater. There can further be difference in speed, and the most beautiful movement will in general be the one that is at once slow enough to give us time to apprehend each position clearly and definitely, and fast enough to compel our powers to function lively

during this activity of apprehension. But most often the moved object is of course composite, and the richest source of difference and also of beauty is the combination of several simultaneous movements in the different parts of the same object or in the different elements of the same observation. If, e.g., it is a question of the movement of a face, *the beauty of expression*, or merely of a simple play of features, a gesture, then there is here a multiplicity of differently moved members in the moved totality, which compels the imagination to unite a series of several successive moments in the unity of the total movement. Therefore the harmoniously moved human face must act so powerfully on us. It can be graceful or harmoniously beautiful in joy and tenderness; it can be characteristically captivating under the impression of stronger emotions. But it is always the infinite play of movements that pleases us.

Here too we must name, as an element that *psychologically* explains to us the delight in regularity, the joy in *the fulfillment of expectation.* During the observation of regularity a definite expectation forms itself: the coming movement is anticipated by memory, and as the expectation is fulfilled, the mind feels a satisfaction, a joy, which is put into the object as a merit of the object. The irregular, strange, bizarre, outlandish movement, which constantly awakens surprise and wonder (as with the lines of the *[270]* baroque style), does not have this advantage and acts only for a moment as a stimulus, later as psychically lacerating; to which must further be added the *physiological* moment, that the eye is strained and tired by irregular or angular movement.

Harmonious movement is beautiful, but it need not really be graceful, although grace has often been defined as beauty in movement. One can also speak of an austere style in the beauty of movement, especially where great forces are concerned; but beauty in movement perhaps finds its highest form in grace and strives toward it, and grace can to that extent be named as one of the marks of this kind of beauty.

Here too, as on other points, Herbert Spencer has met with ideas that had been developed by Fr. Schiller, and has given them a more modern-scientific stamp. He tells himself how he came to his theory. I was watching, he says, a dancer one evening, and in my quiet mind I condemned her exertions as so many barbarous contortions, which one might have hissed at, if the spectators had not had the malice to applaud where they thought applause was due. But I also discovered that now and then there came movements of true grace, and it struck me that it was these that cost the least effort. I came to think of other facts that confirmed my hypothesis, and developed it into a general theory. The movement which, when we see it or perform it, makes the greatest impression of grace on us is the one in which every tension of force

or muscle seems to have vanished, during which the limbs, so to speak, play freely as if borne by the air. This also explains the superior effect of beauty that art has always known how to conjure forth by curvilinear movement. For the curved line is
[271] like the schema for a movement in which as little force as possible goes to waste, in contrast to angular movement with its great loss of force and muscular exertion. For the performer that movement is the easiest, freest; for the beholder the most beautiful, and also the easiest for the eye's muscular movements. Curvilinear movement seems to us floating, light and free; rectilinear and angular movement either heavy and unbeautiful or stiff and austere. Here too it turns out that beauty in movement can be traced back to the economy of force, to perfect purposiveness.

Playful movement (dancing, free gymnastics) of course most easily assumes grace, but Guyau is right that even able, purposive work acquires a certain beauty when the work goes like play, when we feel in it the same freedom and lightness that characterizes grace. Through the perfect worker's complete adaptation to his task and the feeling of freedom that practice breeds, his movements acquire the form of beauty; and the fact that here one works for an end, whereas play is a purpose in itself, diminishes the delight so little that we can even say that two new moments of interest are added here: the intellectual activity of finding the purpose of the application of force, and the aesthetic-intellectual activity in the harmony between the end and the forces employed as means. Indeed, at bottom we must also in play involuntarily make a similar valuation of the relation of the means to a presupposed end, since lightness can only be understood through the relation between the forces and the end, in the adaptation of force to the end while an unused surplus is preserved. Play too is, as activity, a kind of work, and the boundary between play and work is not as sharp as Spencer would make it. Grace consists most often in a kind of conscious or unconscious work, accomplished with less force, greater precision and greater lightness, a consequence of complete adaptation to a real or imagined end, the complete harmony between life and the surroundings. — It is something of this that we admire in consummate technique, the perfect adaptation of the means to
[272] the end, as when Ole Bull handled his violin, while the spinning Hercules arouses laughter by the disharmony between the slight end and the means' enormous sum of force. It is this that we admire in the well-formed lancers, whereas the farmhands' vigorous hopping in the dance has not attained grace and does not seem to have stopped at the sublime either. It is this that Ludvig Feilberg, who here offers us a whole collection of examples, calls tautness in bodily movement. One of his examples

he takes from skating. "Without tautness there is no real manner to the skating. It is tiring. One's vital force is strained without one's being able to get anything out of it; one cannot comprehend how people can amuse themselves with it. Only when one begins to dare to trust oneself to one's legs, when one dares give oneself up to a full, brisk sweep, stretch out in the air like the circus rider without anxiety about the prosaic plunge, only then does the sport begin to yield an interest, only then can one find something that one might call spiritual content in it"*). This tautness, which is a product of practice, is due, like all practice, to perfect adaptation, but this consists in reaching the end with the least loss of force, with lightness and freedom, and we value the movement as beautiful, graceful, by feeling it as the expression of the inner feeling that is the essence of the lightness and the freedom.

For it is not only the two elements, the joy in difference and change and the joy in the fulfillment of expectation, that are of a psychological nature. The more objective elements too, force, rhythm, grace, point back to psychological *principles*. Even if a part of the preliminary elements in grace, e.g. the delight in the curved line, can be explained physiologically, yet when it is a question of something so composite as a human being's movement, and especially in the highest form of grace, the *expressive movement of the human face, the beauty of expression*, evidently other factors into play, and by association they attach themselves involuntarily to the joy in the simple forms *[273]* of movement as well. We read movement as the expression of force and forms of force, but force we understand only from something in ourselves, from spontaneous energy and its direction toward a definite end, from the will; and the associated feelings of security, equilibrium, courage, lightness, etc. attach to this. The regularity of movement appeals not only to the intelligence but is also valued as an expression of the will's consistency; grace is read as an expression of the feeling of pleasure that perfect harmony with the milieu awakens once the will has reached this end. It is thus the *mental content* that we value in the movement we call beautiful. We are accustomed to see this movement as the constant sensuous companion of a free and happy feeling, and through habit and association every movement comes to represent a feeling, a state of consciousness; outer life is for us a revelation of the inner. It is the happy feeling that here makes up the spiritual content, the world of values that we read in the beautiful form. Harmonious happiness, that is beauty. The angular and awkward movement displeases us not only physiologically, but essentially because it is read as the expression of an unfree mind, a mind moved by a feeling of displeasure

*) Om størst Udbytte af Sjæleevner. p. 45.

because it is not in harmony with its surroundings, whether the cause of this be a lack of mastery over one's body or embarrassment at the sudden exertion of force that danger demands. Only compare the forms and movements of a dog in anger or fear with its corresponding movements in joy, and one will see that the angular and hard forms and movements attach to danger, struggle, anger, the soft and rounded ones to happiness, play and freedom. The light, free, graceful, half-floating movement pleases us as the expression of joy and goodwill, as the form of the self's harmony with its surroundings and the sympathy that follows from it. It is the joy of life, the harmony of life, for which grace is the expression, that pleases us through life's sympathy
[274] with life. Of course there can be more austere and more ingratiating forms of the beauty of expression and of movement (compare the Venus de Milo and the Medici Venus), and even sharp, angular forms can offer a certain aesthetic attraction through the characteristic; but even in this there must be a certain harmony, a certain closed bearing, and everywhere it is in the last instance a content of mind that we read in the form, and that is associated with the form by experience, and now infects us and awakens our sympathy. Here again we get a vivid impression of how psychological the foundation of the beautiful is. It is the law of self-preservation, to strive for pleasure and shun displeasure, and sympathy and association, that are the key here.

Besides these nearer, primary associations, by which beauty and grace in movement are, universally among men, attached to the mind's happiness, lightness and freedom, there must also be named a series of *remoter*, highly indefinite, but nonetheless contributing *associations*. Beautiful and graceful movements are in life especially attached to cheerful and cultured persons, whose appearance as a whole gives us satisfaction; to festive occasions such as dances, balls, etc.; to places that on the whole give us joy, such as theaters and the like; to the representations of art; and such associations play an indefinite part in stressing the joy more strongly. As regards grace in particular, it must further be added that, since woman, in her whole build and in the nature of her feelings, is nearer to grace than man, who is disposed more toward dignity, there will, especially for man, attach to grace an associative tone of the enchantment that the difference of the sexes affords human beings[*)].

Finally, to the elements named in the beauty of movement there can be added an element of the sensuously pleasant. For it is not only the constant alternation, change and novelty that please us in the running of animals, the flight of birds, the swimming
[275] of fish, the speed of ships, the flight of clouds, and the still richer play of movement

[*)] See my essay: Mand og Kvinde. "Tilskueren" for 1887. p. 607 ff. and 693 ff.

in human mimicry; but the sensuous phenomenon itself is also constantly altered and renewed.

Thus there is here a great number of aesthetic elements, but the center of gravity lies in our reading of the quick and light movement as the expression of force, rhythm and pleasure in activity, and in our reading of the measured, rounded movement as the form of the soul's equilibrium and harmony. The center of gravity lies in the psychological content, in the soul's harmony. Even Schiller, who is otherwise inclined to stress form, states this: "All movements," he says, "that proceed from the beautiful, free soul become easily gentle and living; if the human being is cheerful and free, the eye will shine and feeling light up in it. No tension will be discoverable in the muscles (more correctly, no incoordination in the muscles), no constraint in the voluntary movements, for the soul knows none." But the sensuous forms and movements attached to this we value as beautiful only because by inner experience we know the value of the feelings, of the freedom and harmony of life, that are their inner soul. "And the noble (and happy) content of the heart does not by good fortune hit upon forms that are beautiful in themselves, but these forms become beautiful by being a natural and intelligible expression of that content." The aesthetics of form is partly right to lay stress on form, and deserves honor for its exact investigations in this field, but the deeper truth is that in form we read a content of life: happiness. There is beauty in the world, but in the last instance it is read out of the most beautiful thing of all, the free, harmonious, happy human soul, whether this expresses itself directly in the form or is put into it.

4. Alfred Lehmann (b. 1858). Principal works: Om Hypnosen (1890). Hov- *[276]*
edlovene for det menneskelige Følelsesliv (1892). Overtro og Trolddom (1893—1896). De sjælelige Tilstandes legemlige Ytringer (3 vols.; the last two volumes only in German).

A. DETERMINATION OF THE VASOMOTOR CHANGES

(From "De sjælelige Tilstandes legemlige Ytringer").

The method. If one wishes to make out the changes that under given circumstances occur in the state of the vessels in a normal, uninjured human being, there is, so far as I have been able to see, only one way to do so, namely: the determination of the velocity of the pulse wave in the various vascular regions. The time by which

the pulse beat in a given artery lags behind the heartbeat varies constantly, and we know precisely the factors on which the changes depend. It is especially *Grunmach's* investigations that have brought complete clarity on this point, since he showed not only the actual state of affairs but also the causes of the mutually divergent results of older researchers. By direct physiological measurements on animals as well as on healthy and sick human beings, Grunmach*) found, namely, that the velocity of the pulse wave increases not only with blood pressure but also with the tonus of the vessel examined. And by comparative physical investigations of the propagation of the pulse wave in arteries and various other elastic tubes he showed that there were essential differences between the various materials, but that the arteries belong among the tubes whose coefficient of elasticity — and with it also the pulse velocity — increases with increasing pressure.

[277] It may therefore be regarded as established that the time by which the pulse beat in an artery lags behind the heartbeat will be the shorter, the higher the blood pressure is, and the more the vessel wall has contracted under the influence of the vasoconstrictors. If, then, one determines the variations of this time difference for a single artery only, no inferences can be drawn from it about the changing states of the vessel, since, e.g., a shortening of the time can be due either to a general increase of blood pressure, or to a purely local contraction of the vessel, or to both together. The easiest way in which this difficulty could be overcome might now seem to be that one determined, simultaneously with the variations of the pulse delay, also those of the blood pressure. It is, however, quite doubtful whether one would really be able in that case to draw sure inferences; I shall, however, not enter upon a closer discussion of this point, because we are not able continuously to determine the changes of the counter-pressure. Possibly one can, by a suitable use of one of the so-called sphygmomanometers, measure the blood pressure at a single given moment, but precisely what matters, namely the constant variations, we cannot register. Consequently it is not worth the trouble either to examine what could be inferred if one knew these quantities.

In general, then, as we see, nothing can be derived from the pulse delay in a single artery. But if, on the other hand, one also knows various other quantities concerning the same artery, the matter stands differently. If one takes, e.g., a plethysmogram

*)Ueber die Fortpflanzungsgeschwindigkeit der Pulswellen. Du Bois' Archiv. 1879. p. 417 ff. Ueber die Pulsgeschwindigkeit bei Erkrankungen des Circulationsapparates. Virchow's Archiv. Vol. 102. p. 565 ff. Du Bois's Archiv. 1888, p. 129 ff. Cf. v. Frey: Die Untersuchung des Pulses. pp. 131—39.

of the radial artery simultaneously with the heartbeat, the delay of the radial pulse can be determined from it, and in that case one also knows the pulse frequency and the variations of the volume and of the pulse height. From these four known quantities sure inferences must in many cases be drawable. For it was already shown earlier that from the pulse frequency and the changes of the volume and of the pulse height we are generally able to decide whether in a given case vasomotor changes *[278]* have taken place or not. On the other hand it could not be decided whether these changes consisted in a dilatation of the vessels in the arm or a constriction of the vessels in other regions; for these changes would have the same influence on the plethysmogram, but we lacked the means to decide which of them had taken place. Now it is evident that such a decision must be possible when to the three quantities known from the plethysmogram one adds a fourth, namely the delay of the radial pulse, which depends directly on the tonus of the vessels. By way of example we may consider a particular case. Let there be given a plethysmogram in which the volume sinks with increasing pulse length and decreasing pulse height, as is the case in general when a piece of mental work begins. Since a lower pulse frequency (increasing pulse length) will, other things being equal, entail a greater pulse height and a diminished volume, the diminution of volume in question can thus simply be a consequence of this; but vasomotor changes are of course not excluded. And since the pulse height actually becomes smaller, whereas the slower heartbeat, ceteris paribus, gives a greater pulse height, vasomotor changes must therefore have taken place. But we cannot decide whether these consist in a constriction of the vessels in the arm or a dilatation of the vessels in other organs or both together. This question can, however, be answered when the pulse delay is determined. For if it proves to remain constant or to decrease with sinking volume, there must necessarily be a constriction of the vessels in the arm. For the slower heartbeat has as its consequence a diminution of the arterial blood pressure, and with that the pulse delay must increase. If it proves, then, to be constant or decreasing in a single vascular region, there must be a constriction of the vessels in this region. It is of course not wholly excluded that there may at the same time be a dilatation of the vessels in other regions; but since this would only have a further diminution of the blood pressure as its consequence, the constriction *[279]* of the vessels in the arm must simply be so much the stronger, since otherwise the pulse delay could not remain constant or even decrease.

It is thus clear from this example that one will at any rate in many cases be able to determine the vasomotor conditions in a single vascular region when, besides the

pulse frequency, one knows the volume changes, pulse height and pulse delay of the vascular region in question. If, then, it were possible to determine these quantities for the brain in a normal human being, one could, by a series of experiments, determine the flow of blood to the brain during various psychical states; and it could thereby simply be decided whether the blood supply of the brain stood in proportion to the work that it performed in producing these states. Now these measurements unfortunately cannot be carried out on an uninjured human being. The volume changes of the brain at any rate cannot be demonstrated by any way known so far, except when there is an opening in the skull produced intentionally or unintentionally. But when there is an opening brought about by fracture or trepanation, one has in the rarest cases an individual psychically completely uninjured before one. Of the not few persons on whom over the years brain curves have been recorded, only Bertino, examined by Mosso, and *Berger's* subject Str. seem really to have been quite normal, and of these the former was, for other reasons, only little suited as an object of psychological experiments. It will thus always be a very rare case to obtain a subject fully usable in every respect, and consequently it would also be very desirable if whoever once finds such a subject could arrange matters so as not only to record plethysmograms of the brain but also to determine the pulse delay in the brain, since this seems to afford the only sure foothold for an interpretation of the curves.

The circumstance that we cannot determine the volume changes of the brain on an
[280] uninjured human being will, however, only make difficult, but not wholly impossible, the determination of the conditions of circulation in the brain; all that is required is a few more determinations. For if, besides the four quantities mentioned above, we also know the pulse delay in the carotid, the vasomotor conditions in the brain can be derived from it in all such cases where the observed pulse delay cannot have been caused by the changes in pulse frequency alone. To understand this we need only consider the example mentioned above. When the pulse frequency becomes lower at the beginning of a piece of psychical work, this should, everything else unchanged, entail a greater pulse delay in all regions. If the measurements now show an increased pulse delay in the carotid, it cannot be decided whether this is due to the slower heartbeat alone, or whether a dilatation of the vessels possibly also takes place in the brain. But when the pulse thereafter, during the continued psychical work, begins to beat faster, the pulse delay should, everything else unchanged, decrease. If it nevertheless turns out that it becomes greater in the carotid — but not in other vascular regions — there can be no doubt that a dilatation of the vessels must be

taking place in the brain. It is thus evident that the vasomotor conditions in the brain can be decided in all those cases where the pulse delay in the carotid cannot have been caused by the simultaneous changes in pulse frequency. And these inferences obviously become the surer, the more vascular regions the pulse delay is determined for, since one thereby obtains a guarantee that the changes of the pulse delay in the carotid are really due to vasomotor changes in this region and are not merely secondary effects of greater changes in other vascular regions.

According to these considerations, then, the smallest number of recordings with which one can make do, if reasonably sure inferences are to be drawable, will be the following: the heartbeat, the plethysmogram of an arm, the carotid pulse and finally respiration. The registration of these various phenomena must moreover be carried *[281]* out in such a way that it is possible to derive the pulse delay accurately from the curves. Experiments of this kind I have carried out on a large scale in the course of the years 1897 and '98 with several different male subjects, younger and older; not, however, with female ones, partly because it is often difficult to record the heartbeat in grown women, and partly because the placing of the cardiograph necessitates undressing and a series of manipulations that would be embarrassing for the female subjects concerned. It would of course have been very desirable if, besides the curves named, I had also obtained the tibial pulse, but for purely practical reasons I had to forgo this. For the placing of all these instruments takes considerable time when one does not have at one's disposal a larger staff of well-trained assistants; but through such lengthy preparations the subject is tired and put into anything but a normal state of mind, which is by no means suited as a starting point for the following experiments. I therefore found it advisable to confine myself to recording the curves that were strictly necessary. Only in the spring of 1901, when a couple of young physicians, who had earlier served as subjects and were well trained in operating the instruments, again placed themselves at my disposal for the same purpose, was a longer series of experiments made in which the tibial pulse was registered simultaneously with the other pulse curves. This series of experiments is, by the nature of the case, much more valuable than all the others, since it puts into our hands the means of interpreting the less comprehensive experiments with certainty. In describing the experiments and deriving the inferences that can be drawn from them, I shall therefore always take these more complete experiments as the starting experiments.

B. MAN AS THE CENTER OF THE MAGICAL

FORCES (From "Overtro og Trolddom").

[282] Men have at all times believed in the possibility of magical operations. By these operations one aimed to attain two essentially different things. Partly an *insight* or *knowledge* that could not be acquired in the ordinary way, by observations or communications from others, and partly an *influence* on the surrounding world that likewise could not be attained by the means generally available at the various times. The knowledge sought concerned almost always what was to come, the future; one can therefore comprise all the magical methods used for this under the name of the arts of divination. More diverse, on the other hand, were the purposes that one strove for through magical influences. The healing of diseases and the prolongation of life, the acquisition of riches and sexual pleasures, independence of spatial distances and in general mastery over nature, a secret and unlimited power to harm or benefit one's fellow men — in short, everything that the human heart could desire but not attain in the ordinary way, all this one hoped to acquire by magical operations.

The belief in the possibility of these magical arts is found again, as said, at all times. Now it pervades the whole of society, now it is pushed back to the less enlightened classes, but usually only for a short time; then it flares up again with renewed force. And it goes the same way with the theories by which one grounded and explained the magical effects. If one disregards all inessential side circumstances, there really remain only two such theories. In modern terms we may call the one the *spiritistic*, since it assumes that all magical effects are called forth by higher, intelligent beings;
[283] the other the *occultist*, since it assumes an unknown, all-pervading force of nature as the true cause. These theories have most often gone peacefully side by side. The sorcery of the Chaldeans is thus the art of conjuration, hence spiritistic; but their art of divination is scientifically occultist. In the original European magic the relation seems rather to be the reverse; the magical influences are due to the immediate power of the magical means over things; predictions and prophecies, on the other hand, come about, at least sometimes, through the cooperation of fylgjur and other spirits. After the Chaldean and the European magic had become mixed, the relation between the two conceptions became variable, but even in the magical philosophy of a Cornelius Agrippa, where the scientific-occultist line of thought must naturally predominate, the belief in spirits still plays a great part. The learned magus's mastery over the occult forces culminates only when he is able, by their help, to draw down the heavenly intelligences and demons from which the forces have their origin. So here too the two

theories stand peacefully side by side; it is probably only in our day that the relation has developed into a strife between two essentially different principles.

Between the theoretical views and the practical operations there is of course a constant interaction. Just as the theories serve to explain the significance of the magical actions, so the magical arts will also serve to confirm the correctness of the theories, since they — at any rate apparently — lead to the desired results. Since we now see as well that both the theoretical views and the belief in the practical operations have maintained themselves with tenacity through millennia, from the childhood of the human race to our day, it is thereby given that something real must lie at the bottom of all these representations. There must on the one hand be phenomena that lead naturally to the belief in the existence of higher beings or secret forces, and on the other hand something must really be attainable by the magical operations. *[284]* For if these never led to the desired result, the belief in them would at last have to vanish, and it would drag the theories with it in its fall. And the theories would have to vanish still faster if they had originally arisen as free fantasies, neither resting on definite observations nor confirmed through the magical operations. The very history of superstition shows us clearly enough that the course of development is thus. Every assumption that from the outset is built on definite experiences vanishes at last when the experiences no longer speak for the correctness of the assumption. A couple of single examples will suffice to illustrate this.

The astrology of the Chaldeans sprang from the observation that there seemed to be a relation of dependence between the periodically recurring positions of the movable heavenly bodies and earthly events, which also to a certain degree repeat themselves. This belief in the influence of the stars maintained itself right up into the 19th century, but it began to waver when the astronomical art of observation had become sufficiently developed. The astrologers then made the sad discovery that the accurately drawn-up horoscopes did not agree with the events actually occurring, and that one was therefore obliged to play tricks with the horoscopes to bring about agreement. Doubt about the correctness of the theories thus sets in, as one sees, at the moment when the magical operations no longer lead to the desired result. And the experts gave up the belief in astrology completely when the laws of the planets' movements had been found, and it followed from them that no connection whatever could be demonstrated between these strictly calculable movements and the wholly incalculable earthly occurrences. — It goes the same way also with alchemy. It sprang, as we have seen, from observations of the changes of the metals. Since one was not

master of these conditions and did not know either what the changes consisted in, the experiences led naturally to the belief that one metal must be transformable into
[285] another. But the belief vanished again when it had been realized that the changes concerned only the physical properties of the metals, and that one had not come a single step nearer to the desired result, the real transformation of metals, despite enormous sacrifices of strength, time and money.

The historical facts thus prove that neither the theoretical views nor the practical operations can continue to exist when they have no support in experience. So something real must lie at the bottom of all the superstitious representations and magical arts that have maintained themselves through the ages right down to our day. This is all the more probable since spiritists and occultists constantly adduce a swarm of observations in support of their views. And to this is further added that what one nowadays believes one observes agrees to an astonishing degree with descriptions of similar occurrences from older times. There can thus hardly be doubt that it is the same phenomena that recur at all times. The belief in the activity of spirits and occult forces must originally have been called forth by certain appearances that have kept up this belief down through millennia, and from which it still to this day draws its nourishment.

Our task should now be to investigate what kind of phenomena they are that have given occasion to, and constantly keep up, all the superstitious representations, the belief in arts of divination and other sorcery. In our treatment of superstition this investigation must necessarily become the main point, because it is its results that entitle us to brand the various views as superstitious. Only when it has been successfully shown that the whole theory and practice of magic rests on bad observation and false interpretation of natural, more or less well-known phenomena, only then have we the right to give these incorrect interpretations the name of superstition. And should it turn out in such an investigation that there really are points that cannot be
[286] explained by the forces known so far, there is nothing for it but openly and honestly to admit that the magi have been right here. For it is not altogether unknown in the history of science that at one time something has been rejected as superstition which later has proved after all to have its correctness. The possibility is thus not wholly excluded that, in going through the whole field, we may come upon one fact or another to which science has so far not attached its proper significance.

The first question that naturally arises is now this: where are we to seek the forces that are active in the magical operations? Is it in inanimate or in living nature? Is

it purely physical forces, or is it psychophysical forces, that are in question? Here there can hardly be any doubt; it is in animate nature, more precisely in man, that these forces must be sought. The physics and chemistry of our time stand powerless before the magical effects; these precisely cannot be explained by the natural forces known so far. And the great advances of natural science in our day make it extremely improbable that there should still be found in nature physical forces that could manifest themselves at every spiritistic séance, but which the natural scientist never comes upon in his laboratory. For this reason alone, then, it becomes probable that the magical forces must be sought in man, and our historical investigations point in the same direction. At all times it has been clear that it was not given to everyone to be able to practice sorcery. It could not be learned in the way anyone can learn to tend a steam engine or use a telephone; sorcery made definite demands on its practitioners. Witches, sorcerers, magi and mediums have always been people with special aptitudes, and these aptitudes had moreover to be developed. The unprejudiced and insightful investigations of recent times in this field have indeed also led to a definite emphasis being laid on mediumship. Only some few people, the mediums, have proved to possess the necessary conditions for attaining magical effects. It is thus man who is *[287]* the center of the magical forces. Consequently we must first and foremost investigate the psychical activities in order to see to what extent they can explain the magical effects.

But the historical investigations have taught us one thing more. From our own time we doubtless have indisputably the best descriptions of the results that are believed to have been attained by magical operations. The high standpoint that scientific methods of research now occupy has not been able to avoid leaving its mark also on research in the field of magic. In the last decades numerous natural scientists have indeed taken up this study, and their descriptions of what they have observed at spiritistic séances can of course be counted on to be more accurate and more reliable than similar descriptions from bygone times. Moreover, only very few old reports of this kind exist. We know not a little about the methods formerly used, but careful descriptions of the results obtained are hardly to be found. There exists a number of old horoscopes that really seem to agree with the later fate of the persons concerned; there are reports of a few successful transmutations of metals, and the claims of some magi to conjurations and summonings of spirits carried out. But all these descriptions are very scanty and moreover given by men who were wholly entangled in the superstitious representations of the spirit of the age; from the hand

of skeptics there are virtually no older reports of successful magical operations. It is thus to our own time that we must keep when it is a matter of getting on the track of what can really be attained. But now the history of spiritism has taught us that even the modern investigations in this field are by no means unassailable. In many cases the testimonies of different observers stand against one another, and even where there is agreement about what has taken place, the reports are by no means always
[288] so detailed or accurate that one can without further ado rely on things having taken place exactly as they are described.

From this it now follows directly that every investigation of the magical forces in man must necessarily be introduced by an investigation of the human power of observation and a determination of the errors with which human observations can be burdened. For it is conceivable that many apparently magical effects arise only from the fact that man under certain circumstances cannot observe correctly at all. Quite natural phenomena can then, under such conditions, come to look magical, even to the ablest observer. And it would obviously be wholly mistaken to seek the cause of such magical effects deeper down in mental life when it lies right on the surface: in the very imperfection of the power of observation. For a phenomenon that has never occurred, but that an observer only believes he has seen, there can of course be found no other explanation than this: that man under the given circumstances has not been able to observe correctly. First and foremost, then, we must investigate what errors of observation a given report must always be reckoned to be burdened with.

L. Feilberg (b. 1849). Principal works: Om størst Udbytte af Sjæleevner (1881). Holbergs Træ i Fiolstræde (1888). Om Ligeløb og Kredsning i Sjælelivet (1896). Om sjælelig Ringhed (1899 — 1902). Naturlærens Leve-ABC (1906). From the last-named work some pieces are given here.

A. CONDENSATION OF ENERGY

Seen fleetingly, it seems really quite puzzling that a human being — to whom surely no one any longer thinks of attributing such a free will that he should thereby
[289] be able to go outside the laws of nature — is able to produce a condensation of energy. By virtue of what power does he do it? One would think that it was just as impossible

as that a stone could take to rolling uphill, or that a man could lift himself out of a bog by his hair. Where does the force necessary for it come from, seen purely physically?

Physically it comes always from the meeting of oppositely directed effects of nature. Nature has no other way of producing condensation. The meeting between the quantity of motion once present in nature and the resistances to it (reaction, hammer and anvil). If a current meets a closedness that bars its way, there will always form a condensation or a pressure head (wave), which stops the motion and turns it back against itself.

How condensation (pressure head) can in this way directly be an object of breeding and accumulation can be illustrated in a particularly graphic way by a water-lifting apparatus that goes by the name of the *hydraulic ram* (the impulse siphon). It consists of a conduit pipe in which water, coming from a reservoir placed higher up, gathers speed by its fall until the speed causes a flap or ball valve to slam shut and bar the way for the water, which is then, by its own inherent living force, forced up into a rising pipe placed in front of the valve. To a fleeting view such an apparatus may well look as if it were able to produce life-activity when, with its pulse-like strokes, it lies there performing one lift after another, as long as need be, and without anyone looking after it or touching it, just like a perpetuum mobile.

A quite similar breeding of condensation can plainly enough be observed in a human being.

Ex. 1. If a boy stands in front of a school with a reluctance to go in, one ought really to wonder that he is nevertheless able to do it, what force of nature it really is that gets him in there. One would think that it was just as physically impossible that he could act against his inclination as that a stone can lift itself up from the ground. *[290]* And so it would be if he really found it easier to go in another direction; but that is precisely what he does not; for over there on the road he sees in his thoughts a schoolmaster with a rod. That closes every other outlet for the current. It gives an unpleasant condensation (rising head), in the face of which the way into the school in the end becomes the one he must prefer, although it is hard. So he is "rammed" in. So he goes in "of his own free will" (cf. the soldier who went along "compulsorily voluntarily"). Freedom and self-determination simply are not otherwise in nature.

Thus existence runs its course day after day also in the field of higher mental life.

Ex. 2. Suppose that a beautiful impression has set a powerful current in motion, and that one then meets a cold and unpleasant gust of wind: then one has the ramming at once. The lively current is broken off, while at the same time the living force, which

cannot be without effect, gets no other outlet than to produce condensation. It is the well-known phenomenon of being pressed up through the unpleasant, which every human being knows so well. It lies at the bottom of all condensation.

Let us say that on a beautiful autumn evening you stand on the shore and see the glow from the town mirrored in the water along the beach, while electric searchlights from the fort cast cones of light onto the trees on the coast. It sets the mind in strong motion. It can call forth a strong unsatisfied craving in the mind, a strong surging. An author who described an Italian night at sea used the expression that he could gladly have thrown himself down on the bottom of his boat in tears. If one now seeks an outlet for this quantity of motion by turning thought in ordinary everyday directions, one gets a feeling as if one were running against a wall. It is closedness and closedness all of it; there is no outlet. But if the inner system of channels is perhaps such that the thoughts are led in other directions, be it in the direction of your eternal origin, then
[291] it can happen that despondency is all at once relieved by an inner jubilation. Then a new way has been rammed up. It is evidently the hydraulic-ram effect, a strong current that is pressed by closedness up into outlets that are not reached in daily life.

For such ramming-up, however, by no means such special conditions are needed. It takes place scores of times every day, when something has set the mind in motion while at the same time outlets close themselves to the awakened current. Now it may be a couple of drooping willow leaves that awaken an unsatisfied craving for life, now a cozy sunny nook that one has no time to enjoy, an unnoticed wild flower on the edge of a ditch or a forgotten begonia in a weed-overgrown bed in the garden. Now it may be a stormy day of sleet on the ramparts, when all people keep indoors, now beauty in October together with the thought that soon it will all be over. Always it is something that sets the mind in motion together with an unsatisfying prospect of an outlet. It is just as in the hydraulic ram, where the current first gathers speed in order then, by sudden barring, to be forced upward.

In view of the significance that such small rammings-up have for producing the condensation of daily life, it is important to accustom oneself to having an eye for the small things of daily life in such a way that one becomes able to take condensation from them. Unnoticed small things that can set the mind in motion without at the same time offering any further outlet that can take the tension from one again. To be able to fetch motion from the flies' playing in the sun, from the way in which the tall blades of grass by the pond nod to one another, etc., etc. It is this sort of small things that can often teach one jubilation over life, precisely because they offer so

slight an outlet in proportion to the motion they awaken. They ram life up in one. That a splendid piece of music as a rule cannot do. It gives a many times stronger motion, but at the same time opens such powerful outlets for the current that any rise is made impossible. People think that one can enjoy oneself upward; but it is physically impossible. Whoever steps aside from daily ramming pressure passes by *[292]* the life of condensation at once. In the mood of a summer resident in the country condensation is almost impossible. One is too flatly spread out in the outflow and reaches no higher than the lowest pressure heads. Things must be closed off at the sides before the current can be forced upward. On the other hand one feels a powerful ramming (condensation) in the mind on the day the last leaf has fallen from the trees in November, and there is nothing whatever left to look at.

Notice how the whole of nature is arranged for this sort of ramming-up. In among the lovely green stalks of grain, between which the sunlight plays, creep hideous predatory beetles and all kinds of devouring monsters, and beside them stands the farmer wiping his sweaty brow with a worried mind. These are the apparatuses by which the condensation of force is brought about, inseparably bound up with existence as they are. He would have to get up early who could slip round them. But he is not supposed to at all. It is this ramming that is to create life. Without these predatory beetles there would never be anything but coarseness in the soul.

Adversity condenses a human being more than prosperity.

Rainy weather more than sunshine.

Jutland's harsh west coast more than Lolland's fertile fields.

Fallen leaves in October more than the leafing of spring.

Sometimes one and the same impression can at once call forth motion and close it off. Then the awakened motion is born with a strong condensation (high ramming, fine impressions).

Think of a stormy day of sleet on the ramparts, when the wind blows straight across the path into the great treetops, on whose branches it turns the undersides upward with a thunderous din, so that one can hardly hear one's own footsteps, while falling branches make it dangerous to walk up there, and the rain drives people indoors. Then there is a ramming in the solitary wanderer up to fine spiritual moods.

Or think of an old ruin, the strong emotion it can awaken, and the annihilating *[293]* way in which it closes off old times. Few things can ram like an old ruin, a grave or the like. —

But regarded as a hydraulic ram, man is surely more complicatedly arranged than

the apparatus described above. The possibility stands open here that the valves can be moved in a quite different, composite way under the influence of a more or less intricate system of previously acquired tracks, ways and connections, different for different people, whereupon the whole effect must necessarily acquire a completely arbitrary appearance, as if one acted on one's own sovereign authority.

If the lift so produced is to become useful, however, it must in a self-evident way be combined with obstacles to the motion's going back of itself.

This can happen by the rising pipe emptying its contents at a certain height into a pond from which the water cannot run down again, or in a similar way. Once the water has got out into such a pond, it stays there; then the lift does not become greater that time; but then one can later have a new ram that brings the water from the said pond up to another, still higher-lying pond, and so forth. In this way there come to be definite resting places for the motion, at which the effort of lifting ceases while at the same time going back is prevented, definite *stories*, arranged for a longer staying without effort.

So the relation must, rationally, necessarily be; but so too one can clearly observe that it is.

Ex. 1. It is an experience that constantly repeats itself that a discomfort of condensation, after reaching a certain magnitude (height of lift), can suddenly pass (the overcoming has been accomplished), while at the same time it turns out that something has happened in the organism.

After a walk that had been strenuous and had produced a peculiar restlessness and heat, just like a kind of thirst, I stood one day outside a tavern and thought of a
[294] Tuborg Pilsner, when it struck me at that very moment that this heat was probably not thirst at all, but a surging in the nervous system that would be destroyed precisely by the indulgence: "You shall not, Jeppe." For a while I stood looking at the little tables covered with red cloths; but nothing came of it. Suddenly the heat passed, the restlessness was quite gone, and at that very moment I observed mental flashes of great beauty. A change of constitution had taken place through the condensation. Had I given in to the temptation, I know from earlier experience that it would not have come. Now a way had been rammed up to new stories in the soul.

Occurrences of this kind will be well known.

Ex. 2. When after a holiday stay in the country one again reports for school lessons and the like, one has a rich opportunity to make observations concerning such breakthroughs of overcoming. It may in the first days be as if one went about in

a mood of self-surrender, so unpleasant is it. As if one did not look at houses, streets and objects at all — that would only be a suffering. — As if one left hope outside. But when a couple of days have passed, it seems to one as if the whole thing at bottom was not so bad. It is in fact rather nice with this stronger mood. There is a certain real form of existence in it that brings one to look on the summer-resident mood as something poor, to which only wretched individuals could give themselves up in the long run. One begins to understand the persons who complain of the lack of work and occupation. There is something flat and pitiable about this summer-resident mood. It would not be bearable to have a holiday always.

It is plain how one has been rammed up to a new constitution of the soul.

Every high goal that is to be reached has its condensation side of suffering (suffering of condensation); but it is only poor people who notice it (compare lying in bed till ten o'clock to avoid the discomfort of getting up). One has in general no right to call condensation a suffering; it is on the contrary a glory. What must a stalk not go through of condensation and death to produce a little grain of rice. It is all glory. *[295]* The whole of life is one single great process of condensation. But it would surely be a misguided creature that called life a suffering. It is a glory for which one thanks the gods. In addition, this sort of suffering is very much as one takes it. In dancing people often work like horses without talking of hardship. It is a pleasure. Suffering comes properly forward as such only in the one who constantly lets himself be pushed forward by nature and does not voluntarily go at condensation as his purpose in life. If one has to be beaten into everything, then life becomes a suffering. Then one comes backward to everything, gets caught in the valves of the hydraulic ram and goes to pieces like poor tools.

B. LOVE OF NATURE

A man in a working mood is crossing one of the bridges in Frederiksberg Garden. This morning he got up by an act of overcoming. Now he has gradually got into the daily trot that usually fills life, a certain restless mood in which one rushes along without rest in the soul, always onward, regarding it as a kind of fraud against life to lay aside one's speed for a single moment. Life simply is hard, and so it is meant to be. So existence goes for most people.

It is foggy autumn weather. Everything is dripping wet, and as he looks down into the canal, a drop of water falls from a chestnut branch and forms a large bubble that slowly sends rings out on all sides.

"I have no time to look at that" is the first movement of thought that stirs in him. But he would not have thought that if there had not been something in the sight that had tried to captivate him. So it often happens that small things seek to speak to one and catch one. Then one should always stop and stand still. There is not so
[296] much in life that can speak finely that one can afford to pass it by. Stand still! Do stand still! Use the few moments you live to see the wonderful in small things. Our man kept on walking; but then an involuntary desire came over him to see how far such a ring could now get. God knows whether it was not also an old memory that struck him. Often memories can lie hidden in such small impressions that do not manage to become conscious. One does not quite know what. He stood still with one leg forward, ready to walk on. Then another drop fell. It set as it were a dot in the mind, a little puncture, a needle's eye into something that was of value. But it was as if this needle's eye would slip away the next moment. One cannot hold on to this sort of thing, cannot force it up. It was as if it constantly slipped away from him. In his representation of the bubble it seemed to him that he constantly slid off a smooth curve and fell down now to one side, now to the other, whereas what ought to happen was that with a firm and sure hand one held steady right against a definite point. This constant sliding off seems irritating to him. At last, with a mighty effort of force, he puts a finger on a quite definite spot: "Now it shall stay there, and now it does not stir." And then it can happen that it really succeeds — when he stands quite still, so still, so still, does not draw breath, does not move a muscle, does not blink an eye — that then as it were a little root can sprout that binds, and that he then no longer slides on the smooth surface. Then the needle's eye becomes larger and larger, until at last a new track opens completely with a sigh of relief. Then a way has been won up to something new. That is what a mental overcoming looks like.

The main thing in such a story is the application of force to the busy mood as foundation. It is peculiar; for it is really force twice over. The busy mood was itself a product of force, arisen through overcoming. Now this product of condensation itself
[297] becomes the object of a new condensation. It is condensation to the 2nd power. It must necessarily give a still stronger condensation. First there was a certain measure of condensation (the working mood). Then a new condensation is added and increases itself upon the preceding one, as it were on top of it. It must necessarily give something

more. For they are both there. The one works upon the product that the other has produced. It must give an increased effect.

But at the same time as this increased condensation one notices that something has happened in the soul, a change of the mental constitution. A new product has come forth through the breakthrough, a peculiar *warmth of heart* (heartiness, life of the heart, love of nature), a quite peculiar product, of which there was nothing at all in what preceded, and which cannot help reminding one of how strong condensations of energy in nature can often bring objects to a glow. There can be something dear in standing and looking at those rings. Life in a wholly different way, which one can well remember, but which one had wholly lost sight of. Strange, how it can speak to one.

"I have never experienced anything of the sort," the reader says perhaps. Very well! Then let us try another example.

Let us take the overcoming on a *walking tour*. It has its definite stages. Already at the end of the first mile one notices a certain unbearableness, a strong bodily surging, which often tempts one to stop, go in and drink coffee somewhere or the like. It is a purely bodily overcoming. If it is allowed to last its time out without interruption, it passes of itself (the overcoming has been accomplished), after which one can walk a long time without the least surging in an extraordinarily pleasant, trained mood. But then comes the overcoming really characteristic of the walking tour, a more mental form of exertion of force, which always ends with warmth (life of the heart) of great beauty. Everyone will know how things at the end of such a walking tour can acquire something blessedly dear about them. It is precisely to attain this heart-warm, splendid mood that one takes the walk, if one is otherwise a practitioner in this field. Even the villas, empty of people in winter, can look so lovable that one can hardly help *[298]* patting them. Often a bend of a forest road or a deep wheel rut can look so blessedly homely and dear that one almost has to laugh. It is love of nature in its purest and prettiest form. There can be something about such a road that leads one away from the world as to an old home. One suddenly recognizes it. The wheel ruts laugh to one, the puddles twinkle, a wondrous glory calls one away from the accustomed. You who would live! Hasten to lose yourself in this love of nature. Hide yourself in it before human life finds you again, and stay forever in the old home that was and is. Men produce glory with motley rags and metallic luster. Nature teaches one a really living glory, the glory in the soul that mankind forgot. That is how human life was meant to look. Wake up, man, from the wretched life you lead! Can you not hear that there

is sometimes something that positively cries to heaven.

Do you know it, when you suddenly notice that it hums so mildly and kindly in the stove, as if old generations were talking? You have no doubt heard it rumbling all the while; but suddenly you notice that it sounds so cozy, so mild and kind, as if there were voices in the sound, coming from a long way off, far, far back in time. Br.. rr.. it suddenly flares up with a flame right in the draught hole. It can be as if you stood nailed fast like a pillar, so still. What could it be? As if you could not move so much as an eye. As a rule things seethe and boil in the soul; it is so strange when it suddenly becomes quite still. All the remarkable things one seems to hear. It is really only this that matters for a human being who would think: to be quite still in the soul, so still that the phenomena themselves begin to speak, like this rumbling of the
[299] stove here now. Then the phenomena themselves tell the whole thing. As a rule one flickers about like a candle in the wind, falls upon the phenomena with trembling hands and talks oneself, instead of letting the phenomena talk. Kills them at last with one's chatter and one's ego, so that they stand dead round about and say nothing. One should not be at all. It should be quite still in the soul as out in the space of heaven. Then life comes into the phenomena. Then they begin to speak. It is as if this rumbling stole you along out into space, into the infinite stillness, and as if there all at once an infinite life arose. Hush! How remarkable it is!

But if you have ever experienced such a phenomenon, you will know what power of spirit is needed to keep the soul quite still in this way. The poorer an individual is in spiritual respects, the more restless he is, the more noise he makes. It took force to keep an arm quite still; but it takes still greater force to keep a soul quite still.

One will see that such an experience is the story of the bubble in Frederiksberg Garden over again, almost word for word, only with the difference that the object has changed. Then it was the busy mood that was the object of condensation; here it is a phenomenon of warmth, that is, precisely the very thing that we then worked our way up to as the final result. The rumbling in the stove contained a rich mood of mental warmth and coziness. Such a foundation of warmth must in general always be had wherever richness is felt in the soul. Warmth is needed as the foundation everywhere one is to go beyond the simpler moods. It is a poor intellectual life that is not built on warmth. The researcher who does not love his substances, his oxygen,

his hydrogen and his apparatus, never becomes anything but a craftsman in his soul. The soul withers for him. *[300]*

NOTES

[301] **P. 5,** *Metaphysics* is the name, in the widest sense, for an attempt of thought that goes beyond experience in order to find the innermost ground of existence. The metaphysics Holberg has in mind was rather a remnant of the scholasticism of the Middle Ages, which believed it could give proofs of theological representations and depictions of their objects, which could only be done through subtleties and fallacies. — *a priori* = independently of experience. — *Tertullian,* a Church Father who lived about A.D. 200. — *Simonides,* Greek poet, about 500 B.C. — *Orbis pictus* — i.e. "The World in Pictures," a reader by the famous educator Comenius; it appeared in 1658. — **P. 6,** *Physica coelestis,* the physics of the heavenly bodies. *Cartesius* (Descartes 1596—1650) held that they were carried round by vortices of fine matter, each of them being enclosed by its own vortex. *Newton* (1642—1727) taught that the great masses "attract" the small according to the same law that holds for falling bodies at the earth's surface. There is not, as Holberg thinks, any contradiction in the sun's sending out rays of light and "attracting" masses ("blowing and sucking"!). — **P. 7,** *Principia gravitatis,* the laws holding for gravitation (gravity, attraction). — **P. 10,** *Deism* assumes a God, but assumes as well that everything in nature takes place according to laws of nature, so that God works no miracles and exercises no special providence. — *Warburton,* English clergyman (1698—1749), wrote against the deists, whose best-known spokesmen were (see P. 11) *Collins, Tyndall, Morgan* and *Chubb.* — The philosophers *Hobbes* (1588—1679) and *Spinoza* (1632—1677) had earlier, supported by thorough philosophical investigations, placed themselves in opposition to the doctrine of the Church. — *The Sibyl's prophecies* (or oracles), a collection of words of omen from Greek and Roman antiquity, which were later reworked and expanded by Jewish and Christian authors and were often used as testimony from the heathen side to the truth of Christianity. — *Josephus,* Jewish historian who lived in the time of Nero and Titus. — **P. 12,** *The Manichaeans* (adherents of a church that arose in the 3rd century A.D.) taught that evil had its origin in an evil being, while good came from a good God. Persian and Christian ideas are mixed together in Manichaeism. *Pierre Bayle* (1647— 1706) maintained that the Manichaean doctrine contained the only rational solution of the problem of evil. — *B. S.* is said to be Bernhard Schaebel, a friend of Holberg's who had made his acquaintance abroad. He died as rector in Roskilde. — **P. 13,** *Democritus,* Greek philosopher, whose lifetime falls between the

middle of the fifth and the middle of the fourth century B.C., taught that everything consisted of material elements (atoms). — **P. 14,** The Greek words in the second line mean "reason and God." By reason is meant the world-reason. — *Seneca,* Stoic philosopher (4—65 A.D.). — The Greek sentence, which (with an error in a single *[302]* word) is quoted from Plato, means: "God wills that everything shall be good, and that, so far as possible, there shall be nothing evil." (The dialogue Timaeus p. 30 A.) — **P. 15,** *hysteron proteron* — i.e. in the wrong order, so that what should come last comes first. **P. 16,** *The oracles of Zoroaster* — Chaldean prophecies which at a later time went under Zoroaster's name. They were translated into Greek and later (by Henrik Rantzau 1598) into Latin. *Veritas localis,* i.e. a truth that holds only in a particular region ("a local truth"). — **P. 18.** *Clovis,* the Frankish king Chlodevig (465—511). *The Peruvian king:* Atapaliba, see Heltehistorier by Liebenberg I, 403 f. — **P. 19,** *Ars critica,* the art of distinguishing and judging. *Catecheta,* a man who teaches the religious instruction of children. — **P. 20,** *Transubstantiation,* the transformation that the bread and the wine, according to Catholic doctrine, undergo at consecration, so that they become flesh and blood, although they keep their sensible properties. — **P. 21,** *Nullius in verba* (jurare) i.e. "not to swear by anyone's word." — *Philosophia carbonaria* — collier's philosophy (on the analogy of collier's faith). — *Potamon* of Alexandria founded at the end of the 2nd century A.D. an eclectic philosophy, i.e. a doctrine that put together supposedly usable parts of the doctrines of various earlier philosophers. — *Philosophiæ naturalis professores,* i.e. professors of natural science. — **P. 22,** The peasant boy in the comedy: Jacob, Erasmus Montanus' brother. — **P. 24,** *Character indelebilis,* i.e. an acquired property that cannot be lost again. At ordination a Catholic cleric receives a stamp of this kind. — **P. 25,** *In small characters,* i.e. in small letters. — *Tillotson,* (1630— 1693), English prelate of the comparatively liberal school. — **P. 26,** *Complexion,* i.e. temperament. — **P. 29,** *Mathematical method* proceeds through inferences from strict definitions and axioms. The philosophers sought to imitate this method, especially the Wolffian school, which in Denmark won no small following among jurists and theologians, and whose most important representative was Jens Kraft (1720—1765), with whom Sneedorff too came into a sharp controversy. — **P. 30,** *A philosophical Spectator,* i.e. Andr. Lundhoff's Den danske Spectators filosofiske Spectator (1744). — **P. 36,** *The belles lettres* are poetry, literature and aesthetics, which build on the involuntary and immediate mental experiences. — *Definitive or necessary impossibility,* i.e. unconditional impossibility. *Arbitrary impossibility,* i.e. conditional impossibility. — **P. 33,** *Faculty* (Formue), i.e. ability (Evne). — **P. 36,**

Swift (Jonathan), English satirist (1667—1745). — **P. 37,** *Scotus* (Duns Scotus), English scholastic (1265?—1308?). — *Occam* (William), English scholastic (1270—1347). — *Suárez* (Franciscus), Spanish scholastic (1548— 1617). — **P. 38,** *Thomasius* (Christian), German jurist and philosopher (1655— 1728). — **P. 40,** *Hesiod,* Greek poet (c. 700 B.C.), in his poem "Works and Days" (v. 202). — *Shakespeare:* King Lear Act. IV, Sc. 1, (the word "so" is not found in Shakespeare). — **P. 46,** *pium desiderium* i.e. pious wish. *Theodicy,* i.e. a defense of God with regard to the fact of evil (title of a work by Leibniz). — **P. 49,** *Donati,* Italian naturalist of the middle of the 18th century. — *Bonnet* (Charles), Swiss naturalist and philosopher (1720—1793). — *Manis,* pangolin. — *Dasypus,* armadillo. — *Lacerte,* lizard. — **P. 50,** *Kielmeyer,* German naturalist at the end of the 18th century. — **P. 52,** *Sacred matters* (hellige Sager), i.e. legends (Sagn). — **P. 53,** The *Greek* mentioned here is Plato (see the dialogue Timaeus p. 40 ff.) — **P. 68,** *The author of the Bemærkninger:* Bishop Mynster, see p. 60. — *Ad intra,* i.e. inwardly, belonging to the inner part of the being. The expression is used in theology
[303] of God's inner being in contrast to the world created by him. — **P. 83,** *Eudaemonists* is the name for those who ground morality on the craving for happiness. — **P. 88,** *well forth* (fremqvælde), a Germanizing expression for fremvælde. — **P. 89,** *which separate them from one another.* Here and in two places on the following pages "dem" (them) is used reflexively. — **P. 92,** *Casuistry* is the investigation of how one is to conduct oneself when different duties conflict with one another. Kant declared in the introduction to "Tugendlehre" that casuistry was neither a science nor part of a science, but nevertheless later in the book set up casuistical questions. — **P. 93,** *Probabilism,* the doctrine that in cases of doubt one is permitted to keep to the most probable opinion, or perhaps even to any opinion whatever, provided it is probable at all, even if it is not the most probable. — **P. 100,** *these — these.* The second "these" means "those." — **P. 101,** *Singular appearances,* i.e. phenomena. — **P. 105,** *Monboddo:* James Burnett, Lord Monboddo (1714—1799). — *Hallen* — probably a misprint for Haller: Albrecht v. Haller (1708—1777). — *Lamarck* i.e. Jean Baptiste de Lamarck (1744—1829). His famous work "Philosophie zoologique," in which he teaches the origin of species by development, is later than Troschow's treatise. — *Fabricius* — probably Joh. Chr. Fabricius (1748—1808). — **P. 113,** *Pallas* — Peter Simon Pallas (1741— 1811). — **P. 119,** Allusion to Goethe's beautiful poem "Auf Miedings Tod." Mieding was "master of the theater" in Weimar. — **P. 120,** By *actual moods* Sibbern understands certain constant feelings that are called forth by the conditions of life under which the single individual lives. By *passion* he understands a standing desire

and yearning toward certain purposes. — **P. 121,** *vexes* (ærgre), i.e. offends (forarge). — **P. 126,** in animality = "in the midst of animality" (p. 127.) — **P. 128,** *in our time* — the reference here is to the French embryologist Serres. — **P. 133,** *Petitio principii* is, like *circulus in probando* (p. 139), a circular inference. — **P. 134,** *Opus operatum* is a work whose value is not to depend on the disposition; it matters only that it is done. Applied to faith (fides) it means that it matters only to have one's doctrine of faith in order, whether the disposition goes with it or not. — Catholicism requires of the layman only belief that the Church possesses the truth, not self-won conviction about this truth itself. Such a belief is called fides implicita. — *bleve* is subjunctive (Germanizing). — **P. 145,** *distant* (fraliggende) translates "distante." — **P. 163,** *Typhon* — a fire-breathing monster that Zeus subdued. — **P. 164,** *The Socratic theory of recollection* — Plato has Socrates teach that the highest thoughts can be awakened out of man's interior, as if it were a recollection. Such a self-acquisition of the truth Kierkegaard now sets in opposition to the supernatural communication of truth that is given by "the God." — *Sextus Empiricus* (2nd century A.D.) draws skeptical consequences from Socrates' statement that he does not know himself, as well as from the philosophers' various answers to the question what a human being is. — *Protagoras* (5th century B.C.) taught that man (i.e. human nature) is the measure of all knowledge — not that "everything is man's measure." Protagoras' utterance is interpreted one-sidedly by Kierkegaard. — **P. 167,** *Essentia involvit existentiam,* i.e. his essence necessarily entails his existence (Spinoza: Ethica I, def. 1). According to Kierkegaard, this proposition can hold of no existing being; its application thus presupposes that one has to do only with a concept, not with something existing. — **P. 168,** *Hauptpastor Götze* in Hamburg had directed a fanatical attack on Lessing because the latter had published the so-called Wolfenbüttel Fragments (whose anonymous author was Reimarus), in which the *[304]* biblical writings were subjected to a sharp historical and ethical criticism — *The system* — Kierkegaard's polemic is directed against Martensen and Rasmus Nielsen, who had announced a new system, a higher unity of Hegel's philosophy and positive Christianity. Cf. Kierkegaard's article in "Fædrelandet" 12 June 1842 (Samlede Værker XIII, p. 397 ff.). — **P. 170,** *Agent Behrend* — a Copenhagen eccentric well known in his day. — *Johannes Climacus* — the pseudonym whom Kierkegaard lets speak in "Filosofiske Smuler" and "Uvidenskabelig Efterskrift," and who stands at a searching and critical stage, outside Christianity, but acknowledging it as the highest view of life. — *coming to be — being:* Kierkegaard distinguishes sharply between existing (Tilværen, existence), which presupposes the relation of time, and abstract being, which can also

be predicated of what is merely thought. What he in what follows reproaches Hegel with is that the latter in his Logic speaks of the "movement" of thought, although movement in the proper sense presupposes time. — **Pag. 171,** *Trendelenburg* — Adolph Trendelenburg, German philosopher (1802—1872), known especially for his "Logische Untersuchungen" (1840) and for his studies on Aristotle. He maintains an analogy between analyzing and constructing thought and real movement in nature. — *Plutarch* finds in "Isis and Osiris" an etymological similarity between the Greek words for thinking and movement. — **P. 172,** The question that is raised here — whether our fundamental concepts (categories) are "abbreviated" experiences or purely a priori — Kierkegaard did not come to treat, since his later production became purely religious. — **P. 173,** *Reflection* is here the line of thought by which we get back to the concept that can serve as the beginning of the system. Kierkegaard asks why we stop at a particular concept instead of constantly continuing our searching thought (the analysis). One begins, according to him, with a leap, i.e. arbitrarily, not necessarily. — **P. 174,** *The bad infinity* — is in Hegel the endlessness of a series that is constantly continued according to the same law, in contrast to "the true infinity," in which an infinite content is gathered together into a totality. A more recent mathematician has called this latter infinite the transfinite. — **P. 175,** The Greek words mean "transition to a wholly different matter, a wholly different field." — **P. 176,** *Trop* — an old student in Heiberg's "Recensenten og Dyret." — **P. 177,** *Objectively reflection is not to be stopped* — because we can never know whether the analysis (reflection) may not discover new relations and presuppositions that must be taken into account before "the system begins." Subjectively it can stop, either from fatigue or by a resolution. — *Rötscher* — one of Hegel's disciples, author of "Aristophanes und seine Zeitalter" (1827) and "Cyclus dramatischer Charactere" (1844). — **P. 178,** By *the scientific conflicts of a moment now past* is probably meant the controversy between Schelling, who wanted to begin with "intellectual intuition," and Hegel, who demanded a grounded ascent to the standpoint of speculation. See the preface to Hegel's "Phænomenologie des Geistes" and his "System der Logik" (Erstes Buch, whose introduction is headed: "Wie muss der Anfang der Wissenschaft gemacht werden?"). — *A big book* — perhaps the reference is to Sibbern's book "Hegels Philosophie betragtet i Forhold til vor Tid" (1838) (offprint from Maanedskrift for Litteratur). In this book Sibbern treats on pp. 33—59 the question of the beginning of the system. — **P. 180,** *The Crumbs* — in "Filosofiske Smuler" (Saml. Værker IV p. 235) the question is raised whether the possible, by having become real, has thereby become more necessary than it was. —

Quodlibet — anything whatever, i.e. an accidental example, whose individuality is indifferent. — *Another author* — the pseudonym Frater Taciturnus in "Stadier paa Livets Vej" (Saml. Værker VI p. 218). — **P. 183,** *The Platonic conception* — In Plato's "Symposium" (p. 200) it is argued that possession does not exclude craving and striving, since one can wish and strive always to possess what one has. — *The Greek: always wanting to be a learner* — a line of an otherwise lost poem of Solon runs: "I grow old, while yet I constantly learn many things." — **P. 186,** *Socrates* — In Plato's "Apology" (p. 40 f) Socrates believes himself well prepared for another life, if there is another, since there he will continue the work he practiced here in life: to question and discuss! In "Phaedo" (p. 114 D) there is a similar line of thought: if there is an immortality, then he is well prepared for it who has led a noble life in striving for truth. — **P. 187,** *canceled by the principle of contradiction.* — According to Hegel the proposition that the self-contradictory is invalid did not hold, for self-contradiction was for him only a sign of oppositions that were to be resolved as members of a "higher unity." He confused contradiction and opposition. — **P. 189,** The sentence quoted is the closing statement of "Filosofiske Smuler." — **P. 193,** *Caesar* did not have the Alexandrian library burned; the fire was due to an accident. — **P. 194,** *ancipiti proelio* i.e. with a double front. — *Immanent transition* i.e. a transition through natural development that presupposes no break with psychological laws. — **P. 197,** *The taking back of recollection* etc. — By recollection is meant here the Platonic recollection (see the note to P. 164), a thinking proceeding from man's own interior, which leads beyond every relation of time ("out of existence into the eternal"). Such a taking back is what is characteristic of what Kierkegaard calls irony (see Saml. Værker VII P. 231). — **P. 198,** *"Stadier paa Livets Vej"* appeared later than "Filosofiske Smuler." — *Humor as borderland.* — By humor Kierkegaard understands a standpoint that feels the tragic oppositions that life presents, but lets them fade away into wistfulness. It is the border stage (confinium) before the religious standpoint comes into force. It lies between the ethical and the religious, just as irony lies between the aesthetic and the ethical. For the religious stage, according to Kierkegaard, wistfulness is not characteristic; for that the tension between the eternal and life in time is too strong. — **P. 202,** *The soul as the life-Idea's self-reflection* etc. — By "Idea" Nielsen understands totality (like Hegel). That life is Idea means that it is a totality, despite the many organs and cells. Life is soul when stress is laid on the opposition between the whole of life and the outer organism ("the immediate other"). — **P. 203,** By *the modern monism* is probably meant a conception like Haeckel's, which proclaims a doctrine of unity, but now lets

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the psychical produce bodily effects, now the bodily produce psychical effects. — **P. 204.** *Potential function* — The potential means the work done by the interaction of two masses when they are brought from an infinite distance to a certain given distance. It is directly proportional to the masses, inversely to the distance. — **P. 207,** *The ontological subjectivity:* since every object presupposes a subject, Nielsen infers that there would be no absolute objectivity, no reality, if there were not an absolute subject whose thoughts are expressed as real concepts in things (the facts). It is by their power that things exist. — **P.209,** *Newton's rule: principia etc.* i.e. to assume no more principles than necessary. — **P.218,** *The transcendence of representation*
[306] i.e. the external relation that the positive religions maintain between God and the world, the ideal and reality. *The relation of immanence* i.e. the inner relation that philosophy maintains between God and the world. *Transcendence becomes a moment* in the relation of immanence, that is to say that the inner relation does not exclude a difference, is not a confusion. — **P. 221,** — *in another writing.* By this Brøchner refers to his writing "Et Svar til Professor Rasmus Nielsen" (1868), where it says among other things (p. 30): "Because I do not seek the truth in what has now for centuries borne the life of so many generations of men, but in what *eternally* bears the life of the human spirit and binds it together in unity with the divine origin, should I therefore not know how to respect the forms through which the human spirit strove toward this unity, and in particular the purest and most spiritual of these forms?" — **P. 236,** By the proposition of *the persistence of value* the author, who sees in this proposition an abstract expression of the innermost motive in all religion, means the assumption that through all changes and upheavals in nature and history there persists a constant possibility for the development of, and work on, human values of life, even if the development may lead to the values that persist not being those we now know and acknowledge, but higher and more comprehensive ones. — **P. 256,** *Duplicism* — By this the author means the assumption "according to which everything that is has a double form of appearance, inwardly as spirit, outwardly as matter." — **P. 276,** *Tonus* i.e. state of contraction (in muscles, among others the muscles in the walls of the blood vessels). — **P. 277,** *Sphygmomanometer* is an instrument for measuring the pressure exerted by the blood in a blood vessel. — *Plethysmogram* is the curve that represents the changes in the volume of an arm or a foot; it is obtained by means of a plethysmograph, an instrument in which the arm or the foot can be enclosed. — *Radial artery* — one of the larger arteries of the arm, whose pulse beat is most easily felt. — **P. 278,** *ceteris paribus* — all else being equal. — **P. 280,** *Carotid* — the arteries

of the neck, through which the blood flows to the brain. — **P. 286,** *Cardiograph* — an instrument for recording the heartbeat. — *Tibial* — name for the arteries of the lower leg (in a wider sense also of the foot). — **P. 286,** — *admit that the magi have been right here.* It is evident from the context that the admission concerns only the fact, not the magi's interpretation of it.

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